

ロスアンゼルス  
イエスの友會

# Cooperative Evangelist

Kagawa Toyohiko  
and His World  
1888–1960

Bo Tao

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*For my parents,  
who started me on this journey*



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My personal transnational journey, which began when I first arrived in Osaka from Shanghai at the age of three, has taken me from China and Japan to the United States—and back and forth ever since. Throughout the ever-shifting national, linguistic, and cultural contexts of our surroundings, my parents have remained a steady source of practical and moral support. They have been with me every step of the way, and it is to them that I dedicate this work.



## INTRODUCTION

A family of five sits around a table, heads bowed as they each study a copy of the Bible. After a moment of quiet contemplation and the saying of grace, they start on their breakfast. Rather than pieces of toast and glasses of orange juice, however, they pick up bowls of rice and miso soup. Instead of sitting on chairs, they kneel on the tatami-mat floor, in a traditional style known as *seiza* (see figure I.1). Through title cards, it is revealed that we are witnessing the daily morning routine of the Kagawas, a family of Christians in Tokyo, Japan.

This is the opening scene from a forty-two-minute, black-and-white silent film titled *A Day with Kagawa*. Funded and produced by the Board of Missions of the Methodist Church of the United States in 1937, the film was the product of a collaboration between the Japanese Protestant minister Kagawa Toyohiko and Floyd Shacklock, an American Methodist missionary to Japan.<sup>1</sup> While many missionary films depicting the lives of people in Asia and Africa exist from this era, they were typically modest affairs, aimed at giving members of the home denomination a small glimpse of the outside world. Moreover, such films often assumed a so-called missionary gaze, presenting their subjects as weak and oppressed, thereby reinforcing negative colonial constructions of the local people and emphasizing their need to be “saved” by Christianity. Kagawa’s portrayal, in contrast, could not have been more different in tone and message.

By the late 1930s, Kagawa was already well-known to many in global Christian circles, thanks to his prolific pen and frequent international speaking tours over the years. *A Day with Kagawa* reflected this



Figure I.1. The Kagawa family at breakfast from the 1937 silent film *A Day with Kagawa*. Source: “A Day with Kagawa,” 4B/2, Kagawa Toyohiko Papers, UTS

level of respect and admiration, dutifully following the titular minister—addressed in the footage as Dr. Kagawa—as he goes about his daily tasks. Kagawa, the film reveals, spent his mornings in his study, writing books and articles to help support his social projects. In the afternoon he shifted his attention to the many cooperative societies he had helped to establish, including a consumer cooperative store, a credit cooperative, a cooperative pawnshop, a cooperative hospital, and a cooperative kitchen that served “wholesome food” to “wage-earning mothers.”

At the same time, we encounter occasional reminders of the broader political circumstances in which the film was being produced. One later scene, for example, highlights a Friday morning prayer meeting for peace, while another shows Kagawa and a white dove surrounded by young children at a kindergarten. While not directly mentioned, such images were undoubtedly in response to the war that had recently broken out between China and Japan following the Marco Polo Bridge Incident on July 7, 1937, a conflict that marked the beginning of World War II in Asia. In the film’s final moments, when asked if he has any messages for “friends abroad,” Kagawa claims that the “Christian religion” and “cooperative movement” hold the keys

to peace, with the former providing “the force for action” and the latter “the technique for achieving brotherhood.”

### SCOPE

The career of the Japanese Christian leader Kagawa Toyohiko (1888–1960) unfolded within the context of the war, imperialism, and economic depression of the first half of the twentieth century. During this period, Kagawa was clearly recognized on the international stage as a distinguished religious and pacifist figure, as the above vignette and other examples from this study demonstrate. This, however, was only half of the story. Kagawa’s pacifist reputation rested uneasily with his wartime actions, which became increasingly supportive of the Japanese government and its policies. Reluctant to speak up against Japan’s escalating aggression in Asia in the late 1930s, he turned into a full-blown apologist during the Pacific War (1941–1945), appearing on several overseas radio broadcasts as a propagandist defending the interests of the state. Such a turnaround may not have been particularly remarkable within the fervently patriotic context of wartime Japan, but given Kagawa’s global profile, it was viewed as a betrayal of trust among his international audience. Following Japan’s defeat, his acts of cooperation with the wartime state marked him out as a potential risk to U.S. Occupation authorities, prompting a postwar investigation that called into question his standing as a public figure.

My primary goal in this book is to explain how Kagawa came to be so highly regarded as an international religious authority—variously hailed by the West as the Saint Francis of Japan or the Gandhi of Japan, seemingly standing above national politics—yet also accused of being an imperialist collaborator and “warmonger.”<sup>2</sup> Previous works have failed to examine the full scope of his influence as a global religious leader while also treating his wartime actions as unfortunate lapses in an otherwise saintlike career. Rather than dismissing as anomalous the conflicts stemming from Kagawa’s dual identity as both a Japanese and a Christian, I argue that they were integral components and reflections of the two worlds in which he lived. Adopting a transnational approach to archival research and analytical framework, this book provides a more holistic and nuanced account of Kagawa that explores the dynamic tension between these two worlds as they came into contact with each other. Attending to events and processes throughout



the transpacific region, in both Japanese domestic and international contexts, I seek to reconstruct the story of one of the foremost heroes of mid-century Christian internationalism.

Here, however, we are interested in more than just Kagawa's life and work, complex and formidable though they may be. Perhaps as a result of addressing himself to the issues of his day as a socially engaged preacher, Kagawa had a penchant for attracting widespread attention and appearing on the center stage in many moments of great Japanese and world historical significance. These include his leadership in Japan's largest prewar industrial strike, his espousal of cooperativism as an alternative to capitalist competition during the Great Depression, his involvement in the state-led agricultural colonization of the Manchurian frontier, his attempts to broker a peace between Japan and the United States in the months before Pearl Harbor, and his post-war work in the movement for world federalism, to name a few. Through Kagawa, we are afforded a rare look at such pivotal events in modern history from his Christian point of view—a perspective that has been hitherto lacking from the scholarly literature on this period. This, then, is also the story of the role of Christianity in the Japanese state and society, as well as its transnational impact, during a time of unprecedented social change and political upheaval.

#### TRANSNATIONAL EVANGELISM AND WORLD CHRISTIANITY

Kagawa's stature as a Christian leader is unique in many ways. He was a prolific writer whose vast body of work ranged from poetry and novels to treatises on science, religion, and philosophy—a good number of which have been translated into multiple languages. His international fame and profile far outstripped those of many of his Japanese contemporaries. Despite hailing from a nation where Christians account for less than 1 percent of the population, his name appeared frequently in the leading Protestant journals of the English-speaking world, featuring prominently in discussions on the state of the ecumenical movement and the future shape of the world church. In addition to traditional print media, he made use of newly emerging forms of media such as radio and film, allowing himself to be presented as a larger-than-life figure to audiences around the world. They saw him not merely as the successful product of missionary conversion but as a genuine religious celebrity whose social teachings and practices were worthy of emulation.

With such great authority also came great expectations. To better understand this point, we must bear in mind the historical context of the early twentieth century and the changing notion of evangelism. Although today it is at times mistakenly conflated with “evangelicalism”—a term used to describe a group of theologically and politically conservative denominations that place biblical inerrancy above all else—evangelism in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries meant something entirely different. Adhering closely to the original Greek sense of “bringing the good news,” evangelism (or evangelization) referred to the central act of spreading the Christian Gospel across the world through missionary work. Anchored by large interdenominational organizations like the YMCA and the Student Volunteer Movement for Foreign Missions and embracing social welfare and relief work as their chief mode of propagation, American Protestant missionaries emerged as the self-appointed purveyors of a certain kind of liberal world order.<sup>3</sup> Looking confidently toward the realization of a Christian moral empire on a global scale, their ambitious attitude was encapsulated in John R. Mott’s famous watchword: “The Evangelization of the World in this Generation.”<sup>4</sup>

The devastation of World War I, however, caused a shift in missionary attitudes toward evangelism and political engagement. Inspired by their international travels in the wake of the Great War and mindful of their complicity in abetting American cultural expansionism, a cohort of Protestant missionary leaders called for a change in strategy. Pointing to failures in U.S. race relations and international relations, they decried the state of the missionary enterprise and declared that the locus of Christianity could no longer be found in the West. These interwar-era leaders, as Michael G. Thompson has shown, tried to reform and reconstitute the missionary project through a series of world conferences, periodical publications, traveling seminars, and other institutions dedicated to producing Christian reflection on the ethics of international relations.<sup>5</sup> No longer prioritizing the conversion of individuals or looking upon the non-Western world as “backward” cultures in need of proselytization, they stressed instead the “Christianizing” of relationships between nations—that is, the need for greater racial equality and social solidarity throughout the world.<sup>6</sup> It was this remapping of the missionary agenda as a loosely defined program for political unity, a movement that Thompson and others have termed “Christian internationalism,” that created the conditions for Kagawa’s rapid rise on the stage of world Christianity.

With the numerous post–World War I conflicts in Europe and the rise of communism and fascism, liberal Protestants began to envision their religion as a supranational political movement that offered a timely antidote to the petty nationalisms and materialism they believed to be ascendant across the world.<sup>7</sup> Competing against ideologies such as socialism, anarchism, Pan-Asianism, and Pan-Islamism, interwar Christian internationalists aimed to carve out a universal Protestant body from a diversity of races and cultures. Their intentions could be seen in the convening of the 1928 International Missionary Council in Jerusalem, where, for the first time, half of the total delegates came from outside the bounds of Western Christendom. Although Kagawa himself did not attend this particular meeting, as one of the most visible and outspoken Christian leaders from the non-West, he soon emerged as the standard-bearer in efforts to bring about a global Christianity. His position at the forefront of this movement—which sought to address, in its own way, such pressing issues as colonialism, racism, and international disorder—consolidated his image as an evangelist for peace, along with the expectation that he uphold his commitment to pacifism no matter the situation.

My focus on Kagawa, arguably the foremost figure of interwar Christian internationalism, therefore sheds light on Protestant Christianity’s attempt to address a global set of challenges through pursuing conversations and community across lines of difference—as well as the inherent limits of such forms of aspirational cosmopolitanism.<sup>8</sup> At the same time, it opens up an underexamined chapter in the rich, shared history between Japan and the United States. Existing accounts of U.S.-Japan relations in this period have highlighted the political, economic, and diplomatic events that led up to the Pacific War, but few have explored the two countries’ religious relations.<sup>9</sup> Kagawa, whose overseas tours in the 1920s and 1930s saw him lecture on a number of topics ranging from theological inquiry to the benefits of cooperative brotherhood, became a sort of “reverse missionary” to America.<sup>10</sup> During a moment of perceived religious depression in the West, “Eastern” Christianity, as represented by Kagawa, offered new hope and inspiration for the revival of American faith.<sup>11</sup>

What is missing from this narrative, however, is an exploration of how Kagawa’s image as a world religious figure came to be constructed in the first place. Drawing from the Kagawa Papers at Union Theological Seminary and the Helen Faville Topping Papers at Southern Illinois University Carbondale, I argue that the Toppings, an American

Baptist missionary family who worked for the Japanese evangelist, played an instrumental role in his image construction. Kagawa, a prominent non-Western Christian who was himself a missionary convert, stood for a vision of a new kind of internationalism that addressed the need for a more multicultural version of Christianity. Recognizing this point, the Toppings orchestrated a concerted publicity campaign that entailed the translation of his writings into English, numerous articles in high-profile newspapers and magazines, and the creation of original publications such as the *Friends of Jesus* and the *Kagawa Calendar*, cultivating a wide audience who came to view Kagawa as the symbolic figurehead for a number of missionary-driven internationalist projects. Through their efforts they constructed a global pacifist icon who seemingly embodied the lofty aspirations of the Christian internationalist movement while at the same time unwittingly creating a divide between this idealized image and the realities of Kagawa the person.

As a corollary to this argument, my account also seeks to add a new dimension to the history of Japanese American immigrant transnationalism. Sarah Griffith's study on YMCA activists illuminates the alliance that liberal Protestants forged with Asian American communities in light of the nativist sentiment that led to the passage of exclusionary laws such as the Immigration Act of 1924. Their struggle paved the way for the establishment of international nongovernmental organizations such as the Institute of Pacific Relations, which aimed to improve economic and political cooperation among Pacific Rim nations, as well as activist groups such as the Northern California Committee on Fair Play for Citizens and Aliens of Japanese Ancestry, which protested the unjust incarceration of Japanese Americans during World War II.<sup>12</sup> Kagawa's visits to West Coast Japanese American communities and the formation of supporters' organizations among the local Protestant population provide further insight into the institutions and coalitions that continued to drive this movement into the 1930s and 1940s. In particular, I argue that Kagawa's evangelism and advocacy of Christian internationalism among the overseas Japanese population helped to maintain the struggle for the fair treatment of Asian Americans during a period of widespread racial prejudice and was a contributing factor in Japanese American community formation.<sup>13</sup> While the intricate links between Japanese America and Japan's colonial empire have been extensively explored in terms of migrant culture and the ideology of expansion and settler colonialism, Kagawa's

example makes the case for Christian fellowship networks as an alternative framework that allows us to rethink the transpacific region as a dynamic, interconnected space that gave rise to new forms of social dialogue and community building.<sup>14</sup>

### COOPERATIVE EVANGELIST

In my own effort to illuminate the career and character of Kagawa, I have coined the term “cooperative evangelist.” In this formulation, the word “cooperative” is used as both a noun and an adjective. As a noun it refers to the fact that following an early foray into radical labor activism, Kagawa became an avid promoter of cooperatives as a viable alternative to capitalism (and communism), earning him a wide global audience during the Great Depression. Cooperatives, according to Kagawa, represented a practical means of implementing the social teachings of Jesus. As such they formed a cornerstone of Kagawa’s work and reputation as a leading social reformer. At the same time, the relatively moderate and nonradical nature of cooperative organizations reflected his gradualist, nonconfrontational approach to social reformism that endeared him to state officials.

The second, adjectival use of “cooperative” in my title expands on the latter point, referring to the specific nature of Kagawa’s relations with the Japanese state. In particular, it highlights the close relationship he maintained with the Japanese government in its project of social management. The prewar Home Ministry (*Naimushō*), with its broad jurisdiction and large cohort of progressively minded bureaucrats, was one government agency that actively enlisted the help of various social groups as intermediaries in their efforts to improve public morality and curtail social unrest.<sup>15</sup> Drawing upon a common belief in the powers of modernization, such bureaucrats engaged the opinions of a newly emerging middle class of educators, social workers, and religious activists in responding to novel social and economic problems. The bureaucracy especially valued the expertise of Christian reformers like Kagawa, who were seen as conduits for the latest Western advancements in areas such as social work, education, and moral uplift.<sup>16</sup> This unlikely alliance, which spanned the prewar and postwar years, saw Kagawa collaborate with the imperial state on a range of subjects including serving on a study commission on public housing, becoming an adviser to the social bureau of the Tokyo City Government, appearing on propaganda radio broadcasts during the

Asia-Pacific War, and defending the emperor against calls for his removal in the postwar transition. It should be noted, however, that such a cooperative relationship did not materialize overnight but rather entailed an evolution over time. One goal of this book, therefore, is to illustrate Kagawa's changing relations with the state, charting his gradual shift from the periphery toward the center.

### JAPANESE EMPIRE

Any discussion of the Japanese state in this period must of necessity deal with the issue of Japanese empire. Following its victories in wars with China (1894–1895) and Russia (1904–1905), Japan entered into the ranks of the world's great powers, acquiring Taiwan as a colony and gaining a sphere of influence in southern Manchuria. This in turn paved the way for the annexation of Korea in 1910 and the establishment of the puppet state of Manchukuo in 1932. Japan's acquisition of colonial territories in Taiwan, Korea, and Manchuria went hand in hand with the nation's modernization, providing new opportunities for ordinary people to engage in activities that cultivated and sustained the expanding empire.<sup>17</sup> These ranged from settler communities that served as mediators between the colony and metropole to citizens' organizations and media outlets that promoted imperial Japan as an object of commercial and patriotic desire, thus underscoring the interdependence of state and society in the production of empire.<sup>18</sup>

Japan's expansionist impulses were based on a number of internal and external factors, such as the development of a migrant culture that celebrated settler colonialism as well as the accumulation of demographic theory and data that pointed to overpopulation at home, thereby rationalizing the need for emigration and colonization abroad.<sup>19</sup> Within this context, religious groups felt it necessary to stake their own claim in the nation-building process by making contributions to imperial expansionism. In the case of some Japanese Christians, this was done by engaging in mission work in colonial Korea and creating a theology that reconciled Christian belief with imperial ideology.<sup>20</sup> Kagawa, for his part, participated in commemorative events celebrating the empire's ascendancy and helped to organize and dispatch a group of Christian settlers to the Manchurian frontier in an effort to support official plans for the agricultural colonization of Manchukuo.

Such actions were seemingly at odds with Kagawa's pacifism and indeed appeared contradictory to his contemporary observers. Upon

closer examination, however, the utopian rhetoric proclaimed by Japanese imperialists—that is, the establishment of a new regional economic and political order for fellow Asians—shared certain similarities with the “internationalism” of Christian missionary workers. While the notion of the Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere was, in reality, little more than a propaganda tool aimed at reinforcing Japan’s regional hegemony, its idealistic promise of unifying the various Asian nations and cultures under the banner of pan-Asian “brotherhood” echoed the multicultural vision of a world Christian brotherhood espoused by missionary internationalists.<sup>21</sup> Of course, one must note that the former was a regionalist imperial ideology that defined itself against the oppression of Western colonial powers, while the latter was a religious-based movement that sought to counter the excessive influence of American capitalism, nationalism, and racism in world affairs through the creation of a universal Christian community. Nevertheless, both reflected, in their own ways, romantic visions of a near-future, interconnected world that transcended national differences and allowed someone like Kagawa—who was able to inhabit both worlds at once by virtue of his unique status as a prominent non-Western Christian leader—to become a “cooperative evangelist.”

#### RELIGION AND THE STATE

Historians of modern Japan have contributed much to the study of state-religion relations through topics such as the modernization of Buddhism, the establishment of State Shintō, and the conceptualization of the notion of religion. Faced with the threat of eradication in the early Meiji period, for example, Japanese Buddhism underwent a fundamental reorientation of its doctrinal and institutional structure to transform its image from a backward-looking creed to a scientific religion suited for the modern age.<sup>22</sup> Buddhists also played a crucial role in the formulation of the concept of religion, a complex process of legal, political, and philosophical negotiation that in turn paved the way for the categorization of Shintō as a “nonreligion”—a claim that helped legitimate the authority of the state and signify a singular cultural identity for the nation.<sup>23</sup> At the same time, the emergence of new religious movements at the periphery, arising from a popular need for spiritual relief amid the volatile social upheavals wrought by the 1868 Meiji Restoration, was often met with violent suppression at the hands of state officials.<sup>24</sup>

Such discussions, however, have tended to overlook the public role of Christianity, relegating its significance to a series of political demands imposed by Western powers in their treaty negotiations. In actuality, Meiji-era Christian missionaries offered an entirely new value system to former samurai struggling to come to terms with the disorientation that accompanied the breakdown of the early modern status hierarchy.<sup>25</sup> Just as important was the role of intellectuals such as the non-church movement leader Uchimura Kanzō (1861–1930), who engaged the Tokyo Imperial University philosopher Inoue Tetsujirō (1855–1944) in a controversial debate over the compatibility of his faith with the national polity, thus raising important concerns over the question of religious freedom as well as Christianity's relationship with the emperor-centered state ideology.<sup>26</sup>

More recent works have stressed the societal importance of Christianity in fostering public discourse, such as Garrett Washington's study of Japanese Protestant urban churches in Tokyo.<sup>27</sup> Far from being mere spiritual sanctuaries, such institutions, Washington claims, functioned as a kind of public square through their hosting of weekly sermons and related events, helping to shape national debate and intellectual exchange. Through the organization of church-based groups such as women's clubs (*fujinkai*), large Protestant congregations like the Reinanzaka Church also served as a hub for social reform networks that stretched beyond church walls.<sup>28</sup> As one of three groups represented at the Assembly of Three Religions convened by the Home Ministry in 1912, Christianity seemed to have achieved an official status on par with the other two major religions—Buddhism and sectarian Shintō—by the end of the Meiji era. Yet, as a religion whose combined membership including Catholicism, Protestantism, and Eastern Orthodoxy accounted for less than 1 percent of the overall population, its position within Japan's religious landscape was far from assured compared to the more established traditions of Buddhism and Shintō. Such a (relatively) marginal status compelled Japanese Christian congregations to engage with the problem of empire in a persistent and substantial manner. The Kumiai Kyōkai's enthusiastic mission work in colonial Korea, for example, proved that they were an important part of the expanding Japanese nation, thus challenging the commonly held assumption that Christians were peripheral to the projects of state and empire building.<sup>29</sup>

Kagawa's example adds to and expands this growing body of scholarship in three significant ways. First, Kagawa's cooperation with



the Japanese state encompassed a wide variety of realms ranging from social welfare and agricultural colonization to wartime propaganda. His case therefore broadens our understanding of Japanese Christians' collaboration with the imperial state and underlines how much state officials depended upon their expertise and image in such diverse areas as social reform, empire building, and international relations.<sup>30</sup> Second, while the aforementioned works largely focus on the Meiji and Taishō periods, Kagawa's ministry and social work only began to gain prominence toward the end of the Taishō era (1912–1926) and continued well into the Shōwa period (1926–1989). As such, his career allows us to explore the evolving relations of Christianity and the state beyond the first two decades of the twentieth century, including the tumultuous years of the Great Depression, the Second World War, and the rise and fall of the Japanese Empire.

Third, although his home congregation was based in Japan, Kagawa enjoyed a considerable transnational following through his fellowship organizations such as the Friends of Jesus (*Iesu no Tomo Kai*), which established multiple overseas branches in the United States.<sup>31</sup> In contrast to the first-generation Protestant leaders' adherence to the ideals of self-support and the building of autonomous churches that did not rely on foreign aid, Kagawa, who belonged to the second generation of Japanese Protestants, welcomed the financial and institutional backing of overseas supporters. In fact, he maintained lifelong relationships with a number of like-minded missionaries and missionary-connected groups and individuals, leading to the formation of a uniquely transnational religious community engaged in the mission of peace and social reform. Through such examples, this book seeks to present a more diverse and expansive view of the societal role of Japanese Christianity—one that over time developed a remarkably cooperative stance vis-à-vis the state and whose influence extended well beyond the shores of the archipelago.

## WAR AND RELIGION

The Asia-Pacific War (1937–1945) period is essential to the understanding of modern Japan, as this was when the Japanese imperial state achieved its greatest power and scope. The topic of religion and state during this time has been well documented, with some recent works examining the ways in which radical Shintō ideology helped drive Japan's imperial expansion, as well as the lesser-known

impact of progressive lay Buddhist movements founded by activists such as the Nichiren Buddhist and Marxist Seno'o Girō (1889–1961), which were more resistant to the forces of militarism and ultranationalism.<sup>32</sup>

Yet the role of Christianity remains an understudied facet of the wartime experience in Japan. Kagawa emerged as a pacifist leader in the late 1920s and early 1930s, using his personal publications and fellowship networks as a platform to respond to a rising tide of militarist and nationalist fervor. Despite his reputation as a man of peace, however, his wartime actions following the outbreak of the Sino-Japanese War in 1937 defy easy categorization into resistance or accommodation. On one hand, his domestic expressions of support for the war effort and colonial expansion indicated not only a reluctance to criticize the Japanese government but also an active cooperation with its mobilization policies. On the other hand, his continual efforts for a peaceful resolution of Japan's tensions across the Pacific led to the organization of a little-known peacemaking embassy to the United States in 1941. Such cases indicate that support for empire and support for peace were not mutually exclusive in Kagawa's mind, revealing the deeply ambivalent stance of Japanese Christianity in the years leading up to the Pacific War.

The notion of religious groups accommodating themselves to a wartime regime is certainly nothing new. From the development of so-called Imperial Way Buddhism to the involvement of various religions in Japan's colonization of East Asia, examples abound from history to contemporary times.<sup>33</sup> The story of Japanese Christians' participation in the imperial state's drive for spiritual mobilization, however, must be viewed within the context of the early 1940s. Due to a series of alleged espionage cases implicating prominent groups such as the Japan Salvation Army, public suspicion over the loyalty of Christians reached a high point. As such, Christian groups' forceful assertion of cultural identity and support for an imperial spiritual zenith, through their organized celebration of the supposed twenty-six hundredth anniversary of the founding of the Japanese empire in 1940, formed part of a wider effort to demonstrate Christian loyalty to the Japanese nation in a moment of heightened patriotic zeal and broadens our understanding of how such imperial ideology was supported and promoted by the popular support of religious groups.<sup>34</sup>

The seeming contradiction in holding a Christian celebration of the empire's twenty-six hundredth anniversary while also planning a

peace embassy to the United States in the following year demonstrates that at this moment, it was still possible to buy into the liberatory potential of Japan's empire while believing Japan wanted peace with the rest of the world. The 1941 Japanese Christian peace deputation to the United States, which took place concurrently with the launch of the Manchurian Christian pioneer settlement, led to a series of meetings between Japanese and American church leaders in Riverside, California, to arrive at a formula for peace between the two countries. Although ultimately unsuccessful, the embassy, which took place eight months before the attack on Pearl Harbor, served as the basis for Kagawa's personal appeals to President Franklin D. Roosevelt on the subject and reflected an effort on the part of Japanese Christians to adhere to their commitment to internationalism despite deteriorating diplomatic relations.

Kagawa's wartime actions following the outbreak of the Pacific War provide further evidence to challenge the binary of complicity and resistance. While the general pattern of Japanese Christianity's support for the wartime empire through domestic mobilization and pacification efforts abroad—and the subversive resistance of certain minority sects—has been well-documented, my account seeks to shed new light on Kagawa's wartime cooperation from a transnational perspective.<sup>35</sup> To this end this study uses intelligence reports compiled by the U.S. Office of War Information and other related agencies to illuminate, for the first time, the active involvement of Christians in Japan's overseas propaganda efforts. In doing so it revises assertions that the Japanese state relied on indigenous notions of spiritual and cultural purity to claim superiority over its enemies, underlining instead the presence and perceived usefulness of Christians as a voice of authority in addressing Anglo-American audiences and introducing a new layer to their wartime collaboration.<sup>36</sup>

Even here, however, Kagawa's international ties and reputation complicate the narrative of simple accommodation. Despite his acts of cooperation with the state, Kagawa was singled out for arrest on two separate occasions for his alleged pacifist sympathies and placed under constant surveillance by the military police. Moreover, his overseas supporters in America seized upon his image as a symbol of resistance against war-related injustices, proclaiming his name in a variety of stateside contexts ranging from a church sermon in New York City to public lectures inside a Japanese American incarceration

camp in Northern California. Remarkably, Kagawa's pacifist image proved potent enough to be invoked by citizens of the enemy country, even in the midst of war.

Kagawa's cooperation with the state extended into the postwar transition, offering a rare window into the underappreciated role of Christianity in the Occupation period.<sup>37</sup> Echoing recent works stressing transwar continuities such as the decision of Christian groups to retain the organizational structure of a church union originally adopted under the prewar Religious Organizations Law, Kagawa's continuing collaboration with the Japanese state fits a larger pattern.<sup>38</sup> His involvement in the Repentance for One Hundred Million (*Ichoku Sōzange*) movement, which shifted responsibility for the war from the emperor and military leaders to the Japanese people collectively, was perhaps his most prominent role in the immediate postwar period.<sup>39</sup> Much less well-known was his leadership of a nationwide movement to promote Christianity in Japan, undertaken with the blessing of the Occupation authorities. While the issue of Occupation-era policymaking and religious freedom has received sophisticated treatment elsewhere, examining the actual activities of Japanese Christians in this period, as I attempt to do here, allows us to shift our attention to how Christianity served as an important site of cultural negotiation over the future shape of the country.<sup>40</sup> The Japan for Christ Movement, whose Japanese name was Christian Movement for the Construction of a New Japan (*Shin Nihon Kensetsu Kirisuto Undō*), marked the heightened popular demand and legitimacy granted to Christianity under the Allied Occupation. Utilizing copies of the movement's organ preserved in the Gordon W. Prange Collection, my study presents one of the first accounts of the Japan for Christ Movement based on primary sources. Leading this campaign and protected from the purge by MacArthur—who was personally keen to see Christianity flourish under his watch—Kagawa reestablished himself as a worker for peace, taking advantage of the public's war-weariness to make the case for a new, democratic Japan united under Christ.<sup>41</sup>

#### SEPARATING BIOGRAPHY FROM HAGIOGRAPHY

This is the first major biography of Kagawa to appear in over thirty years.<sup>42</sup> The earliest biographies of Kagawa were written by his close associates and admirers. As a result, their accounts, such as the

laudatory text written by the American Baptist missionary William Axling in 1932, have tended toward hagiography.<sup>43</sup> While not denying the spiritual and religious function such works serve within communities of faith—especially in Christianity, where biographical texts featuring inspirational and miraculous tales from the lives of saints constitute a formidable literary genre—this book seeks to separate itself from such hagiographic retellings, providing a balanced account grounded in historical materials.

Scholarly treatments of Kagawa's life began to appear following the publication in Japan of the twenty-four volume *Collected Works of Kagawa Toyohiko* (*Kagawa Toyohiko zenshū*) in 1963–1964, which compiled a large number of his spiritual, scientific, creative, and personal writings together in an accessible format.<sup>44</sup> This led to the emergence of a number of works that examined the Japanese evangelist's career from a specific thematic framework. A 1966 biography by the Japanese labor economist and historian Sumiya Mikio, for example, provides an insightful contextualization of Kagawa's involvement in the prewar labor and farmers' movements.<sup>45</sup> George Bikle's 1976 book, *The New Jerusalem: Aspects of Utopianism in the Thought of Kagawa Toyohiko*, traces the intellectual origins of Kagawa's social reformism, which Bikle argues was an attempt to transpose British guild socialism—particularly that of G. D. H. Cole—onto the needs of Japanese industrialization.<sup>46</sup> A 1978 essay by Yuzo Ota, on the other hand, challenges the idea of Kagawa as a pacifist by comparing his utterances in English versus Japanese, claiming that the English-language publications built up a pacifist reputation abroad that contrasted with the Christian leader's propensity to accommodate himself to the nationalistic atmosphere back home.<sup>47</sup> Basing his study on a psychoanalysis of Kagawa's desire for approval and recognition stemming from his lonely adolescence, Ota argues that the Christian leader had two faces, "one turned towards the United States and the other towards Japan," of which "the former sounded much more pacifist."<sup>48</sup> Although some of his conclusions may be questioned, Ota's work set the tone for the subsequent appearance of more critical appraisals.

The last major biography of Kagawa to cover the entire span of his life was written in 1988 by Robert Schildgen, an American writer with a background in union and co-op organizing in California.<sup>49</sup> His book is notable for demonstrating Kagawa's influence upon the U.S. cooperative movement while also giving him due criticism for his

wartime actions. Despite his stated intention of “demythologizing” Kagawa, however, Schildgen still felt compelled to situate Kagawa’s life story within the framework of a great man narrative, using even his flaws as exceptions that confirm the general image of Kagawa as a Christlike figure and a modern-day prophet. Since Schildgen, Japanese-language books and articles have addressed various aspects of Kagawa’s career—including a recent spate of interest in his relations with China—though a broad synthesis of his whole career has rarely been attempted.<sup>50</sup> In several articles and book chapters, the scholar of Japanese religion Mark Mullins has also made significant advances in our understanding of Kagawa and his transnational impact.<sup>51</sup>

Using the framework of “cooperative evangelist,” my book proposes a substantially updated understanding of Kagawa in the decisive years before, during, and after World War II. While this is not an altogether new theme, existing accounts have tended to shy away from examining the wartime period in any detail and have largely failed to put Kagawa’s actions into conversation with wider social and political trends. Based on an extensive analysis of Japanese and English-language materials from the personal archives of Kagawa and his missionary associates as well as official governmental documents—many of which have been previously unexplored—this book presents the story of the Japanese evangelist as part of a broader world of religion and politics, rather than limiting the focus to his individual deeds and attributes.

Centering the narrative on his relationship with the imperial government and the international missionary movement, I argue that Kagawa’s decisions were shaped by two key factors: his cooperative approach toward the Japanese imperial state and his continuing engagement with the movement for Christian internationalism. Such an approach enables us to arrive at a more holistic understanding of Kagawa that helps to explain his seemingly contradictory actions without resorting to impressionistic labels such as his having “two faces.” Rather than dwell on the question of whether or not Kagawa remained a true “pacifist” during the war, my goal is to strike a middle ground between hagiography and denunciation by looking more closely at the historical context of his actions and his relationship with the Japanese state. In this way my book serves not only as a biographical account of Kagawa but also as a broader story of the active role that Christianity played in the Japanese state and society in the years surrounding the Second World War, a crucial subject that has hitherto lacked significant coverage.

## CHAPTER OVERVIEW

Chapter 1 begins with an exploration of the process by which Kagawa established his reputation as a Christian leader and social reformer of Japan. Beyond the seminal experiences he underwent as a slum preacher in Kobe's Shinkawa District and a study-abroad student at Princeton Theological Seminary, I pay particular attention to his relations with the Japanese state through reference to his leadership in the Kobe Shipyard strike of 1921, as well as his emergency relief efforts following the Great Kantō Earthquake of 1923. His personal narrative is juxtaposed against that of the Toppings, the American Baptist missionary family in Japan whose collaborative relationship with Kagawa forms one of the central threads of this narrative. Kagawa's appointment as an adviser to the Tokyo City Social Bureau and his spearheading of the Kingdom of God Movement in the late 1920s marked his emergence as an influential religious and social activist within the domestic scene.

Chapter 2 examines Kagawa's rise as an exemplary Christian pacifist in the global imagination. The construction of his image as a "pacifist hero" began in earnest in the 1930s, when the Toppings produced a series of publications dedicated to the promotion of Kagawa's social work and his ideas for a more peaceful world based on cooperative economics. Such efforts reflected a broader moment of introspection over the association of Protestant foreign missions with Western imperialism, leading World YMCA leaders such as Sherwood Eddy to call for a reconstituted missionary enterprise along a more multicultural, internationalist basis. As a non-white Christian leader who was able to effectively embody such shifting trends, Kagawa became the poster child for the cooperative movement and an emerging global Christianity. His anti-imperialist credibility, however, would be called into question following his 1939 meeting with Mahatma Gandhi, a highly anticipated event that revealed his ambivalent position of being caught between the forces of Christian internationalism and Japanese imperialism.

Chapter 3 charts the actions of Japanese Christians in response to the expansionist demands of their nation's colonial empire in Asia. Following the outbreak of the Sino-Japanese War in 1937, the imperial government stepped up its plans for the agricultural colonization of its puppet state in Manchuria. Eager to demonstrate the Japanese Church's usefulness toward this national goal, Kagawa initiated a

Christian pioneer settlement in Manchukuo that would become emblematic of his coreligionists' desire to be part of the empire-building project. His vision of Christianity's integration with the imperial state, however, coexisted with his internationalist commitments. While extolling the virtue of Christians getting involved in the building of a Japanese-led continental racial utopia, Kagawa continued to cooperate with his American Protestant counterparts, going so far as to join a 1941 Christian Fellowship Deputation to the United States in a last-minute attempt to improve bilateral relations and prevent a fatal clash in the Pacific.

Chapter 4 continues to explore the fate of Kagawa as well as his image in America under the extreme conditions of total war. Japanese Christians rallied behind the state's mobilization efforts with enthusiasm, justifying their wartime cooperation as part of their duty as loyal citizens. Kagawa was no exception to this pattern, appearing time and again on Radio Tokyo's propaganda broadcasts as an apologist for Japan who used his religious authority to claim moral superiority over the Anglo-American enemy. In spite of this, throughout the war Kagawa's American supporters continued to invoke his name to spread a message of peace among wartime congregations as well as those in Japanese American incarceration camps. Making use of Federal Bureau of Investigation records and camp publications from the Tule Lake Camp, I illustrate the strong commitment of Helen Topping and others to the Christian internationalist cause even in the middle of the Pacific War. Their actions contrasted with that of Mother Topping, the lone member of the Topping family who was left stranded in wartime Japan as an enemy national and appeared on Radio Tokyo broadcasts, leading to accusations that she was a "traitor" to her country.

Chapter 5 examines the role of Christians in postsurrender Japan during the Allied Occupation. Faced with the task of rebuilding their country, Japanese statesmen looked once again to religious groups to provide the impetus for moral and spiritual renewal. Christian leaders were quick to oblige, launching a nationwide evangelization campaign known as the Japan for Christ Movement. Such efforts dovetailed neatly with General Douglas MacArthur's personal view that the Christianization of Japan was a prerequisite for its transformation into a liberal democracy, prompting him to shield Kagawa from public scrutiny over his wartime cooperation and giving rise to an unprecedented, if short-lived, period of widespread legitimacy and popularity for Japanese Christianity. Through exploring the unique atmosphere



and power dynamics under the Allied Occupation that led to a temporary “boom” for the Japanese Church, I argue that Kagawa and his coreligionists articulated a Christian agenda of recovery that emphasized continuities in key areas such as imperial retention while calling for a Japan reborn under Christ.

Chapter 6 focuses on the final decade of Kagawa’s life and career. As the Allied Occupation came to an end and Japan aimed to reestablish itself within the international community, Kagawa’s attention once again turned outward. He embarked on a World Evangelization tour in 1950, attempting to rekindle his ties with overseas supporters in Europe and North America while also representing the interests of the Japanese cooperative movement by becoming the founding president of the newly established Japan Consumers’ Co-operative Union. His wide-ranging activism culminated in his participation in the world federalist movement, which sought to address the international system’s failures to prevent war through the creation of a federated world government. Such internationalist causes, however, were ultimately frustrated by the bipolar realities of the Cold War era. His contributions were largely forgotten in the wake of his death in 1960, despite the construction of a statue in his honor in the Washington National Cathedral.

Kagawa, in many ways, was a study in contradictions. Upon closer examination, however, we can begin to appreciate the two opposing worldviews that informed his outlook and, in turn, guided his actions. A charismatic preacher who worked tirelessly for peace and cooperatives, he also collaborated closely with the Japanese state on a range of social projects that began in the 1920s and extended into the World War II and postwar periods. As a Japanese evangelist who carved out a distinct identity in the global Christian imagination during a time of war and conflict, he offers a unique case study in how religious influence can be wielded differently within—and at times cross over between—domestic and international contexts.

## *Chapter One*

### JAPANESE CHRISTIAN REFORMER

**B**y definition, an evangelist is one who enthusiastically advocates a cause or doctrine, religious or otherwise. Kagawa epitomized this description, tirelessly traveling around Japan and the world in an attempt to spread his social teachings, the Christian Gospel, or some combination of the two. However, unlike the itinerant preachers of colonial and early republican America, who served an expanding rural population by touring the countryside on horseback, Kagawa's ministry was forged primarily within an urban setting, in a country that had proved generally impervious to the efforts of Christian missionaries over the centuries. Despite such odds he managed to establish himself as a globally renowned Protestant preacher and religious leader in the early to mid-twentieth century. This chapter sets the stage for this unlikely rise by situating the specific historical and cultural context from which he emerged.

Kagawa's story begins in the western port city of Kobe. In the wake of the Meiji Restoration of 1868 and the modernizing reforms that took place in Japanese society, Kobe developed into a major hub for international shipping and trade. Reflecting larger trends in urbanization across modern Japan, Kobe's core shipbuilding sector and its numerous related industries attracted thousands of rural migrants seeking employment in the city as unskilled laborers. Slum districts catering to such low-paid workers sprang up around the city. It was on the streets of one such district, called Shinkawa, that Kagawa began his open-air preaching, in a seminal experience that would serve as the source of his eventual fame and the subject of much mythologizing.

Following his years in Shinkawa, Kagawa briefly became a labor leader, helping to orchestrate a 1921 shipyard strike in Kobe. He then moved east in the wake of the 1923 Great Kantō Earthquake to organize relief programs in Tokyo.

Kagawa's sustained social engagement marked him out as a new type of Japanese evangelist. His rising profile as a reformist, yet non-radical, Christian activist caught the eyes of social bureaucrats within the Home Ministry, who were looking for allies in their efforts to manage rising social tensions with the help of religion. At the same time, Kagawa's willingness to directly engage with the underprivileged masses—which set him apart from the middle-class concerns of the mainline Japanese Church—impressed a number of American missionaries who would go on to become his chief collaborators in extending his movement beyond the shores of Japan.

From the perspective of the Japanese state, Kagawa represented a leader whose moderate program of social reform offered a potent antidote to the ever-increasing ills of industrialization and the rising threat of socialism. Kagawa was not the first Christian to cooperate with the government on social issues, as Home Ministry officials employed well-known Protestant social reformers such as Tomeoka Kōsuke (1864–1934) and Yamamuro Gunpei (1872–1940) beginning in the 1890s. Tomeoka, for example, worked for the salvation of prisoners and the reform of penal institutions at the Sorachi Penitentiary in Hokkaidō while Yamamuro maintained good relations with the government in directing the social welfare work of the Japan Salvation Army.<sup>1</sup> As historian Carol Gluck has argued, however, following the Russo-Japanese War the social questions that had attracted attention since the 1890s became so pressing as to constitute a new threat to the state.<sup>2</sup>

If the first generation of Japanese Christians addressed themselves primarily to the needs of a young nation attempting to carve out its own place in the world, second-generation leaders like Kagawa grappled more closely with the problem of internal social conflict. This was especially true in the wake of the First World War, when the Bolshevik Revolution of 1917 and the subsequent Rice Riots of 1918 signaled a growing level of domestic social unrest that alarmed Japanese state officials. In response, a new breed of social bureaucrat within the Home Ministry sought to broaden the social foundations of the state through the cultivation of moderate thought (*onken naru shisō*) and active collaboration with religious groups.<sup>3</sup> Moving away from the

traditional reliance on the Japanese family unit and its informal support networks, the new generation of civil servants emphasized the responsibility of society as a whole to care for the poor.<sup>4</sup> Furthermore, rather than viewing religion as another potential source of disruption, social bureaucrats saw it as part of the solution and sought out willing cooperators among the religious leaders of the day, leading to Kagawa's appointment as Tokyo City's Social Bureau adviser in 1929.

Kagawa finally cemented his position as one of Japan's foremost Christian figures by initiating and leading the Kingdom of God Movement, a nationwide evangelistic campaign that began in 1930. Spearheaded by Kagawa and financially supported by the International Missionary Council through the aid of its influential chairman, John R. Mott, the movement represented a key moment in the push to popularize the Japanese Church in the prewar period. It also reflected the international ties that characterized the broad scope of transnational projects pursued by the second generation of Japanese Christians.

#### KAGAWA'S EMERGENCE AS A SOCIAL REFORMER

Unlike some of his contemporaries who were raised in Christian households, Kagawa's religious initiation was a product of circumstance. Born in Kobe on July 10, 1888, to a traditional Buddhist family as the child of an extramarital union between his father, Jun'ichi, and his concubine, Kame, young Kagawa was taken in by his father's adoptive family in Tokushima Prefecture after both his parents died before he reached the age of five.<sup>5</sup> His status as the son of a concubine, however, made him an outcast within his stepfamily. As a result, he spent most of his childhood playing on his own, deprived of any semblance of familial affection.<sup>6</sup> Just when Kagawa was feeling lonely and starved for attention as a student in Tokushima Middle School, he met two missionaries who would become a powerful presence in his early life.

Harry W. Myers (1874–1945) and Charles A. Logan (1874–1955) had come to Tokushima under the auspices of the American Southern Presbyterian Mission in 1902. Logan's weekly Bible lessons about the story of Genesis provided Kagawa's first entree to the English language and the Christian religion. He formed a personal bond with Logan and Myers, who quickly took on the role of surrogate parents. The young Kagawa frequented the Myers's home not only to sample their home-cooked meals but also to make use of their extensive library. Despite their training in a strictly fundamentalist

tradition, both Myers and Logan were broad-minded enough to complement their evangelical preaching with a variety of nonreligious teachings.<sup>7</sup> Before long, young Kagawa became more and more interested in their religious teachings as well. Kagawa was baptized in February 1904 by Myers at the Tokushima Church—an event that marked the beginning of a long journey ahead.<sup>8</sup>

After graduating from Tokushima Middle School, Kagawa received financial aid from Myers to study at Meiji Gakuin, a Presbyterian school in Tokyo that traced its roots to a mission academy founded by the pioneering medical missionary and popularizer of the system of Japanese romanization named after him, James C. Hepburn (1815–1911).<sup>9</sup> During his time in Tokyo, Kagawa contributed articles to his hometown newspaper in Tokushima, decrying the rising militarism in Japan. In August 1906, for example, he published an article, “On World Peace” (*Sekai heiwa ron*), which quoted Kant’s famous treatise *Perpetual Peace* and utilized elements from Karl Marx, Thomas Carlyle, John Ruskin, and Leo Tolstoy to argue for the spirit of nonresistance and the realization of a more humanistic world.<sup>10</sup> While the article exhibited the still experimental and wide-eyed nature of his thinking at the time, it also demonstrated his high ideals and the influence of the prominent Socialist and pacifist writers of the day.

Kagawa’s religious awakening came after his 1907 transfer from Meiji Gakuin to the Kobe Theological Seminary (Kobe Shingakkō), which had just been founded by the Southern Presbyterian Mission of his American mentors and where Myers had taken up a teaching position. He was unable to get much studying done there, however, due to a bout of tuberculosis that threatened to take his life. During a nearly two-year recuperation period, Kagawa experienced a vision that he later described as “an ecstatic consciousness of God, a feeling that God was inside me and all around me.”<sup>11</sup> Following this life-altering experience, a newly recovered Kagawa took his belongings and moved from the environs of the seminary to the aforementioned Shinkawa District, a working-class neighborhood whose residents included factory laborers, prostitutes, low-level gangsters, and homeless drifters.<sup>12</sup>

While still attending classes at the seminary, Kagawa began to spend his spare time as an open-air preacher in Shinkawa. His initial attempts at street evangelism achieved only mixed results. In addition to handing out food and clothing to the poor, he set up some short-lived ventures, including a cooperative eating house named Heaven

Restaurant (Tengokuya), causing the locals to revere him as *sensei* (an honorific term for “teacher”).<sup>13</sup> One lasting outcome of Kagawa’s time in Kobe was his encounter with Shiba Haru (1888–1982), a worker at the local branch of a Yokohama-based Bible printing press whom he would go on to marry in 1913.<sup>14</sup> After five years in the slums, however, he also realized that charity work could only go so far in the emancipation of the poor. In order to truly “save” the residents, he needed first to become capable of solving their material problems and needs.

Kagawa thus resolved to travel to America to broaden his capabilities and intellectual horizons in the halls of the Princeton Theological Seminary. Myers had recommended Princeton as a suitable destination because of the school’s denominational affiliation with the Presbyterian Church. He also provided the funds to make the initial trip abroad, with the expectation that Kagawa would earn his way back home. Leaving behind his newly wedded wife, Haru—who had plans to pursue further education at the Kyōritsu Women’s Theological School in Yokohama—Kagawa departed for America aboard the *Tanba Maru* in August 1914.<sup>15</sup> Upon his arrival at Princeton, he opted for a rather eclectic selection of courses. In addition to pursuing coursework in systematic theology at the seminary, he indulged his personal interests at nearby Princeton University, where he took advanced courses in biology and mathematics and did graduate work in psychology and philosophy as a “student pursuing partial courses.”<sup>16</sup> During his time in the United States, Kagawa also finalized a manuscript that documented his experiences as a social worker in the slums of Kobe. The manuscript, later published in 1915 in Japan under the title *A Study of the Psychology of the Poor* (*Hinmin shinri no kenkyū*), attracted interest because of its four years and eight months’ worth of first-hand participant observation in the slums.<sup>17</sup> After two years of study and writing at Princeton, he received a bachelor of divinity degree from the seminary in May 1916.<sup>18</sup>

Just as important as his studies at Princeton was Kagawa’s encounter with the U.S. labor movement. Following his graduation from Princeton in 1916, Kagawa was looking for a job in Manhattan when he happened upon a public demonstration by the International Ladies Garment Workers Union, which was protesting an employee lockout by the Cloak, Suit, and Skirt Manufacturers Protective Association.<sup>19</sup> The Manufacturers Association’s lockout, which stemmed from a contractual dispute that temporarily displaced twenty-five thousand workers employed in the shops of its 409 members, led to a

general strike starting on May 3, 1916. Over the course of fourteen weeks, some two thousand shops and sixty thousand workers remained idle, in what was called “one of the most important industrial disputes” in America at the time.<sup>20</sup> Seeing the mass of workers of many ethnicities marching together down the streets of New York impressed upon Kagawa the power of organized labor and eventually inspired him to take the lead in the largest labor strike in prewar Japan.

Before returning to Japan, however, Kagawa spent several months traveling around the United States trying to earn enough money for the return journey. After visiting Chicago to see Jane Addams’s famous settlement houses and toying with the idea of continuing his studies at the University of Chicago, he eventually found work as the secretary for the Overseas Japanese Association in Ogden, Utah. Here he successfully negotiated a labor dispute between Japanese tenant farmers and their Mormon landlords, receiving a bonus that paid for his fare back to Japan.<sup>21</sup> Advertisements in the local Japanese American newspaper, *Utah Nippo*, indicate that even during his time as a secretary, Kagawa persisted in his evangelization efforts, exhorting readers to “believe in Christ” and leaving his contact information for those interested in learning more about Christianity.<sup>22</sup>

Following his return to Kobe in 1917, Kagawa threw himself into the forefront of the domestic labor movement, whose prewar leadership drew heavily from Christian ranks and infrastructure. After arriving back at Shinkawa, Kagawa was ordained a minister of the Japan Presbyterian Church and began a unique style of preaching that merged his advocacy in material as well as spiritual salvation. He believed that in order to improve the conditions of the impoverished classes, it was necessary to achieve a transformation of the spiritual outlook and morality of the poor.<sup>23</sup> Rather than being confined to abstract discourse, however, he applied his religious views in the real-life laboratory of labor unionism.

In practice this meant joining the Yūaikai, an early labor organization founded in 1912 by the Unitarian Christian leader Suzuki Bunji (1885–1946). Mindful of the heightened official scrutiny toward potential Socialist activity in the wake of the Great Treason Incident of 1910–1911, Suzuki initially modeled the Yūaikai after the friendly societies of early nineteenth-century Britain, purposely emphasizing the group’s mission of advancing “harmony and cooperation between labor and capital.”<sup>24</sup> The Yūaikai grew rapidly over its first few years, establishing local branches in urban areas with large concentrations

of industrial laborers. Starting in the fall of 1914, workers at the Kawasaki Shipyard in Kobe formed their own Yūaikai branch, followed soon thereafter by similar organizations at the Mitsubishi Shipyard and Kobe Steel factory. By the time Kagawa returned from his studies abroad, the individual branches had come together to form the Yūaikai Kobe Federation (Yūaikai Kobe Rengōkai), which boasted a total membership of over fifteen hundred.<sup>25</sup> On September 9, 1917, Kagawa appeared as a guest speaker at a rally hosted by the Yūaikai Kobe Federation and held on the premises of the Kobe YMCA, where he spoke on the impact of the United States' ban on the export of steel on the shipping industry and the lives of shipyard workers.<sup>26</sup> As a result of this speech, Kagawa was asked to join the Yūaikai Board of Trustees and soon became a major figure in Kansai labor circles.

As one of the few intellectually minded members of the Kobe Yūaikai, Kagawa displayed a knack for organizing and expanding its institutional presence. In his capacity as a board member, he raised union membership fees to help pay for the establishment of the first Japanese newspaper created by workers and dedicated to labor issues. The resulting paper, *Shin Kobe* (soon renamed *Rōdōsha shinbun*), released its first issue in August 1918.<sup>27</sup> Kagawa also played an instrumental role in the consolidation of the Kobe, Osaka, and Kyoto Federations of the Yūaikai into the Kansai Labor Federation (Kansai Rōdō Dōmei), of which he was elected chair.<sup>28</sup> He furthermore penned a unanimously adopted declaration protesting the antiunion Article 17 of the Police Regulations (Chian Keisatsuhō), which outlawed the act of "instigating" or "inciting" workers to join unions and denied their right to collective bargaining: "The dawn is upon the world; laborers are becoming aware of their existence as humans; laborers were oppressed by power and money and machines until today, and spent the last several centuries as slaves; but dawn is upon us now, and we stand here as liberated men!"<sup>29</sup>

Kagawa's popular success as an author of books on social issues further buttressed his reputation as a rising labor leader. *Shisen o koete* (*Across the Death-Line*), a novel by Kagawa initially serialized in the magazine *Kaizō* beginning in January 1919 and reissued in book form the following year, contributed significantly to this image.<sup>30</sup> The book is a thinly veiled autobiographical novel that chronicles the life of Niimi Eiichi, a young student at Meiji Gakuin who undergoes personal turmoil when his family finds out he attended a Christian school without their knowledge. Faced with the threat of being sent to an



asylum by his father, Eiichi—standing in for Kagawa—chooses to go to Kobe with the lofty goal of realizing the Socialist revolution that he had read about in his studies. He soon discovers, however, that he knows very little about the actual lives of workers and moves into the Shinkawa slums to learn more about their world. The rest of the novel relates the story of Eiichi's romance with a girl named Tsuruko, his baptism at the hands of an American missionary, and his encounters with the colorful slum residents he tries to "save."

Although literary critics did not think highly of the novel, many of the major newspapers gave it a positive review, helping it achieve widespread acceptance among common readers.<sup>31</sup> The book's popularity seemed to lie in its combination of sentimental melodrama, the rare glimpse it offered into the life of the urban poor, and the air of cultural sophistication that came with discussions of the Western influences on Eiichi's worldview.<sup>32</sup> It subsequently went through over two hundred printings in a year and a half, which, according to one estimate, meant that over one million copies were in circulation.<sup>33</sup> Thanks to the novel's overwhelming success, Kagawa became a household name, propelling him to the center of the labor scene.

Kagawa's rapid rise, however, was accompanied by a swift fall and departure from the labor movement following a major strike. In July 1921, workers of the Kawasaki and Mitsubishi Shipyards pushed for recognition of their collective bargaining rights and increased benefits in light of harsh labor conditions. When the management rejected their demands and fired the leaders of the negotiation committee, the employees launched an industrial strike on a scale unprecedented in Japan at that time. On July 7, thirteen thousand workers at Kawasaki went on general strike. The following day twelve thousand workers struck at Mitsubishi.<sup>34</sup> Kagawa and two others stepped in on July 10 to stage a joint protest of nearly thirty thousand demonstrators in the streets of Kobe.<sup>35</sup> When the Mitsubishi and Kawasaki plant owners responded with their announcement of a lockout—on July 12 and 14, respectively—the union countered by proclaiming its determination to carry on with industrial action on the streets.

Despite its bold move to strike, the Yūaikai's announced strategy of limiting the social and economic collateral damage by keeping the factories running under workers' management (*kōjō kanri*) revealed the relative moderateness of the Christian labor leaders. Kagawa articulated the thinking behind the strategy, which went against the factory owner's lockout orders, with a characteristic state-

ment: "Violence must be met with love, and evil with good."<sup>36</sup> He added, "It is easy to partake in negative strikes or sabotage, but much more difficult for workers of all industries to come together in solidarity to engage in positive labor; however, our movement cannot be called a true labor movement unless the laboring class can achieve such self-awareness."<sup>37</sup> His argument for workers' self-management reflected a religious aversion to violent confrontation and his desire to see the strikers engage their employers in the spirit of "enlightened, democratic management" rather than challenge them in an acrimonious battle.

Kagawa did not get a chance to put his ideas into practice, however, as the companies promptly declared a two-week suspension of operations. They furthermore enlisted the assistance of state authorities in keeping the factories out of the hands of the union, dispatching several dozen military police officers as well as a battalion from the Himeji Imperial Army division to maintain control. Although the union vowed to persist in its strike, some members could not afford to go without pay for two weeks and started returning to work once the suspension was lifted.<sup>38</sup> Faced with a potential disintegration of the strike, the Yūaikai leaders staged another large-scale demonstration at the historic Ikuta Shrine to boost morale. On the day of the protest, demonstrators sang labor songs and the national anthem at the shrine before marching in the streets. After confrontation with the police, however, the demonstration turned violent, leading to a mass arrest of the strike committee, including Kagawa. In the end, deprived of their leadership and exhausted from nearly a month of constant agitation without pay, the remaining strike force members had little choice but to terminate their action in defeat.<sup>39</sup>

Kagawa's cautious approach in the Kobe shipyard strike led to his departure from the labor movement. Following his arrest, Kagawa was held under police detention for twelve days. Inside his cell he ruminated on the events of the past month. Despite its defeat, he chose to see the strike as a positive step forward in terms of the workers' organizational strength and solidarity. Upon his release, however, he learned that his gradualist view was no longer in favor. Many union members saw the defeat as a sign of their weakness, calling for the adoption of a more radical and militant strategy.<sup>40</sup>

During the early 1920s, the labor movement witnessed a rise in political radicalism under the influence of anarcho-syndicalism, a movement originating in France and Italy that had been reenergized

by the Russian Revolution and that proposed the abolition of the capitalistic, state-centered system in favor of an economic model based on worker-managed industrial unions known as syndicates.<sup>41</sup> Radical syndicalists, whose revolutionary agenda Kagawa saw as “destructive” and “useless,” attacked Kagawa’s moderate stance for being weak-minded.<sup>42</sup> Although the anarcho-syndicalist forces diminished after mid-1922 and the majority of labor unionists remained nonradical in their approach, the sharp criticism leveled at Kagawa by a vocal minority in the wake of the shipyard strike was enough to make him want to leave the movement. At the board meeting of the Kansai Labor Federation in May 1922, Kagawa relinquished the editorship of the *Rōdōsha shinbun* newspaper and gradually stopped attending the meetings of the Yūaikai, which by this time had changed its name to the Nihon Rōdō Sōdōmei (Japan Labor General Federation; hereafter Sōdōmei).<sup>43</sup> Despite his demonstration of organizational initiative and vision in the early stages of his labor leadership, he concluded that his espousal of moderate nonviolence was irreconcilable with the struggle-oriented nature of many of his comrades.

At roughly the same time as his involvement in the labor movement, Kagawa began laying the foundations for the nascent cooperative movement in Japan. His initial steps in this direction entailed the founding of the purchasing cooperative Kyōekisha in Osaka in 1919 and the consumer cooperatives Kobe Shōhikumiai and Nada Shōhikumiai in 1920 and 1921, respectively.<sup>44</sup> Cooperatives had existed in Japan prior to this under the Industrial Cooperative Law (Sangyō Kumiai Hō) of 1900, which encouraged the incorporation of the nation’s small farmers and other independent producers into industrial cooperatives under the supervision of the state. The law, however, denied laborers permission to form producers’ cooperatives that would allow them to join together and manage their own shops, out of fear that such working-class organization would lead to labor agitation.<sup>45</sup> Within this context, Kagawa’s early cooperative ventures became the first such organizations to be established on a grassroots basis, completely independent from the government. While working within the limits of the law, Kagawa’s initiative demonstrated the cooperative movement’s potential as a broad-based citizens’ movement, as opposed to a government imposition. Moreover, after his brief stint in the labor movement he had come to regard cooperatives, rather than labor unions, as the central component in his program for social reform. The politically uncontroversial character of cooperatives

appealed to Kagawa, who viewed recent labor struggles as having strayed from an ethical movement (*rinri undō*) to one laden with conflict-oriented Jacobinism (Jacobin shugi).<sup>46</sup>

Kagawa's departure from the labor movement coincided with the founding of his personal religious fellowship on October 5, 1921. The fellowship organization, known as the Iesu no Tomo Kai, grew out of a gathering of thirteen of Kagawa's former classmates at the Presbyterian Pastors National Meeting in Nara, where they decided to establish a nondenominational body embodying his vision of individual and social transformation through religion. The Iesu no Tomo Kai, which can be translated as the "Friends of Jesus Association," modeled itself after the spirit of the Third Order of Saint Francis, a medieval mendicant order of Catholics, as well as the Society of Jesus, a sixteenth-century order famous for having first brought Christianity (in Catholic form) to Japan in 1549.<sup>47</sup> Members cultivated their spirituality through Bible study and prayer while constantly engaging in social outreach.<sup>48</sup> The group was socially diverse, with people from all walks of life joining the fellowship, including preachers, teachers, students, factory workers, carpenters, and nurses.<sup>49</sup> The pages of Kagawa's personal magazine *Kumo no hashira* (*The Pillar of Cloud*), which began as an organ of the Iesu no Tomo Kai in 1922, would go on to record the activities of the fellowship until the discontinuation of the publication in 1940.

Despite the failure of his labor interlude, Kagawa's credentials as a social worker and reformer prepared him to play a major role in the aftermath of the greatest natural disaster in Japan's modern history. Around noon on September 1, 1923, a sudden tremor reverberated through Tokyo's metropolitan area. The shaking lasted for over five minutes, causing severe and widespread damage to the urban centers of Tokyo and Yokohama, as well as the surrounding prefectures of Chiba, Kanagawa, Saitama, and Shizuoka. Casualties from the initial impact and secondary hazards such as fires, landslides, and soil liquefaction amounted to 143,000 dead and 103,000 wounded. Two days after this catastrophic event, which has since become known as the Great Kantō Earthquake, Kagawa boarded the *Yamashiro Maru* to assess the extent of the damage with his own eyes. Following this preliminary inspection, he returned briefly to Kobe before deciding to move his base permanently to Tokyo on October 8. Upon his arrival he met with officials from the Home Ministry, the Tokyo prefectural and city governments, and the Tokyo YMCA to work out the logistical details of providing assistance to ongoing relief efforts.<sup>50</sup>

Since Kagawa had already built up a national profile from his involvement in the Kobe shipyard strike two years earlier, government officials were eager to enlist his help in dealing with the consequences of this major disaster.

Even as a newcomer to Tokyo, Kagawa proved efficient in his ability to organize social relief through his Christian network. He chose as his base of operations the Honjo Ward, east of the Sumida River. The Honjo Ward had sustained some of the most concentrated damage from the earthquake, with 95 percent of all houses either destroyed or burned down.<sup>51</sup> Moreover, the Yokoami section of Honjo was home to the grounds of the Army Clothing Factory (Rikugun Hifukushō), which became the site of thirty-eight thousand deaths—nearly one-third of the earthquake's overall toll—due to a fire that quickly engulfed the thousands who had sought refuge there. Leasing a site previously used by the foreign division of the Japan Christian Women's Organization (Fujin Kyōfukai), Kagawa set up a social settlement using five large tents donated by the American Red Cross.<sup>52</sup> Of the five tents, he provided three for use as a shelter for the homeless, while the other two functioned as the settlement headquarters, which also doubled as storage and accommodation space for volunteers.<sup>53</sup> Kagawa named his outpost the Honjo Christian Industrial Youth Association (Honjo Kirisutokyō Sangyō Seinenkai) and consciously modeled it after the Western settlement houses that had been pioneered in the late nineteenth century, such as Toynbee Hall in London or Hull House in Chicago.<sup>54</sup> The mission of the settlement, in short, was to provide not only relief to the victims of the earthquake but also moral and social reform through programs such as basic education, health care, and recreation, as well as Christian evangelism.

Government officials valued Christian social activists such as Kagawa for their organizing experience among the poor and working classes. Following the Great Kantō Earthquake, state authorities granted the Sōdōmei with funds to help administer shelters for displaced workers in Tokyo and appointed its leader Suzuki Bunji, another Christian, to the Provisional Office for Earthquake Relief, from which the Sōdōmei provided work to hundreds of unemployed union members.<sup>55</sup> Furthermore, Prime Minister Kiyoura Keigo (1850–1942) invited the two Christian leaders, Kagawa and Suzuki, to join the newly formed Imperial Economic Council (Teikoku Keizai Kaigi) in February 1924. Created by Prime Minister Kiyoura in a bid to shed his cabinet's aristocratic and antidemocratic image, the Imperial

Economic Council was a body of 110 leaders from different sectors of society who evaluated the government's policies.<sup>56</sup> Of the council's numerous subcommittees, Kagawa sat on the Urban Housing Improvement Committee (Furyō Jūtaku Chiku Kairyō Inkaï), which was chaired by the prominent professor of economics at the Tokyo College of Commerce (later Hitotsubashi University), Fukuda Tokuzō (1874–1930). State officials also commissioned him to conduct studies and statistical surveys in the areas of housing and medical care, which would become the basis for his policy proposals. At the May 19, 1924, meeting of the council, for example, Kagawa stressed the importance of home ownership for the poor, arguing that the state had a responsibility to provide permanent housing to the “most impoverished classes,” based on his experience with the residents of the Shinkawa slums. The council took note of his expertise on such matters, choosing to adopt and endorse the Christian leader's proposed measure of improving urban housing in poor districts around the country.<sup>57</sup>

In a period characterized by a growing sense of social unrest and crisis on the domestic front, government officials looked to Christian reformers such as Kagawa as allies in their efforts to manage social tensions. Kagawa's emergence as a prominent social reformer in the 1920s put him at the forefront of socially minded religious leaders of the day. His work as a labor leader and his autobiographical novel *Shisen o koete*, which went on to become one of the best-selling books of the Taishō period, further bolstered this image. Kagawa's cooperation with the government on earthquake relief and the development of social policy, moreover, epitomized the cooperative relationship between the second generation of Japanese Christians and the state. Social bureaucrats of the Home Ministry, for their part, tolerated the spiritual content of the Christians' work as long as their religious teachings favored a moderate moral and social reformism that clearly opposed left-wing radicalization.

#### THE FRIENDS OF JESUS AND TRANSPACIFIC COMMUNITY BUILDING

Here in Kobe I spent a day with my friend Kagawa whom I saw six years ago as a student at Princeton. I found him living in the heart of these slums. He is a pastor of a little church where he conducts services for the laborers who have to go to work before six o'clock in the morning. He is the Saint Francis of the poor, the Gandhi of the labor movement

of Japan. . . . Like the title of his book, he is living “Beyond the Death Line.” But he walks unafraid, the friend of little children, the benefactor of the poor, the guide of labor, the arousing conscience of the church.

September 20, 1922  
Sherwood Eddy<sup>58</sup>

Thus wrote Sherwood Eddy (1871–1963), a veteran YMCA missionary of international standing during a tour of Japan in 1922. Eddy, together with his YMCA mentor and superior, John R. Mott (1865–1955), symbolized a generation of ecumenical Protestants who set out to promote American-style moral reform abroad starting in the late nineteenth century. They directed international organizations such as the World YMCA and YWCA and the Student Volunteer Movement for Foreign Missions. While believing their cause to be nobler than that of outright imperialists, American missionary reformers like Mott and Eddy nonetheless created their own version of a nonterritorial “empire” grounded in networks of moral reform groups and church organizations that they had helped to establish across the globe.<sup>59</sup> Eddy’s trip to Japan and meeting with Kagawa, as quoted above, was but one part of this larger project of U.S. moral empire building.

By the 1920s, however, such reformers began to question their idealistic championing of America as a model for the world to emulate. The post–World War I “Wilsonian moment” caused the missionaries to rethink their assumptions about American cultural superiority, leading them to adopt a more sympathetic and cooperative stance toward the peoples of the non-Western countries to which they were sent.<sup>60</sup> They expressed their newfound anti-imperialist and antiracist position by opposing anti-Asian agitation on the West Coast and calling for the repeal of the exclusionary 1924 Immigration Act. Because of such political views, many missionaries came to embrace Kagawa as an exemplar of their Christian internationalist vision. Among such missionaries were the Toppings, an American Baptist missionary family who would go on to have a decisive impact on the construction of Kagawa’s overseas image through their close collaboration with the Japanese evangelist.

Deeply disturbed by rising racial prejudices and tensions at home and sensitive to the global currents of anticolonialism and anticapitalism abroad, missionary reformers brought attention to the plight

of non-Western peoples. Eddy, who worked in India for over fifteen years as a traveling secretary for the YMCA, became a vocal supporter of the Indian nationalist movement and came to oppose American as well as British colonialism. Concerned with the social implications of his Christianity, he adopted the multicultural stance that missionaries must “welcome every value in the religion and culture of the people to whom we go.”<sup>61</sup> While affirming the positive aspects of the modernization of Asian societies under Western influence, he envisioned the goal of foreign missions to be not just simple conversion and uplift but the facilitation of a process of socioeconomic transformation, through which missionaries hoped to achieve a new cultural and social synthesis in which the Christian Social Gospel would play a central role.<sup>62</sup> The views of those like Eddy—which Michael G. Thompson has termed “Christian internationalism”—although radical in some respects, enjoyed a growing influence among the Protestant missionary establishment in the interwar period.<sup>63</sup>

Viewed within this context, Kagawa’s emergence as a social reformer in the 1920s contained the seeds of much of his later success. YMCA secretaries in this period were keen to note the similarities between the modernizing experiences of Japan and the United States, comparing Japan’s colonial administration of Taiwan and Korea to U.S. officials’ efforts to establish a “government of law and order in the Philippines.”<sup>64</sup> Kagawa’s rise to prominence as a Japanese evangelist for the socially downtrodden, moreover, made him a compelling ally for missionaries working in Japan. Kagawa’s work among the poor in the Kobe slums struck a particularly strong chord among American Protestant reformers, who saw his pragmatic social and moral reformism as a model for how to implement the teachings of the Social Gospel. Indeed, numerous American missionaries came to see Kagawa in the slums of Kobe, including the aforementioned Eddy, thereby attesting to the popularity of this aspect of his image. Such visits also illuminate the early stages in the creation of a mythology surrounding Kagawa—as can be seen in Eddy’s likening of him to Saint Francis and Gandhi.<sup>65</sup> His Princeton education further added an air of respectability and cultural sophistication that rounded out his multilayered appeal.

Kagawa’s internalization of the ideals of social reform and cross-cultural friendship attracted a following among American missionaries and the overseas Japanese diaspora, leading to the creation of a



transnational religious network and community. This was not the first instance of the formation of such a network, as Japanese Christian educational associations on the American West Coast had existed since the late nineteenth century. The Fukuinkai, for example, was founded in 1877 by Japanese immigrants in San Francisco with the help of local Protestant mission boards for the purpose of providing newly arrived Japanese students with logistical support for their studies abroad.<sup>66</sup> However, unlike such associations—whose transnational activities helped to preserve and reinforce a nationalistic sense of Japanese identity—the supporters' groups that coalesced around Kagawa embraced an internationalist outlook that sought to promote a universal Christian community.

Such supporter groups, moreover, sustained active cooperation between Japanese Christians and American missionaries. Foremost among the latter group were the Toppings, the American Baptist missionary family who had been working in Japan since 1895. After some initial contacts through domestic Christian networks, Kagawa eventually requested that Helen Topping, the daughter of the family, work full time as his personal English-language secretary. Helen, along with her retired parents, in turn played a crucial role in Kagawa's overseas image construction through their publication of widely circulated journals and calendars focusing on the Japanese evangelist's work. Together they amplified his presence in the missionary press and facilitated the development of a transnational religious community centered on Kagawa.

The Toppings' career as Baptist missionaries led them to Japan by way of internal missions. Born in Lake Delton, Wisconsin, Henry Topping (1857–1942) attended the Ottawa Christian Academy in Ottawa, Kansas, and was baptized at the Second Baptist Church, which had close ties to the Indian mission-based First Baptist Church. In 1888 he married Genevieve Faville (1863–1953), a kindergarten educator who was born in Lake Mills, Wisconsin, and had studied music in Leipzig, Germany. Their first child, Helen, was born in 1889, when Henry was studying at the Baptist Theological Seminary (known today as the Colgate Rochester Crozer Divinity School) in Rochester, New York. Following three years of teaching at the historically Black Benedict College in South Carolina, the Toppings took up an overseas assignment from the Baptist Far East Mission in 1895 to help set up a mission school in Tokyo.<sup>67</sup> Upon arrival, Henry handled duties at the academy while Genevieve took charge of the kindergarten run by

the Baptist mission and set up an institution for the training of kindergarten instructors, leading her to acquire the nickname Mother Topping.<sup>68</sup>

Helen Faville Topping (1889–1981) was a missionary child whose international upbringing between America and Japan led her to cross paths with Kagawa.<sup>69</sup> Helen first arrived in Japan with her parents in 1895 as a six-year-old. She spent her childhood in Tokyo before returning to the United States for her secondary and postsecondary education.<sup>70</sup> While on vacation from her studies in the United States, Helen engaged in a number of activities in Japan, such as organizing a YWCA for girls in Morioka and helping out at her mother's kindergarten training school in Tokyo (figure 1.1).<sup>71</sup> After graduating from college, she worked for the YWCA Field Committee in California, making house calls on newly arrived Japanese “picture brides,” part of a larger effort at immigrant moral reform led by Japanese officials and local Issei women.<sup>72</sup> The National Board of the YWCA rewarded



*Figure 1.1.* The Toppings with Japanese friends in Morioka, circa 1915. Topping family members depicted are, from second left, Henry; Willard (*third left*); Genevieve, also known as Mother Topping; and Helen. *Source:* Untitled, n.d., TC104-E00002, MSRC

her service by assigning her in 1918 to establish the Kobe YWCA, for which she served as the founding general secretary until 1922.<sup>73</sup> It was during this time that she came to know the work of Kagawa, who had recently returned to Kobe from his overseas study in the United States and found himself at the center of local labor struggles.

America's increasingly exclusionist immigration policies in this period provided a strong impetus to the internationalist agenda of missionaries such as the Toppings. The U.S. Congress's passage of the Immigration Act of 1924 (also known as the National Origins Act or the Johnson-Reed Act) set up a comprehensive, nationality-based immigration quota system for the first time in American history.<sup>74</sup> The act, furthermore, prohibited the immigration of any foreign national ineligible for American citizenship, which completed the ban on Japanese immigration to the United States.<sup>75</sup> The Japanese press publicly decried the act, referring to it as the "Anti-Japanese Immigration Law" (*Hai-Nichi Imin Hō*).<sup>76</sup> Missionaries also widely condemned the law, arguing that such an exclusionary move on the part of a supposedly Christian country belied its principles, and advocated instead for a "world friendship" stemming from a combination of pacifism, interracial reconciliation, and a vision of global unity based on mission ideals.<sup>77</sup>

Amid such a backdrop, American missionaries identified Kagawa as an ideal partner for collaboration. In his writings, Kagawa affectionately recalled the care and inspiration he had received from his Presbyterian missionary mentors, Harry Myers and Charles Logan, calling the former his "father in faith" (*shinkō no chichi*).<sup>78</sup> At a time when many of his Japanese coreligionists favored a degree of autonomy and independence from mission control, such a welcoming approach toward missionaries stood out.<sup>79</sup> His open stance was an outgrowth of his internationalist religious outlook: "As a cosmopolitan [*sekaijin*], I am constantly thinking about how there are no national boundaries to religion."<sup>80</sup> In addition, he favored ecumenism and interdenominational cooperation between different church traditions, a defining feature of the Protestant missionary movement.<sup>81</sup> Such a worldview made Kagawa an appealing figure to work with from the perspective of missionaries like the Toppings—who, while not belonging to the same denomination as Kagawa, were nevertheless still in agreement with his overall vision.

The English translation of Kagawa's semiautobiographical novel, *Shisen o koete*, which told of his experience in the Kobe slums, indirectly connected the Toppings to the Japanese evangelist. Fukumoto

Ichiji, one of the cotranslators for the English version, which was published in 1922 by an English-language press in Kobe under the title *Across the Death-Line*, was a Japanese Christian converted to the faith by the Toppings.<sup>82</sup> The Toppings had encountered Fukumoto during their time in Morioka, where they offered him guidance in religious and spiritual matters.<sup>83</sup> He soon became a devout Christian and proceeded to work on Kagawa's novel, which by 1924 had run to over one hundred editions in Japan and sold over 150,000 copies.

Boosted by such publicity, Kagawa was invited to attend a YMCA student conference in California in 1924–1925. The conference, organized to foster U.S.-Japanese dialogue in light of the recently enacted Immigration Act, led to the establishment of multiple groups pledging support to his religious movement. At the invitation of this Pan-Pacific Student Convention, Kagawa embarked on an eight-month journey that began with a tour of the United States, followed by a visit to Europe and a return to Japan via the Middle East. Departing in late 1924, Kagawa stopped first in Honolulu, where he completed an itinerary that included speeches at prisons, the Nuʻuanu YMCA, Aala Park, and the University of Hawaiʻi.<sup>84</sup> He also met with Issei Christians, who founded their own Iesu no Tomo Kai group in his honor, modeled after the fellowship organization of the same name that was founded three years earlier by Kagawa's followers in Japan.<sup>85</sup> After his brief stay in Hawaiʻi, Kagawa continued on to San Francisco and delivered lectures around the Bay Area.<sup>86</sup> He rang in the New Year at the YMCA student conference in Asilomar, Monterey, held from December 27, 1924, to January 3, 1925.<sup>87</sup> Following the conference, Kagawa traveled down to Southern California to appear at functions hosted by various Japanese and non-Japanese organizations.<sup>88</sup> His visit was especially welcomed by Japanese American Christians, who, feeling the sting of recent anti-Japanese legislation, had initiated a program of immigrant moral reform by inviting famous speakers from Japan.<sup>89</sup> On January 16, members of the Japanese American community in Los Angeles founded a group called the Friends of Jesus—named after the Iesu no Tomo Kai in Japan and Hawaiʻi—to engage in Christian practice along Kagawa's lines and also to provide general financial support for his work (figure 1.2).<sup>90</sup> Their regular activities consisted of organizing monthly prayer circles and early morning worship services, perhaps in recognition of the habits of Kagawa, who was said to have kept a daily routine of waking up at five o'clock in the morning for prayer and Bible study.<sup>91</sup>



*Figure 1.2.* An early morning prayer meeting of the Friends of Jesus at the Los Angeles Japanese Union Church, 1925. Kagawa is in the center of the second row. *Source:* “Losu Anzerusu gōdō kyōkai sōten kitōkai nite,” January 17, 1925, 24–4434, MSRC

Kagawa’s trip coincided with the high tide of Christian internationalism in the 1920s, which replaced a more traditional and narrowly conceived view of the missionary enterprise. The Foreign Missions Convention, hosted in Washington, DC, from January 28 to February 2, 1925, by the Foreign Missions Conference of North America, gave expression to such ideals. Reflecting the meeting’s international and interdenominational scope, representatives from all Protestant ecclesiastical bodies in America and a number of mission boards from Canada and Europe, as well as a small group of Asian delegates, including Kagawa, were in attendance. President Calvin Coolidge set the tone for the proceedings in his opening address, urging missionaries to carry the best of Christianity to other countries while counteracting the excesses of Western civilization by bringing back to America the best of other cultures.<sup>92</sup> Although retaining its commitment to the Christian faith, the Protestant internationalist project went beyond the conventional purview of the missionary agenda to encompass the Christianizing of the social realm, which included the establishment of cooperative and peaceful relations between nations.

At the Foreign Missions Convention, Kagawa spoke about his background of working in the slums and his subsequent social activ-

ism in an address titled "Sixteen Years' Campaigning for Christ in Japan."<sup>93</sup> Beginning with the story of moving into the Kobe slums and the challenges he faced there, Kagawa recounted his life history in chronological order, touching upon his success as a labor leader and postearthquake relief organizer, frequently citing statistics to make his point. Vowing to do more evangelistic work among the "laboring classes in Japan," Kagawa proclaimed that he would be "willing to renounce all else if my countrymen may be saved for Christ."<sup>94</sup>

Besides this personal evangelical quest, the question of immigration was also on his mind. Although the Washington Naval Conference, held in the same city in 1921–1922, had established a new framework for cooperative diplomacy between Japan and the Anglo-American powers, the 1924 Immigration Act threatened to undo much of its accomplishments. Kagawa countered the resultant war speculation by proclaiming, without evidence, that a "decided anti-militaristic sentiment" was sweeping through his country, which was on course to "disband [its] whole army corps."<sup>95</sup> Ungrounded and misleading as his comments may have been, they nevertheless reveal a strong commitment to pacifist internationalism, as well as his opposition to the idea of conflict between Japan and the United States over the issue of immigration.

Kagawa's background as a Christian social activist from Japan became a popular talking point during his U.S. trip. *Across the Death-Line (Before the Dawn)*, which had come out in an English translation right before his tour, attracted popular readers interested in its realistic depiction of life in modern Japan. One review in a general interest magazine praised it as a book of international significance that went beyond the stereotypical depictions of Japan featuring "the teacup and geisha[s]" to reveal "a Japanese tormented by the same mysteries, stirred by the same temptations, and reading the same literature as his young counterpart in England" while nevertheless remaining "so enormously different racially that the resemblances only serve to drive home the divergence."<sup>96</sup> Another reviewer deemed it to be "probably the first piece of serious realistic fiction by a Japanese about the Japanese that has been translated into English."<sup>97</sup> The review added that it succeeded in showing that the Japanese were "not mere members of an alien race, but natural human people whose babies cry like babies as anywhere else . . . whose old people are as garrulous and young people as foolish . . . as in any quarter of the globe."<sup>98</sup>

Such public exposure led to the creation of further supporters' organizations, which helped enable Helen Topping to go work full-time for Kagawa in Japan. On March 5, 1925, Kagawa met with Helen in New York, where she was completing a master's degree in educational sociology at Teachers College, and asked if she would like to join his staff.<sup>99</sup> Helen was delighted at the opportunity but needed first to secure a sponsor who could help fund her appointment. In the interim, she unsuccessfully explored the possibility of writing a doctoral thesis on the topic of "Japanese social solidarity" in the United States.<sup>100</sup>

Two years after Kagawa's visit, a group of his supporters in Northern California founded the Kagawa Cooperators in Berkeley, with the scholar of Asian religion Kenneth Saunders (1883–1937) as its vice chairman.<sup>101</sup> The main goal of the Cooperators was to provide financial and logistical support to Kagawa and his various enterprises in Japan. The organization grew over the next few years to include branches in Toronto, New York, Los Angeles, and Tokyo.<sup>102</sup> Another group known as the Kagawa Fellowship, whose membership partially overlapped with that of the Kagawa Cooperators, also emerged in Japan around this time.<sup>103</sup> It was the Kagawa Cooperators, however, who ultimately sponsored Helen's appointment as Kagawa's secretary beginning in 1927.<sup>104</sup> Helen thus came to occupy a unique position: a missionary child who was not herself a missionary attached to a denominational board but who nevertheless received a salary financed exclusively by a group of Kagawa supporters (i.e., the Kagawa Cooperators) with close ties to the Protestant missionary network.<sup>105</sup> Kagawa, for his part, was delighted about Helen's arrival: "When I first learned that Miss [Helen] Topping wanted to come work for me in Japan, I prayed [that this would come to pass]. After two years of twists and turns, I am truly grateful that she has finally arrived in Japan."<sup>106</sup>

Helen's appointment as Kagawa's secretary marked a critical moment in the formation of a transnational religious community that included Japanese Christians, American missionaries, and Japanese American communities. United in their internationalist outlook and social approach to evangelism, Kagawa and his missionary supporters came together to address what they perceived as a state of crisis in the aftermath of the Great War. Advocating friendship in a world at risk of being torn apart by racial and political divisions, Kagawa drew upon an extensive network of donors that included organizations such as the Friends of Jesus, the Kagawa Cooperators, and the Kagawa Fellowship.



## RURAL REVITALIZATION AND THE KINGDOM OF GOD MOVEMENT

Following his labor interlude and U.S. tour in the mid-1920s, Kagawa returned to Japan to embark on a spiritual movement that marked a seeming departure from his prior activism. Often referred to as the period of Taishō Democracy, movements for increased democratic participation remained popular in the 1920s, as was symbolized in the granting of universal manhood suffrage in 1925. Tenant farmers began forming farmers' unions to demand rent reduction from landlords while urban workers congregated en masse for annual May Day rallies at Ueno Park. Responding to such challenges, however, the Imperial Diet passed the 1925 Peace Preservation Law, which made criticism of the emperor a capital offense and provided legal justification for state crackdowns on the Japanese Communist Party and other groups deemed to be advancing "radical" social and political agendas. As if to distance himself from such turbulent currents, Kagawa declared in 1927: "Japan's labor movement has become divided by politics. This is highly unfortunate. For the time being, I will wash my hands of the movement of the proletarian parties (*musan seitō no undō*) and immerse myself in the Kingdom of God Movement."<sup>107</sup>

Building on the foundation provided by his fellowship and supporters' organizations, Kagawa planned a large-scale movement for spiritual revival. At the 1925 meeting of the National Christian Council (NCC; Nihon Kirisutokyō Renmei), an umbrella organization that coordinated relations between the different Protestant denominations, as well as liaising with overseas churches, Kagawa put forth a proposal for a movement called the One Million Souls Campaign (*Hyakuman-nin Kyūrei Undō*).<sup>108</sup> He pitched the movement as a spiritual drive to evangelize the farmers, fisherfolk, and mine workers in rural Japan. When his urgent appeal was met with apathy from the church, however, Kagawa lamented the narrow-mindedness of Japan's "pulpit Christianity" (*kōdan Kirisutokyō*), which he chided for being overly focused on ecclesiastical form at the expense of serious engagement with society at large.<sup>109</sup> Yearning to bring about the type of "divine whirlwind" that would sweep people off their feet and blow away the stifling atmosphere covering the nation, Kagawa decided that he would initiate the campaign himself.<sup>110</sup> The key to his quest, he reasoned, was the evangelization of Japan's neglected rural communities.



The Kingdom of God Movement (1930–1932) and its precursor (1928–1929), the One Million Souls Campaign, demonstrated the temporary shift of Kagawa's attention from the urban center to the rural periphery.<sup>111</sup> Responding to the growing rural economic crisis in Japan and inspired by the successful example of Danish folk schools in reviving the rural countryside in Denmark, Kagawa proceeded to create a series of so-called Farmers' Gospel Schools to provide an institutional basis for his program of spiritual and agricultural revival.<sup>112</sup> His agrarian evangelism intersected with the efforts of like-minded Japanese Christians, whose help he enlisted in expanding his rural movement into a nationwide evangelistic campaign. At the same time, the Kingdom of God Movement responded to global developments in Christian internationalism. Although the movement had begun on Kagawa's personal initiative, in order to induce the wider participation of the Japanese Christian Church as a whole, movement organizers adopted the commitment to ecumenism and socially engaged religion proclaimed at the 1928 Jerusalem meeting of the International Missionary Council. Despite his conscious disavowal of fractious politics, Kagawa's appointment as a commissioned adviser to the Tokyo City Government during this period also illustrated his continued involvement and relevance to the state and its policy initiatives.

Kagawa envisioned the road to Japan's Christianization as running through its farms and villages, which were still home to over three-quarters of the general population.<sup>113</sup> In his 1925 proposal for the One Million Souls Campaign, he set village evangelization as the top priority, stressing that the church should use "all means within its disposal" to reach this group within the next few years.<sup>114</sup> He suggested two main ways in which this could be accomplished. First, he argued that Christian groups should make more use of regional newspapers and other subscription-based print media in widening their rural outreach. He also encouraged the direct distribution of religious tracts in local settings. Second, Kagawa stressed the need to educate farmers to make them receptive to Christianity. To this end he proposed the founding of Farmers' Gospel Schools (*Nōmin Fukuin Gakkō*). Farmers' Gospel Schools were temporary schools set up in farmhouses in the fallow period, during which Christian evangelists would participate in communal living with a group of village youth—that is, the sons and daughters of tenant farming families—and teach courses in humanistic and spiritual subjects, as well as practical topics such as agricultural techniques. Whereas the original proposal stated that

the Gospel Schools should be run in the fashion of *terakoya* (literally, “temple school”)—public educational institutions scattered throughout Tokugawa-era Japan that taught reading and writing to ordinary children—in practice, the vision owed much to the Danish folk school movement.<sup>115</sup>

Farmers’ Gospel Schools took their inspiration from Denmark and its system of folk education.<sup>116</sup> Many Japanese agronomists and social reformers looked toward Denmark as the model of a modest yet successful and ecologically sustainable economy.<sup>117</sup> Far from being an isolated Japanese phenomenon, the fascination with Denmark was shared by various countries in the North Atlantic world. In 1923, for example, the University of North Carolina professor of rural social economics E. C. Branson reported that Denmark was “over-run” by foreign investigators trying to learn the secrets of the Danish agricultural revival.<sup>118</sup> Kagawa became one of them in 1925 when he visited Denmark following his U.S. speaking tour. In addition to Copenhagen, Kagawa visited the Askov Folk High School, one of the largest and most prominent folk higher schools at the time.<sup>119</sup> Upon his return to Japan, Kagawa regularly cited Denmark’s example in his writings on village evangelization, expressing his support for the idea of cooperative agriculture.<sup>120</sup> In 1927 he established his first Farmers’ Gospel School in Kwaragi village, Hyōgo Prefecture, near his hometown of Kobe. The school held a one-month session beginning in February, enrolling ten students. The students lived together in a dormitory to facilitate interactions outside the classroom. Sugiyama Motojirō (1885–1964), the school’s principal and a comrade of Kagawa’s in the farmers’ movement, claimed their mission to be the “cultivation of personality according to the spirit of Denmark’s Grundtvig” and the “training of warriors who will bear the burden of the cross for rural reconstruction.”<sup>121</sup>

Taking encouragement from Kagawa’s initiatives, the momentum for a nationwide religious campaign gained traction among church leaders and received an important endorsement from the international Christian community. Kagawa’s plan for an extensive program of itinerant preaching, which he had branded the Kingdom of God Movement (*Kami no Kuni Undō*), entailed a rigorous schedule of almost daily rallies (*dendō shūkai*) that moved around the country over a five-year period. Given the comprehensiveness of the tour circuit, which placed a strong emphasis on reaching the rural communities largely neglected by traditional evangelistic drives, the institutional resources

and manpower of the NCC were essential in making the plan work. The World YMCA luminary John Mott gave the movement his crucial endorsement following a visit to Japan in 1925 and began spreading the word and support for it among American churches and missionaries. Mott was the undisputed political and organizational leader of the Protestant missionary establishment in the early twentieth century, and his opinion carried substantial weight within international ecumenical circles. His support ultimately convinced the NCC to approve the granting of full institutional support to the Kingdom of God Movement in June 1928. Thus began the largest nationwide Christian evangelization drive in Japanese history.<sup>122</sup>

The Kingdom of God Movement mobilized the resources of the Japanese Church, as well as received financial support from foreign donations. Following the 1928 resolution, Kagawa began a nationwide tour with his colleague Kuroda Shirō, with the backing of the NCC.<sup>123</sup> During this spell of one and a half years, they spent roughly three weeks out of any given month touring the country.<sup>124</sup> Overall, Kagawa visited 91 cities, preaching to over 230,000 people—9,500 of whom professed a desire to convert to Christianity.<sup>125</sup> This preliminary activity took place before the official launch of the campaign in November 1929 when the NCC held a ceremony to mark the seventieth anniversary of the commencement of Protestant missionary work in Japan.<sup>126</sup> Organizers planned the ceremony to recognize Mott's visit to Japan earlier that year, when he had attended a special session of the NCC in Kamakura to express support for the nationwide evangelization drive, donating 15,000 yen to the cause. NCC delegates to the International Missionary Council meeting in Jerusalem the previous year, moreover, had returned with strong impressions regarding the ecumenical and social trend among world churches and grew committed to the idea of a spiritual campaign in Japan. It was in this favorable atmosphere that Kagawa, standing before a plenary session on November 11, declared the beginning of the Kingdom of God Movement, exhorting his coreligionists to spread the "promise of love to the streets, factories, schools, companies, villages, and fisheries of Japan."<sup>127</sup>

Despite its grandiose call to action, however, the Kingdom of God Movement achieved mixed results. The movement was conducted in two phases, with the first phase lasting from 1928 to 1932, after which the NCC voted to extend it to two more years.<sup>128</sup> The second phase, however, proved difficult to carry out in practice because of rising militarism following the assassination of Prime Minister Inukai Tsuyoshi

in the May 15th Incident of 1932. In numerical terms it was the largest movement of its kind in the history of the Japanese Protestant Church.<sup>129</sup> To handle the logistical coordination, the Kingdom of God Movement Central Committee supervised ninety-three regional committees around the country. Overall, the movement held a total of 1,859 rallies in 734 days, attracting an aggregate of over 787,223 attendees, of whom 62,410 are said to have submitted cards indicating their decision to convert.<sup>130</sup> Although the flurry of activity and excitement that surrounded the evangelical rallies was enough to win over converts in the short term, retaining the followers over the long run proved to be a challenge.<sup>131</sup> While the Kingdom of God Movement contributed to a short-term rise in interest toward Christianity, the excitement died down almost as quickly once the drive was over. Judged against its stated goal of building a foundation for the Christianization of Japan from its rural heartland, it is difficult to say that the movement was successful.

Yet the Kingdom of God Movement also achieved some lasting effects in other areas. In 1930 the executive committee began regularly publishing an official organ for the movement, appropriately titled the *Kingdom of God Weekly* (*Kami no kuni undō shinbun*), to which Kagawa and other prominent church leaders were frequent contributors.<sup>132</sup> Additionally, many small pamphlets and newsletters associated with the movement became regular publications, thereby greatly expanding the scope of evangelization through print media. The Kingdom of God Movement thus played a major role in increasing the number and distribution of Christian periodicals, thereby establishing a platform for religious dialogue between different Protestant denominations and the wider public.

Perhaps most important, the Kingdom of God Movement established Kagawa as the chief evangelist of Japan. While Kagawa had already enjoyed a certain degree of fame before the movement through his social work and book sales, his standing within the church establishment was not particularly strong at first. His spearheading of the nationwide Kingdom of God Movement, however, coupled with all the publicity surrounding it, bolstered his status within the church. Starting with his declaration of the movement's launch at the NCC general meeting in 1929, he was frequently nominated as a special member (*tokubetsu giin*) at subsequent meetings and sat on various committees.<sup>133</sup> Furthermore, major missionary publications gave widespread coverage to the Kingdom of God Movement, greatly increasing the

profile of Japanese Christianity in general, and Kagawa in particular, among international audiences. The summary report of a 1932 inquiry into the Protestant missionary enterprise, for example, favorably evaluated the movement “inaugurated by Kagawa” as a commendable attempt at a “more intensive evangelization both of the rural areas and the large city centers of Japan, for the spread of cooperative methods of life and for an increase of the spirit of mutual love in human relationships.”<sup>134</sup> The Kingdom of God Movement, in short, became one of Kagawa’s signature religious achievements.

At the same time, Kagawa continued to be valued by the state as an ally in efforts to combat urban poverty and social unrest. His willingness to work for gradual improvements within the boundaries of existing institutions, rather than pushing for a radical restructuring, appealed to people like Horikiri Zenjirō, the mayor of Tokyo City who invited Kagawa to become the head of the city’s Social Bureau in July 1929.<sup>135</sup> Horikiri, a former Home Ministry bureaucrat, had never met Kagawa. But after reading his works and hearing about his social reform projects in Kobe, Horikiri decided to sound him out on the prospect of overseeing the city’s social welfare programs.<sup>136</sup> Kagawa declined the appointment, citing his lack of interest in holding an official administrative post, but agreed to work in an unofficial capacity to help out with the city’s social issues. Kagawa suggested that Horikiri appoint someone else to the official post while offering to give his opinions as a commissioned adviser (*shokutaku*) to the Social Bureau—an unpaid position he held for two years on a voluntary basis.<sup>137</sup>

Kagawa’s moderate social reformism continued to win the approval of social bureaucrats, whose top priority was the amelioration of poverty and the suppression of radical Socialist movements. Following his appointment as a Social Bureau adviser, Kagawa penned a four-part article in the city’s official bulletin, starting on August 27, 1929, regarding Tokyo City’s poor relief efforts (figure 1.3). In it he outlined his classification system for categorizing the different types of urban paupers (*saimin*) and emphasized that any plan for relief for the poor must address the issue of not just economic aid but also moral reform.<sup>138</sup> According to his view, the Marxist focus on material explanations for inequality was inadequate in dealing with problems such as prodigality, wastefulness, gambling, crime, and alcoholism—all of which perpetuated the culture and cycle of poverty in urban communities. In order to combat such moral deficiencies on the part of the poor, he argued, a temperance movement, coupled with a religious

[illegible]

二十九日(水) 三十日(金)

○自勵本陣出張所  
長會議(電氣局)

○調試と趣味の会  
於接掌第一方面  
(社會局)

○運輸課出張所長  
會議(電氣局)

A black and white portrait of Heiichi Sugawara (賀川豊彦氏). He is a middle-aged man with dark hair, wearing a light-colored suit jacket over a white shirt and a dark tie. He is seated at a dark table, with his hands clasped in front of him. The background is a light-colored wall with vertical Japanese text. The caption below the portrait reads: (局合社)託彌市京東.



Figure 1.3. Kagawa on the front page of the *Tokyo City Bulletin* in 1929, introduced as a newly commissioned adviser to the Social Bureau. Source: “Kagawa Toyohiko shi,” *Tokyo-shi kōhō*, August 29, 1929, Tokyo Metropolitan Archives



moral movement (*shūkyō teki dōtoku undō*), needed to be incorporated into the city's poor relief programs. Although some members of the Tokyo City Council (Sanjikai) accused Kagawa of being a Socialist, Mayor Horikiri defended his appointment by responding that such allegations, even if true, were irrelevant as long as Kagawa was able to carry out his duties effectively.<sup>139</sup> Home Ministry-trained officials such as Horikiri, who valued efficiency and social expertise over personal religious and ideological beliefs, found a kindred ally in Kagawa, who had himself grown to value pragmatism over politics through his experience in organizing social movements.<sup>140</sup>

Kagawa, who emerged as one of the most prominent leaders of the second generation of Japanese Christians, practiced a brand of socially oriented Christianity that allowed him to gain public prominence in the 1920s. Although his concern for the poor was not always well regarded by the members of the predominantly middle-class church establishment, it nevertheless made him an attractive partner for collaboration in the eyes of the state, as the Japanese government dealt with the social implications of the country's rapid urbanization and industrialization. Responding to domestic social unrest and the rise of leftist movements inspired by the Bolshevik Revolution, the shift from the Meiji state's top-down mode of religious regulation to a more collaborative framework of social management in the Taishō period illustrated the liberalization of relations between the state and Christianity to meet shifting societal demands.

In a parallel fashion, the high tide of antiracist and anticolonialist movements following the First World War led Protestant missionaries to abandon the traditional, top-down mode of evangelization for one that stressed a more cooperative engagement with the world. Christian internationalist leaders such as Eddy and Mott, as well as longtime missionaries in Japan such as the Toppings, came to see Kagawa as a poster child for this cause and helped him to establish an interracial, trans-Pacific community of supporters that included Japanese Christians as well as Japanese and white American communities in the United States. On the domestic front, Kagawa pushed the Japanese Church organization into new directions with the village-oriented Kingdom of God Movement. While unsuccessful in greatly increasing the number of Christian converts, the campaign nevertheless showcased his ability to spearhead a large-scale evangelistic campaign that was rated highly by both the Japanese Church as well as the international missionary

establishment. In the process, he built up a domestic and overseas reputation for himself as an influential Christian leader.

At the same time, the social critiques he developed through his involvement in the early labor movement enabled him to attract the attention of the state and capture the public imagination. As a labor leader, Kagawa critiqued the capitalistic exploitation of underprivileged workers and called for the awakening of consciousness among the working class regarding their value as human beings. “Rather than determining the worth of a person through the cost of his labor,” Kagawa argued, “it is high time that we demand a social organization based on life and creativity.”<sup>141</sup> His social reformism stopped short, however, of espousing revolutionary methods. Instead he embraced gradualist change through cooperatives and sought pragmatic solutions within preexisting legal frameworks. His decision to leave the labor movement following attacks from ideological hard-liners clearly demonstrated his disavowal of radical politics. Although one might argue that this put Kagawa on the conservative end of the political spectrum, it is also true that he was persistent in his efforts to change society for the better. That he respected social stability and government institutions in implementing his visions of reform simply made him all the more useful to the state.



## Chapter Two

### THE MAKING OF A GLOBAL CHRISTIAN PACIFIST

In the 1920s and early 1930s, a festering debate on foreign missions, exacerbated by financial strain from the Great Depression, forced mission boards across the United States to confront an unprecedented groundswell of criticism that called into question the very validity of their existence. While there had always been a certain degree of controversy surrounding the foreign missions enterprise, an influential study conducted by an independent commission, known as the Laymen's Foreign Missions Inquiry, brought the matter to the forefront of public attention. The 1932 *Re-thinking Missions* report, based on the results of an extensive fact-finding investigation into the activities of American missionaries in Asia, generated fierce debate for its unsparing critique of missionary ineffectiveness and recommendations for deemphasizing proselytization and conversion in favor of measures for education and social improvement.<sup>1</sup> The missionary, according to the report, should be "a learner and a co-worker" who worked alongside the local people, rather than a preacher whose sole preoccupation was to persuade them to give up their native religion so they could take up Christianity.

The conclusions of *Re-thinking Missions* shocked the Protestant missionary establishment, not necessarily for its accusations of cultural imperialism—which, after all, had been a constant line of criticism over the years—but rather because of its calls for a fundamental reexamination of the missionary methodology and mindset. Was this the end of the missionary era? Or did it mark the beginning of a new age of missions, and if so, what would that look like?

Questions such as these prompted American missionaries to search for new symbols and icons that could demonstrate their continued importance in an era of great social and economic upheaval. While this introspection produced a number of different approaches and responses, a significant portion of the liberal Protestant mainline moved to focus on the internationalization of the missionary movement itself. Taking “World Friendship” as their slogan, missionary magazines of the 1930s prominently featured stories of so-called Indigenous or native Christian leaders from Africa and Asia told, notably, in their own voices—a stark contrast from prior convention, in which such narratives were often presented from the Western missionary’s perspective.<sup>2</sup>

Within this global context, Kagawa emerged as a shining model for a reconstituted project of missions premised on Christian internationalism. Using his own distinctive voice as a Christian convert who had worked in the slums of Asia, Kagawa became an ambassador for the positive outcomes of foreign missions. Through the help of his American partners—in particular, the Topping family, who produced and circulated numerous Kagawa-related translations and publications in the interwar period—he inspired a transnational community of supporter groups and activists while also contributing to the blossoming Christian pacifist print culture of the 1930s.<sup>3</sup>

Kagawa’s rise as a religious celebrity, however, did not derive only from the missionary movement’s embrace of Christian internationalism. His advocacy of economic cooperatives, which mixed elements of the Social Gospel with his firsthand knowledge of social conditions in Japan, found a receptive audience in Depression-era America. At a time when Americans were suffering from the repercussions of the worldwide economic downturn and increasingly forced to question the idea of the United States as a “Christian nation,” Kagawa, in the role of a “reverse missionary” to the West, impressed crowds with his talk of the spiritual as well as material benefits of cooperatives. He thus emerged as a timely hero for the project of constructing a multicultural, world Christianity—a cosmopolitan community that heralded a new era of international missions dissociated from Western imperialism.<sup>4</sup>

The Christian internationalist project of reforming foreign missions encountered difficulties, however, when Japan embarked on a path of war with China. Although Kagawa had become one of the most well-regarded pacifist figures in the world by the late 1930s, often mentioned alongside Mohandas Gandhi and Albert Schweitzer,

his personal actions began to show signs of nationalist conformity following the outbreak of the Sino-Japanese War in 1937, noticeably deviating from his internationalist image. While the Toppings and others continued to publish laudatory accounts of the Japanese evangelist's unflinching pacifism in defiance of the militaristic imperial state, Kagawa's personal stance on such issues became ever more restrained and noncommittal. Such tensions came to a head in Kagawa's 1939 meeting in India with Gandhi, his frequent object of comparison in international Christian and pacifist circles. The meeting crystallized his inability to fully live up to the image of the absolute pacifist built up by his missionary supporters, thus underscoring the inherent contradictions underlying his constructed image—and the Christian internationalist project at large.

#### CHRISTIAN INTERNATIONALISM AND THE CONSTRUCTION OF A HERO

For all that Kagawa's interests and experiences aligned with the social and political zeitgeist of the interwar period, he would not have achieved the same level of global recognition without the ability to disseminate his teachings to a wide audience. In this respect his American missionary associates became his foremost backers, providing organizational and financial structure as well as a broad platform for his message through their globe-spanning networks. The Toppings, with whom Kagawa worked most closely, played an especially outsized role in boosting and shaping his public presence. Drawing inspiration from established traditions in Christian hagiography while also remaining sensitive to the particular needs of the time, they set out to construct the image of a modern internationalist hero through their publicity campaigns.

Following the success of his 1924–1925 tour, Kagawa's reputation grew steadily among North American Christian and pacifist circles. Before long he got a chance to visit the United States again. Commenting on his acceptance of an invitation to deliver a lecture series at Yale Divinity School in 1931, Kagawa stated: "I am not quite qualified to give lectures on the life and work of Christ in an American university but it appears that Americans are interested to hear an Oriental's views, especially my own regarded [*sic*] from mystic and socialistic angles."<sup>5</sup> Yale was not the only institute of higher education to extend an invitation to Kagawa, as a growing number of universities

called on the Japanese Christian leader to expound his religious views on their campuses.<sup>6</sup> Kagawa was happy to oblige, taking a four-month break from his itinerant preaching in Japan to embark on his second speaking tour of the United States, which also featured a stop at the YMCA World Conference in Cleveland, Ohio.<sup>7</sup> News from abroad that Canadian churches, inspired by the example of the Kingdom of God Movement, had launched their own movement for spiritual revival that adhered closely to his “social reform-oriented approach” further energized Kagawa, who hoped that the “fire lit in Canada would soon spread to America.”<sup>8</sup>

This period saw the public endorsement of Kagawa’s work by Protestant luminaries, encouraging the formation of a following among American churchgoers. For example, the prominent Quaker educator Rufus Jones, who was among the leaders of the American Friends Service Committee and the Fellowship of Reconciliation (FOR; an international pacifist organization), provided a foreword to the English translation of Kagawa’s 1929 book, *Love, the Law of Life*: “Kagawa is one of the striking phenomena of the Christian world today. . . . He is showing, once more, that Christianity is not talk, it is action; it is not words, it is power.”<sup>9</sup>

The Toppings further supported Kagawa through the creation of publications aimed at cultivating an engaged overseas audience for his translated works. Shortly after her appointment as Kagawa’s secretary, Helen Topping, who was joined in her work by her retired parents on a voluntary basis, founded the English-language journal *Friends of Jesus*. Published in Japan beginning in 1928, it featured articles by Western church leaders and theologians, as well as selected excerpts from Kagawa’s speeches and writings. Operating out of their Tokyo office, the journal enlisted the help of international distributors—individuals as well as organizations in over ten different countries that formed part of the vast overseas missionary network—to provide interested readers with extra copies of current and back issues.<sup>10</sup>

Helen edited *Friends of Jesus* from a decidedly internationalist perspective, casting a critical eye over the traditional missionary paradigm and highlighting views supportive of indigenous Christian movements. An article in the 1931 issue, for example, featured an address by John Mott praising the growing Christian movement in China led by C. Y. Cheng (Cheng Jingyi, 1881–1939), general secretary of the National Christian Council of China.<sup>11</sup> Another article heralded the dawn of a new era of international cooperation, free from

the shackles of the “White Man’s Burden” and the presumption of an all-conquering “manifest destiny” of the “Anglo-Saxon civilization.”<sup>12</sup> A highly liberal take on the methods and objectives of mission work, the *Friends of Jesus* aspired to a self-critique of the Western cultural and political imperialism that had hampered missionary efforts of old. To make amends for its past shortcomings, it argued for the rise of a new, youth-based missionary enterprise that could take its place.<sup>13</sup> This direction was broadly in line with the direction of the Japanese Church, which had established the National Christian Council in 1923 to replace the older, missionary-dominated Federation of Christian Missions as the coordinating body between Japanese Christians and foreign missionaries.<sup>14</sup>

Kagawa’s stateside supporters further helped to spread his name in anticipation of the upcoming tour. In the lead-up to Kagawa’s 1931 visit, Kenneth Saunders, a Northern California-based scholar of Asian religions who had close ties to the missionary network, penned an introduction to one of Kagawa’s newly translated works (*New Life through God*), wherein he declared the Japanese evangelist “an apostle for these complex and difficult times.”<sup>15</sup> Saunders also personally promoted Kagawa’s works, appearing at a February 14, 1931, dinner at the Berkeley Women’s City Club under the auspices of the Berkeley Kagawa Cooperators, a supporter group of which he had become the chairman, to speak about his impressions of Kagawa’s work in Japan.<sup>16</sup> During the following week in the same town, Mother Topping delivered a talk on Kagawa at a Sunday evening devotional meeting of the Berkeley Fellowship at the Japanese United Christian Church.<sup>17</sup> Furthermore, Allan A. Hunter (1893–1982), pastor of the Mount Hollywood Congregational Church in Los Angeles, which occasionally hosted Friends of Jesus communion services, wrote articles on Kagawa that the local Japanese American press used as publicity material during the latter’s visit.<sup>18</sup> Through such efforts, Kagawa’s American supporters contributed significantly to his rising popularity in the country.

Kagawa’s 1931 tour marked the first time he traveled to the United States not as a mere expert on matters related to Japan but as a respected authority on Christian issues more generally. Following his attendance at the YMCA World Conference in Cleveland in August, he traveled to California, where he received a celebrity’s welcome. The Berkeley Japanese United Church, for example, invited him as the guest of honor at their groundbreaking ceremony in September.<sup>19</sup> He then

traveled to the East Coast to give the Shaffer Lectures at Yale Divinity School on October 5–8.<sup>20</sup> Kagawa's four-part lecture series, officially titled "The Rediscovery of Christ's Life," retold the story of Jesus through its social, economic, ethical, and religious aspects. While some attendees saw the lectures as covering familiar ground without offering much in the way of new insight, the official organ of the Divinity School praised the speeches given by "one of the greatest and most influential of modern Christians."<sup>21</sup>

News of the Manchurian Incident, which broke out during his travels in the United States, prompted Kagawa to reflect on the changing political atmosphere back home. He initially refrained from issuing a direct response to the actions of the Kwantung Army, whose September 18, 1931, invasion of Manchuria became the precursor to the founding of the Japanese puppet state of Manchukuo and Japan's subsequent withdrawal from the League of Nations. The incident signaled rising militarist influence in Japan, as well as its imperialistic ambitions on the Asian continent. Kagawa eventually registered his despair regarding recent events in the form of a poem titled "Child of Distress" (*Nayami no ko*), written on his way back to Japan. The poem, first published in Kagawa's personal magazine, started on a remorseful note: "Once more I have become a Child of Distress, burdened with Japan's crimes, having to apologize to China, and to the world."<sup>22</sup> It then gestured toward those he deemed responsible: "My tears fall out, that even when the people have nothing to eat, and are starving, the heartless militarists stage a war, and make the people suffer."<sup>23</sup> Clearly disturbed by Japan's act of military aggression toward its Chinese neighbor, Kagawa expressed sorrow and contrition in his remarks.

Kagawa's resigned tone in the aftermath of the Manchurian Incident contrasted with his earlier position on pacifism. In the period of parliamentary democracy immediately following the Rice Riots of 1918, for example, Kagawa did not shy away from denouncing his government's imperialist and militarist policies. In 1919, Kagawa published a short article titled "The Way of Peace" (*Heiwa no michi*), in the Buddhist paper *Chūgai nippō*. In it he criticized Japan's imperialist ambitions in East Asia during the First World War, as manifested in the Twenty-One Demands on China in 1915 and the Siberian Expedition of 1918: "Peace won by the sword is no peace. . . . Let us be delivered from the army! Only then will there be real peace."<sup>24</sup> Another instance was a 1922 speech titled "Until Disarmament Is Complete" (*Gunbi no Teppai serareru made*), in which he argued that total

disarmament should be a goal pursued for the sake of culture and civilization.<sup>25</sup> Such statements, while notable for the sharpness and sweeping tone of their criticism, nevertheless came during a period in which Kagawa's name was still largely unknown to the wider public. Although his work as a slum preacher had begun to attract some attention at this point, he had yet to engage in any direct cooperation with the government—as he would in his disaster relief efforts after the 1923 Great Kantō Earthquake—likely making it easier for him to adopt a more overtly critical stance vis-à-vis the state and military.

While Kagawa's critical antiwar stance persisted into the late 1920s, his willingness to publicly assert his pacifist views shifted in relation to the amount of freedom of speech permissible in Japan. Following his 1924–1925 tour of the United States, Kagawa traveled to London, where he became the only Japanese to sign his name to a high-profile anticonscription manifesto. The manifesto—whose signatories included the likes of Albert Einstein, Gandhi, Romain Rolland, Rabindranath Tagore, and H. G. Wells—was presented to the League of Nations in 1926 in a call to abolish compulsory military service as the first step toward worldwide disarmament.<sup>26</sup> Back home, Kagawa also founded the National Anti-War League (*Zenkoku Hisen Dōmei*) on October 15, 1928, in response to Japan's military expeditions to the northeastern Chinese province of Shandong in May 1927 and April–May 1928.<sup>27</sup> While such actions suggest the robustness of Kagawa's pacifism in this period, as well as the degree of freedom that existed for him to express his views, there were also signs that stricter restrictions were on the horizon. The passage of the Peace Preservation Law in 1925, for example, made criticism of the emperor a capital offense and attacks on the “system of private property” punishable by up to ten years in jail. Moreover, the 1930 assassination of the liberal prime minister Hamaguchi Osachi (1870–1931), who had come close to passing legislation for the protection of labor unions and female suffrage, portended a future less hospitable to political dissent and democratic participation.<sup>28</sup> Following the Manchurian Incident, besides brief comments on the unfortunate rise of fascism (*fassho*) and the need for nations to respect people's rights (*minken*) in his personal magazine, Kagawa became increasingly reluctant to take a critical stance toward the Japanese imperial state.<sup>29</sup>

As Kagawa dealt with the implications of rising military conflict in Asia, a missiological crisis loomed in the background. Facing

cutbacks in mission board budgets due to the Great Depression at home and rising nationalistic resistance to evangelistic work abroad, a group of American church leaders met in New York under the auspices of John D. Rockefeller Jr. and John Mott in January 1930. As a result of their deliberations, the assembled clergymen decided to launch an extensive inquiry into the efficacy and value of foreign missions in Asia, an effort later known as the Laymen's Foreign Missions Inquiry. The Institute of Social and Religious Research, a New York-based think tank funded by the Rockefeller Foundation, provided the institutional base for the inquiry. Building on a preliminary 1930 survey of the mission work of seven mainline Protestant denominations in India, Burma, China, and Japan, William Ernest Hocking—a Harvard philosopher chosen to head the study because of his relative objectivity—and his team of fifteen laymen, laywomen, and ministers spent nine months conducting fieldwork for the inquiry in the aforementioned countries.<sup>30</sup> After processing and compiling the results, Hocking formally presented the findings to the seven mission boards on November 18–19, 1932; the final report was published in book form under the title *Re-thinking Missions*.<sup>31</sup>

The Laymen's Inquiry generated considerable controversy and debate, causing a veritable state of crisis in missionary circles.<sup>32</sup> The report forcefully challenged the validity of the traditional missionary framework, arguing that its exclusivist approach of telling people to abandon their native faith in favor of Christ was no longer tenable in an era when mass nationalist movements protested against Western rule in Asia. The authors of the Laymen's Inquiry found a powerful ally in Pearl S. Buck, novelist and daughter of missionaries in China, who famously gave voice to a sense of disgust not merely toward the arrogance of missions but also toward the idea of America as a "Christian nation" and the imperialistic relationship it helped sustain.<sup>33</sup> From the other end of the ideological spectrum, fundamentalist leaders ignited a conservative backlash, accusing mission boards of being so thoroughly crippled by liberalism that they had simply become unable to carry out their work.

It was in between these two polar extremes that the proponents of Christian internationalism sought to refashion their agenda. Faced with widespread criticism from both sides, Protestant missionary leaders such as Mott and Eddy insisted on the continuing relevance of missions; the movement, however, would need to shed its age-old



associations with Western imperialism in order to survive.<sup>34</sup> This middle-ground response, of defending missionary work while seeking to reconstitute it from within, became the major driving force behind the activities of Christian internationalists in the 1930s. The Toppings, for example, used their publications to cater primarily to an overseas audience eager to see a more progressive type of foreign missions based on an equal partnership between Western missionaries and non-Western peoples. For them, Kagawa's non-Western status allowed him to perform the crucial task of decoupling Christianity from its Western imperialist associations.

The organizational structure of his supporter groups further underscored the notion of Kagawa as embodying the ideals of international friendship. In contrast to the conventional missionary strategy of indigenization, whereby a mission society provides funds allocated by the mission board to a local leader in order to facilitate the development of an indigenous church, Kagawa's supporter groups were based on voluntary donations. Rather than relying on the largess of a powerful mission board and its budget, his movement was instead built upon the willing cooperation of his American supporters.<sup>35</sup> Through such donations, as well as the sales of periodical publications such as the *Friends of Jesus* and the *Kagawa Calendar*, Kagawa's American allies sought to empower an indigenous leader who could help to not only spread the Gospel in Asia but also contribute to a larger project of creating a universal Christianity freed from Western imperialism.<sup>36</sup>

Kagawa's widespread acceptance among American audiences illustrated the early success of their approach. Upon his return to Japan in November 1931, Kagawa gave a briefing on his U.S. tour to Japanese Christian colleagues at the Yokohama YMCA. In it he proudly recounted the "ecstatic" welcome he received from his American hosts, telling of his surprise at the number of times he was asked for permission to use the "Friends of Jesus" name.<sup>37</sup> He further related the news that American religious book clubs had included his translated works as designated reading on their book lists, leading to a "particularly kind" reception from certain crowds. Despite the ominous shadows cast by the Manchurian Incident, which forced him to adopt a more cautious tone toward the Japanese state's policies, with regard to religious work he remained committed to the cause of Christian internationalism and world Christianity (*bankoku* Kirisuto) that he proclaimed at the outset of his tour.<sup>38</sup>

## COOPERATIVE ECONOMICS IN THE GREAT DEPRESSION

"I was pleased to hear that a cooperative movement, such as I have been advocating for years, has arisen among Americans as a result of the financial crisis in the United States. A summer school in Nashville, Tennessee, is planning to use a textbook based on my lectures in China to start a cooperative movement. A group of Methodists in Philadelphia have also contacted me to ask about my cooperative program."<sup>39</sup>

These were the thoughts in Kagawa's mind as he ambled down a path carpeted with freshly fallen cherry blossoms in Tokyo in the spring of 1933. Throughout the late 1920s and early 1930s, the devastation of the Great Depression brought about a profound sense of social and economic crisis in communities around the world. In the United States, the Social Gospel movement became one of the main outlets for addressing such anxieties. Characterized by its concern for material conditions and formulated within the context of the rapid urbanization, industrialization, and immigration of late nineteenth-century America, the Social Gospel was widely embraced by Protestant churches seeking to remain relevant in the midst of a shifting cultural and political landscape.<sup>40</sup> Moreover, following World War I a peace-oriented version of the Social Gospel became influential among liberal Protestant seminaries and divinity schools, inspiring a burgeoning internationalist movement that formed the base of Kagawa's overseas support.<sup>41</sup>

In the historical moment of the Great Depression, Social Gospelers rebuked capitalism for breeding divisiveness and inequality, advocating cooperatives as an alternative that suited the Christian social order. For example, Jerome Dwight Davis (1891–1979), a Yale Divinity School professor under whom Helen Topping had wished to study, wrote in 1930 that cooperatives exemplified the "spiritual values of service and sacrifice" consistent with the "radical movement" Jesus had started two thousand years ago.<sup>42</sup> Such an intellectual and cultural milieu led to the creation of cooperatives such as Saline Valley Farms near Ann Arbor, Michigan, established in 1932 by the pacifist activist Harold Gray.<sup>43</sup> Furthermore, the cooperative movement resonated with the goals of Franklin D. Roosevelt (1882–1945), whose New Deal sponsorship of homesteading programs was designed with the social teachings of Christianity in mind.<sup>44</sup> Kagawa, who saw the natural expression of his Christian principles in cooperatives, was in close dialogue with such trends—as is evidenced in the opening excerpt—and even served as the direct inspiration for two interracial

cooperative farming communities founded in rural Mississippi in the 1930s.<sup>45</sup>

Kagawa's interest in cooperatives stemmed from his view that they were uniquely equipped to address the issue of economic inequality and moral decline that plagued modern society, without resorting to the violent, revolutionary praxis that was the mainstay of more left-leaning ideological formations.<sup>46</sup> His government shared this perspective. Although the Japanese state moved quickly to suppress Socialist and Communist movements within its borders, it actively encouraged the growth of cooperatives. Kagawa had a telling exchange with an audience member during a lecture he gave in China in early 1931. Asked whether his cooperative societies accepted government endowments, Kagawa replied: "Yes, yes, yes! This is the best way to avoid communist agitation. When people are satisfied, no agitation coming from the outside is able to influence them. Because people are poor, they take to communistic agitation."<sup>47</sup> In 1933, Osaka governor Agata Shinobu, who was also chairman of the Osaka Prefectural Federation of Industrial Cooperatives (Sangyō Kumiai Osaka-fu Rengōkai), presented Kagawa with an award for the thirteenth anniversary of the founding of his first consumer cooperative in Osaka (Kyōekisha), further underscoring the official attitude of approval.<sup>48</sup> In short, Kagawa saw cooperatives as a state-sanctioned institution that provided him with a politically uncontroversial vehicle for his program of social reform.

Kagawa's writings in this period illustrate his focus on cooperatives. Kagawa actively raised awareness and support for Japan's industrial cooperative movement through his 1935 novel *The Land of Milk and Honey* (*Chichi to mitsu no nagaruru sato*).<sup>49</sup> Serialized from January 1934 through December 1935 in the popular agrarian journal *Ie no hikari*, which was published by the semiofficial Central Industrial Cooperative Society (Sangyō Kumiai Chūōkai), the novel was a melodramatic tale of the protagonist's struggle to establish rural cooperatives and credit unions in order to help ameliorate economic strife in depression-stricken southern Aizu (Fukushima Prefecture).<sup>50</sup> While not exactly a literary classic, *The Land of Milk and Honey* was well received among popular readers for its numerous cameos of real-life organizations that Kagawa had helped to set up—such as the Nakano Cooperative Hospital, the Nakanogō Credit Union, and the Musashino Farmers' Gospel School—along with the uplifting moral that the power to change the countryside for the better rested in the hands of average citizens.<sup>51</sup> In a 1935 book titled *Can We Prevent War?* (*Sensō*

*wa bōshi shiuruka*), he further attempted to extend such ideas to the realm of international relations by arguing that a cooperative system of trade could be used as a stepping stone to achieve world peace.<sup>52</sup>

In coordination with his cooperative advocacy in Japan, Kagawa's missionary associates launched a concerted campaign to publicize his work to an overseas audience in the early 1930s.<sup>53</sup> Working to widen the impact of his Japanese literary output, a group of Kagawa's supporters helped to translate his religious writings into English during this period.<sup>54</sup> Glowing tributes from luminaries in the missionary movement accompanied the publications, lending an air of authority and importance to the works. To the 1935 poetry collection *Songs from the Slums*, for example, Sherwood Eddy contributed the following: "With Kagawa's faith and love we are able constantly to lift our eyes above the sordid slums of man to the shining stars of God."<sup>55</sup> Furthermore, William Axling (1873–1963), a veteran American missionary who had worked alongside Kagawa in the Japanese Church scene for many years, wrote a highly influential biography of the Japanese leader in English in 1932—the first book-length treatment of the Japanese evangelist in any language.<sup>56</sup>

Axling's biography, simply titled *Kagawa*, played a significant role in Kagawa's image construction in the West. William Axling was a Baptist missionary from Nebraska who first came to Japan in 1902.<sup>57</sup> He actively participated in the Student Volunteer Movement for Foreign Missions as a youth and studied at the Rochester Theological Seminary under the preeminent exponent of the Social Gospel, Walter Rauschenbusch (1861–1918). Axling was deeply embedded in the Japanese Church scene, having served as a secretary of the National Christian Council since its founding despite being its only non-Japanese member.<sup>58</sup> Notwithstanding its stated aim of providing an "unvarnished recital" of the Japanese Christian's life, Axling's biography set the tone for Kagawa's reverential portrayal in Western media.<sup>59</sup> For instance, he describes Kagawa as a "fighting pacifist" who took bold, "militant" stands for the sake of justice, not just against war but also on issues he regarded as the "moral equivalent of war": for example, disease, drinking, smoking, and legal prostitution.<sup>60</sup> He was a "crusader" and "religious genius" who demonstrated selfless leadership while never losing sight of the everyday concerns of the masses.<sup>61</sup> A year after his work was published, Axling spoke on his experience with Kagawa at a number of U.S. events, including a meeting of the American Baptist Society in Gardena, Los Angeles, which had a predominantly Japanese

membership.<sup>62</sup> The influence of Axling's account extended far beyond the Japanese American community, as can be seen in a 1933 correspondence between Kagawa and Francis J. Grimké (1850–1937), an African American minister and civil rights activist who was inspired to write a letter of appreciation to Kagawa after reading about him in Axling's book.<sup>63</sup> Through his sympathetic depictions, Axling successfully popularized the image of Kagawa as a heroic defender of peace and the common man to a broad overseas audience.

Such hagiographic overtones were balanced out with the somewhat more down-to-earth—although no less admiring—portrayals featured in the highly popular *Kagawa Calendar*. Mother Topping published the *Kagawa Calendar* beginning in 1933 as an annual English-language flip-through calendar that contained photos, quotes, and descriptions of Kagawa's work. In addition to promoting his religious views and teachings, it also served as a fundraising tool for his social reform projects. The physical configuration of the *Calendar* varied from year to year; earlier issues consisted of a series of pages held together by strings, while the 1940 issue was in booklet form. Its easily accessible nature and practical calendrical format made it extremely popular among followers around the world.<sup>64</sup> By the late 1930s, for example, the Toppings needed to print some thirty thousand calendars per year in order to meet the demand.<sup>65</sup>

The *Kagawa Calendar* fostered a community of engaged readers through the use of images depicting mundane scenes from the Japanese Christian leader's life. The cover of the 1934 *Calendar*, for example, shows Kagawa addressing a classroom full of attentive students, followed by a shot of him talking to a toddler in a park (figure 2.1). Another photo shows him saying grace with his family as they sit on the floor around a small dinner table, as was the custom in Japanese households. The pictures are interspersed with quotes from Kagawa by turns professing his desire of “want[ing] to be ever a child,” recounting his experiences living in the Kobe slums, and musing about the nature of religious life—which, he argues, is not something extraordinary but rather something revealed in common matters such as eating together with loved ones.<sup>66</sup> Like the English translation of *Across the Death-Line*, the images and texts in the *Kagawa Calendar* offered a rare glimpse into the life of the enigmatic preacher from Japan. Despite the photos being obviously posed and the excerpts deliberately crafted, it nevertheless gave the reader a genuine feel for how people spent their time in Japan—a land regarded as distant and exotic to many in the



Figure 2.1. 1934 Kagawa Calendar. Source: *Kagawa Calendar*, 1934, 1/1/3, UTS

target audience—while also presenting a sense of familiarity and religious kinship with well-chosen references to biblical sayings and Christian practices.

By the early 1930s, the numerous English-language Kagawa publications came together to create the image of a global pacifist figure who epitomized the Christian internationalist ideal. In the aftermath of the Manchurian Incident, the question of Japanese aggression in China became a hotly debated topic within missionary circles. The interdenominational *Missionary Review of the World*, for example, ran a 1932 article highlighting the existence of Christians on both sides who yearned for a peaceful resolution in Manchuria.<sup>67</sup> Aware of such viewpoints among their constituents, the Toppings presented Kagawa as the symbolic embodiment of missionary ambitions to effect peace in the region. The 1933 *Kagawa Calendar*, for example, referenced Kagawa's 1931 lecture series in China, which was later published under the title "The Economic Foundation of World Peace" in Helen's *Friends of Jesus* journal.<sup>68</sup> The *Calendar* featured a quote from the lecture, in which Kagawa stated, "I am against war. . . . The way to stop war is by Cooperative Movements. . . . When we get a good system of Christian Cooperatives working between Japan and China

we shall not have capitalistic imperialism and explosions of war violence.”<sup>69</sup> The *Calendar*’s audience admired Kagawa’s antiwar stance, as was indicated by one American reader’s letter to the editor published in the subsequent 1934 *Calendar*: “In these days when Japan is under such suspicion, it is good to turn our thoughts to Kagawa and remember that he represents great numbers of his countrymen who with us, deplore the war hysteria that has come over the world, and are working with us to bring in the Kingdom of the Prince of Peace.”<sup>70</sup> Following a series of actions by the Japanese state that underlined its imperialist ambitions, the Toppings countered the image of an aggressive Japan among their community of readers through emphasizing the peace-loving nature of Kagawa.

Kagawa, for his part, did oppose Japanese aggression in China but only directly addressed the situation when he was outside Japan. Kagawa stopped by China on his return from a tour of the Philippines, whose National Christian Alliance had invited him as a guest lecturer for the month of February 1934.<sup>71</sup> On his way back north, Kagawa gave a speech on world peace at the Cathedral Hall in Hong Kong on March 2, before proceeding to Shanghai. Japanese forces had occupied the city following the Shanghai Incident of 1932, and their military presence could be felt throughout. Amid this tense atmosphere, Kagawa dined with a group of local Chinese Christians and met with families whose houses and livelihoods had been affected by the warfare.<sup>72</sup> On the morning of March 11, he addressed a service at Rev. Z. K. Zia’s Fitch Memorial Church (Hongdetang) on the outskirts of the Shanghai International Settlement. There, Kagawa made a famous statement that would later be included as the preface to the Chinese edition of his book *Love, the Law of Life* (*Ai no kagaku*).<sup>73</sup>

Speaking in English, possibly with the help of a Chinese interpreter, Kagawa began by criticizing the spirit of military expansion and occupation, expressing his “intolerable shame” at the “violence that Japanese militarists have done and are doing in China, in spite of all my prayers.”<sup>74</sup> After thanking his “Chinese brothers” for translating his book despite the fraught political situation, he went on to apologize for recent Japanese actions in strikingly direct terms: “Though a million times I should ask pardon, it would not be enough to cover the sins of Japan. . . . I am ashamed, because I am too impotent to influence the military clique of Japan.”<sup>75</sup> Rather than issuing an explicit call to end the violence, however, Kagawa concluded that only the “redemptive love” (*shokuzai*) of Jesus could provide the strength



to overcome national differences such as that which stood between China and Japan.

The concept of *shokuzaiai* formed a central component of Kagawa's religious thought and practice. Essentially his version of *imitatio Christi* (the imitation of Christ), Kagawa saw *shokuzaiai* as the vital ingredient in his endeavor to follow the example of Jesus. While his view of Christ's sacrifice on the Cross as the ultimate expression of an all-redeeming love is hardly new or unique, it nevertheless served as the inspiration behind his drive to suffer on behalf of others for the sake of the progressive repair of persons, societies, and nations.<sup>76</sup> By offering remorse and sympathy to his Chinese coreligionists, Kagawa attempted to achieve a measure of social solidarity with the victims of Japanese aggression and start the process of repairing the damaged relations between the two nations.

Despite his public apology to the Chinese congregation in Shanghai, Kagawa limited his remarks on this issue to a Japanese audience to general musings on the state of international affairs. In the August 1934 issue of his personal magazine, Kagawa bemoaned the direction of global events: "The entire world has now entered into a reactionary period. Internationalism is forgotten; nationalism (*minzoku shugi*) and statism (*kokka shugi*) are ruining the earth. These will become the cause of a second world war."<sup>77</sup> In subsequent issues he advocated for the improvement of peace education (*heiwa kyōiku*) in Japan and called upon his country to embrace the status of a small nation such as Denmark, which invested its resources on constructive projects such as education, rather than trying to become a military power.<sup>78</sup> Deeply troubled by Japan's military expansionism, Kagawa favored alternative paths for its development. "I cannot see any reason for Japan and China to be fighting a war against each other," he proclaimed, stating his belief that "as long as one side does not impose its superiority or animosity upon others, the nations of the world can get along."<sup>79</sup> He stopped short, however, of directly condemning the Japanese government or the militarists, as he had done previously.

The Toppings, on the other hand, continued to cultivate the image of Kagawa as an unyielding pacifist, at times resorting to quoting him out of context. The *Kagawa Calendar* for 1936 opened with a statement that seemingly reflected Kagawa's principled stance against state-sanctioned violence: "I oppose all politicians who rely on force and know nothing about love. . . . If I have to be arrested for saying this, let me be handcuffed. I [would] rather die quickly by the sword than



die of thirst in a loveless desert.”<sup>80</sup> The quote, however, was taken from a book that he had written over a decade earlier in a completely different context. *Love, the Law of Life* (*Ai no kagaku*) was first published in Japan in 1924, before the Peace Preservation Law restricted Japanese citizens’ free speech and before Japan began to assert its military dominance in China. At the time of its original publication, therefore, Kagawa was more able and willing to be outspoken in his criticism of the state, whereas in the context of the 1930s he had become much more careful about what he could and could not say in public.<sup>81</sup>

For the Toppings, however, Kagawa remained an iconic poster child for the successes of the missionary enterprise in East Asia, and his bold pacifism in the face of Japanese aggression was an important part of the appeal. Some contemporary observers commented on the mythologizing of Kagawa by his loyal supporters, noting “the tendency on the part of those who take the Social Gospel seriously to surround [Kagawa] with the aura of hero-worship.”<sup>82</sup> For the broader community of missionaries not directly associated with Kagawa, his rising reputation still served a practical function. By the mid-1930s, Kagawa’s name had acquired such a status that missionary representatives of various denominational and sectarian outlooks took advantage of his fame to justify continued monetary support for missions: “Men whose institutionalism or legalism [is] as far removed from Kagawa’s flaming social passion [still] use his prestige as a charm with which to untie knotted purse strings.”<sup>83</sup> In a time when the entire enterprise was coming under increased scrutiny from critics calling into question the moral and financial basis of foreign missions, Kagawa stood as an unassailable illustration of the good that had come out of U.S. missionary work in Asia—making him a valuable figure for the purposes of publicity.

Kagawa’s 1935–1936 tour consolidated his reputation as the leading Christian social reformer and pacifist of his generation. Nominally organized by an independent committee headed by J. Henry Carpenter of the Brooklyn Federation of Churches, Kagawa’s third lecture tour was initiated under the sponsorship of the Federal Council of the Churches of Christ (FCC) and the Cooperative League of the U.S.A. (CLUSA).<sup>84</sup> Rev. James Myers, the pro-labor director of the FCC’s Industrial Department who was a key booster of economic cooperatives, gave enthusiastic backing to the tour, as did E. R. Bowen, general secretary of the CLUSA.<sup>85</sup> In anticipation of the upcoming trip, the Kagawa Cooperators of Southern California, headed by Allan Hunter, organized church fundraisers for its support.<sup>86</sup> Helen,

in consultation with the organizers, published a booklet that recounted the back story of Kagawa and his cooperative vision titled *Introducing Kagawa* and adapted her *Friends of Jesus* to the needs of the organizing committee.<sup>87</sup> Requests from American groups eager to secure a spot on Kagawa's itinerary flooded his office. In July 1935, for example, University of Texas president H. Y. Benedict sent a personal letter to Helen inviting Kagawa to make an appearance in Austin during his upcoming tour. Benedict stated that his university community had "expressed a keen interest in the work of Dr. Kagawa for world peace, and particularly in his work with cooperatives."<sup>88</sup>

The 1936 tour began on a highly symbolic note. Kagawa's arrival in the United States in late December 1935 occasioned an incident that nobody foresaw, as he was prevented from entering the country by the border control on account of an eye disease he had contracted during his time living in the slums. As a result, immigration authorities detained Kagawa on Angel Island in San Francisco Bay until further notice. The Japanese evangelist's numerous supporters throughout the country helped to resolve the situation, however, by bringing the matter to President Roosevelt's attention and convincing him to intervene on Kagawa's behalf.<sup>89</sup> Because of the president's direct intervention, the episode instantly became a news story that further piqued public interest in the Saint Francis of Japan, who was temporarily denied entry into the country—at the port of San Francisco, no less—as a direct consequence of his self-sacrificing service to the poor. The image of the "Quarantined Christian" soon became a potent symbol of his tour.<sup>90</sup> Kagawa's visit was not universally welcomed, however, as certain conservative observers opposed his social reformist agenda. Soon after Roosevelt granted permission for Kagawa to begin his tour, a coalition of more than one hundred patriotic societies asked the president to rescind the entry permit given to the "Japanese radical," who, in their eyes, had come to spread "dangerous communistic teachings." They further claimed the violation of a clause in the 1917 Immigration Act that banned persons afflicted with "contagious disease" from entering the country.<sup>91</sup> Their protests, in the end, were not taken up by Roosevelt.

Kagawa's pacifism and economic program became the centerpiece of his whirlwind tour, which lasted for six months in the first half of 1936. After briefly touching base with the Friends of Jesus group in Los Angeles following his release from the Angel Island detention center, Kagawa began his lecture circuit in Phoenix, Arizona.<sup>92</sup> The tour unfolded through the Southwest and the Deep South before turning

northward for the East Coast cities; it then extended out to the Midwest, Canada, and the West Coast before winding down in the Northeast. Ultimately, he would end up making hundreds of appearances before an aggregate total of 750,000 people in 150 different cities in the United States and Canada, ending with a June 30, 1936, broadcast on the NBC network.<sup>93</sup>

As had been the pattern previously, Kagawa's visit to the Japanese American communities on the West Coast occasioned much fanfare. After being greeted by members of the Friends of Jesus society upon his arrival in Los Angeles on May 24, he embarked on a ten-day schedule of lectures in Southern California.<sup>94</sup> His speech to Nisei Christians precipitated a widespread cancellation of regular sporting and recreational events to ensure that all young people could attend Kagawa's lectures.<sup>95</sup> That the youths were asked to refrain from requesting autographs or shaking hands with Kagawa attested to his celebrity status while the announcement that transportation would be provided to his lecture venues underscored the community's involvement and investment in his visit.<sup>96</sup>

The biggest highlight of his tour, however, came during his visit to the Colgate-Rochester Divinity School in Upstate New York from April 11 to 18. Here he delivered a prestigious lecture series named after the Baptist theologian and Social Gospel leader Walter Rauschenbusch, which provided a fitting platform for Kagawa to draw attention to the social and practical aspects of his teachings. Kagawa's lectures expounded the connection between the spirit of sacrifice as personified by Jesus Christ and the spirit of social solidarity as exemplified by the cooperative system of nonexploitation and mutual aid. The series was later adapted into a book titled *Brotherhood Economics*, which was subsequently translated into seventeen languages and sold in twenty-five countries.<sup>97</sup>

As important as Kagawa's 1936 tour was in cementing his personal reputation, it also doubled as a platform through which his Christian internationalist supporters promoted their own political agendas. As historian Robert Shaffer has argued, the FCC, which was Kagawa's official sponsor in 1936, viewed the tour as part of its long-standing opposition to the United States' exclusionist immigration policy.<sup>98</sup> Since the U.S. Congress had debated the 1924 bill that proposed a de facto immigration ban on Japan, the FCC had lobbied against it, sending veteran missionaries to testify at congressional hearings. William Axling, Kagawa's associate and biographer, wrote an FCC

pamphlet (*Japan Wonders Why?*) to highlight the severe setback the law would cause to U.S.-Japan relations.<sup>99</sup> During Kagawa's tour, moreover, the West Coast sections of the U.S. FOR gathered signatures on pledge cards seeking repeal of the 1924 Immigration Act. Allan Hunter, the Southern California-based leader of the Kagawa Cooperators and author of a 1934 book that denounced U.S. immigration restriction, organized these efforts.<sup>100</sup> Hunter proudly reported that the FOR was able to present "several thousand" signed pledged cards to Kagawa at a meeting in Los Angeles, much to the delight of the speaker. The FCC continued to call for the repeal of the "Asian Exclusion Law" after the tour, stating in their 1936 year-end report that the free exchange of ideas represented by the "Christian ambassador" Kagawa during his visit should be encouraged.<sup>101</sup> Kagawa thus played an important role in promoting not only the cooperative movement but also the Christian internationalist agenda by acting as an ambassador of sorts in the fight against U.S. exclusionism.

In contrast to the internationalists' overwhelming support of Kagawa, conservative Protestants actively fought against what they saw as his radical Socialist agenda. Harold Strathearn, executive secretary of the Interstate Evangelistic Association, provocatively claimed that "Kagawa preaches a sinister plan to advocate consumers' cooperatives and socialism under the cloak of the Christian Church."<sup>102</sup> Strathearn enlisted the help of J. Frank Norris, a Baptist minister from Fort Worth who had acquired the nickname Two Gun Norris for his acquittal of murder by a plea of self-defense. Norris was an inflammatory preacher who had previously red-baited the FCC as "communist" and claimed that "co-ops are more dangerous than outright Russian communism."<sup>103</sup> In order to obstruct Kagawa's itinerary, he went to the trouble of staging competing events at the same time as Kagawa's Rauschenbusch Lectures and published a tract accusing him of attempting to "Sovietize" America.<sup>104</sup> Although Norris's efforts failed to prevent large crowds from gathering at Kagawa's public appearances, it did arouse a sense of controversy and tension around the proceedings, which Kagawa thought made everything "all the more amusing" (*kaette yukai*).<sup>105</sup> Other detractors included fundamentalists who took issue with Kagawa's embrace of Darwinian principles, as well as private industrialists who warned that the growth of the cooperative movement would put existing enterprises out of business.<sup>106</sup> Although they were relatively few in number compared to his supporters and some of their claims misguided—as in their erroneous

accusation that Kagawa was in favor of Soviet-style communism—their opposition demonstrated that not everyone agreed with the liberal Protestant conceptualization of the world. All the same, the fact that his tour mobilized not just followers in his movement but also fervent opponents against it suggested just how far his name and ideas had traveled.

Following Kagawa's departure, the pastor of the Community Church in Grant, Michigan, decided to memorialize Kagawa in the form of a stained-glass window, thus providing a fitting coda to the Japanese evangelist's celebrated visit (figure 2.2). The Kagawa Memorial Window, unveiled in December 1936, was installed as the first in a series of seven to pay tribute to "modern major prophets." The window design, which was inspired by Julian Brazelton's illustrations in *Songs from the Slums*, featured the phrase "Cooperation is love applied to industry," with the Japanese characters for the five tenets of the Friends of Jesus/Iesu no Tomo Kai—devotion (*keiken*), peace (*heiwa*), purity (*junketsu*), service (*hōshi*), and labor (*rōdō*)—across the top while the bottom half included depictions of Japanese farmers and laborers above the letters "KAGAWA."<sup>107</sup> The memorial window visually and symbolically encapsulated the sanctification of Kagawa and his teachings among his most ardent American supporters.

The mid-1930s marked a high point in Kagawa's international stature. Thanks to the timeliness of his cooperative message, which found a receptive audience in Depression-era America, as well as the organizational and promotional efforts of his numerous helpers—including Axling, the Toppings, the Kagawa Cooperators, and the FOR—Kagawa's 1936 tour solidified his standing as one of the world's leading pacifist figures. While Kagawa's willingness to openly criticize the Japanese military for its aggressive actions in China was at times overstated by his supporters, the public apology he issued in Shanghai in 1934 only served to reinforce his image as a committed seeker of peace. A 1934 statement by Madame Chiang Kai-shek, a Wellesley graduate who grew up in a devout Methodist family in China, claiming that she prays "for the Japanese people" despite their military aggression, "knowing that there must be many, who, like Kagawa, suffer because of what their country is doing to China," demonstrated how far his reputation extended even beyond the shores of the United States.<sup>108</sup> By the end of his 1936 tour of the United States, Kagawa's status among Christian internationalists had been elevated to that of a global pacifist icon.



Figure 2.2. Kagawa-themed stained-glass window at Grant Community Church, Michigan, 1936. *Source:* Newspaper Clippings and Articles, 1936, 1/3/4, UTS



## KAGAWA: THE GANDHI OF JAPAN?

KAGAWA: The conviction is there. But friends have been asking me to desist.

GANDHI: Well, don't listen to friends when the Friend inside you says, "Do this." . . . The same appeal was made to me when I took the decision to go to jail. But I did not listen to friends, with the result that I found the glow of freedom when I was confined within the four solid walls of prison. I was inside a dark cell, but I felt that I could see everything from within those walls, and nothing outside.<sup>109</sup>

Mahatma Gandhi (1869–1948) spoke disapprovingly in his 1939 exchange with Kagawa. This came as a surprise to many American Protestants, who frequently drew comparisons between Kagawa and the Indian leader because of their pacifist nonviolence and shared commitment to the common people. The American fascination with these two figures, in fact, had deeper roots stretching back to at least the 1890s, reflecting a long-standing Orientalist interest in spiritual leaders from Asia.<sup>110</sup> It was perhaps unsurprising that despite his numerous other monikers (e.g., Saint Francis of Japan, Schweitzer of Japan), Kagawa's most persistent subject of comparison remained Mohandas K. Gandhi—the formidable nationalist leader of India, also known reverentially as the Mahatma. By the 1930s, the epithet "Gandhi of Japan" had become a common shorthand among mainstream American and Japanese American journalists to refer to Kagawa.<sup>111</sup> None of them could have known, however, that the real-life meeting between these two seemingly larger-than-life figures would end in disagreement.

The practice of referring to Kagawa as the Gandhi of Japan can be traced back to U.S.-based radical Christian pacifists associated with the antiwar organization FOR. The FOR, which originated as a World War I-era European body, saw its mission as overcoming imperialist violence with truth and nonviolence and attempted to enlist the Japanese evangelist in its cause. Christian pacifists of the FOR, whose membership partially overlapped with that of the Kagawa Cooperators, pursued an expansive agenda based on religion, absolute pacifism, and nonviolent social action inspired by Gandhi.<sup>112</sup> Christian pacifists, while not directly invested in the missionary enterprise, nevertheless shared common ground with the Christian internationalist project insofar as they were both interested in the realization of a world

based on peace and racial justice. This led to their championing of Kagawa as an exemplary hero. Kagawa's actual meeting with Gandhi in 1939, however, laid bare the limitations of their idealistic vision, as the Japanese evangelist—who had been anointed as the leader of a nonimperial Christian movement by his missionary supporters—showed signs of succumbing to the imperialism of his own country.

The FOR shared many of the same breeding grounds and personnel as Kagawa's network of American missionary supporters. Founded in 1915 in opposition to the United States' entry into World War I, the FOR was born from a similar desire to prevent future wars that animated, in part, the Protestant foreign missionary movement.<sup>113</sup> The fellowship's main figures, such as A. J. Muste and John Nevin Sayre, were raised in the same Social Gospel-influenced liberal Protestantism that had become predominant by the time of the Great War and cultivated transnational sensibilities as leaders within the World YMCA. Where they differed, however, was in the FOR's conviction that the problem of the twentieth century was the problem of violence and not, as such, communism, fascism, economic inequality, or the color line—although those were all deeply implicated.<sup>114</sup> Seeking a religiously based alternative to the organized violence of the First World War, the fellowship found inspiration in the figure of Gandhi, who had gained widespread global fame during his first noncooperation campaign of 1920–1922.

Gandhi emerged as a hero for proponents of Christian nonviolence in the interwar period, in spite of his Hindu identity. FOR leaders quickly embraced Gandhi as an embodiment of true Christian ideals and a genuine follower of the example of Jesus Christ. While Gandhi did not adhere to Christian creeds and was generally critical of the organized religion of the Christian church, he nevertheless gave fulsome praise to Jesus, thus easing the Indian leader's acceptance by his American admirers. His program of nonviolent resistance, moreover, provided a spiritually grounded method of social and political change; a new mode of practical pacifism that the Fellowship was eager to adapt to the American context.<sup>115</sup> E. Stanley Jones (1884–1973), an American Methodist missionary to India who later joined the FOR, explained that even though “Gandhi is a Hindu it does not mean that he could not be Christian in the very springs of his character and draw a great part of his sustenance from Christ. Such is indeed the case.”<sup>116</sup> The Christian internationalist leader Sherwood Eddy and his understudy, Kirby Page, paid their respects to Gandhi by visiting



his Sabarmati ashram in western India in 1929, while John Haynes Holmes (1879–1964), a Unitarian minister who played a crucial role in popularizing Gandhi's ideas in America, sought an audience with the Mahatma in London two years later.<sup>117</sup> By the time of the March to the Sea, a famous protest against the British salt tax in 1930, the Gandhian moment in the United States was in full swing.

The radical Christian pacifists of the FOR saw Kagawa, whose rise to international prominence only slightly trailed that of Gandhi's, as the perfect complement to the Indian leader. For one, both were spiritual leaders from the "mystic East," an Orientalist notion that led many Americans to see Asia as having access to a spirituality that had been lost in the modern West.<sup>118</sup> Although of different religious traditions, both Gandhi and Kagawa embraced the primacy of the example of Jesus. Through his suffering on the Cross, Jesus had chosen not to impose the Kingdom of God by force, exposing his enemies' erroneous assumption that violence was synonymous with power.<sup>119</sup> Gandhi was known to praise this display of moral courage as the "perfect sacrifice."<sup>120</sup>

For all of Gandhi's admiration of Jesus, however, he was, at the end of the day, a Hindu. Kagawa, on the other hand, was a direct product of Christian missionary efforts in Asia. In addition to his close ties to the Protestant missionary enterprise, Kagawa appeared to emulate Jesus's worldly sacrifice by dedicating his early career to the betterment of the impoverished residents of the Shinkawa slums. He also wrote frequently on Christian themes, including a work of historical fiction regarding the person of Jesus Christ.<sup>121</sup> Furthermore, in contrast to Gandhi's lack of direct exposure to U.S. audiences, Kagawa's frequent trips across the Pacific had earned him a strong American following.<sup>122</sup> As somebody who could reach out to a broader audience while still effectively embodying the virtues of voluntary sacrifice and advocating for a distinctly Christian vision of nonviolence, Kagawa represented a persuasive counterpart to Gandhi.

Two California-based activists facilitated Kagawa's inclusion in the pacifist hagiography alongside Gandhi. Both were members of the Kagawa Cooperators and authored books that compared Kagawa to Gandhi (alongside a third figure): *Whither Asia? A Study of Three Leaders: Mahatma Gandhi, Hu Shih, Kagawa* (1933), written by Kenneth Saunders, and *Three Trumpets Sound: Kagawa, Gandhi, Schweitzer* (1939), written by Allan Hunter.<sup>123</sup> Saunders was a professor of the history of religion and Oriental cultures at the Pacific School of

Religion, and a founding member and chairman of the Kagawa Co-operators in Berkeley.<sup>124</sup> Although not an official member of the FOR, he nevertheless participated at conferences organized by the Fellowship.<sup>125</sup> In *Whither Asia?*, Saunders reveals his sympathy with the Christian internationalist project, arguing that Asia was undergoing a period of transformational “reawakening” wrought by the “awakened West.” Employing stereotypical Orientalist imagery to make his case, he called Gandhi a model of the “Indian ideal of detachment and other-worldliness,” Hu Shih a “worthy representative of the *Chun-tse* or scholarly gentleman of ancient China,” and Kagawa a “samurai” who, instead of serving his feudal lord, had become a “servant to the people.”<sup>126</sup> China, however, lagged behind India and Japan in Saunders’s view, due to its lack of leaders, such as Gandhi and Kagawa, who demonstrated the spirit of “sacrificial love and service.”<sup>127</sup> While deeming both to be praiseworthy spiritual leaders, Saunders ultimately saw Kagawa as “more potent than Gandhi” because of his Christian identity, which made him a “servant of Christ” whose personality was “our best symbol of the Godhead.”<sup>128</sup>

By the mid- to late 1930s, Kagawa ranked alongside Gandhi and several other world figures held in high esteem by interwar pacifists in a grouping that Patricia Appelbaum has called the “heroes of peace.”<sup>129</sup> Rather than focusing on individual acts of heroism, this new pacifist hagiography adopted as its idols personages known for their social engagement and community-oriented activism. In addition to Gandhi and Kagawa, these included contemporary FOR-related social activists such as Jane Addams and Muriel Lester, as well as missionary-doctors and educators such as Albert Schweitzer and Frank Laubach.<sup>130</sup> A 1937 practice manual for peace activists, for example, recommended as subjects of discussion a number of historical and contemporary world figures who exemplified the “heroic” ideals of pacifism: the Buddha, Laozi, Jesus, Saint Francis of Assisi, John Woolman, William Lloyd Garrison, Leo Tolstoy, Romain Rolland, Jane Addams, Kagawa, and Gandhi.<sup>131</sup> The author of the manual, a Harvard-trained lawyer by the name of Richard Gregg (1885–1974), became one of the Fellowship’s most important voices by the end of the 1930s through his interpretation of Gandhian nonviolence. Gregg’s manual—published as a supplement to *The Power of Non-violence*, a 1935 book that later influenced Martin Luther King Jr. and other civil rights leaders—urged its readers to “read aloud or tell at team meetings the lives and sayings of great heroes and exemplars of nonviolence.”<sup>132</sup> Through such

prominent references in the pacifist literature, Kagawa became widely recognized as a hero among activists of nonviolence and pacifism during the interwar period.

Meanwhile, back in Japan the outbreak of the Sino-Japanese War on July 7, 1937, severely distressed Kagawa on a personal level. Fewer than three months into the war, which had originated from a minor skirmish on the outskirts of Peking, Kagawa noted with sorrow the departure of his fellow Christian Hasegawa Tamotsu of Hamamatsu, who had been conscripted into service on the front lines.<sup>133</sup> This was followed closely by the tragic news that one of his disciples, a twenty-one-year-old village youth, had died in combat in Shanghai. Another associate, who had helped in the management of Kagawa's cooperative society in Osaka, was also sent to the front, causing Kagawa to comment that he felt as though his "right arm had been lost."<sup>134</sup> Lamenting the impact that the war was having on those around him, Kagawa wrote a poem ("Namida ni tsugu") that was translated by his Canadian assistant Jessie Trout into English under the title "To Tears."<sup>135</sup> The English translation was published in *Time* magazine, among other outlets, catching the attention of a wide audience.<sup>136</sup>

Ah tears, unbidden tears!  
 Familiar friends since childhood's lonely years,  
 Why do ye come again to dwell with me?  
 Ye come; nor wait your coming nor delay;  
 Nay, fearless with what scorn,  
 Ye picture China by my brothers torn.  
 Thy scorn I must accept,  
 But I'm no coward; pray heed ere more ye've wept;  
 I love Japan so fair,  
 And China too; this war I cannot bear . . .<sup>137</sup>

Following the commencement of the Sino-Japanese War, Mother Topping encouraged readers of the *Kagawa Calendar* to distribute the upcoming 1938 issue widely to highlight the heartbreak of Japanese Christians over the war situation. On August 26, 1937, she wrote the following to a group of subscribers: "Dr. Kagawa and we are greatly distressed and are earnestly praying that war may cease and peace be established."<sup>138</sup> She furthermore directed her correspondents to turn to the November page of the 1938 *Calendar*, where they could find an exhortation to nonviolent resistance: "Violence is degenerating

and self destroying, non-violence is eternal.”<sup>139</sup> The same page featured a picture of the members of Kagawa’s home congregation in Tokyo, engaged in a weekly prayer for world peace.<sup>140</sup> Mother Topping also sought to generate publicity by directly contacting editors of influential Christian journals. On October 1, 1937, she wrote the editor of *Pilgrim Highroad*, enclosing the 1938 *Calendar* and a magazine titled “Kagawa Comes Home,” written by Helen.<sup>141</sup> In the letter she asked the editor to give these two publications some “kindly publicity” in order to stir up sympathy for both the Chinese as well as Japanese Christians—whose reputation, she claimed, had been brought into disfavor by “the sins of Japanese militarists.”<sup>142</sup>

Helen, meanwhile, helped spread Kagawa’s sorrowful reaction to the war by circulating “To Tears” in America. On April 10, 1938, she addressed a vesper service for Niseis in Los Angeles, calling on the audience to think of themselves as “an international people who [were] particularly fitted to bring about worldwide brotherhood.”<sup>143</sup> For the May 4, 1938, issue of *Christian Century*, she penned an article forcefully reiterating the “thoroughgoing” nature of Kagawa’s pacifism, quoting his 1934 public apology to the Chinese in the preface to *Love, the Law of Life* as evidence.<sup>144</sup> Notably, this reference was picked up by the digest magazine *World Christianity*, whose 1938 issue started out with an editorial diatribe against the atrocities committed by the Japanese in Nanjing before shifting its tone to applaud Kagawa’s aforementioned preface, calling it “one of the brightest spots against the dark background of the Far Eastern Conflict.”<sup>145</sup> The Toppings thus attempted to cultivate a sense of sympathy among Japanese and white American readers toward the plight of Japanese Christians—who, they claimed, stood apart from the imperial government in their opposition to the war in China.

Such efforts at peace propaganda, however, soon came under the scrutiny of Japanese state censors. Using the pretext of a wartime emergency, the Japanese government began to exert strict control over the content of publications, suppressing any texts deemed injurious to the national cause.<sup>146</sup> Internal censors of the Book Section (Toshoka) of the Police Bureau (Keihokyoku), which licensed and censored all domestic and foreign publications in circulation, marked out both Helen’s 1938 *Christian Century* article and the aforementioned *World Christianity* piece for, respectively, the violation of “standards of publication regarding the Sino-Japanese War” (*Shina jihen gaishutsu kinshi hyōjun*) and the “anti-war [*hansen-teki*] sentiment” expressed by

Kagawa.<sup>147</sup> While Kagawa did not suffer any immediate repercussions because of this, his name was undoubtedly noted by the censorship office.

It was amid this tense atmosphere that Kagawa embarked on his 1938 trip to India, which provided the strongest indications yet of Kagawa's reluctance to live up to his image as a pacifist hero. Kagawa traveled to India in late 1938 as part of the Japanese delegation to the International Missionary Council (IMC) meeting in Madras.<sup>148</sup> The conference, which lasted from December 12 to 29, 1938, and attracted over four hundred participants, was hosted by the Madras Christian College in Tambaram (a suburb of the city of Madras, now known as Chennai). Due to it being the first time the conference had been hosted outside the bounds of Western Christendom, the Madras meeting emphasized the spirit of world ecumenism, symbolically demonstrating the IMC's intent to move toward an increased dialogue between the "older" and "younger" churches.<sup>149</sup>

Despite this hopeful premise, the proceedings suffered from an "almost unprecedented tension" between the Chinese and Japanese delegates, due to the ongoing war between the two countries.<sup>150</sup> The Chinese, in particular, were outraged by the atrocities committed during the Nanjing Incident almost exactly one year earlier. T. Z. Koo (1887–1971; Chinese name: Gu Ziren), a graduate of Saint John's University, Shanghai, and leader of the Chinese YMCA, alluded to the moral dilemma in his address to the conference: "Before the war I could meet a Japanese Christian and feel we were one in Christ. But today with the Japanese army marching across my country, killing and destroying everything in its way, a sense of strain bears heavily down upon my Christianity when I face a Japanese."<sup>151</sup>

Given his reputation as a pacifist icon, delegates at the Madras conference expected Kagawa to issue a firm rebuke to the Japanese militarists in his address to the general body, just as he had done in front of the Chinese congregation in Shanghai four years earlier. Publicity materials leading up to the event, after all, had given widespread coverage to his apologetic stance toward the Chinese.<sup>152</sup> Kagawa, however, refrained from directly addressing the issue of the Sino-Japanese War.<sup>153</sup> Instead he chose to speak in general terms on "the meaning of the Cross" and "redemptive love"—a term that for him encapsulated Christianity's potential to bring about a dramatic change in an individual's life through moral and social reform.<sup>154</sup> Kagawa's evasion of the looming question at hand seemed to contradict the media's

portrayal of him as a pacifist who sympathized with the plight of China. His failure to forcefully proclaim this position in person resulted in a sense of disappointment and missed opportunity.

Following the Madras conference, Kagawa embarked on a two-month tour of India. During his travels Kagawa visited many of the major cities and regions in British India, including, in order of visitation: Colombo, Madras, Coconada, Hyderabad, Benares, Sehore, Bombay, Bardoli, Calcutta, Lahore, Delhi, Faridabad, Agra, Lucknow, Allahabad, Guntur, Mysore, and Travincore-Cochin.<sup>155</sup> Among the highlights were his visit to Bardoli, where he had a dialogue with leaders of the Indian National Congress; his stopover in Kengeri, where he met with a family of American missionaries; and his stay in the Kingdom of Mysore, where he was invited as a guest of the Muslim prime minister.<sup>156</sup> Kagawa's trip to the "Christian ashram" established by Ralph Richard Keithahn, an American missionary stationed in Kengeri (a satellite town near Bangalore), suggested the extent to which the international missionary network had carried his fame. The Keithahns had learned of Kagawa through his translated writings, including *Songs from the Slums*, and became so enamored with his work that they decided to name their youngest son, Richard Kagawa Keithahn, after the Japanese evangelist.<sup>157</sup>

During his visit to Bardoli in 1939, Kagawa exhibited a cautious approach in his discussion of international politics with leaders of the Indian National Congress. While the organization of the INC (the nationalist party to which Gandhi belonged) was headquartered in Allahabad in northern India, the Congress executive committee (known officially as the Working Committee) held annual meetings in the western Indian city of Bardoli—which was chosen for its historic and symbolic significance as the site of a successful noncooperation (*satyagraha*) struggle that Congress led there in 1928.<sup>158</sup> Upon arriving to meet with his interlocutors on January 14, 1939, Kagawa praised the simplicity of their dress, noting that their white garments made of homespun cotton (known as khadi) gave them an air akin to that of the so-called men-of-spirit (*shishi*)—patriotic samurai who, in the twilight years of the Tokugawa shogunate, paved the way for the emergence of modern Japan.<sup>159</sup> Over lunch with Kagawa, Jawaharlal Nehru (1889–1964), protégé of Gandhi and the future president of independent India, raised the topic of the war, explaining Congress's position in the following manner: "We had trusted and respected Japan up until the Manchurian Incident. We were very much in favor of

achieving independence from the British with Japanese help. However, we were forced to reconsider after the Manchurian Incident . . . and the recent incident [i.e., the Sino-Japanese War].”<sup>160</sup> Asked for his opinion on this matter, Kagawa equivocated, merely reciting to Nehru the “spirit of the imperial edict” (*heika no goshōchoku no goseishin*) and saying nothing else.<sup>161</sup> Kagawa’s parroting of the official position on the war—that Japan had done nothing wrong and was merely fighting to maintain order and stability in the region—suggested a reflexive reluctance to give his opinion on the issue of Japan’s imperialistic foreign policy.<sup>162</sup>

Kagawa’s much-anticipated meeting with Gandhi also centered on the war in China and revealed a deep gulf between the two leaders. After finishing his lunch with Nehru, Kagawa was taken to meet the Mahatma, who was a full nineteen years his elder. Following some preliminary exchanges about a drought in South India and the state of the cooperative movement in his country, Gandhi asked Kagawa about the “feeling of people in Japan about the war.” Noting that his personal views made him “rather a heretic in Japan,” Kagawa turned the question back on Gandhi, asking what the Indian leader would do were he in his shoes. Gandhi, initially hesitant, eventually stated: “I would declare my heresies and be shot. I would put the cooperatives and all your work in one scale, and put the honor of your nation on the other, and if you found that the honor was being sold, I should ask you to declare your views against Japan and in so doing make Japan live through your death.”<sup>163</sup> Taken aback by this response, Kagawa wavered, claiming that while “the conviction is there,” his friends had been asking him to desist. Gandhi insisted that he ought not be beholden to his friends “when the Friend inside you says, ‘Do this.’” This caused Kagawa to visibly “shrink” from the conversation before changing the topic to something else entirely.<sup>164</sup> Although the *Harijan* account ends here, in his 1939 report to the Japan Diplomatic Association, Kagawa further recalled receiving the following admonition from Gandhi: “You must take this issue seriously and make sure that Japan’s history does not become soiled; you must try to ensure that a slightly better history of the world can be written.”<sup>165</sup> Gandhi’s adamant insistence that Kagawa take a public stand against the war with China left the Japanese evangelist speechless.

Despite their shared commitment to a nonviolent and communitarian ethos that elevated them to a hallowed status within the pacifist hagiography, Kagawa and Gandhi took very different approaches in



their relationship to state authority. Kagawa preferred to stay within the institutional framework of the state to achieve incremental gains toward his goal, working and compromising with the government along the way. Gandhi, on the other hand, maintained an uncompromising stance vis-à-vis the British raj, publicly exposing its injustices and calling for its removal from India. While he did not think well of the war, neither did Kagawa feel it was his place to speak up against it. He revealed this conflicted position in a personal interview with a visiting British missionary before his India trip: "We Japanese are miserable about the war. We have to put on a courageous front, and to shout and wave flags, but in our hearts we are sad and miserable." Asked if it was time for Christians to take action, Kagawa replied, "Not yet . . . it would serve no good purpose and might do harm. Let the Christians on both sides pray without ceasing. The day of peace will come when it is least expected. It will come by prayer and fasting, and fasting not merely from food but also from political methods."<sup>166</sup> Kagawa thus advised against protesting the war so that he and his fellow Christians would not be punished for openly contravening or condemning the government's policies, instead calling for his coreligionists to endure quietly in prayer—a stance that reflected his unwillingness to challenge state authority as well as his sense of muted resignation over the course of events in his country.

The seemingly decisive encounter with Gandhi, however, did not dampen the enthusiasm of Kagawa's supporters. Allan Hunter, for example, saw fit to publish a book in 1939 that placed Kagawa alongside Gandhi and Schweitzer, dubbing them "the three trumpeters of God," who "[lived] for and by something infinitely higher than themselves."<sup>167</sup> In referencing the meeting between Kagawa and Gandhi in 1939, Hunter used the exchange merely as an example of Gandhi's unambiguous and resolute ethical stance while skirting the issue of its implications on Kagawa.<sup>168</sup> Despite the Japanese evangelist's apparent reluctance to take a stand against the war on China, Hunter was more than happy to continue singing Kagawa's praises, depicting him metaphorically as an irrepressible "grain of wheat" that might one day crack "the whole solid structure of militarism and imperialism" in Japan.<sup>169</sup>

Rather than evade the question, some American supporters issued a defense of Kagawa. The 1940 *Kagawa Calendar*, for example, included the following emphatic words: "Kagawa does not escape the present wholesale condemnation of the land of his birth. Some say



he ought to so vehemently attack the wrongs in China as to get himself either shot or jailed. But it may be a question whether he can serve best as a dead martyr or a live one!”<sup>170</sup> Mother Topping issued this statement in direct response to Gandhi’s comments (“I would declare my heresies and be shot”), justifying Kagawa’s reluctance to stand up to government authority as a pragmatic trade-off—a compromise that enabled him to do more good for society by not getting arrested or killed. This point is further underlined by the following quote from the same *Calendar* page, supposedly taken from a conversation that Kagawa had with some Chinese Christian students: “We lacked a solid education of the common people in Japan for peace. And now I ask you which should I do? Go to prison or work to educate? It’s very easy to go to prison, very easy to be killed, but I have chosen the task of educating the people for peace.”<sup>171</sup>

Events held in Kagawa’s name following his India trip attested to his continuing popularity in the United States. In December 1939, for example, the organizers of a “Kagawa Memorial Fund” launched a campaign at the Riverside Church in New York to raise \$30,000 in honor of the thirtieth anniversary of the Japanese Christian’s entry into the slums of Kobe.<sup>172</sup> Not to be outdone, Japanese Americans on the West Coast commemorated the tenth anniversary of “Kagawa Day” and the fifteenth anniversary of the Los Angeles Friends of Jesus group on January 14, 1940. Using the occasion as an opportunity for an “interracial” meeting, Hunter took his congregation from the Mount Hollywood Congregational Church for a joint service at the Los Angeles Japanese Union Church. Rounding out the special observance was a guest appearance by Muriel Lester, a British activist regularly named alongside Gandhi and Kagawa as a representative modern pacifist icon.<sup>173</sup> Although Kagawa’s meeting with Gandhi called into question his credentials as a model pacifist, he nevertheless continued to exert influence as a symbol upon which his American followers could project and enact their goals of peace and interracial harmony.

In response to an internal crisis within missionary circles that called for a fundamental reorientation of foreign missions, liberal Protestants found in Kagawa a potential savior for their century-old movement. Mobilizing the institutional network that had been established through the Kagawa Cooperators, the Kagawa Fellowship, and the Friends of Jesus groups, missionary supporters of Kagawa anointed him as the

symbolic manifestation of their newfound vision for a multicultural, global Christianity. The advent of Japanese imperialism as a major political force in the 1930s, however, complicated their project in unexpected ways. Ultimately, Kagawa found himself in the difficult position of having to serve two masters: his internationalist American supporters and the imperialist Japanese state.

While the Great Depression provided a tangible, material context for his cooperative program and Social Gospel ethics, Japan's escalating aggression toward China gave rise to an intractable dilemma. On the one hand, the Toppings felt that Kagawa's pacifist image needed to be widely advertised in light of the rising antagonism between Japan and China, leading them to portray him as an unflinching hero who was ready to challenge the imperial state. In reality, however, Kagawa was not as antistate or anti-imperialist as his followers made him out to be. Despite his heroic depiction within the pacifist hagiography, Kagawa was in fact a proestablishment figure who was sensitive to the political and institutional pressures of the Japanese state. Although privately distressed by the war with China, in public he chose to compromise and cooperate with the Japanese government, rather than become a martyr by speaking out against it. His reluctance to take a stand against Japan's war at the 1938 Madras conference and his subsequent 1939 meeting with Gandhi illustrated this point most clearly. While his supporters persisted in upholding him as a hero for their movements for peace and the reimagining of missions, the moment in fact marked the beginning of the Japanese state's rising nationalism and imperialism gradually overtaking Kagawa's internationalist ideals.

When compared to his Japanese contemporaries, Kagawa's actions are consistent with the general trend. In his study of nearly five hundred travel narratives of Japanese visitors to China, historian Joshua Fogel states that "the year 1938 seems to have been something of a watershed," in the sense that the only published accounts that expressed dissatisfaction with the Sino-Japanese War or cast doubt toward the policies of the Japanese government were published before that year.<sup>174</sup> Fogel's argument, which attributed the disappearance of any form of written resistance to the dominant ideology of the state after 1938 to "the effects of repression," rings true in Kagawa's case. Whether in his address to the IMC or in his talks with Nehru and Gandhi, Kagawa seemed most concerned with the eyes of the state

and the repercussions he might face as a consequence of his statements. This was perhaps unavoidable, given that Kagawa had to live with the Japanese state after his return, whereas Gandhi was dealing with a foreign colonial state from which he sought to rid India. Yet the great irony lay in the fact that Kagawa, who had been chosen by missionary leaders for his lack of association with Western imperialism, proved amenable to the imperialist demands of his own country.

### *Chapter Three*

## CONSTRUCTING GOD'S KINGDOM IN THE JAPANESE EMPIRE

Of all the invasions that Japan undertook, Manchukuo alone was imbued with a sense of romantic adventure.

—Kagawa, circa 1960

Kagawa's retrospective assessment of the Japanese colonization of Manchuria, as confided to a close friend during a private conversation after the war, provides a deeply ambivalent take on the significance of Japan's colonial empire. On the one hand, he acknowledges that the establishment of Manchukuo was the result of an invasion (*shinryaku*) of Chinese soil—a point of view that, although disputed by Japanese officials at the time, represented the general opinion of the League of Nations and is widely accepted today. On the other hand, he chooses to characterize the event as a romantic adventure (*roman*); an action that if not ultimately justified, was at least undertaken with an idealistic and noble purpose. Moreover, his continued use of the term “Manchukuo” (the state of Manchuria), an official designation by the Japanese government that gave the puppet state a degree of legitimacy it lacked from the international community, further suggests an abiding sense of investment in Japan's colonial heyday.<sup>1</sup> For somebody who was revered by many as a global pacifist figure, his statement—the only explicit evaluative reference that Kagawa made regarding the wartime imperialist project—seems profoundly out of character.

When considered within the context of late 1930s Japan, however, Kagawa's position begins to make a little more sense. If the 1939 encounter with Gandhi somewhat punctured the carefully constructed

mythology surrounding Kagawa as a pacifist hero, it was also true that the domestic context in Japan at the time made difficult the kind of categorical judgment rendered by the Indian leader. Being members of a minority religion in a society ruled by an authoritarian state that exercised strong regulatory control over the lives of its citizens, Christians like Kagawa had little choice but to attend to and engage with the demands of their government. In a time of renewed emphasis on national unity, this meant a delicate balancing act between the preservation of Christian identity and the demonstration of patriotic spirit.

As highly contradictory and conflicting as these terms were at times, it was also precisely through the articulation of and adherence to this framework—that is, the enactment of “God’s kingdom” within the empire of Japan—that Japanese Christians sought to express their religious beliefs in an increasingly volatile and restrictive world. At the same time, Kagawa’s seeming acceptance of these terms further highlighted the disconnect between his global reputation and his domestic engagements with the state—an aspect of his work that was rarely, if ever, publicized in the promotional literature produced by his American supporters. In contrast to his pacifist and internationalist image abroad, Kagawa saw no problem in Japan’s colonial possessions and was an enthusiastic participant alongside his fellow Christian compatriots in the nationwide celebration of the empire’s purported twenty-six hundredth anniversary in 1940. In a tense moment for his country, Kagawa charted a cooperative path that would at once assert the positive presence of the Christian church while also meeting the demands of the state.

#### ENVISIONING A MANCHURIAN UTOPIAN SETTLEMENT

The efforts of Christians to establish a utopian agricultural settlement in Manchukuo unfolded within the larger context of Japanese empire building in the Asia-Pacific region. Beginning with the acquisition of Taiwan in 1895 and the subsequent annexation of Korea in 1910, Japan’s growing array of colonial possessions brought with it successive attempts to extend imperial influence into the overseas territories. For Christians at home, such developments offered an opportunity to align their religious activities with Japan’s expansionism abroad. Confronted with the problem of accounting for ethnically diverse colonial subjects, for example, Christian intellectuals pioneered the theory that the Japanese have historically possessed the ability to assimilate people

from different backgrounds into their cultural orbit.<sup>2</sup> Notably, such theorists posited Christianity as the religion most suited to transcending putative racial and national divides because of its universalist qualities. Early ventures in this vein, such as the Japan Congregational Church's (Kumiai Kyōkai) Korea Mission, founded in 1911, relied on the assertion that Christianity acted as a set of bridging beliefs that enabled colonized peoples such as Taiwanese and Koreans to identify with the Japanese and become assimilated into the fold as fully civilized imperial subjects.<sup>3</sup> The Kumiai Kyōkai mission competed against American missionaries in Korea, who had arrived earlier and thus were better established and supported, by targeting Koreans who were already Christians and attempting to reconvert them to the Japanese side, thereby claiming an indisputable role for Christians within Japan's imperial expansion.<sup>4</sup>

Much like his coreligionists, Kagawa accepted Japan's status as a colonial power and subscribed to the notion that Christians had a unique role to play within that imperial framework. As a sought-after evangelist, Kagawa had many opportunities to travel to Japan's overseas colonies. In early 1922, for example, he visited Kappanzan (C. Jiaobanshan), one of the most popular sites on the imperial tourist circuit for Taiwan.<sup>5</sup> At Kappanzan, which was billed in tourist guidebooks as a "tamed" Indigenous village, he observed a group of aboriginal students go through their daily routine of classes at the elementary school set up by the Japanese authorities. Following dinner that evening, Kagawa had a two-hour conversation with a young physician who had graduated from the same school, leaving him "sincerely impressed" by the "wonderful progress" being made by the aboriginal children.<sup>6</sup> The terms that he used to refer to the Taiwanese aborigines—"raw tribespeople" (*seiban*) and "tribes children" (*bandō*)—reflected the language of the colonial elite (as inherited from their Chinese predecessors) and suggested Kagawa's identification with state authorities. His praise of the aboriginal children, moreover, engaged in a discourse of maturity that reinforced the hierarchical power relations between colonizer and colonized. Kagawa recorded his experience of colonial Taiwan in a decidedly positive tone, an impression that was no doubt enhanced by his discovery that one of the Japanese officials he met during his stay was an avid reader of his book *Shisen o koete*.

Kagawa's thinking on the building of colonial settlements developed in relation to his firsthand contact with the Japanese overseas diaspora in America. Japanese farmers migrated to the United States

beginning in the late nineteenth century as a result of the economic dislocations caused by the Meiji government's policy of rapid industrialization, which led to the establishment of agricultural labor settlements in California.<sup>7</sup> Within these Japanese communities on the American West Coast, Christians like Kagawa came to be seen as leaders in the project of immigrant moral reform. Throughout the 1910s, gambling was a chief concern of Issei—or first generation—Japanese American reformist politics in California. Japanese immigrant leaders viewed gambling establishments, which were mainly run by the Chinese, as corrupting institutions that eroded the basic morals of Japanese immigrant society.<sup>8</sup> As a part of its campaign against “Chinese” gambling, the Issei elite invited speakers from Japan such as Ebina Danjō (1856–1937), a well-known Protestant intellectual and Kumiai minister, to give lectures on the ideals of immigrant assimilation and caution against the vices of gambling.<sup>9</sup> While such measures brought success in some areas, the issue persisted in others, as Kagawa witnessed roughly a decade later.

In late 1924 the Northern California Japanese Christian Church Federation invited Kagawa to be a guest speaker for its campaign of immigrant moral reform following the passage of the anti-Japanese Immigration Act.<sup>10</sup> During his stay, Kagawa was taken on a tour of two Chinese-owned gambling parlors near Sacramento by his local hosts.<sup>11</sup> After having observed the “degenerate” state of affairs inside the casinos, Kagawa felt “despondent,” commenting, “It is not hard to see why the anti-Japanese movement would grow so powerful when you [only] see the kind of Japanese who come to these establishments.”<sup>12</sup> Speaking at an event in Sacramento's Japantown—which he noted was not ideally placed, given its proximity to the red-light district—he further elaborated on the source of his pessimism: “There seemed to be not one effective [local] spiritual leader . . . and very few youth getting a university education. Some waste thousands of dollars every year on Chinese gambling, while others become infatuated with white prostitutes to the point of giving up all hope of getting married!”<sup>13</sup> He did, however, find some cause for optimism in the countryside: “Of all the Japanese colonies [*shokuminchi*] in California that I have seen, the most stable ones were places such as Florin, Loomis, and Livingston where Christian families had come together to run their own farms.”<sup>14</sup> Kagawa's emphasis on such traditional middle-class values as religious piety, education, domesticity, and financial and sexual self-discipline (e.g., abstinence from gambling and prostitution)

closely mirrored the moral outlook of the Issei elite, who sought to reform the wayward immigrant masses in an effort to improve the overall image of the Japanese in America. Kagawa, for his part, came away from this experience with the conviction that if Japan was to succeed in establishing further overseas colonies, they must be set up as religious settlements (*shūkyōteki no shokuminchi*)—a point of view that would prove instrumental in his involvement in the Christian Pioneer Village in Manchuria.<sup>15</sup>

The colonization of Manchuria by Japanese settlers was a multifaceted imperialist project that, while advertised as a solution to the problem of overpopulation in the homeland, was primarily concerned with the creation of a strategic buffer zone against the Soviet Union.<sup>16</sup> Within months of the Kwantung Army-initiated takeover of northeast China and the subsequent founding of Manchukuo in early 1932, Japan's newly founded Ministry of Colonial Affairs sent its first band of settlers to Manchuria—comprising 423 army reservists and their families.<sup>17</sup> As can be seen from the makeup of this group and their strategic deployment along the Manchukuo–Soviet border, the first set of migrants served a quasi-military function. Kagawa, who had heard of the plan to round up reservists in Wakayama for this purpose, declared that he was “not in favor” of this kind of colonization. Citing the historical “failure” of the military-settler colonists (*tonden-hei*) who had been recruited to develop and defend Japan's northern frontier in Hokkaidō during the Meiji period, Kagawa claimed that faith-based groups (*shinkō-teki dantai*) had proved to be the most successful colonists, thus reiterating his stance that settlers should be organized along religious lines in order to ensure success.<sup>18</sup> The Kwantung Army, however, was apprehensive about increased anti-Japanese guerrilla activity in northern Manchuria and restricted settler eligibility for the first few years to military veterans who could play an active role in maintaining order and stability in the borderlands. As a result, only a limited number of settlers were permitted in this initial phase of migration (1932–1936), variously known as the period of trial migration (*shiken imin*) or armed migration (*busō imin*).<sup>19</sup>

The Christian Pioneer Village developed as part of the second phase of migration beginning in 1936, during which the Japanese state endorsed the agricultural colonization of Manchukuo as its official policy. Following the attempted military coup by young extremists of the Imperial Army on February 26, 1936, voices sympathetic to the program of mass emigration to Manchuria became dominant within



the Japanese government, resulting in the announcement of a twenty-year plan in August 1936.<sup>20</sup> The plan aimed to send one million households, or the equivalent of five million people, to Manchuria over the course of four five-year periods, with substantial subsidies given to migrants organized in large groups of roughly two hundred to three hundred households.<sup>21</sup> It also outlined a standardized procedure for migration that such groups were expected to follow, which entailed sending an advance party (*senkentai*) of fifty to sixty youths of “robust constitution” to the proposed site a year in advance to make the necessary preparations for the anticipated arrival of the larger main party (*hontai*).<sup>22</sup> On the continental side, the Manchukuo government established the Public Corporation for the Development of Manchuria (Manshū Kaitaku Kōsha), or Mantaku, to facilitate land purchases for settlements and build training centers for newly arrived migrants.<sup>23</sup> In this way, the colonization of Manchuria developed into a highly orchestrated, state-planned affair closely managed by both the metropolitan and colonial authorities.

The Christians, in fact, were not the first religious group to establish its own settlement in Manchuria. Religious organizations such as Tenrikyō, a new religion founded in Nara in the nineteenth century, and a number of offshoots of Nichiren Buddhism also established their respective “pioneer settlements” on the continent.<sup>24</sup> The Tenrikyō youth association, for example, began plans for a Manchurian Tenri Village (Manshū Tenri Mura) as early as 1932 and sent its first group of settlers in 1934. From then until the end of the war, over twenty-five hundred Tenrikyō settlers made the trip to Manchukuo.<sup>25</sup> Since gaining official recognition as an independent religious movement in 1908, Tenrikyō had been steadily widening its membership and societal influence. Kagawa, for one, was greatly impressed by the group’s growing organizational strength in this period. Referring to the highly organized social work carried out by Tenrikyō members in Osaka in 1934, he commented: “Over 3,000 [Tenrikyō] peasants came out dressed in the same uniform to sweep up the streets, winning the hearts and minds of the citizens of Osaka.”<sup>26</sup> For Tenrikyō leaders, who had already been actively extending their church’s influence in colonial Korea and Manchuria since the 1920s, the colonization of Manchukuo was seen as another opportunity to contribute to the state’s empire-building project.<sup>27</sup> From the perspective of Christians, it is not difficult to see how such activities on the part of another religion would

have sparked a sense of competition and the feeling of not wanting to be left behind by their rivals.

Such religious settlements, however, represented only a small fraction of the total migrants in the overall colonization scheme. The state's main goal remained fixed on the large-scale transplantation of farmers from the Japanese countryside to Manchukuo, which it posed as a solution to the long-standing problem of rural impoverishment. It encouraged this through popularizing the myth of Manchuria as a largely unoccupied and unsettled frontier. After the twenty-year plan was adopted as official policy, prefectural and village officials began to recruit potential settlers in earnest by organizing public lectures and movie screenings at the local level. Such events promoted the idea that Manchuria was a paradise full of "virgin plains" and uncultivated land in "unlimited quantities," simply awaiting the productive intervention of skillful Japanese farmers.<sup>28</sup> There was no suggestion in such propaganda that in fact millions of Chinese and others inhabited the supposedly empty plains and that the land allocated to newly arrived settlers had been forcibly purchased from its original owners by Mantaku at a rate far below market value. This depopulation of the imaginary landscape of Manchuria—a fanciful image that was publicized through the network of local elites and community leaders and would later figure prominently in the recruitment literature for the Christian Pioneer Village—formed a crucial part of what historian Louise Young has termed the "migration machine."<sup>29</sup>

The myth of a pristine continental terra nullius waiting to be exploited coexisted, somewhat uneasily, with the government's stated mission of developing Manchuria as a racial utopia. Since its founding in 1932, Manchukuo had upheld as its official state ideology the "Harmony of Five Races under One Union" (*Gozoku kyōwa*), referring to the peoples of Japan, Manchuria, China, Korea, and Mongolia who lived within its borders.<sup>30</sup> While such a slogan contradicted the idea of empty plains awaiting immigrants, its main aim was to establish a sense of solidarity among the various Asian groups vis-à-vis the Western world. Despite its seemingly egalitarian tone, however, there was little doubt as to the implicit racial hierarchy within Manchukuo, which reserved for the Japanese a leadership role in bringing the fruits of modernity to the "backward" Asians.<sup>31</sup> In the eyes of the policymakers, the ideology of the Harmony of Five Races served the function of uniting the newly created state against the threat

of Western imperialism while also counteracting the growth of any disruptive anti-Japanese sentiment.

The racial mission grew all the more important following the outbreak of the Sino-Japanese War in 1937, which prompted a shift in the state's colonization priorities. As the initial skirmish at Marco Polo Bridge turned into a full-blown war with China, the increased demand for more Japanese soldiers, which drew upon the same pool of men targeted for emigration to Manchukuo, jeopardized the prospect of meeting the colonists' proclaimed settlement quotas. To remedy the situation, the Ministry of Colonial Affairs launched a program in 1938 known as the Patriotic Youth Brigade (*Manmō Kaitaku Seishōnen Giyūtai*), which targeted youths (aged fifteen to nineteen) not yet old enough to be drafted into military service. A key channel of recruitment for the Youth Brigade, envisioned as a volunteer corps that could provide paramilitary assistance to the Kwantung Army's frontier operations, was the school system. Through the implementation of a new rise-of-Asia (*kōa kyōiku*) curriculum that implicated not only the students and teachers of the nation's higher primary schools but also the parents and administrators, the state sought to inculcate among the public "the danger faced by Asia because of white aggression" and "the importance of the continental advance of the Japanese race for the construction of Asia."<sup>32</sup> Like the village colonization program, which while ostensibly aimed at farmers had the effect of rallying entire local bureaucratic structures behind the empire-building project, the Patriotic Youth Brigade and the "rise-of-Asia" education campaign helped to mobilize grassroots support for the utopian racial project of Manchukuo.

The idealistic promise of Manchukuo, as articulated by various agents of empire, heavily informed Kagawa's decision to become involved in Manchurian colonization. Even during his busy touring schedule, Kagawa made note of the rising status of Manchukuo within the public consciousness back home. In 1937, for example, he visited the coastal prefecture of Toyama in northwestern Japan to give a public lecture on Christianity. Upon seeing the region's recent construction of a series of hydroelectric plants and the attendant rise in industrial activity, he applauded the readiness of Toyama City (the prefectural capital) in becoming an international metropolis (*kokusaiteki no toshi*), adding that the city's cosmopolitan credentials were boosted by the fact that it was located "only 500 *li* from Manchukuo."<sup>33</sup> If Kagawa's comments on Toyama hinted at the positive associations he held

toward Manchuria as a newly emerging continental center abuzz with promising activity, his trip to Manchukuo the following year further piqued his interest in the colonial project.

State officials arranged for Kagawa to visit Manchukuo in 1938 to enlist him in the project of Manchurian empire building. Despite being billed as a lecture tour to “support the industrial cooperatives of Manchuria,” Kagawa’s 1938 trip was in fact an all-expenses-paid tour sponsored by Manchukuo officials that strategically showcased the best aspects of colonial development and administration.<sup>34</sup> Officials frequently arranged inspection tours (*shisatsu ryokō*) of this kind, especially for those individuals deemed by the state to wield substantial influence over the recruitment of potential settlers. Schoolteachers, for example, could join a tour sponsored by their county or prefectural board of education—after which, it was hoped, they would return to their hometowns and encourage those in their charge to sign up for the Patriotic Youth Brigade.<sup>35</sup> In a similar vein, the state promoters of Manchurian colonization may have viewed Kagawa’s religious influence and reputation as a useful asset for their cause. Yasui Seichirō (1891–1962), the former head of Tokyo’s social bureau who had worked with Kagawa during the latter’s tenure as a commissioned adviser to the same department in the late 1920s, was the chief of the colonial bureau of the Ministry of Colonial Affairs between 1936 and 1940.<sup>36</sup> It is possible, therefore, that Yasui’s expressed admiration for Kagawa’s “expertise” and “novel ideas” as a social reformer served as a factor in the government’s efforts to enlist him in the Manchurian project.<sup>37</sup>

Colonial officials from the ruling apparatus of Manchukuo played a major role in persuading Kagawa. During his four-week itinerary beginning on May 26, 1938, Kagawa spoke in front of a number of cooperative associations and church gatherings. His hosts kept him constantly on the move, however, as he was whisked from one regional hub to the next, visiting industrial facilities and meeting local power brokers—many of whom were associated with the semiprivate South Manchuria Railway Company (Minami Manshū Tetsudō Kabushiki-gaisha), known as Mantetsu for short. The most important official whom Kagawa met from Mantetsu was its then president, Matsuoka Yōsuke (1880–1946).<sup>38</sup> Perhaps best known as the diplomat who withdrew Japan from the League of Nations in 1933 after its General Assembly vote on the removal of Japanese troops from Manchuria, Matsuoka met with Kagawa over dinner in the port city of Dairen

(Dalian) upon his arrival. Kagawa's impression of Matsuoka, who, he claimed, laid out a "religious continental policy" (*shūkyōteki tairiku seisaku*) that displayed a "love for the Han people" and a sincerity worthy of the "most purified essence of the Japanese spirit," suggested his enthrallment with the official's vision.<sup>39</sup> Following this meeting, Kagawa traveled to the developing capital city of Shinkyō (literally, "new capital"; known today as Changchun), where he visited the headquarters of the Concordia Association (Manshūkoku Kyōwakai), the only officially approved political party in Manchukuo, set up to promote the ideals of Pan-Asianism and the Harmony of Five Races. There he listened to the pitch of Amakasu Masahiko (1891–1945), a former military police officer who had become the chief of general affairs of the Concordia Association.<sup>40</sup> From his meeting with Amakasu, Kagawa came away with the following thoughts: "Building a country is difficult business . . . however, since the Manchus are a very easygoing people, if [the Japanese] can just guide them properly, Manchukuo could possibly even surpass Japan as a nation."<sup>41</sup> Kagawa's comments, spoken from the distinct perspective of the ruling elite, reveal his identification with the position of colonial officials, as well as his seemingly genuine enthusiasm about the potential of Manchukuo as a racial utopia.

Kagawa willingly participated in the state's frontier myth of Manchukuo as it was presented to him during his travels. The propagandists of colonization sought to appeal to potential settlers by challenging them to become pioneers in the demanding but worthy enterprise of Manchurian settlement. They did so through heroicizing the experience of the early Japanese settlers, who had arrived as part of the initial wave of trial migration. Such narratives focused on the first and second settlements of Iyasaka and Chiburi, which faced armed attacks by Chinese bandits.<sup>42</sup> Promotional pamphlets such as *Manchuria: A Settler's Paradise* (1937) emphasized the menace of banditry and the corresponding heroism of the settlers who, while surrounded by as many as "several thousand bandits" at one point, fought back valiantly "with a hoe in one hand and a gun in the other," ultimately driving away the intruders and laying the foundation for future prosperity.<sup>43</sup> Kagawa, who was taken to see the Iyasaka and Chiburi villages during his tour, later retold in his own words the story of the "seventy-day standoff," during which the settlers were surrounded by "4,000 enemies" and suffered the death of "over twenty villagers." Despite this "bitter experience," he averred, the settlements were now flourishing

as “ideal farming colonies,” with “several thousand sheep” and newly built “agricultural experiment station” (*nōji shikenjō*).<sup>44</sup> His glowing account mirrored the triumphalist tone used by writers to narrate the heroic tale of Iyasaka and Chiburi, which came to occupy a storied position within the frontier mythology.

Drawing on such experiences, Kagawa formulated a vision for the Christian Pioneer Village that enabled Christians to claim a unique advantage within the wider colonial project. On the morning of June 14, 1938, toward the end of his tour, Kagawa met with the president of Mantaku, Tsubogami Teiji (1884–1979).<sup>45</sup> During this meeting, Tsubogami asked Kagawa if he would be interested in setting up a Christian settler’s village in Manchuria.<sup>46</sup> Energized by the prospect of Manchukuo and convinced of the merits of establishing a Christian settlement there, Kagawa promised Tsubogami that he would do his best to obtain the backing of the Japanese churches. Upon his return to Japan, Kagawa immediately set out to promote awareness of the Manchurian colonization movement through his personal magazine, *Kumo no hashira*, authoring the first in what would become a growing body of recruitment literature that specifically targeted a Japanese Christian audience. In his brief article “The Heart That Guides Asia,” for example, Kagawa alluded to the high rate of desertion and nervous breakdowns among the early settlers, which he attributed to their lack of “faith in the universal God.”<sup>47</sup> Likening Manchuria to the “desert land that Abraham settled,” he claimed that Japanese migrants needed to embrace the teachings of God in order to endure the long, harsh winters on the continent that had proved too arduous for those without a faith-based support network.<sup>48</sup>

Kagawa was quick to point out that Christians had more to offer to Manchurian colonization than other religious groups. In a longer article titled “The Future of the Manchurian Emigration Movement,” Kagawa acknowledged the early existence of Tenrikyō settlers in Manchukuo before noting their low agricultural yield in recent years. He argued that Christians, with their “cooperative farming methods,” could do a better job in adapting to the new environment, thereby proclaiming a “bright future” for those willing to seek out new challenges on the continent.<sup>49</sup> Through such assertions, Kagawa drew an analogy between potential Christian settlers and the biblical Abraham, who, in response to God’s calling, left Ur of the Chaldees to settle the unknown land of Canaan. By leaving Japan for the “promised land” of Manchukuo, Christians would not only be responding to the call

of the state but would also be fulfilling a religious destiny enabling them to participate in the creation of a historically proclaimed utopian paradise. While remaining mindful of practical parameters such as the need to enhance morale and agricultural output among the settlers, Kagawa painted a grandiose vision of Christian colonization that not only adhered to the framework of the state's empire-building project but also appealed to the spiritual worldview of his coreligionists.

Domestically, stricter government control in the realm of state-religion relations fostered a climate that favored cooperation with the wartime regime. Taking the Sino-Japanese War as his impetus, Prime Minister Konoe Fumimaro (1891–1945) had launched a series of drives to unify domestic opinion and establish a total war regime, known collectively as the National Mobilization Campaign (*Kokumin Seishin Sōdōin Undō*). The National Mobilization Campaign, begun in September 1937, sought to enforce civilian adherence to governmental policy through the encouragement of such patriotic activities as flag raising, Imperial Palace worship, shrine visits, and the contribution of volunteer labor. State officials also enlisted the help of religious groups in their pacification efforts on the front line. On March 30, 1938, the religious bureau of the Ministry of Education held the Second Conference between the Three Major Religions (*Dainikai Sankyō Daihyō Kyōgikai*) in Tokyo, in which Education Minister Kido Kōichi appealed to the representatives of Shintō, Buddhism, and Christianity for their cooperation in supporting Japan's pacification policy in China.<sup>50</sup> While such discussions had only an indirect bearing on the Manchurian colonization program, which was handled separately from the war with China, they nevertheless underscored the state's insistence that all social organizations, including religious groups, contribute to the national mobilization effort.

Debates over the religious organizations bill in 1939 further highlighted the government's intent to harness the power of religion for its own ends. As part of the effort to manage religious activity, officials had tried in vain since 1899 to pass legislation granting the state regulatory powers over religious organizations.<sup>51</sup> While earlier attempts had been rebuffed on the grounds that they would violate the freedom of religion, the outbreak of the Sino-Japanese War in 1937 and concerns over the rise of unregulated religious groups led Education Minister Araki Sadao (1877–1966) to sponsor a new version of the bill in 1939. In his statement to the House of Peers, Araki argued that the "exceptional circumstances" called for a law such as the one



he had proposed, which, he claimed, would “help” religious groups use their influence to “guide” and “arouse” the “national spirit.”<sup>52</sup> As the debate moved from the House of Peers to the House of Representatives, the logic of wartime exigency carried the day. In response to a question regarding the Communist threat posed by the Soviet Union, Prime Minister Hiranuma Kiichirō stated that “the government expects . . . religionists to distinguish themselves in the National Mobilization Campaign,” adding that the current bill was structured to facilitate the “active involvement of religious groups on such matters.”<sup>53</sup> The Diet passed the Religious Organizations Law (*Shūkyō Dantaihō*) on March 23, 1939, without major opposition, with the legislation set to take effect the following year.

In response to the passage of the Religious Organizations Law, Christian groups organized a rally at Aoyama Gakuin, a Methodist mission school in central Tokyo, on November 3, 1939. The date was symbolically significant, as November 3 was Meiji-setsu, a national holiday celebrating the birth of the Meiji emperor, thus providing the perfect occasion to stage a patriotic demonstration.<sup>54</sup> The stated aims of the rally, officially called the Conference of the Allied Members of Various Christian Denominations and Organizations (*Kirisutokyō Kaku Kyōha Kaku Dantai Rengō Shinto Taikai*), revealed that the organizers were highly conscious of the shifting political landscape. The opening remarks for the event suggested the priority placed on the performance of nationalism: “We, Christians, must help lead the establishment of a New Order in East Asia with a sense of peace and justice. Especially since the Religious Organizations Bill has now been passed by the Diet, and the state looks upon Christians such as ourselves with high expectations, we must be mindful of the weight of our responsibility.”<sup>55</sup>

In addition to Christian delegates, the rally featured a number of guests from the civilian and military bureaucracy, suggesting the extent of the Christian church’s institutional cooperation with the state. After a full schedule of praying, singing, and reciting from the Bible, the morning section of the program featured a sermon by Kagawa titled “The Victory of the Cross” (*Jūjika no shōri*).<sup>56</sup> This was followed in the afternoon by the singing of the national anthem, bowing toward the Imperial Palace (*kyūjō yōhai*), and remarks from the guests in attendance, such as Matsuo Chōzō (1891–1963), head of the Religious Bureau of the Ministry of Education, and Matsui Iwane (1878–1948), the Imperial Army general who commanded the Nanking Massacre.<sup>57</sup>



In addition, a proxy read aloud a congratulatory address from the chairman of the National Mobilization Central League and Imperial Navy general, Arima Ryōkitsu (1861–1944).<sup>58</sup> All in all, the conference was attended by roughly ten thousand people and was seen by its organizers as a successful prelude to the more elaborate gathering being prepared for the empire's twenty-six hundredth anniversary in 1940.<sup>59</sup> The occasion made clear that the Japanese Church, including Kagawa, was fully in line with the official establishment.

The spirit of state-religion cooperation, as demonstrated at the 1939 rally, informed the church's decision to sponsor the Christian Pioneer Village in Manchuria. While Kagawa had originally asked the National Christian Council's (NCC) Village Evangelization Committee (Nōson Dendō Inkaï)—a group tasked with spreading Christianity in the rural countryside—to help organize the settlement after his return from Manchuria, he was rejected on the grounds that they lacked both the manpower and financial resources for such a project.<sup>60</sup> The political climate following the passage of the Religious Organizations Law, however, compelled the initially reluctant Christian establishment to take on the Manchukuo project. Less than ten days after the rally, Kagawa brought the matter of Manchurian colonization before the NCC and won its approval at the group's seventeenth general meeting on November 11, 1939. The NCC appointed Kagawa chairman of the Manchurian Christian Pioneer Village Committee (Manshū Kirisutokyō Kaitakumura Inkaï) and gave its full backing to the program.

Kagawa was a fitting choice to lead the initiative. As an itinerant evangelist, he had firsthand knowledge of diasporic Japanese communities established within the overseas empire and was personally convinced that religious colonies provided the best chance of sustaining a permanent settlement abroad. He had also sympathized with the position of the colonial elite and had experience working with the government on previous occasions. Although he arrived relatively late to the Manchukuo project compared to the earlier participation of groups such as the Tenrikyō settlers, colonial promoters persuaded him of the importance of Christian cooperation in constructing a continental utopia. Kagawa, for his part, seemed genuinely caught up in the excitement and emotion of contributing to this idealistic project, the economic and racial merits of which had been widely extolled by state propagandists and grassroots agents of empire. The National Mobilization Campaign and the passage of the Religious Organizations Law, combined with

the early involvement of rival religions such as Tenrikyō, created a situation in which the Christian Pioneer Village seemed like a natural outcome of the Christian church's recently proclaimed commitment to national unity. Just how well the Christians would be able to implement their "romantic" vision, however, remained to be seen.

#### CHRISTIAN EMBRACE OF IMPERIAL SPIRITUAL ZENITH

When breaking ground on uninhabited territory, we must not be so covetous of our rights to the land as to forget our love for the soil. As Jesus said, "Blessed are the meek, for they shall inherit the earth." He who loves the soil must also love his neighbor. . . . Manchuria is the land where the spirit of the Harmony of Five Races Under One Union can be achieved. . . . Manchukuo is the country of love that will write a new page in world history.

January 31, 2600  
Kagawa Toyohiko<sup>61</sup>

Written on January 31, 1940, as the introduction to a novel exhorting Japanese emigration to Manchuria, the above passage illustrates the extent to which Kagawa bought into the central narratives of Japan's imperial ideology. His reference to "uninhabited territory" invoked the frontier myth of Manchuria as an empty land waiting to be claimed. His remark regarding the Harmony of Five Races acknowledged the vision of Manchukuo as a racial utopia. His quotation of the Sermon on the Mount ("Blessed are the meek . . .") further advanced the claim that Christians, with their love for the soil as well as for their neighbors, were ideally suited to become successful settlers in the multiracial nation. Moreover, his deliberate usage of the date 2600, rather than 1940, was in keeping with the grandiose events of national commemoration that took place in that year, which marked the twenty-six hundredth since Emperor Jimmu's mythical enthronement in 660 BCE.<sup>62</sup>

Kagawa's book was the first in a series of commemorative acts undertaken by Christians to glorify the imagined antiquity of Japan's polity—commonly referenced through the nebulous term *kokutai*—which centered on the fundamental continuity of its unbroken imperial line. The Christian Pioneer Village, organized and promoted by Kagawa and his followers, attempted to underscore Japanese Christians'

patriotism and contribution to the imperial project. The celebratory atmosphere of 1940 culminated in an elaborately planned convention of all the nation's Christians in October. While this conference represented only one of the more than twelve thousand similarly nationalistic events staged across the broader empire under various public and private auspices, it nevertheless demonstrated the Japanese Church's enthusiastic participation in a moment of imperial spiritual apogee.<sup>63</sup>

Such developments unfolded under the context of Prime Minister Konoe's drive to establish a new order in Japanese politics. Begun as an attempt by bureaucrats to replace the existing political parties with a single mass party along the lines of Hitler's Nazis, the New Order Movement (*Shintaisei Undō*) intensified the mobilization of society for war. The Konoe government moved to dissolve all existing political parties in the summer of 1940, reconstituting their erstwhile members into an organization called the Imperial Rule Assistance Association (IRAA, or *Taisei Yokusankai*). While falling short of the energetic mass parties led by charismatic leaders in Nazi Germany or Fascist Italy, the IRAA nevertheless functioned as a corporate body that encouraged its members to think of themselves less as representatives of popular interests than as transmitters of state interests to the people.<sup>64</sup> The government's push to more effectively channel the productive and spiritual energies of the population in support of state goals, as was carried out in the arena of politics through the IRAA, witnessed a parallel effort in the realm of religion through the implementation of the Religious Organizations Law.

Christianity's integration with the imperial state, however, was not as smooth as its public pledges of loyalty—such as those made at the 1939 Christian rally—may have us believe. The Religious Organizations Law posed a new set of challenges for the Japanese Church, including the amalgamation of its various denominations under a single roof and the removal of foreign missionaries from positions of power within the church hierarchy. Groups such as the Japan Salvation Army, one of the first Christian organizations to receive public recognition in the form of an imperial gift (*gokashikin*) for its frontline support during the Russo-Japanese War, came under severe criticism and attack by the government for their association with the Anglo-American powers.<sup>65</sup> Even individuals who appeared to demonstrate a strong willingness to cooperate with state policies, such as Kagawa, became targets of arrests and were forced to significantly

scale back their public activity. Such developments illustrated the shift from a cooperative to coercive relationship between church and state, as well as the increasingly ambivalent position of Christianity within Japanese society.

The new year began with high hopes for the planners of the Manchurian Christian settlement. Kagawa led promotional efforts for the project by writing and publishing the aforementioned novel, *Nichirin o haramu kōya* (1940), which roughly translates to *The Vast Plains of the Rising Sun*.<sup>66</sup> The title page featured the image of a red rising sun, the symbol of Japan, next to the silhouette of a single grain stalk sprouting from the ground, evoking the notion of Manchuria as an endless expanse of fertile and accommodating land; a living space, or *Lebensraum*, vital to Japanese dreams of autarky.<sup>67</sup>

The novel's plot revolves around a young couple from the mountainous forests of Wakayama who, facing dire financial straits, decide to move to Manchukuo in search of new opportunities. Upon their arrival in Antō (Andong), a border town near the Yalu River that functions as a regional trade hub, the husband, Yoshiteru, is surprised at the ease with which he is able to make money. Rather than save up his newfound wealth, he develops an expensive taste for drinking and womanizing, causing his strong-minded wife, Otsuru, to storm out of the house with their baby on her back, vowing to make a life on her own on the continent. After leaving her child at an orphanage run by a Danish missionary, Otsuru works briefly as a hotel maid in Shinkyō before becoming a housekeeper for a Patriotic Youth Brigade settlement and a dormitory for coal factory workers. Yoshiteru, meanwhile, has come to recognize the error of his ways and gives up his old habits to become a forestry technician, allowing him to travel around the country looking for his estranged wife. When the two are finally reunited after some time, Otsuru is impressed by Yoshiteru, who seems transformed through his honest work and Bible study. Together, they revisit the orphanage to reclaim their baby—who has been raised in a Christian manner by the Danish matron—and go on to work toward their respective dreams: reforesting the barren plains of Manchuria (Yoshiteru) and building an orphanage for parentless Chinese children (Otsuru).

Although not strictly about the kind of organized agricultural migration that the Christian Pioneer Village would set out to be, *Nichirin o haramu kōya* offers an interpretation of the idea of Manchukuo that reflects Kagawa's own take on the mission of empire. The novel's

central focus on the story of Yoshiteru and Otsuru, average Japanese who, despite some hardships, succeed in carving out a new life and purpose on the continent, illustrates Kagawa's view of Manchuria as a viable outlet for Japan's economically depressed rural population. At the same time, the story features various subplots involving a multiracial cast of Chinese, Korean, and Russian characters. Drawing upon the experience of his previous travels, Kagawa imbued each character with a sense of humanity that went beyond simplistic portrayals, giving shape to the ideal of Manchukuo not so much as a top-down Japanese colony but instead as a grand utopian nation based on the harmony between races. The key to racial cooperation, according to Kagawa, was Christianity. The ultimate expression of his idea of Manchukuo as a multiracial "heaven on earth" can be found in the Danish missionary's orphanage, where Japanese and Chinese children play freely with each other under the loving gaze of the Christian matron and Korean caretaker.<sup>68</sup> The story also includes trademark Kagawa didacticisms about the evils of prostitution and the merits of sobriety and hard work. Kagawa aimed such admonitions not just at individual settlers but also at the larger imperial project of East Asian community-building, a point he voiced through the words of one Japanese character: "We Japanese must strive to be morally upright; otherwise none of the various Asian peoples will look up to us and follow our lead."<sup>69</sup>

In addition to spearheading the publicity campaign and setting an idealistic tone for Manchurian migration, Kagawa handpicked leaders for the Christian settlement project. After being named chairman of the Manchurian Christian Pioneer Village Committee, Kagawa appointed Horii Junji, a trusted disciple, to handle the operational details of the mission. Horii, the minister of a rural church in Imorino, Hyōgo Prefecture, went on to become the village leader for the Christian settlement.<sup>70</sup> He coordinated with a group of Christian supporters in Dairen, Manchukuo, to prepare for sending an advance party of settlers, scheduled to depart in February of the following year. One of the most important backers of the project from the Manchuria side was Chiba Toyoji (1881–1944), an agricultural specialist and former managing director of the Japanese Agricultural Association of California now working as a researcher for the Agricultural Research Division of Mantetsu.<sup>71</sup> Horii, in consultation with Chiba, embarked on an inspection tour of Manchukuo in April 1940 to identify a potential site for the proposed settlement.

Christian bureaucrats within the Manchukuo colonial administration gave crucial support to the fledgling project. Upon his arrival, Mantetsu officials provided Horii with a special pass that enabled him to travel freely across the country.<sup>72</sup> After inspecting a number of settlements, Horii settled upon Shidōkō (Sidaogou), a mountainous valley near the city of Botankō (Mudanjiang) in eastern Manchuria, as the most suitable site. Kagawa, for his part, traveled separately to the capital city of Shinkyō in May to visit the Manchukuo Director of General Affairs Hoshino Naoki. Hoshino, the eldest son of an influential Christian minister originally from Gunma Prefecture, lectured Kagawa on the history of Manchuria. Drawing upon popular and scholarly theories that had been deployed to justify Japanese encroachment, Hoshino claimed that since Manchuria had never been under the strict control of the Han Chinese and was instead governed by a succession of Tungusic peoples (Goguryeo, Balhae, Jin, Liao), it was only natural for Japan to take its turn at ruling the region.<sup>73</sup> Such arguments undermined China's claims that Manchuria was part of its undisputed sovereign territory and framed the Japanese conquest as part of a longer historical cycle of foreign rule in the region. Kagawa did not speak during the meeting, only "[breaking] the silence with a periodic nod of his head."<sup>74</sup> Later, Kagawa linked up with Horii and Chiba to pay a courtesy call to Mantetsu president Ōmura Takuichi, a Christian graduate of the Sapporo Agricultural College who also expressed support for the settlement project on the grounds that it would help facilitate Japanese-Manchurian reconciliation (*yūwa*).<sup>75</sup> The idealism expressed by the Manchukuo Christian bureaucrats resonated with the vision of Kagawa and Horii, who saw the Christian Pioneer Village as a site through which they could enact their utopian dreams while contributing to the project of Japanese empire.

Despite support from certain bureaucrats, the planners of the Christian settlement remained cautious about the prospects of their project. After returning from Manchukuo, Kagawa and Horii gave a report on their findings to the Christian Pioneer Village Committee in Tokyo.<sup>76</sup> Upon reviewing a detailed settlement plan written up by Chiba, which included a breakdown of expenses based on land plots and agricultural revenue, the group decided on Shidōkō as the projected settlement site.<sup>77</sup> At the committee meeting, which took place on June 22, Horii relayed his impression that Mantetsu and Mantaku officials supported the Christian settlement because they felt "something was lacking" in the conventional settlement setup and were eager to

see an approach that was “radically different” (*kata yaburi*).<sup>78</sup> Horii insisted, however, that the “understanding and sympathy of a few individuals” did not guarantee the institutional support of the state, advising his colleagues to proceed with “caution and vigilance” as there remained many “political issues” that needed resolving.<sup>79</sup>

Following the meeting, the two main organizers went their separate ways. Kagawa headed west to speak at the memorial service for Yamamuro Gunpei (1872–1940), the former leader of the Japan Salvation Army who had recently passed away.<sup>80</sup> Kagawa, whose social reformism and close relations with the government bore strong similarities to those of Yamamuro’s, eulogized his friend and colleague at the service, calling him “a model social worker . . . and a model man of prayer.”<sup>81</sup> Horii, for his part, headed east to Ibaraki Prefecture to enroll in a course for settlement leaders at the Uchihara Training Center, established in 1934 as the only national facility specializing in the instruction of the Patriotic Youth Brigade and other Manchukuo-bound settlers.<sup>82</sup>

With the settlement site decided, the NCC stepped up its institutional recruitment efforts by publicizing the Christian Pioneer Village in its unofficial organ, *Kami no kuni shinbun* (Kingdom of God Weekly). The July 10 issue of *Kami no kuni shinbun*, which owed its existence to Kagawa’s Kingdom of God Movement of a decade earlier, carried special feature articles by a number of prominent Christians calling on their readers to consider signing up for the Pioneer Village. Horii, for example, played up the historic significance of the Manchurian settlement project, calling it “an unparalleled colonial mission” to “create a new life and a new culture.”<sup>83</sup> Emphasizing the unique role of his coreligionists, he claimed that previous settlement efforts had failed because they had been carried out by migrant laborers and capitalists who ventured abroad in pursuit of short-term profit, looking upon the local population merely as a target for exploitation. But Christians, Horii argued, would embrace the “Manchus [Manjin] as brothers,” thereby letting them know of “the true spirit of the Japanese people.”<sup>84</sup>

Such statements, while asserting the spiritual and moral utility of Christians within the context of utopian empire building, also had the effect of reinforcing state-sanctioned ethnic and political categories. Among Japanese colonists, Manjin—a compound word that might be translated as “Manchurian” (*man*) “people” (*jin*)—was the preferred term to refer to both ethnic Chinese and Manchus living in Manchuria.<sup>85</sup> The colonial state’s employment of this term, which



elided ethnic distinctions in favor of the place of Manchuria, along with narratives such as that told to Kagawa by the colonial official, which pointed to the region's lack of an indigenous people, helped to delegitimize Chinese claims of sovereignty over the region north of the Great Wall.<sup>86</sup> In an effort to align themselves with state policy, Christian leaders such as Horii made use of language favored by the colonial elite to justify Japan's imperial rule in a foreign land. Their patriotic paeans, which ran in *Kami no kuni shinbun* alongside news reports of Christian participation in official twenty-six hundredth anniversary events across the country, underlined the sense of imperial convergence during a year marked by ostentatious displays of national unity.<sup>87</sup>

Despite the public gestures of Christian integration with the empire, however, state support for the Manchurian Christian settlement had its limits. In the middle of his instruction course at the Uchi-hara Training Center, Horii received news from Chiba in Manchukuo that the proposed site for the Christian Pioneer Village would need to be repicked. Horii's suspicions regarding the institutional backing of the state had come true, as the proposed settlement site was met with opposition from military authorities. The Kwantung Army had turned down the Christians' application to build a settlement at Shidōkō, which they claimed was necessary for military use because of its proximity to the Soviet border.<sup>88</sup> The implication was that Christians could not be entrusted with land so close to hostile territory, as it gave rise to concerns over potential espionage.<sup>89</sup> Although such fears were unfounded, it was the Kwantung Army's opinion that mattered most when it came to matters of state policy in Manchukuo. The incident brought into focus the conflicting interests of Christians and the military, ultimately forcing the Christians to abandon their carefully laid plans and start over from scratch.

The settlement site debacle was illustrative of a wider moment of Japanese spy fears that reverberated across the empire and called into question the position of organizations with foreign affiliations. Acting on what they claimed to be "firm evidence" of espionage, the Japanese military police in Tokyo rounded up a group of British nationals on July 27—an act cheered on by patriotic newspaper headlines calling on the public to remain vigilant against foreign spies.<sup>90</sup> This affair seemed only to confirm Japanese suspicions, causing military authorities to widen their target of arrests not just to other areas of the archipelago but also to the colonies such as Korea and Manchukuo.<sup>91</sup> The British, in retaliation, arrested on August 2 the London managers of Mitsui



Bussan and Mitsubishi Shōji—two of Japan’s largest and most powerful international trading firms—followed by four more arrests of Japanese nationals in Singapore and Burma two days later, all on charges of suspected espionage.<sup>92</sup> While the diplomatic heads of Britain and Japan were able to defuse the situation by negotiating the release of the detained Japanese personnel, the incident nevertheless ignited a wave of strong anti-British public opinion in Japan, which manifested in a number of protests across the country.<sup>93</sup>

The outburst of anti-British sentiment fueled public antagonism toward Christian groups affiliated with foreign-based missions and organizations. In the aftermath of the spy incident, newspapers warned of foreign agents engaging in espionage under the guise of legal activity, citing missionaries and tourists as prime examples of such “invisible spies.”<sup>94</sup> At the time, the Konoe cabinet had just announced on July 26 a set of basic national policies (*kihon kokusaku yōkō*) that made the establishment of the so-called Greater East Asia Co-Prosperty Sphere an official government policy, thus adding to the sense of collective resistance against foreign intruders.<sup>95</sup> Shortly after the Cox affair, military police raided the headquarters of the Japan Salvation Army, placing a group of high-ranking officers under arrest on suspicion of espionage.<sup>96</sup> While nonreligious, foreign-based organizations such as the Rotary Club were targeted as well, the raid on the Salvation Army elicited the largest response, as it enjoyed a much higher public profile.<sup>97</sup>

The Salvation Army incident marked the shift from a cooperative to coercive relationship between the state and Christianity. The Salvation Army was a Methodist-derived international Protestant movement founded in Britain in 1865 that, after arriving in Japan in 1895, rose from relative obscurity to national recognition within the space of twelve years. Under the leadership of Yamamuro Gunpei, the group’s future territorial commander, the Salvation Army improved its public reputation by engaging in a series of social projects such as its antiprostitution campaign of 1900, support for wounded soldiers and prisoners of war during the Russo-Japanese War, and disaster relief following the Tōhoku famine of 1905.<sup>98</sup> By 1907 the Japanese state officially recognized the organization as a useful ally in its social reform efforts—a status highlighted when General William Booth, the founder and highest-ranking officer within the Salvationist hierarchy, was granted an audience with Emperor Meiji.<sup>99</sup> Good relations between the Salvation Army and the government ensued, with the

Army receiving a citation and stipend from the emperor for its social work every year beginning in 1918.<sup>100</sup> While enjoying a favorable standing with the Japanese establishment, however, the upper echelons of the worldwide Salvation Army remained in the control of Western (predominantly British) officers, marking it out as a potentially disloyal institution in the eyes of the public.<sup>101</sup> In a time when Anglo-Japanese relations had deteriorated to mutual hostility, as in 1940, this state of affairs came to be regarded as unacceptable by those in power.

The arrest and forced reorganization of the Salvation Army symbolized a key moment in the state-induced separation between Japanese Christian organizations and their foreign missionary counterparts. After Yamamuro's death, the state began its crackdown by swiftly banning his popular 1899 book, *The Common People's Gospel* (*Heimin no fukuin*), an introductory text to Christianity that Kagawa had praised as "my favorite book . . . a masterpiece of religious literature in the Meiji era."<sup>102</sup> The British spy incident also gave military police the pretext to carry out the previously mentioned July 31 raid on Salvation Army headquarters (which one paper called the "spy ring headquarters"), resulting in the arrest of several key British and Japanese officers.<sup>103</sup> After a week the detained individuals were released from custody under the condition that they drastically reform the command structure, including the cutting of ties with its London-based international headquarters. By the end of August, the Salvation "Army" (Kyūsei-gun) had agreed to change its name to Salvation Band (Kyūsei-dan)—as it was considered disloyal for any organization other than the Imperial Army to declare itself an "army"—stop the use of pseudo-military ranks, cut off official ties with the British headquarters (including the discontinuation of financial aid), and expel foreign personnel from all posts of its organization.<sup>104</sup>

Although the punishment did not go far enough in the eyes of certain patriotic observers, the fact that a group with such a long-standing record of imperial patronage could come under attack as a "spy ring" and be forced to sever ties with its foreign sponsors sent a clear message.<sup>105</sup> The system of benign noninterference that had been in place since the late Meiji period, in which the government allowed relative freedom to religious groups in exchange for their cooperation on spiritual and social issues, had come to an end under the logic of wartime national security. The new regime dictated that all potential sites of foreign influence, including Christian church organizations, be placed under the direct and exclusive control of the imperial state.

Kagawa's arrest by the military police, which closely followed the raid on the Salvation Army, likewise stemmed from his close ties with foreign missionaries and his pacifist image abroad. The military police had been monitoring Kagawa's activity for some time, with one of his missionary associates recalling that "the Government . . . was wont to place a gendarme at our gate" whenever the Japanese evangelist visited their Tokyo residence in the 1930s.<sup>106</sup> The Special Higher Police, known commonly as the Tokkō (short for Tokubetsu Kōtō Keisatsu), a Home Ministry operative that formed the other half of Japan's prewar thought-control apparatus, similarly used their nationwide network to surveil Kagawa.<sup>107</sup> The Tokkō noted, for example, the contents of a sermon he gave in Hyōgo Prefecture in May 1940. Tokkō officials flagged as "suspicious" Kagawa's pacifist commentary on the war situation in Asia and Europe: "We must wield our Christian spirit for the building of peace in East Asia, and also more broadly to save Europe's peoples from wiping each other out in the name of narrow self-interest."<sup>108</sup>

Three months later, on August 25, military police officers arrested him following a Sunday sermon at his home congregation, Matsuzawa Church, on charges that "a calendar published by an American religious group" was in violation of the Army Criminal Code (Rikugun Keihō).<sup>109</sup> The citation referred to the 1940 *Kagawa Calendar*, in which Mother Topping had attempted to promote the notion of brotherhood between China and Japan. She did so by reprinting Kagawa's 1934 public apology to China, alongside which she inserted a picture of Kagawa standing shoulder-to-shoulder with the Chinese Christian leader C. Y. Cheng. Underneath the picture was a statement from Cheng featuring the line: "Nothing can separate us from our Christian friends in Japan for the simple reason that we are all lovers of Jesus Christ."<sup>110</sup> While the text contained in the *Calendar* represented an earnest effort on the part of Mother Topping to help ease the tensions between Japan and China—to the point that the political message dwarfed the actual calendrical portion of the page—it is unlikely that Kagawa would have approved of the message being put out in this manner, given the heightened antforeign public opinion and the Japanese state's push to establish a united front on the Sino-Japanese War. Notwithstanding the issue of authorship, military authorities deemed the sympathetic message toward China, included in an English-language publication produced and circulated by American missionary workers, as dangerously seditious.

Kagawa's detention by the military police, which lasted for nineteen days, coincided with the beginning of a widespread removal of foreign influence from Christian institutions. On September 5, the Japanese heads of twelve prominent Christian universities—including Aoyama Gakuin, Doshisha University, Tokyo Woman's Christian University, Kantō Gakuin, Meiji Gakuin, and Kwansei Gakuin—gathered in Tokyo. In light of recent events, the assembled representatives proclaimed their intention of pursuing a “purely Japanese” (*jun Nihon*) form of Christian education. The group drafted a resolution, later adopted by the Christian Education League (Kiristuokyō Kyōiku Dōmei), a national organization representing sixty-six institutions of learning at the middle school, vocational school, and university levels, calling for the replacement of all foreign presidents, department heads, and section heads with Japanese administrators; the replacement of foreign faculty with Japanese instructors (within reason); the reorganization of schools as incorporated foundations (*zaidan hōjin*) with a majority Japanese board of directors; and the refusal of donations from mission organizations and other foreign sources.<sup>111</sup> The decision of the Christian schools, which formed one of the most visible markers of the Christian presence in Japanese society, upheld the principle of racial homogeneity and financial independence from foreign missions as a sign of their loyalty and adherence to the national policy. Their announcement followed closely on the heels of a decision by the Japan Episcopal Church (Nihon Seikōkai), one of the four major Protestant denominations, to sever relations with its foreign sponsors, as well as a series of meetings among the leaders of the Japanese Church to discuss a proposed religion-wide restructuring along similar lines.<sup>112</sup> Dubbed by one paper as “sayonara to Westerners,” the new, self-imposed policy of independence from foreign support represented a significant departure from the church's erstwhile embrace of ecumenism and cooperation with its missionary counterparts.<sup>113</sup>

The flurry of activity in the outside world contrasted with the quiet of Kagawa's solitary confinement. After his arrest on August 25, Kagawa was held at the Shibuya military police branch, with newspapers reporting on his alleged contribution of antiwar articles to “magazines issued by Christian organizations in the United States.”<sup>114</sup> Neither the authorities nor the press was able to comprehend that the *Kagawa Calendar* was, in fact, a publication produced by American missionaries based in Japan. His Japanese followers grew anxious when his detention stretched to over two weeks—a long time,

considering that the Salvation Army officers were released after six days—and reached out to Foreign Minister Matsuoka Yōsuke’s wife to try to get the minister to intervene on Kagawa’s behalf.<sup>115</sup> The plan seems to have worked, as Kagawa was shortly transferred to the Tokyo District Court for a preliminary hearing on September 11 and subsequently released two days later, when the judge decided not to press charges.<sup>116</sup>

In the wake of his arrest, Kagawa followed suit with the rest of the Christian establishment and publicly distanced himself from his previous international ties. After being freed, Kagawa issued a defense of his position through his personal magazine, insisting that although he was “sorry” for troubling the authorities in this difficult and busy time, he had nevertheless been “misunderstood” by the state.<sup>117</sup> He clarified his shift in stance, explaining that while he had adhered to the principle of “internationalism at all costs” (*kokusai renmei shijō shugi*) as long as Japan was a member of the League of Nations, once the Sino-Japanese War broke out he became an ardent supporter of the war. While admitting that the current war policy went against his ideals (*risō*), Kagawa rationalized his support for the state by pointing out that even the Bible forbade individuals from disobeying the laws of one’s country.<sup>118</sup> He thus fell back on a convenient passage from the Bible to justify his wartime patriotism—a stance that, according to his account, enabled him to be “at peace” with himself during long periods of solitude in detention, safe in the conviction that he would eventually be found innocent of wrongdoing.<sup>119</sup> By describing his “internationalism” in the past tense, Kagawa publicly distanced himself from his pacifist portrayal in the *Kagawa Calendar* and reaffirmed his commitment to the national cause.

Following his release, Kagawa ensconced himself on a small island in the Seto Inland Sea. Drained from his recent arrest, Kagawa announced his plan to go back to Kansai to recuperate and focus on his writing; a self-imposed exile that also entailed giving up some of his public responsibilities. This included his chairmanship of the Christian Pioneer Village Committee, which he relinquished to Matsuyama Tsunejirō, a layman politician and Diet member serving as the vice minister of the Navy Ministry.<sup>120</sup> He also ended the eighteen-year run of his personal magazine, *Kumo no hashira*, the final issue (October 1940) of which opened with an homage to the twenty-six hundredth anniversary celebrations. Ironically, his worshipful tribute to the emperor—whom he extolled as a “peerless sovereign” who had

displayed the “utmost benevolence toward his people”—was flagged for deletion by censors because of his suggestion that the Japanese monarchy had been brought into being, as were all other things in the universe, by a work of God—a bold assertion seen by censorship authorities as tantamount to *lèse-majesté*.<sup>121</sup>

The state's disapproval of his Christian interpretation of the Japanese polity recalled an earlier incident during the same year, when Kagawa was one of over three thousand participants at a Christian rally in Tokyo, held on the eve of a holiday (Jimmu Tennōsai, held on April 3) commemorating Emperor Jimmu, the mythical founder of the nation. When asked to address the crowd at the event, Kagawa's speech was unexpectedly greeted by boos and hisses from anti-Christian agitators, a group Kagawa judged to be composed of “the same kind of people who had gone after the Salvation Army.”<sup>122</sup> Such incidents underscored the sense that whenever Christians tried to demonstrate their loyalty to the nation, their efforts were either misunderstood or deliberately rejected by the state and public. Kagawa, perhaps tired of all the thankless posturing, sought temporary refuge from the world of politics by retreating to Teshima, a secluded island off the coast of Okayama where he had been building a tuberculosis sanatorium since 1938.<sup>123</sup>

Kagawa's arrest by authorities put pressure on the rest of Japan's Christian leaders, who were left to deal with the imminent question of how to comply with the Religious Organizations Law. Under the new law, all religious groups were mandated to obtain official recognition from the Ministry of Education in order to continue with their activities by submitting a detailed dossier outlining the doctrines, rituals, evangelistic methods, and financial profile of their organization. If any of the above were deemed a threat to “public order and security” (*annei chitsujo*) or in violation of one's “duties as a subject” (*shinmin taru no gimu*)—criteria over which the education minister exercised sole jurisdiction—the state could restrict or revoke the official recognition and privileges granted to the group in question.<sup>124</sup> On top of the new law, the Ministry of Education issued an administrative order allowing only those Christian groups possessing a minimum of fifty churches with a total membership of at least five thousand to apply for official, independent recognition. Of the twenty-three denominations in the NCC at the time, only seven met these criteria, giving the smaller groups no chance for institutional survival except through the formation of a union with the larger denominations.<sup>125</sup> Although many member churches of the NCC were initially reluctant to undertake

the steps needed to comply with the new law, the subsequent administrative order and the events of the summer made clear the state's aim of consolidating its control over religious activity and its willingness to resort to urgent measures to compel obedience if necessary.<sup>126</sup> As Kozaki Michio (1888–1973), leader of the Tokyo Congregational churches, explained in an interview with the *Japan Times*, the “arrest of some of the leading members of the Japanese Salvation Army . . . and the detention of Dr. Toyohiko Kagawa [dealt] a great blow to the churches here.”<sup>127</sup> The government's crackdown on two of the most recognizable Christian institutions and individuals in Japan galvanized the NCC into action, compelling the latter to commit to church union as the path forward, with an official pledge to be made at the group's much-anticipated national convention in October.

True to its name, the 2600th Imperial Anniversary National Christian Conference (Kōki 2600-nen Hōshuku Zenkoku Kirisutokyō Shinto Taikai) was a momentous undertaking that showcased the Japanese Church's zealous celebration of the imperial state. Four hundred members of the NCC, who were further subdivided into eleven subcommittees, prepared for the event.<sup>128</sup> Held on the campus of Aoyama Gakuin on October 17, the date for the event was chosen because of its significance as a holiday marking the imperial harvest festival (Kannamesai).<sup>129</sup> As the attendees—of which there were to be over twenty thousand—walked onto the grounds, each was handed a special celebratory badge (*hōshuku bajji*) to be worn on one's chest. The morning program began with an opening statement by Tomita Mitsuru (1883–1961), a Presbyterian minister a few years ahead of Kagawa at Meiji Gakuin who mixed Christian religion with imperial worship: “We must be forever grateful to our Heavenly Father for blessing us with the 2600 years of glorious history that we are here to celebrate today.”<sup>130</sup> A number of speeches and sermons followed, each paying tribute to both the Christian God and the Japanese emperor, at times calling upon the former to offer blessings on the latter.<sup>131</sup>

The afternoon program was even richer in political symbolism, beginning with an address by Kozaki Michio, the vice chairman of the conference organizing committee. Kozaki praised the progress that Japanese Christianity had made in gaining societal recognition as an officially sanctioned leader of moral suasion. Next came the proclamation of the climactic conference declaration (*taikai sengen*), wherein the assembled representatives publicly pledged their intention of pursuing a union of all the nation's Protestant denominations, after



which a fifteen-hundred-person choir performed a celebratory song accompanied by the Salvation Band brass band.<sup>132</sup> The proxy recitations of congratulatory messages from Prime Minister Konoe (read aloud by the newly appointed chairman of the Christian Pioneer Village Committee, Matsuyama Tsunejirō); Minister of Education Hashida Kunihiko; governor of Tokyo, Okada Shūzō; and mayor of Tokyo, Ōkubo Tomejirō, further emphasized Christianity's sense of oneness with the imperial state. Congratulatory telegrams from churches across the empire and the overseas diaspora—including the Manchurian Christian Church Alliance (Manshū Kirisutokyō Rengōkai), the North American Southern California Christian Church League (Hokubei Nan-Ka Kirisutokyōkai Renmei), the North American Southern California Christian Women's Alliance (Hokubei Nan-Ka Kirisutokyō Fujinkai Dōmei), the Mengjiang Society for the Promotion of Christianity (Mōkyō Kirisutokyō Sokushinkai), and the North Hamgyong Province Hoeryong Christian Church in Korea (Chōsen Hamgyongbukdo Hoeryong Yasokyōkai)—were also noted, though not read out in their entirety because of time constraints.<sup>133</sup> Finally, Hibiki Nobusuke, a well-regarded Christian general who had served in the Imperial Army during the Russo-Japanese War, led the crowd in three cheers of "Banzai!" thus drawing the conference to a resounding close.<sup>134</sup>

The New Order Movement and the twenty-six hundredth anniversary celebrations in 1940 provided an overtly nationalistic framework through which Japanese subjects expressed their imperial and spiritual aspirations. Japanese Christians seized the opportunity to participate enthusiastically in this moment of imperial apogee through the Christian Pioneer Village scheme and their own elaborate celebratory convention. Kagawa, who began the year on a high note by laying out his Christian vision for a Manchurian utopia in his novel, was subsequently sidelined through his detention by the military police. His arrest, which came shortly after the high-profile roundup of the Japan Salvation Army, stemmed from a moment of antforeignism that fed off the heightened sense of national unity and solidarity accompanying the year's momentous festivities. The resultant pressure from the government to create an exclusively "Japanese" church accelerated the movement for consolidation, which Christian leaders increasingly saw as the only solution to meeting the demands posed by the Religious Organizations Law. While the national convention on October 17 ceremoniously signaled the Christians' intent to survive under the New Order by forging ahead with the merger, the construction of "God's



Kingdom” in the empire of Japan would prove an elusive goal in which the shifting parameters of approval were constantly dictated by powers beyond their control.

#### EFFORTS TO AVERT A U.S.-JAPAN CONFRONTATION

In the early months of 1941, two teams of Christians, each entrusted with a distinct mission, set off from Japan in opposite directions. The first group, consisting of six unheralded men ranging in age from their early twenties to late forties, headed west from the port of Niigata to the port of Rajin in northern Korea. Once arriving in Korea, itself under Japanese rule, they traveled by railroad to the Manchurian city of Harbin and from there, via horse-drawn cart to the nearby village of Chōreishi (Changlingzi). At the helm of this party was Horii Junji, the leader of the Christian Pioneer Village of which he and his five colleagues were to become the first official settlers—a significant event marking the momentous first steps in the Christians’ material contribution to the expansion of Japan’s imperial realm.

The second group, in contrast, represented the Japanese Christian elite: a delegation of seven church leaders, including Kagawa, who traveled eastward to the United States to confer with their American counterparts in Riverside, California, over how they might overcome the religious and political issues standing between their two countries. The passage of the Religious Organizations Law and the subsequent events of 1940 had undermined the position of foreign missionaries in Japan, whose removal from positions of power within Christian institutions was seen as the necessary first step toward the creation of a church union that was truly “Japanese.” To make matters worse, a diplomatic impasse had beset U.S.-Japan relations over their conflicting interests in China and Southeast Asia—a delicate situation that gave rise to the specter of war in the Pacific. Despite possessing only a vague agenda and little in the way of political bargaining power, the Japanese deputation was eagerly welcomed by its American hosts, who remained optimistic that the transpacific religious conference would “serve to strengthen the bonds of peace” and “dispel the war clouds over the Pacific.”<sup>135</sup>

The near-simultaneous departure of these two missions—one to the state of Manchukuo, the heart of the Japanese colonial empire, and the other to the shores of Japan’s larger and more powerful Pacific neighbor, which denied the legitimacy of that very state—encapsulated

the conflicted position of Christians at this critical juncture. On the one hand, they were beholden to the political demands of the Japanese government and did their best to demonstrate their usefulness to the imperial cause. On the other hand, they also felt an obligation to the missionaries who had helped to support their church since its infancy and were keen to show they were not suddenly and ungraciously brushing off their former benefactors in a fit of patriotic zeal. In short, Christians found themselves occupying a highly ambivalent position, stuck between their nationalist and internationalist allegiances.

Yet they did not consider the two mutually incompatible. In their minds, fulfilling their duties as loyal citizens by contributing to the building of a utopian paradise in Manchuria and remaining connected to world Christendom by seeking a cooperative solution to their changing relationship with foreign missionaries were both natural outgrowths of their hybrid identity as Japanese Christians. Kagawa embodied this duality in a unique way, as he was the only individual to have played a key role in both undertakings. He and his coreligionists' efforts to avert war in the Pacific, however, proved insufficient in the face of geopolitical realities. Once their government opted for war against the United States, the path of pacifist internationalism was irreversibly foreclosed, leaving support for imperial war as the only viable option available to Japanese Christians.

Christians' direct connections with influential foreign powers granted them a degree of freedom that did not exist for other religionists. While the Religious Organizations Law signaled the Japanese state's intent to closely monitor the activity of religious groups, any overt actions on the part of the government to restrict the freedom to practice Christianity ran the risk of damaging its international standing. This may be why the Japanese state, despite its strong distrust toward foreign missionaries, never issued a formal law or directive to expel them from the country. It relied instead on extralegal measures such as surveillance and arrests by the military and Tokkō police, which in many cases were enough to induce the voluntary withdrawal of missionaries from churches and schools. Such informal measures, however, had a limited scope and introduced some freedom for maneuvering for those Japanese Christians who, despite the unfavorable circumstances, were keen to maintain a working relationship with their missionary counterparts. The implementation of the Religious Organizations Law, in other words, while encouraging the independence of Japanese churches from foreign support, also created

an opportunity for Japanese Christians such as Kagawa to cultivate a sense of transpacific solidarity with their American coreligionists. Their diplomatic overtures, as embodied in the aforementioned delegation, exhibited a desire to maintain friendly ties with the United States and formed one part of a number of efforts to avert war in the Pacific—until all were too late.

The nationalistic atmosphere that prevailed in Japan in late 1940 began to make the lives of North American missionaries difficult. Some left voluntarily, as in the case of C. J. L. Bates, a Canadian Methodist missionary who had served as the president of Kwansei Gakuin for twenty years. In his August 5 resignation announcement, Bates, who was a member of the Kagawa Cooperators group in Japan, cited his old age and the recent “intensification of national strain . . . [which] indicate[d] that the officially recognized head of the Kwansei Gakuin should be a Japanese” as his reasons for retirement.<sup>136</sup> Other groups, such as the Japan Episcopal Church, created a situation in which foreign bishops were compelled to resign.<sup>137</sup> In a September 2 meeting at the Tokyo YMCA, 120 Japanese church heads unanimously agreed that all constituent bodies of the NCC should henceforth forgo financial aid from foreign mission boards.<sup>138</sup> The question of foreign personnel and missionary withdrawal, however, was set aside for the time being.

A developing political crisis further complicated the religious situation. The Japanese invasion of French Indochina on September 22 and the signing of the Tripartite Act on September 27, which marked Japan’s entry into the Axis alliance with Germany and Italy, severely strained U.S.-Japan relations. Apprehensive over the potential outbreak of conflict in the Pacific, the U.S. State Department ordered its consulates in East Asia on October 8 to advise all American nationals to evacuate from the Japanese empire as soon as possible.<sup>139</sup> This “Far Eastern crisis,” as some papers called it, precipitated a brief stock market crash, along with a frantic rush among American expatriates to liquidate their overseas assets and book a trip back home, causing reservations for passenger liners between the two countries to fill up rapidly.<sup>140</sup> Such developments became another factor that drove foreign missionaries away from Japan.

Preparations for the Protestant church union, meanwhile, gained momentum after the twenty-six hundredth anniversary celebration on October 17, 1940. In a series of conferences following the national convention, the NCC set up a church union preparatory committee

(*kyōkai gōdō junbi iinkai*), which met a total of eight times over the course of six months to work out the details of the transition. While the union was initially conceived of as a single church with a unitary creed, it soon became clear that achieving this would require such drastic compromises to each constituent body's institutional and liturgical structure as to make it virtually impossible.<sup>141</sup> The committee instead devised a bloc system (*busei*), in which thirty-four Protestant denominations (comprising a total of 240,000 members) were grouped into eleven different blocs—each of which contained anywhere from one to seven denominations that theoretically shared some basic doctrinal similarities. The constituent churches of the Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan (United Church of Christ in Japan; hereafter Kyōdan), as the new union was to be called, were set to be merged at the group's founding ceremony and inaugural general body meeting in June of the following year. The new organization was to be a fully native church—or conglomeration of churches—funded and administered independently of foreign support.

Japanese Christian leaders, while obeying the Religious Organizations Law by setting out to achieve formal financial and administrative autonomy, also made an effort to retain religious ties with their American peers during the transition. On October 12 and November 12, Abe Yoshimune, bishop of the Japan Methodist Church and one of the key leaders of the church union, sent a letter inviting Bishop James C. Baker and R. E. Diffendorfer of the American Methodist Church to visit Japan on account of recent developments. Conscious of the questions that had been raised in international circles regarding the future status of missionary work in Japan, Abe emphasized the spirit of continued collaboration, asking his interlocutors to “re-assure our friends in America that our understanding and cooperation must never be loosened in any way.”<sup>142</sup> Baker and Diffendorfer accepted the invitation to embark on a month-long tour of Japan and Korea early in the new year.

At this point the fate of the foreign missionary in Japan was poised at a precarious crossroads. According to an estimate by the Fellowship of Christian Missionaries in Japan, nearly one-third of the approximately 750 Protestant missionaries in Japan proper had chosen to leave by the end of 1940, with more departures scheduled in the upcoming months.<sup>143</sup> The larger missions—including the Congregationalists, Baptists, and Methodists—announced that they would be retaining many of their adult male workers while sending home most

of the women and children. Certain missions decided to transfer their personnel in Japan to other outposts in Asia. The Seventh Day Adventists, for example, announced the transfer of their Japan missionaries to the Philippines.<sup>144</sup> Still others withdrew entirely, with many of their long-serving members departing on a note of regret.<sup>145</sup>

The Toppings also left Japan, but only as a temporary reprieve during the winter months. The elderly couple departed Tokyo on December 7 to visit Helen in Manila, where she had been promoting the cooperative movement since early 1940.<sup>146</sup> Although Mother Topping had, in spite of Kagawa's arrest, attempted to publish a special issue of the *Kagawa Calendar* for the upcoming year (1941) under the new title "Kagawa Lantern," the material was confiscated by the authorities before it could be published.<sup>147</sup> The *Kagawa Calendar* would not be published again until after the war. Such pressures notwithstanding, the Toppings did not intend to retreat to the United States like many of their compatriots. They instead represented the small minority of missionaries who decided to stay put in Japan amid all the signs of crisis.

While the Japanese Church dealt with the internal and external repercussions of the church union, preparations for the Christian Pioneer Village proceeded apace. Forced to find a new settlement site to replace Shidōkō, Horii and his team identified Chōreishi—an area on the outskirts of the central city of Harbin—as a suitable alternative. Referring to the anticipated Chōreishi settlement as Matthew Village (Matai Mura) in the paperwork, the committee submitted a new application to the Manchukuo authorities on October 3.<sup>148</sup> Nine days later, the committee applied for a financial subsidy from the Tokyo Prefectural Government for the purposes of training prospective settlers at the Musashino Training Center (Musashino Kunrenjo), a rural facility in Karasuyama (western Tokyo) originally built by Kagawa as a Farmers' Gospel School (Nōmin Fukuin Gakkō) to teach Christianity to aspirant youth, now repurposed as a training center for the Christian Pioneer Village.<sup>149</sup> New advertisements in the second *Kami no kuni shinbun* special feature on November 13 aimed to attract more recruits by broadening the eligibility requirements for potential settlers to include those from nonfarming backgrounds.<sup>150</sup> Despite the less stringent requirements, the public response was not great, with fewer than twenty applicants initially signing up for what was intended to be a fifty-household settlement.<sup>151</sup> Many were former employees of small- and medium-sized businesses looking for

a second chance after having lost their jobs due to the consolidation of the urban industrial sector. Their lack of farming experience was a source of concern for the planners.<sup>152</sup>

The lead-up to the departure of the first wave of settlers illustrated the degree to which the Christian Pioneer Village had been institutionalized within the larger apparatus of the Manchukuo colonization project. At every step—from deciding on a settlement site and departure date to the setting up of a training center—the committee submitted formal requests notifying the relevant government authorities of its intention and asking for their permission.<sup>153</sup> Kagawa, who had been out of the public eye since his retreat to Teshima in mid-September, returned to Tokyo briefly to help out with the training of settlers. He gave a series of lectures on “Cooperative Theory” (*Kyōdō kumiai ron*) and “Manchurian Petrology” (*Manshū gansekigaku*) between December 2 and 5 before heading back to Kansai and engaging in fundraising activities on behalf of the Pioneer Village in Osaka on December 14–15.<sup>154</sup> The first class of trainees graduated on December 20. A six-man advance party, which was to be chosen from their ranks, was slated to depart for Manchukuo pending approval from the authorities. On the final day of their training, a small ceremony was held at the Musashino Training Center that once again manifested the trappings of Christian integration with the imperial state, beginning with paying respects to the Imperial Palace (*kyūjō yōhai*) and singing the national anthem (*kimi ga yo*) and ending with singing Christian hymns and praying collectively.<sup>155</sup>

The January 1941 visit of the American Methodists underscored the difficult situation of Japanese Christians while reaffirming their commitment to the ideals of liberal internationalism. Baker and Diefendorfer, the American delegates, consulted with a wide variety of religious and political figures during their month-long stay, including Abe, Kagawa, Foreign Minister Matsuoka Yōsuke, and U.S. ambassador Joseph Grew (1880–1965). Following their trip they filed a report to the Methodist Board of Missions detailing the “new national structure” of “totalitarianism” that prevailed in Japan, the antiforeign slant of which caused Japanese Christians to feel as though they were “fighting with [their] backs to the wall.”<sup>156</sup> Heeding Grew’s advice that they were “assuming a grave responsibility” by having their missionaries remain in Japan, the two recommended that the Methodist Board order all its nonessential personnel to evacuate the country immediately while leaving open the possibility that they might be “invited back

on a new basis” once the political situation settled down.<sup>157</sup> At the same time, Baker and Diffendorfer sympathized with the Japanese situation and noted “multiple evidences of the desire” on the part of their Japanese counterparts “to maintain fellowship and good will with Christians of other lands, ‘whatever happens.’”<sup>158</sup> They did not agree on all issues—as was made clear in the Americans’ unease over the Japanese Christians’ support for what they viewed as “Japanese aggression in China.”<sup>159</sup> Baker and Diffendorfer, however, were sufficiently moved by the Japanese plight to suggest, in an act of reciprocity, giving “kindly treatment” to those Japanese living in America who were “bound to face increasing difficulties” in the upcoming months and called for continued “agitation” for the repeal of the 1924 Immigration Act—a longtime project of the missionaries that symbolized the internationalist solidarity of U.S. and Japanese Christians.<sup>160</sup>

Following the Methodists’ visit, American and Japanese church leaders agreed to hold a follow-up conference in the United States in an attempt to demonstrate their fellowship in a time of crisis. Japanese Christians quickly seized upon the idea of sending a religious embassy to the United States. In early February the NCC submitted an official resolution to the Federal Council of Churches of Christ in America (FCC), proposing a meeting of church leaders from both countries to deliberate on the issues brought up by the Religious Organizations Law. American church representatives responded positively, extending a formal invitation to meet in Riverside, California, during the week following Easter.<sup>161</sup>

The NCC’s embassy to the United States, conceived in the hopes of preserving friendly international relations with its Pacific neighbor, stood in contrast with another Christian overseas mission that preceded it by only a month. This group, the advance party (*senkentai*) of the Christian Pioneer Village, had the distinctive aim of contributing to the expansion of the Japanese empire by “settling” its Manchurian frontier. Their departure, as was the case for much of their preparation, followed the institutional procedures of Manchukuo colonization that had become well established by this time. Following a grand send-off ceremony held at the Reinanzaka Church the night before, the six-man advance party stopped by the Imperial Palace on the morning of February 1 to pay their respects. It had become customary for all organized settlement groups to make this stop—and to photograph the occasion—before setting off on their continental journeys. Even the dates of their itinerary were planned in such a way



to demonstrate their loyalty to the empire, as the party was scheduled to enter the grounds of their settlement site in Chōreishi on February 11, the Kigensetsu holiday that marked the ascension of the legendary Emperor Jimmu to the imperial throne.<sup>162</sup>

Meanwhile, concerned officials within the Japanese government helped to secure approval for the NCC deputation. Fukuda Tokuyasu, an editor of the English-language government weekly *Tokyo Gazette* at the Information Bureau, and his older colleague Kakei Mitsuaki, former director of the Japanese YMCA and onetime leader of the Student Christian Movement, were two bureaucrats worried about Japan's deteriorating relations with the United States. Having agreed that normal diplomatic channels were no longer sufficient and pessimistic about their chances to turn the war tide in Japan, they decided instead to call upon the services of a private citizen who could arouse pacifist sentiment in America. To that end, Kakei, who had seen Kagawa preach to an enthralled audience at the Twentieth World's Conference of the YMCA held in Cleveland some ten years earlier, promptly recommended him as the only man for the job. Although Kagawa had been under constant surveillance since his 1940 arrest, the two officials were able to convince the government to allow his Pacific passage under the condition that he go as part of the NCC's religious embassy and refrain from engaging in any political activities.<sup>163</sup> The Japanese Christian Fellowship Deputation (Nichi-Bei Kirisutokyō Heiwa Shisetsudan), which now included Kagawa among its members, thus made ready to depart for the United States.

The collaborative efforts between Japanese officials and religionists testified to the freedom of maneuvering enjoyed by private religious individuals despite the challenging circumstances. In arranging what was from their perspective the "Kagawa Mission," Fukuda and Kakei took pains to ensure that the trip would not be called off on political grounds.<sup>164</sup> It was pure fortune that Japanese Christian leaders had been planning a religious embassy to the United States on their own, as it provided a convenient cover against the "militarists and ardent war hawks" who would otherwise have tried to stop the pacifist Kagawa from going to America by citing a political motive.<sup>165</sup> The fact that such an embassy was possible in the first place illustrates the extra consideration given to religious leaders in times of crisis, as well as the privileged status enjoyed by Christians when it came to foreign relations.

Interestingly, they were not the only well-intentioned, private agents seeking to better U.S.-Japan relations during this period. At



roughly the same time as the formation of the Japanese Christian embassy, a binational group including an American Maryknoll priest, a Japanese banker, and an Imperial Army colonel set out independently to attempt to prevent the outbreak of war in the Pacific. Although their efforts were also, at least in part, religiously inspired, they were unique in that their mode of intervention was purely political. By leveraging their network of governmental contacts, the so-called John Doe Associates attempted to achieve their objective by trying, unsuccessfully, to influence the course and contents of top-level diplomatic talks between the American secretary of state Cordell Hull (1871–1955) and the newly appointed Japanese ambassador Nomura Kichisaburō (1877–1964).<sup>166</sup> The Japanese Christian Fellowship Deputation, in contrast, restricted themselves to strictly religious dialogue and negotiations.

The visit by the Japanese delegates was met with great anticipation in the United States, where news of the missionary exodus from Japan had aroused suspicion in the minds of many churchgoers. Even prior to their arrival, the embassy received a boost from a cable sent by 190 American missionaries in Japan to the FCC, appealing to U.S. Christians to “avoid a break in American-Japanese relations.”<sup>167</sup> As word of the impending conference spread, some observers began to question the motive of the delegation members, asking whether they carried, “either secretly or openly, mandates from their [government].”<sup>168</sup> The overwhelming sentiment, however, was one of optimism, as can be seen in a letter addressed to the NCC deputation by one American who expressed his views through reference to the popular pacifist imagery of transforming weapons into daily tools: “We pray that your coming, which is shrouded in an atmosphere of war and rumors of wars, may speed the day when swords shall be beaten into plowshares and spears into pruning hooks.”<sup>169</sup>

The Riverside Conference turned out to be a successful public relations tour for the Japanese Church. The much-anticipated meeting took place at the historic Mission Inn in Riverside, California, where the representatives—eight on the Japanese side and sixteen on the American side—convened from April 20 to 25. After presenting their hosts with a fifteen-foot picture scroll inscribed with the names of those praying for the meeting’s success back in Japan, the Japanese delegates opened the proceedings by addressing the issue of Christians paying homage at Shintō shrines, which had been seen by outside observers as a potential perversion of religious practice. The explanation given by the Japanese delegates—that this was merely a

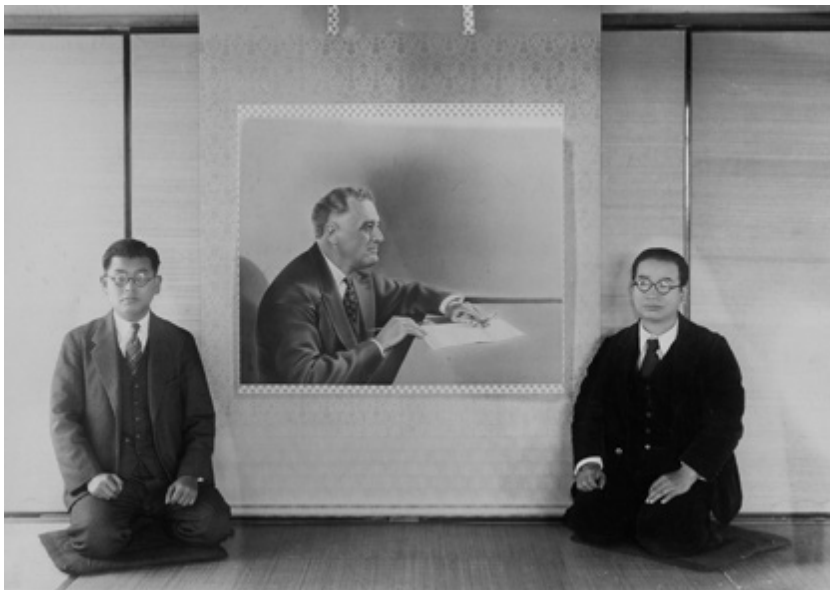
patriotic gesture and by no means implied a spiritual obeisance to the religion of Shintō—seemed to satisfy the Americans for the most part, who replied that Japanese Christians should have the right to determine for themselves whether such an act was appropriate.<sup>170</sup> Regarding the crucial issue of church union, the Japanese delegates claimed that their government had no intention of interfering with religious practice and maintained that the union was the outcome of a long-standing desire on the part of Japanese leaders to place their church on self-sufficient footing. Whether this was strictly true or not, their reassurances that foreign missionaries would continue to have a place under the new Kyōdan system as evangelists, if not executives, was welcomed by the Americans, who were happy to scale back their overseas responsibilities as long as they knew their hand was not being forced by the Japanese government.<sup>171</sup>

In terms of providing a concrete basis toward decreasing the diplomatic tensions between the United States and Japan, however, the meeting proved less successful. Because of the religious nature of the conference, delegates on both sides were reluctant to raise any serious political issues—such as their divergent views on Japan's war with China—and resorted to offering each other vague pledges of fellowship and affirmations of “mutual trust” and “renewed faith.”<sup>172</sup> While such sentiments did mark an improvement over the general atmosphere of apprehension and uncertainty that had previously pervaded the relations between the two nations' church leaders, it also did little to identify a realistic path toward peace. Yet those present at the meeting seemed more than satisfied with the outcome. William Axling, despite being an American missionary, participated as a member of the Japanese delegation, claiming that the “Riverside conference surpassed [his] highest expectations” and highlighting the unusual display of solidarity by “two hundred Los Angeles American clergymen” who passed a “unanimous resolution expressing sincere felicitations” for the Japanese emperor Hirohito, whose April 29 birthday—and the national holiday named in its honor (Tenchōsetsu)—happened to fall shortly after the conclusion of the Christian conference.<sup>173</sup>

Kagawa, for his part, did his best to extract more than a symbolic victory during his stay in the United States. Following the Riverside Conference, most members of the Japanese deputation went on to attend additional church conferences in Atlantic City from May 9 to 11 and in Chicago from May 29 to 31 before departing for Japan on June 15. This was to ensure that the delegates could return to Japan

in time to attend the founding ceremony and inaugural general body meeting of the Kyōdan on June 24. Kagawa, however, operated on a separate schedule, choosing to miss the Kyōdan ceremonies so he could stay in the United States until mid-August, filling speaking engagements around the country in an attempt to drum up goodwill toward Japan. He spoke almost daily to crowds numbering in the hundreds, filling churches and auditoriums from Los Angeles to Boston.<sup>174</sup>

Kagawa also made a hopeful overture for peace to President Roosevelt by sending him a scroll portrait of the American president, which had been prepared by the Japanese artist Hayashi Tobun prior to his departure (figure 3.1). Along with the portrait, he included a personal letter that referenced the entry permit that Roosevelt had given him in 1935, when Kagawa had been detained by immigration authorities at the start of his previous U.S. tour, using the occasion to express his desire for “ever-lasting international good-will between our countries and for world peace at this difficult time.”<sup>175</sup> While the portrait, which was presented to Ambassador Grew prior to being sent to the White House, was acknowledged as received by Roosevelt’s



*Figure 3.1.* Kagawa (*right*) and artist Hayashi Tobun with a 1941 portrait of FDR, painted by the latter. *Source:* “Roosevelt Pictures & Kagawa,” 1/4/9, UTS

private secretary on April 25, it is unclear whether the president took any special note of it.<sup>176</sup>

On the West Coast, Japanese American groups continued to show their support for Kagawa's cause. The Japanese American press eagerly reported his arrival as part of the Japanese Christian Fellowship Deputation in early April and notified its readers of his post-Riverside Conference schedule, a significant portion of which he spent among the Japanese American community in California.<sup>177</sup> On April 27, for example, he gave an early morning talk in Japanese and English to the Friends of Jesus prayer circle—which, the article noted, he had “founded . . . some 16 years ago”—followed by an afternoon lecture titled “The Victory of the Cross” that he delivered to a “combined Caucasian and Nisei group” at Occidental College.<sup>178</sup> Throughout his subsequent appearances, Kagawa stressed the necessity of Christianity and the application of the principle of redemptive love in dealing with the uncertain conditions of the world.<sup>179</sup> His supporters, who spoke of him as “an influence for good wherever he goes,” responded by forming more local prayer groups and boosting sales for his latest book, titled *Behold the Man* (1941), the English translation of a novel on the life of Jesus that had been released in Japan two years earlier.<sup>180</sup> For Kagawa, as was the case for his fellow compatriots, religion formed the cornerstone of a liberal internationalist worldview that made the outbreak of war between his country and the U.S. unthinkable.<sup>181</sup>

At the same time, he recognized that faith alone might not be enough to stem the war tide, prompting him to engage in public diplomacy behind the scenes. From July 1 to 5, Kagawa made contact with E. Stanley Jones (1884–1973), a prominent American Methodist missionary to India who was a close confidant of President Roosevelt, at a YMCA camp at Lake Geneva. The two, being old friends, met frequently during the camp.<sup>182</sup> Jones recalled one occasion when “we rose at an early hour and went to the lakeside to wait on God, to see if we could see any light on the tremendous question as to whether China and Japan could be reconciled.” Having witnessed firsthand the brutality of war in East Asia and eager to find some basis for peace, Jones asked Kagawa under what conditions would Japan agree to a settlement, to which the latter replied, “Political and territorial integrity for China.”<sup>183</sup> Kagawa went on to mention that what Japan really needed was “a place for her surplus population” in an area “warm enough for her to take off her coat” and suggested New Guinea as a possibility.<sup>184</sup>

This speculative suggestion would go on to play a role in Prime Minister Konoe's last-minute efforts for a peaceful settlement between Japan and America.

After attending a weeklong Christian summer institute in Terminal Island, Los Angeles, and an eventful sea voyage that further enhanced his reputation as a "hero" of the commoners, Kagawa returned to a Japan whose leadership was sharply divided.<sup>185</sup> Diplomatic talks between Nomura and Hull had fallen into a state of stalemate since the August 1 embargo of U.S. oil and gasoline exports to Japan, which incited the talk of war among military hard-liners. Despite such circumstances, however, Prime Minister Konoe held out hope for a negotiated settlement with the United States. Facing stiff opposition from the military clique in the government led by General Tōjō Hideki (1884–1948), Konoe sought to arrange a secret summit with the American president, thereby avoiding any confrontation between him and the rest of his cabinet until the necessary arrangements were in place. At an Imperial Conference on September 6 with the cabinet and military leadership, Emperor Hirohito reiterated the precedence of diplomacy, giving Konoe one month to reach a settlement with the United States. Konoe wasted no time on this duty, asking Ambassador Grew to make a final and direct appeal to President Roosevelt for a summit meeting. The prime minister also prevailed upon Arima Yoriyasu (1884–1957), his former minister of agriculture who happened to know Kagawa, to set up a meeting with the Japanese Christian leader. During the meeting, which took place at Count Arima's residence in Nishi-Ogikubo, Tokyo, Kagawa received direct instructions from Konoe to contact his friends in America to help bring about the coveted summit meeting. Kagawa immediately sent telegrams to five individuals: President Roosevelt, Vice President Henry Wallace, John Mott, E. Stanley Jones, and John Foster Dulles.<sup>186</sup>

Of this mixed group of statesmen and religious leaders, only Jones responded to Kagawa's request for help. On September 17, Jones arranged a meeting with Assistant Secretary of State Dean Acheson and Far Eastern Affairs Division Chief Maxwell Hamilton, where he presented the suggestion to offer New Guinea to Japan in exchange for the withdrawal of Japanese troops from China and Southeast Asia, specifically indicating that the idea originated from Kagawa.<sup>187</sup> This recommendation was eventually shaped into an official proposal by Hamilton and forwarded to Secretary of State Hull, to no great

effect.<sup>188</sup> Undeterred, Kagawa broadened his peace offensive by reaching out to his Japanese American constituents, sending messages such as the September 30 cable received by the San Francisco Methodist Church: "It is imperative that we overcome the impending crisis in the Pacific and preserve peace. Have special prayers for leaders of both nations. Doing my utmost here."<sup>189</sup>

Kagawa and Jones worked for peace until the very end. In addition to the meeting with the State Department officials, Jones, a trusted adviser of President Roosevelt, was granted a direct audience with the president on December 3. During this meeting Jones related to Roosevelt the news that several Japanese envoys, desperate in their desire to avoid a war with the United States, had requested the president send a personal cable to Emperor Hirohito in a final attempt to preserve peace.<sup>190</sup> This was seemingly the only option left to stop the war party that had taken over the Japanese government following Konoe's resignation on October 18.<sup>191</sup> Jones furthermore informed the president that he had, since the beginning of December, been keeping a seven-day, around-the-clock vigil of prayer at the Epiphany Episcopal Church in Washington, DC, and had invited his friends in China, Australia, and Japan to join in the efforts. Kagawa, responding to Jones's call, organized a vigil at the Tokyo YMCA. In a telegram on December 3, Kagawa reported to Jones the situation in Japan: "Tokyo Church leaders having seven day Vigil of Prayer, throughout the twenty-four hours, for peace in the Pacific."<sup>192</sup>

The Japanese attack on Pearl Harbor marked not only the beginning of a brutal war but also the end of U.S. and Japanese Christians' pacifist dreams. After the successful conclusion of the Japanese Christian Fellowship Deputation, American church leaders actually volunteered to send a religious embassy of their own to Japan in the spirit of reciprocity. The NCC, upon receiving the proposal from the FCC in mid-August, cabled in reply: "Japan Council despite present difficulties heartily [*sic*] welcome coming American Delegation for prayer and Conference this Autumn."<sup>193</sup> The return embassy never materialized, however, as this became one of the last messages exchanged between the two nations' Christian leaders before war broke out and unauthorized communication was banned entirely. Kagawa and his compatriots, keeping alive their faith for international reconciliation, finished their vigil at the Kanda Church in the early hours of December 8 (Japan time). Instead of hope and relief, however, they were greeted with the

shocking news that the Imperial Japanese Navy had carried out a successful air strike on the U.S. Pacific Fleet headquarters in Hawai'i.<sup>194</sup> The much-dreaded prospect of war had now become reality.

On the eve of the Pacific War, Christians strived to present themselves as loyal subjects of the empire. As the state ramped up its efforts to marshal social and political support for its war against China in the late 1930s, religious groups became important targets for mobilization. The nationalistic atmosphere reached unprecedented heights in 1940 when the momentum of societal mobilization converged with the pompous twenty-six hundredth anniversary commemoration of Japan's imperial glory. In the midst of the nationwide celebrations, Christians became eager participants in the "migration machine" that aimed to populate the frontiers of Manchukuo with agricultural settlers from the metropole. They also staged a grandiose rally where the nation's Christians pledged their allegiance to the New Order and announced their collective intent to establish a united Protestant church—the Kyōdan—as per the requirements of the newly enacted Religious Organizations Law.

Christians, by and large, did not challenge the orthodoxy of Japan and instead tried to fit Christianity, however incongruously, into the framework of imperial ideology. At the same time, there were notable instances of resistance to the government from individual Christians. Yanaihara Tadao (1893–1961), a professor of colonial studies at Tokyo Imperial University and a member of Uchimura Kanzō's non-church movement (*mukyōkai*), for example, was fired from his post after a controversial 1937 speech in which he pointed out the "immoral" nature of Japan's war with China and called for the "burial" of a country which had so utterly lost sight of its ideals.<sup>195</sup> Even after his removal, Yanaihara continued to criticize the government, using his evangelistic journal *Kashin* as a mouthpiece—a feat that perhaps owed much to his prominent status as a former professor at the nation's highest institution of learning.<sup>196</sup> Tagawa Daikichirō (1869–1947), a Christian member of the Lower House and president of Meiji Gakuin University, to take another example, spoke out against a 1938 questionnaire distributed by the Osaka military police to twenty-four Christian priests and teachers. The questionnaire was in fact a thinly veiled test of their ideological conformity to State Shintō. While the recipients of the threatening letter quietly and faithfully complied with its instructions, Tagawa fired back, chiding the military police for

overstepping their jurisdiction and interfering in matters of civilian religious practice—an act that got him arrested on an unrelated charge of “spreading falsehoods” (*zōgen higo*) the following year.<sup>197</sup> After this incident, there were virtually no cases of public Christian resistance for the remainder of the war. As such, the individual cases of Yanaihara and Tagawa were exceptions that proved the general pattern of Christian adherence to national policy.

While adherence may have been the rule, the ways in which Christians articulated their loyalty to the nation often reflected their unique interpretation of the matter at hand. In his promotion of the Christian Pioneer Village, Kagawa was personally invested in the “romantic” and utopian vision of Manchukuo and genuinely believed that Christians, through their religiosity and cooperative spirit, could play a key role in constructing a model multiracial community in the newly established state. Along similar lines, his coreligionists staked a claim for Christians in Japan by organizing commemorative events that emphasized their contribution to the expanding empire and the compatibility of Christian belief with the nation. Even when their national and international allegiances seemed to conflict with each other, as was the case following the arrest of Kagawa and the Salvation Army and the subsequent missionary exodus, Christian leaders remained committed to the spirit of pacifist internationalism that undergirded their relationship with American missionaries. It was, after all, still possible in early 1941—when most foreigners (except those from the Axis nations) had been deemed undesirable elements by the authorities—for Japanese Christians to send a religious embassy to the United States under the banner of peace and fellowship. Kagawa, who had a hand in both the Manchukuo and U.S. missions, embodied the dualistic nature of Japanese Christians’ national and international engagements. The bombing of Pearl Harbor in December, however, finally rendered such ambivalent identities untenable.



## Chapter Four

### COOPERATION AND RESISTANCE UNDER CONDITIONS OF TOTAL WAR

On January 11, 1942, roughly a month after the Pearl Harbor attack, Christian leader Tomita Mitsuru made the 290-mile journey west from Tokyo to pay official respects to the Ise Grand Shrine. By virtue of its dedication to Amaterasu, the sun goddess and mythical progenitor of the Japanese imperial line, the Ise Grand Shrine was positioned at the pinnacle of the state-sponsored Shintō hierarchy. At Ise, Tomita reported the founding of the Kyōdan (United Church of Christ of Japan), a state-recognized religious organization resulting from the merger of over thirty different Protestant denominations, of which he was the chief executive, and prayed to the Shintō deity “for the group’s future success.”<sup>1</sup>

Tomita had been anxious to make the Ise trip ever since his election as leader (*tōrisha*) of the Kyōdan a little over half a year earlier. A host of intervening events stood in the way—the most pressing of which was Japan’s entry into war against the United States and Britain and the directive he received from the Education Ministry on December 8, 1941, calling on all religious leaders to guide their followers in honoring the “imperial will” to carry out the present war.<sup>2</sup> In response, Tomita issued a statement urging his fellow Christians to demonstrate their “sincere patriotism” by supporting the war, which he claimed was being fought on the grounds of “national defense” and for the “establishment of eternal peace in the East.”<sup>3</sup> His cooperation with the government’s call exemplified the new institutional structure of state-religion relations that would remain in place until the end of the war. Previously independent temples and churches

were amalgamated into large corporate bodies such as the Kyōdan, each of which was governed by one central leader (called *kanchō* for Buddhism and sect Shintō and *tōrisha* for Christianity and other religions) directly answerable to the minister of education. Tomita's visit to the Ise Shrine demonstrated the incorporation of the Christian church into this centralized regime and the subordination of Christianity to the hold of State Shintō.

Apart from central reorganization, the outbreak of the Pacific War also had an impact on Christian institutions on other levels. To take one example, Ferris Seminary (Ferisu Jogakuin), a Christian girls' school in Yokohama founded in 1870 by missionaries of the U.S. Dutch Reformed Church, parted with all of its remaining American faculty and staff by the end of 1941.<sup>4</sup> In 1938, Kagawa had been a guest lecturer at the seminary, which was known for its pioneering status as Japan's first school for women. At the time he was impressed by the "bustling energy" of the crowd that had gathered to hear him speak, an experience that made him "cheerful" about the active Christian scene in Yokohama.<sup>5</sup> With Japan now at war with the United States, however, the school was forced to remove all outward signs of its international ties, such as its tradition of displaying the American flag alongside the Japanese one on ceremonial occasions. Ferris's principal also received orders from the military police to change its conspicuously foreign-sounding name into something more appropriately Japanese. The history of Ferris Seminary—or Yamate Jogakuin, as the school was officially renamed and known between 1941 and 1950—offers but one of countless examples of the ways in which Christian institutions dealt with the conditions of war.<sup>6</sup>

At the individual level, total war conditions prompted a concerted effort on the part of Christians to reconcile their theological and ethical commitments with the rituals of national loyalty, such as paying respect at Shintō shrines and expressing support for the war. Moderates like Kagawa, who worked as an adviser to the Kyōdan's evangelization bureau, took the stance that Christians should follow the government's lead and participate fully in such rituals—a point he advocated during his wartime preaching tour in the countryside. According to right-wing Christian ideologues such as Imaizumi Genkichi (1891–1969), who had been engaged in a movement to synthesize Christian teachings with imperial worship, Kagawa did not go far enough in his proclamation of loyalty and rejection of his erstwhile internationalism. Imaizumi's tirades, which were published

in the form of three special features in his *Mikuni* journal in late 1942, crystallized Kagawa's dilemma during the early Pacific War.

As the war wore on, the imperial state expanded its scope of demands for Christians, calling on them not just to lead spiritual mobilization on the home front but also to leverage their international ties to act as propagandists on behalf of the Japanese Empire. Military authorities recruited Christians like Kagawa for this purpose and arranged for them to appear on overseas broadcasts aimed at the American enemy through the state-sponsored shortwave station known as Radio Tokyo. Such acts of cooperation with the imperial state did not, however, change the fact that the general public and law enforcement still largely viewed Christians with distrust and suspicion. Kagawa, as a result, was in the ambivalent position of being sought after as a well-known spokesperson who could vouch for Japan's international legitimacy while also being arrested multiple times for those same overseas ties and allegiances. This led to a confusing period in which the inconsistent application of state power meant that Kagawa was never assured of his standing and had to constantly defend his patriotism and loyalty to the nation in public.

Meanwhile, on the other side of the Pacific a small minority of missionary-connected individuals and peace activists continued to uphold Kagawa as a symbol of U.S.-Japan solidarity. Despite all lines of communication being cut off between Japan and the United States, Kagawa's supporters clung to his prewar image as a pacifist hero, invoking his name in church sermons to underscore their common religious fellowship, as well as to criticize the U.S. government's unjust incarceration of Japanese Americans. In a time when racial fear and hatred of the Japanese enemy loomed large in the popular imagination, Kagawa's American followers sought to counter such racist depictions by reference to the spiritual values they saw as embodied in the emblematic Japanese evangelist.

The final year and a half of war, however, laid bare the increasingly desperate situation in which Japan found itself. Following a series of defeats in the Pacific Theater that exposed the Japanese mainland to enemy air raids, the imperial state stepped up its calls for spiritual and labor mobilization. Christians, including Kagawa, responded by joining the wartime exhortations of support for the so-called Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere and made plans to expand the Christian Pioneer Village in Manchukuo. Their material and ideological commitment to the empire went ultimately unrewarded, however, as the Japanese

state abandoned the Christian villagers in the face of a Soviet invasion and imminent defeat. The migrants, who had cast their lot with the wartime regime, soon became just another face among many in the postwar rubble.

#### KAGAWA IN JAPAN AND HIS IMAGE IN AMERICA

On the morning of February 23, 1942, Kagawa found himself in a familiar spot—on top of a raised platform, speaking in front of a crowd of people. Instead of addressing the world at large, as he often liked to do, his audience this day was decidedly more domestic and local. The location of the evangelistic rally, Kōchi Prefecture, was close to his adopted home base of Teshima in the Seto Inland Sea. Its relative isolation from the cosmopolitan world provided an appropriate point from which to start his provincial preaching tour. Although the Tokkō police had displayed more interest than ever in tracking his actions since his 1940 arrest and temporary seclusion, Kagawa did not let the constant surveillance limit the range or frequency of his public religious activity.<sup>7</sup> Prior to arriving in Kōchi, Kagawa made courtesy visits to various Christian charitable organizations in and around the Inland Sea area, such as the Ikuai Nursery in Kagawa Prefecture and the Nagashima Aiseien Sanatorium in Okayama Prefecture.<sup>8</sup> The atmosphere of war was never far away, for as soon as Kagawa finished talking to sanatorium patients on February 18, he noticed them taking out paper flags and waving them as part of a hospital-wide ceremony with a full marching band.<sup>9</sup> As it turned out, they were celebrating Japan's victory over the British in Malaya and the capture of Singapore, which marked the successful completion of a series of Japanese offensive campaigns in Southeast Asia launched simultaneously with the attack on Pearl Harbor.

In his Kōchi speech, Kagawa addressed some major concerns that had been gripping Japanese Christians as a result of the war fervor. He prefaced his talk by acknowledging, "as a matter of principle, we Christians have obeyed the injunction against idol worship and continue to do so presently" before going on to state, "We nevertheless bow our heads at shrines and temples designated by the Japanese state."<sup>10</sup> He insisted that praying at Shintō shrines did not constitute idolatry, as "such shrines and imperial sites enshrine our ancestors, and [the display of reverence] is meant only as a form of ancestor worship," thus reiterating the official line that Shintō was not a religion.<sup>11</sup> He

further claimed that because the Home Minister had instructed all citizens to perform such acts as a part of their national duty and since even the Bible enjoined followers to obey the rule of governing authorities, the matter was perfectly compatible with Christian teachings. Shrine worship had become an ever-pressing issue during the war due to its centrality in the observance of moments of national significance, such as the aforementioned capture of Singapore. In the weeks leading up to the Japanese victory, for example, the Education Ministry had sent out a directive calling on the nation's Shintō shrines to make preparations for festivals celebrating the triumph over the British and exhorting all citizens to attend the festivities in order to show their appreciation "for god's divine grace" (*ten'yū shinjo*).<sup>12</sup> With the kind of language used in the government directive, it is not hard to see why some Christians may have felt conflicted in following its instructions. While the issue of shrine reverence had already been settled in favor of accepting the government's definition—that it was a "civil" expression of patriotism and thus a nonreligious matter—prior to the beginning of the Pacific War, Kagawa offered renewed assurance to his coreligionists that it was acceptable to obey the state's orders at a time when such ceremonial practices took on an increasingly large role in national life.<sup>13</sup>

Kagawa further touched upon the crucial issue of Christian support for war. He continued his Kōchi speech by stating that Christians, generally speaking, desired peace and "especially on an individual level, [were] steadfast in their opposition to war, since they regarded war as a serious crime."<sup>14</sup> While the rest of the transcript is cut off in the Tokkō police report, it is not unreasonable to infer that he went on to make an exception for the current conflicts Japan was engaged in, thus voicing his support for the war. This is because we see here a similar logical structure—namely, starting out with a disclaimer that states the general position of Christianity on a particular issue (e.g., idolatry, war) before going on to explain why that rule did not apply to the current situation in Japan. As adviser to the evangelization bureau of the Kyōdan, Kagawa, moreover, would likely have been in agreement with its "wartime proselytization guidelines," which stressed, among other things, the value of "victory at all costs" and the "morality of the Greater East Asia War."<sup>15</sup> For Kagawa, as was the case for the Kyōdan establishment, Japan's overseas wars were an opportunity to demonstrate their patriotism and commitment to the imperial cause. By showing that Christianity was capable of adapting

to the constantly evolving policies and demands of the state and urging his coreligionists to follow suit, Kagawa made clear his willingness to spearhead wartime spiritual mobilization.

For all that such a stance seemed to go against his efforts to prevent war between Japan and the United States in the previous year, Kagawa was pleased that his mobilization tour appeared to be having a galvanizing effect on domestic evangelism. Following his provincial tour in Kōchi and other parts of Shikoku, Kagawa divided his time between eastern and western Japan, appearing in meetings in Osaka, Kobe, and Nagoya while also fulfilling engagements as a guest lecturer at Waseda University and various churches in the Tokyo region.<sup>16</sup> According to his travel notes, his appearances were met with enthusiastic crowds, which caused him to reflect that “there is no reason to be pessimistic about [the fate of] Japanese Christianity.”<sup>17</sup> He also wrote positively on the development of his tuberculosis sanatorium, commenting on the abundant food and beautiful scenery at Teshima, which he described as a “paradise on earth.”<sup>18</sup> Kagawa continued his busy schedule by visiting churches in places such as Hida (Gifu Prefecture), Odawara (Kanagawa Prefecture), and Iyo (Ehime Prefecture). Although he did not have complete freedom of speech during this time, as his actions were constantly being tracked by the Tokkō police, his itinerary clearly indicates that he was not under virtual house arrest either, as has been suggested in some of his biographies.<sup>19</sup> He did enjoy a certain freedom of mobility and activity that, despite his ongoing state of surveillance, nonetheless allowed him to feel optimistic enough to observe, during a series of nighttime rallies at Tokyo’s Reinzaka Church in early May, that “the throngs of youth who come, night after night, to my meetings has made me think that the days of melancholy are over.”<sup>20</sup> In this way, the promotion of wartime patriotism went hand in hand with the promotion of Christianity in Japan.

While Kagawa was busy conducting his Kyōdan tour in Japan, radical Christian pacifists in the United States were using his name to criticize the growing tide of fear-mongering and racism sweeping through their nation. Central to this effort was John Haynes Holmes (1879–1964), a Christian minister and antiwar activist who, as a senior member of the Fellowship of Reconciliation (FOR), maintained an ardent stance of nonviolence and absolute pacifism during the war. In response to a 1940 question posed by the *Christian Century* on whether he would support American entry into the war, Holmes had rejected the notion, emphatically stating: “If and when my country enters the

war, I will join neither hand nor heart to the hostilities of the hour, but toil still for brotherhood, in love of friends and enemies alike, and for that peace which can alone save mankind from death.”<sup>21</sup>

This was a minority opinion at the time, as many sophisticated liberals, progressives, and radicals offered moral and even religious support for American intervention, especially in light of the challenge posed by Hitler in Europe.<sup>22</sup> Holmes, while recognizing the “evil” of Hitler, nevertheless maintained that even the German dictator was a product of the “nationalistic, capitalistic, and militaristic” impulses that the United States had been complicit in and which inevitably inhered in the enterprise of war—“an open and utter violation of Christianity” that he intended to stand against.<sup>23</sup> In articulating this vision, he chose Kagawa, a Christian from a nation that had now become his country’s sworn enemy, as the figure through which to highlight his wartime pacifism.

In April 1942 Holmes called on Kagawa as his interlocutor in an extraordinary imaginary letter. Published in booklet form under the auspices of the War Resisters League—a pacifist organization similar to the FOR, albeit with a more secular orientation—Holmes first preached his “Letter to Kagawa” as a Sunday morning sermon on April 12 to his congregation at the Community Church in New York. “It is a strange thing that I am doing in writing you this letter,” he began, for “there is no expectation that you will see it or ever hear of it,” referring to the lack of a means of civilian communication between the United States and Japan at the time.<sup>24</sup> Despite the circumstances in which they found themselves, Holmes insisted that they remained “fellows-Christians,” calling the Japanese Christian his “brother, in spirit if not in body” and somebody with whom he shared “a common sorrow and a common shame.”<sup>25</sup> He noted with alarm the increase in hate-filled racial rhetoric (“yellow bellies” and “monkey men”) becoming dominant in public discourse, as well as the “tragic proclamation of the President” that authorized the government to evacuate the West Coast of all Japanese residents and place them into “concentration camps.”<sup>26</sup> The racial injustice of Japanese incarceration greatly troubled Holmes, who pointed out the hypocrisy of rounding up the Japanese because of their alien status when they had in fact been denied the very right to become naturalized citizens under the “Asiatic Exclusion acts [of 1924],” not to mention the denial of constitutional protections to the citizens (second-generation Japanese

Americans, also known as Nisei) who had been born in the United States.<sup>27</sup>

What disturbed Holmes above all, however, was the corrupting potential of war to brutalize and dehumanize its participants. He called on his American audience to look beyond the current hatred and animosity and see that it was up to them whether an enduring peace could be achieved at the war's end or if it would only bring another short-lived truce. While taking the position that he would not force his pacifist commitment upon his fellow countrymen, stating that he would stand with them "in sympathy and understanding" right up until the point where he must "step aside . . . for conscience's sake," he nevertheless argued that they must show "compassion" for their enemies as well.<sup>28</sup> Taking Kagawa as his model—and acknowledging that the Japanese Christian perhaps did not share in his absolute conviction of opposing the current war out of the latter's reverence for the emperor—Holmes reiterated Jesus's teaching to "Love your enemies," reminding his audience that this is precisely what Kagawa did when Japan began its war against China in the 1930s.<sup>29</sup>

By taking an idealistic stand for transpacific solidarity, as symbolized through his imaginary letter to Kagawa, Holmes was keeping alive the FOR's tradition of criticizing American attitudes toward Japan. The fellowship had long opposed the Immigration Act of 1924, and, with the outbreak of the Pacific War, spoke out against the racial basis of Japanese American incarceration. Holmes and John Nevin Sayre (1884–1977), both members of the FOR who sat on the national committee of the American Civil Liberties Union, notably took a special interest in Gordon Hirabayashi (1918–2012), a Nisei Quaker and FOR member whose open refusal to comply with evacuation orders in May 1942 became the basis of a U.S. Supreme Court case over the constitutionality of internment.<sup>30</sup> By casting Kagawa, like before, as an exemplary ally of the weak and downtrodden in a period when the U.S. government was threatening individual rights, Holmes sought to "keep love alive" in desperate times while denouncing the anti-Japanese racism on the rise among his compatriots.

In contrast to his status as a symbol of friendship and compassion among some American pacifists in the midst of war, back home Kagawa found himself under attack from the unlikeliest of sources: a fellow Japanese Christian. The name of his accuser was Imaizumi Genkichi (1891–1969), a judge-turned-priest who in 1935 founded



the patriotic journal *Mikuni*—literally meaning “the emperor’s country” or “the land of the gods.” Since around the time of the 1937 Sino-Japanese War, many Christians had begun to form sects that attempted a synthesis of their religion with the Japanese spirit (*Nihon seishin*). Imaizumi, who originated one of the most well-known examples of so-called Japanized Christianity (Nihonteki Kirisutokyō), located the roots of his movement in opposing the religious bill of 1929, which led him to question his fundamental beliefs about shrine worship. After giving up his job as a pastor, Imaizumi began graduate studies at Tokyo Imperial University on the relationship between Christianity and Shintō, ultimately concluding that “even my faith in the cross of Jesus was merely a stage in the opening of my eyes to the divinity of Amaterasu.”<sup>31</sup> Through the organization of various lectures and retreats and the publication of its monthly organ, which lasted from January 1935 to March 1943, the *Mikuni* movement sought to expound the view that the purpose of Christianity was to “clarify the imperial mission of Japan and help in its realization.”<sup>32</sup> As wartime pressures mounted, the group eventually strayed from its Christian roots, devoting more and more time to the reinterpretation of classic Shintō texts, such as the *Kojiki*, rather than the Holy Bible.

Following the outbreak of the Pacific War, Imaizumi made a big show of publicly denouncing Kagawa as an antinationalist traitor, dedicating three entire issues of *Mikuni* (October–December 1942) to the topic. The issues, each billed as a “Special Number Criticizing the Thought of Kagawa Toyohiko,” feature several articles by Imaizumi and his followers that, taken together, amount to a comprehensive and polemical criticism of Kagawa’s past writings and actions. The October 1942 issue, for example, begins by recounting a 1938 encounter that took place between Imaizumi and Kagawa before the latter’s scheduled appearance at a Christian rally in Kamakura, on the eve of his departure for the International Missionary Council meeting in India. At a luncheon hosted by the organizers, Imaizumi engaged Kagawa in a dialogue that, while initially taking the form of a religious debate, soon became a device through which to reveal, in Imaizumi’s eyes, the “Judas-like” character of Kagawa’s thought. Kagawa’s view that of the violent spirit (*ara-mitama*) and gentle spirit (*nigi-mitama*)—the dual components of the Japanese soul according to one theory of Shintō—only the latter should be considered the essence of the Japanese spirit greatly angered Imaizumi, who was “reminded of the courageous voice of the emperor [at war]” and retorted that the

aggressive nature of the *ara-mitama* was just as valid and important as the peaceful nature of the *nigi-mitama*.<sup>33</sup>

When the conversation turned to political matters, Imaizumi urged Kagawa to reconsider (*hansei*) his concerns over the government's policy of expanding its influence in China, claiming that it was Japan's historic destiny to become an "imperial nation that extended its rule across the entire world."<sup>34</sup> Kagawa, in his eyes, was a subversive figure who lacked proper respect for the emperor and the Japanese state; a fact made even more dangerous because of the popularity he enjoyed among international Christian circles that gave him a prominent platform through which to spread misinformation about the "true" spirit of Japan.

The *Mikuni* articles resembled the attacks of a paranoid nationalist ideologue. Although some of the authors limited themselves to a literary critique of Kagawa's books, which they dismissed as "commercialized" and "lacking in grace," Imaizumi's articles took on a more indignant and conspiratorial tone.<sup>35</sup> Labeling Kagawa as a "fifth columnist" for the West, Imaizumi accused him of working as a demagogue for the Anglo-American powers, whom he claimed were, in turn, being secretly controlled by Jewish legal and financial interests.<sup>36</sup> Imaizumi asserted that the Kingdom of God Movement, arguably one of Kagawa's chief accomplishments as a religious leader, was a plot instigated by him on behalf of the American YMCA leader and "Jewish agent" John Mott to help spread the "false" doctrines of pacifism and disarmament. He further went on to suggest linkages between the "international Jew" and Freemasons, thus interweaving anti-Semitic and masonic conspiracy theories into his condemnation of Kagawa's international ties.<sup>37</sup> Depicting Kagawa as a "parasitic cosmopolitan" who had "lost the nationality of his soul" to foreign missionaries, Imaizumi claimed that his books—"filled with insults about Japan"—sold by the thousands in the United States, thanks to the translations of "Henry Topping and his daughter, Helen Topping."<sup>38</sup> Although the journal received complaints from readers pointing out that the authors were being unfair to Kagawa by making straw-man arguments based on writings from many years ago, Imaizumi doubled down on his claims, pointing out passages from a book that Kagawa had published earlier that year in which he "belittled" his familial and blood ties to the Japanese nation while "praising" Jews and Freemasons.<sup>39</sup> Although clearly misguided and prejudiced toward Kagawa, Imaizumi's tirades were remarkable for the ways in which they managed to combine

commonly held suspicions among the Japanese public about Christians being foreign spies with more globally circulated conspiracy theories, all the while maintaining the posture that their movement represented “true” Japanese Christianity.<sup>40</sup>

The *Mikuni* attacks represented an attempt to enforce ideological conformity among Christians by a right-wing contingent of the church. The journal may have been trying to play to the broader public through its sensationalist claims that Kagawa was secretly in thrall to Jewish and masonic interests, given the proliferation of anti-Semitic publications in Japan, which began appearing in the 1930s under German influence and intensified after the outbreak of the Pacific War.<sup>41</sup> The editor’s postscripts to each issue—which include homages to “[Christian] compatriots” serving on the front lines, along with announcements regarding the upcoming release of a biography on his mentor, the Methodist minister Miyama Kan’ichi (1847–1936), make clear, however, that Christians remained *Mikuni*’s primary audience.<sup>42</sup> Imaizumi, moreover, was an official member of the Kyōdan who had inside knowledge of its “wartime proselytization policies” and access to many of Kagawa’s writings. In his eyes, however, the likes of Kagawa and the Kyōdan did not go far enough in their nationalism. Pointing to a passage within the recently released proselytization policies, Imaizumi took issue with lines such as “We will help carry out the [state’s] divine work (*tengyō*) with the grace of the heavenly father (*tenpu*),” insisting that such expressions introduced ambiguity as to whether the heaven (*ten*) here referred to a Shintō or Christian deity.<sup>43</sup> He targeted Kagawa because of his high visibility within and beyond the church establishment, a decision rewarded by the journal’s popularity among certain readers.<sup>44</sup> Faced with these vitriolic charges, Kagawa remained silent at the time, although he later described the period as a “three-month-long concentrated barrage” in a postwar recollection of his wartime ordeals.<sup>45</sup>

In the midst of the *Mikuni* criticisms, two incidents instigated by private groups further compounded Kagawa’s difficulties. On October 27, 1942, a lecturer for the Chiba prefectural branch of the right-wing Great Japan Protection Society (Dai Nihon Gokokukai) stopped by a sermon that Kagawa was giving at the Tōgane Evangelical Church. After the sermon the lecturer requested permission to speak to Kagawa on the grounds that “trying to spread something like Christianity in the present situation is highly inappropriate.”<sup>46</sup> The permission was not granted, although Kagawa soon faced other attempts to obstruct the event from the local Sakura-machi Men’s Association, which tried

to intimidate any potential listeners from attending the sermon, arguing that such religious talks were part of an “Anglo-American plot for thought control.”<sup>47</sup> While neither case caused a large disturbance because of preemptive actions taken by the police, Kagawa fell sick with pneumonia soon afterward in early November and had to be hospitalized for a month in Tokyo.<sup>48</sup> Given the timing of the Chiba incidents, which took place in the middle of the publication of the *Mikuni* attacks, it is possible they were influenced by the *Mikuni* articles, with the two combining to exert an unusual amount of public pressure on Kagawa that may have contributed to his illness.<sup>49</sup>

Despite starting 1942 on a constructive note, working to offer compromises between Christian teachings and national allegiance in an evangelization tour on behalf of the Kyōdan, by the end of the year Kagawa found himself under attack from extremist groups as well as right-wing Christians. To ideologues such as Imaizumi, who saw himself as a defender of Japanese values in the ideological warfare (*shisōsen*) being waged on the home front, Kagawa’s efforts did little to make up for what he considered a lifetime of traitorous and unacceptable behavior. His intensely nationalistic Mikuni movement showed that there existed sharp disagreements even among Japanese Christians about what constituted a “proper” attitude toward war. While Holmes’s imaginary letter demonstrated the enduring power of Kagawa’s image as a pacifist and hero of the common people in the United States, it ultimately did not matter to Kagawa since he had no way of knowing about it on the other side of the Pacific. To Kagawa, the only operative reality was the one in front of him—the ideologically charged environment of wartime Japan, in which he was soon to become even more deeply embedded.

#### PROPAGANDA BROADCASTING ON RADIO TOKYO

“Dr. Kagawa needs no introduction to Christians throughout the world, who for two score years has been a zealous reformer and constructive social worker. He is the first and last flaming evangelist of the good news of the Christ of Christmas. . . . May the music and the message of this broadcast flash through the ether waves, break the grinding monotony of your camp life and fill your hearts with Christmas cheer.”<sup>50</sup>

The American Baptist missionary and biographer of Kagawa, William Axling, who had remained in Japan during the early stages of the Pacific War, gave the above introduction as part of a special

Christmas radio service aimed at Allied prisoners of war (POWs) and foreign nationals interned in the Japanese Empire.<sup>51</sup> The program—which aired on December 25, 1942, and represented Kagawa's first significant wartime broadcast on Radio Tokyo—was a highly orchestrated affair that emphasized the freedom of worship that existed in wartime Japan. It featured all the familiar trappings of a Christmas service, including a vocal solo rendition of “O Holy Night,” a scripture reading about the birth of Jesus by the deputy *tōrishū* of the Kyōdan, Kozaki Michio, and a prayer chant by the Tokyo Symphonic Choir.<sup>52</sup>

Kagawa's radio speech, however, added an element of moral posturing to the otherwise festive proceedings. Kagawa began by highlighting the kindness and compassion that the guards of Japanese POW camps had supposedly been displaying toward their captives, who were given plenty of food and drink befitting the holiday season. After signaling the Christian virtues of his own country, he turned to point out the apparent lack thereof of his opponents. “Today countries known as Christianity [*sic*] are bombing peoples and areas where they sent their missionaries to preach the gospel,” he intoned indignantly, “slaughtering the sons of God whom their missionaries baptized, and inflicting upon Christ the agony which he suffered on the Cross.”<sup>53</sup> Taking on the mantle of purveyor of Christian moral values, he continued, “America and Britain, which profess to believe in Christ, have terribly blocked the path of the Cross with their bullets and shells. We have no confidence in the erroneous Christianity of erring people.”<sup>54</sup> Such broadcasts illustrated Radio Tokyo's wartime propaganda strategy: promote the image of Japan as a benign and civilized empire where POWs were treated with respect, and even Western holidays such as Christmas were observed and tolerated, while condemning any behavior on the part of the Anglo-American enemy that did not conform to their professed Christian ideals. Kagawa, whose wartime activity had hitherto been confined to domestic spiritual mobilization through his Kyōdan tours, was now cast onto the international stage as a state propagandist, owing largely to his stature as a widely known Christian leader with an established overseas audience.

As the Pacific War entered its second year, the Japanese state broadened the scope of its societal mobilization. No longer satisfied with mere political and spiritual allegiance, the imperial state began to demand material contributions to the war effort in the form of raw materials and labor. Schools such as Yamate Jogakuin—the erstwhile Ferris Seminary—were forced to dismantle parts of their physical

facilities (gates, shelves, handrails, etc.) to hand over to the military for scrap metal.<sup>55</sup> The piecemeal dismemberment of campus structures culminated in the removal of Ferris's iconic and much-beloved chandelier after Christmas Day of 1942, thus underscoring the arrival of total war conditions just as Kagawa's broadcast was being heard overseas.<sup>56</sup>

While Kagawa's appearance on Radio Tokyo can be seen as one type of labor mobilization by the state, much more common was the contribution of physical labor through the system of *kinrō hōshi*.<sup>57</sup> Ferris's students, for example, took time off from class to perform various duties such as sewing shirts for the military and going to work at the Yokosuka Naval Arsenal.<sup>58</sup> Perhaps most revealing were their duties at the Tana Unit (Tana Butai), a military complex in central Kanagawa that manufactured artillery shells and gunpowder for the Imperial Army.<sup>59</sup> This site not only represented the supplantation of the daily concerns of civilians by those of the military but also became a space for patriotic performance. Since it was common for Ferris students to work alongside students from other nonmission schools at the unit, the Ferris girls recalled feeling a special motivation "to work harder than the other students" out of the perceived notion that they, as Christians, were being judged by their non-Christian peers.<sup>60</sup>

A similar sense of public judgment and expectation weighed on Kagawa's mind as he became further entangled in the state's ideological agenda. Although a willing participant in the Radio Tokyo broadcasts, Kagawa nevertheless encountered multiple instances in which his patriotic credentials were challenged by local authorities. In his mind he had already thrown in his lot with the nation and its people, becoming a fervent supporter of the imperial war that pitted Japan against the Allied powers. His public image, however, always seemed to be preceded by his pacifist, and therefore "disloyal," reputation, with which he constantly struggled. This led to the publication of several patriotic pieces intended to showcase his loyalty to his domestic peers, who had no means of knowing about his utterances on overseas broadcasts, as the government prohibited Japanese citizens from owning shortwave radios that could pick up overseas transmissions. Japanese authorities, meanwhile, kept up the pressure on Kagawa, who was arrested twice in 1943 by two different agencies, thus underscoring the disciplining pressures of wartime nationalism.

Kagawa's involvement with Radio Tokyo had begun on October 15, 1942, when the Information Bureau (Jōhōkyoku), the cabinet agency responsible for wartime censorship and propaganda, invited a

group of Christian leaders to attend a roundtable hearing on propaganda broadcasting to the United States.<sup>61</sup> Under the direction of the Information Bureau, which coordinated domestic and overseas propaganda efforts in accordance with the official policy of “building a national defense state” and “establishing a Greater East Asia Co-Prosperty Sphere,” the international division of the Japan Broadcasting Corporation (known in Japanese as *Nihon Hōsō Kyōkai*, or NHK) established its overseas programming in 1941, which came to be known as Radio Tokyo.<sup>62</sup> Programming for overseas broadcasts expanded dramatically with the outbreak of the Pacific War, as radio communication was seen as an effective means of controlling the flow of information in Occupied territories. By late 1942 the total amount of content broadcast from Tokyo to overseas areas totaled sixty-five hours per day and included programs in over fifteen European and Asian languages.<sup>63</sup> Within this variegated setup, state officials regarded the English-language broadcasts aimed at the United States as a top priority, as could be seen in their recruitment of a group of Japanese experts on America, including Kagawa, to contribute to a series of “overseas broadcasting lectures” at around the same time as the aforementioned roundtable hearing.<sup>64</sup> Although we do not know the exact details of the hearing, it is clear from the testimony of a Christian speaker later recruited by Radio Tokyo that on certain matters, state officials regarded only Christians as able to “furnish information that would be acceptable to possible listeners abroad.”<sup>65</sup> Because of their shared religion and close association with Western missionaries, the words of Japanese Christians were seen as carrying a certain weight and authority with American audiences that would have been otherwise impossible to achieve.

Starting with his Christmas broadcast, Kagawa increasingly set himself up in opposition to the Anglo-American enemy, in a public demonstration of his patriotic stance. Although the Christmas broadcast was Kagawa’s first speech on Radio Tokyo, it was not the first time that his name was mentioned on the air. On April 21, 1942, three days after the Doolittle Raid on Tokyo, Radio Tokyo put out a broadcast quoting Kagawa as saying “Among Japanese Christians, prayers are being said night and day for an early conclusion of the war and the restoration of peace throughout the world.”<sup>66</sup> Such early reports show that Radio Tokyo’s initial strategy was to use Kagawa as part of a “peace offensive” that signaled the virtues of Japanese tolerance



and religious pluralism. While the theme of Christian tolerance remained an important feature in subsequent programs, Kagawa's broadcasts, as well as his domestic publications, were more sharply defined by their rhetoric of antagonism toward the United States and Britain. In early 1943, Kagawa published a Japanese poem in his personal magazine lambasting Winston Churchill and Roosevelt, who, he claimed, "look upon Asia as a protectorate, and whose actions have dyed the waters of the Pacific Ocean blood red."<sup>67</sup> Echoing the moral indignation of his Christmas broadcast, he proclaimed: "Roosevelt has forgotten the patient and tolerant nature of Japan, pouring hot water down the throats of 100 million Japanese people, causing our blood to boil with righteous anger."<sup>68</sup> The nationalistic framing of the "Japanese people" (*Nihon minzoku*) becoming enraged at Roosevelt—the personification of an arrogant and thuggish America—was typical of the Japanese state's wartime propaganda toward the enemy.<sup>69</sup>

Kagawa's wartime statements alternated between forceful condemnation and quiet introspection, revealing an ongoing struggle with his public perception. Shortly after the above poem, Kagawa published a piece of prose titled "Non-attachment" (*Mushūchaku*), in which he denied his desire for worldly approval: "Even though I do not recall doing anything wrong, I am shunned and disrespected by the world because I adhere to Christ; I, however, do not care about fame, status, or fortune; I am able to hide between the pages of a book. . . . My prayers give me an invisibility cloak."<sup>70</sup> The very fact that he was moved to write and publish such lines for a domestic audience, however, seems to suggest that he did care about how he was perceived by his peers. It had not been long, after all, since he had been the target of Imaizumi's vehement attacks, after which he had been bedridden for over a month. The sense of public expectation compelled him to insert criticisms of the Anglo-American enemy into otherwise straightforward religious broadcasts for Radio Tokyo.

On April 24, 1943, Kagawa gave an Easter radio service.<sup>71</sup> Toward the end of his speech, which was later translated into Japanese and published under the title "Love Is the True Meaning of Easter," Kagawa castigated the conduct of the "so-called Christian nations," who, he claimed, "for a long time have oppressed the people of the East to satisfy their secular ambitions."<sup>72</sup> The blatantly political character of his denunciation, however, was out of place with the rest of his service, which focused on the spiritual meaning of Christ's



Resurrection. The disjointed nature of his speech reflected a clumsy attempt to disprove his domestic critics and publicly distance himself from his “unpatriotic” associations with the Christianity of the West.

Such patriotic posturing, however, did not make him immune from police surveillance and arrests. On June 27, Kagawa participated in a religious rally at the Kyōdan’s Kobe Church, where he made several remarks that caught the attention of the Tokkō police. He began his speech, titled “Acala’s Faith” (*Kongōfudō no shinkō*), by praising the Japanese emperor for having granted official recognition to Christianity, drawing a favorable comparison between his reign and that of Akbar, the third ruler of the Mughal empire in sixteenth-century India who was known for promoting tolerant policies that promised religious freedom to Hindus, Muslims, Buddhists, and Christians alike.<sup>73</sup> Kagawa then went on to claim that it did not matter whether Japan won or lost this war since, in his view, the future world was going to be divided into three economic blocs, of which Japan was bound to become the leader of the Asian bloc, thanks to its industrialized economy. Kagawa also recounted, in front of the assembled crowd, the vigil of prayer that he held in the days leading up to war, wistfully reminiscing about the moment he learned of the Pearl Harbor attack: “The Greater East Asia War unfortunately began on December 8, just as we put out the prayer candlelight”—a statement that the Tokkō agents deemed an “antiwar statement borne of his Christian faith.”<sup>74</sup> Despite the relatively tame nature of his comments, Kagawa was arrested and interrogated at the Kobe Aioibashi police station for, respectively, insulting the emperor by comparing him to an Indian ruler, implying that it would be okay for Japan to lose the war, and voicing regrets about the “glorious” victory at Pearl Harbor. The local authorities, well aware of Kagawa’s reputation as a pacifist, treated his actions with the utmost scrutiny, making him sign an oath of apology for his “inappropriate remarks” before letting him go with a strict warning.<sup>75</sup>

As Kagawa struggled to live down his pacifist image, which had become a liability in wartime Japan, an American missionary supporter strove to keep it alive in the United States. Helen Topping, Kagawa’s former English-language secretary, was back in the United States when the Pacific War broke out. Having previously fallen out with other members of the Kagawa Cooperators over personal issues, she had become an independent promoter of Kagawa’s work, dubbing herself Kagawa’s English Voice and offering to give talks at various churches and schools around America.<sup>76</sup> In early 1942, for example, she gave

speeches at Denison University, her alma mater, and the First Methodist Church in Wapakoneta, Ohio.<sup>77</sup> Her talks were neither particularly well attended nor popular, with many describing her speech as “rambling” and “incoherent” and some audience members raising concerns about her “pro-Japanese” attitude, leading to an extensive investigation into her personal background and activities by the Federal Bureau of Investigation (FBI).<sup>78</sup>

Alongside her self-sponsored speaking work, which she was able to carry out through the use of an alias—Helen “Fayville” Topping (Faville was her actual middle name)—Helen was employed for a period at the Tule Lake War Relocation Center for Japanese American internees beginning on September 28, 1942. Although Tule Lake would later become notorious for its status as a segregation center for “disloyal” Japanese, at the time of Topping’s arrival it had yet to receive this designation and was merely one of ten incarceration camps established by the War Relocation Authority under Executive Order 9066, signed by President Roosevelt on February 19, 1942. Her Japanese-language skills proved useful at the camp, where she worked as a high school teacher for Kibeis (literally, “return to America”): second-generation Japanese Americans who were sent to Japan as children to receive their education before returning to the United States.<sup>79</sup>

As was the case in the prewar period, Helen’s wartime activities focused on promoting Kagawa and his work on cooperatives. Because of camp regulations that banned the establishment of privately owned businesses within its confines, internees organized cooperatives to help meet the demand for various goods and services inside the camp community. Cooperative stores went on to become an enormously successful part of the camp experience, providing a means not only to obtain daily necessities such as shoes and clothing but also to bring together residents in common cause as consumers with shared needs and as workers and trainees in new vocations.<sup>80</sup> This built-in interest in cooperatives among the camp residents and officials proved fortuitous for Helen Topping, as it would pave the way for her involvement in the Tule Lake Project as a high school teacher and public lecturer.

In her work as a high school instructor at Tule Lake, Helen placed special emphasis on disseminating the teachings of Kagawa to the camp’s residents. In a letter dated October 6, 1942, for example, Helen requested a church acquaintance in Cleveland send her copies of Kagawa’s books for the purpose of using them to teach her Tule Lake students. In it, she stated her intentions of leading her students in

“World Cooperative study groups” in order to foster “small Kagawas.”<sup>81</sup> Specifically, she planned to “put on a play at the [Tule Lake] project based on Kagawa’s novel, *Behold the Man*,” a fictionalized account of the life of Jesus Christ.<sup>82</sup>

Beyond her high school students, Helen also sought an audience among the general camp population by setting up a weekly lecture series and study group on cooperatives that met periodically over the course of four months from October 1942 to January 1943. In the first meeting on October 17, for example, Helen drew upon her experience of working with Kagawa to suggest the importance of cooperatives in overcoming international conflict, claiming that “the cooperative movement is the only salvation for the peoples of the world to bring about harmony and reconstruction out of the economic, political, and social chaos that is sure to occur in the postwar world.”<sup>83</sup> The event was reported in detail by the camp newspaper, the *Daily Tulean Dispatch*, which also referenced the meeting in its Japanese-language section, calling the group a Kagawa-Style Cooperative Study Society (Kagawa-shiki Kyōdō Kumiai Kenkyūkai).<sup>84</sup> Using Kagawa’s work in Japan as her model, Helen suggested ways in which the cooperative method could be applied to the Tule Lake project.<sup>85</sup>

Helen’s teaching role at Tule Lake lasted for less than four months, as she was forced to resign on January 11, 1943. Although this was apparently due to her “dilatatory procedure” and for “refusing to comply with camp instructions,” the decision also seems to have been influenced by a bold speech she gave to the camp community a week prior, in which she implicitly criticized the U.S. government’s decision to unjustly incarcerate an entire ethnic group based on a faulty definition of “Americanism.”<sup>86</sup> She did not give up on her activism, however, as she soon found a new venue for her work by making inroads with other wartime institutions willing to listen to her cause. One such organization was the Civilian Public Service (CPS) system, a civilian-controlled alternative service for conscientious objectors that resulted from the lobbying efforts of the historic peace churches (e.g., Mennonites, Brethren, and Quakers).<sup>87</sup> The first CPS camp opened near Baltimore, Maryland, in 1941. Over the course of its five-year life span, nearly twelve thousand men participated in the CPS system, which carried out its programs in roughly 150 camps across the country.<sup>88</sup>

Helen made contact with the director of CPS camp number thirty-six at Los Prietos, California (near Santa Barbara), who agreed to publish her writings in their camp publication. The resulting April 1943

article, "Kagawa Lives On," called on CPS participants to strive for "a more dynamic pacifism" by thinking of the war years as a time for "modern monasticism"—a reference to how Kagawa reportedly spent his past stints in prison memorizing sections of the Bible.<sup>89</sup> She urged her readers to follow his example, studying the Bible and "learn[ing] to pray better" while going about their daily labor, thereby likening the camp experience to a religious novitiate that would, in the end, enable them to "emerge from [the] CPS camps as Kagawas."<sup>90</sup>

Helen's exhortation for them to become "Kagawas" through their devotional labor and Bible study shows that she viewed the Japanese evangelist as an archetypal Christian who transcended the category of race. While the CPS participants were an admittedly receptive audience—an all-male group of white Protestant conscientious objectors who ended up there because of their religious refusal to participate in war—Helen's willingness to uphold a Japanese man as an example for them to emulate was still extraordinary, considering the historical context. At a moment when her country was engaged in full-blown hostilities with Japan, her suggestion that Kagawa could help "Christianize . . . some American prisoners" (i.e., CPS camp participants) struck a dramatic note. Even granting that very few people would have seen her articles due to their limited circulation, her message of interracial brotherhood in a time of war marked a radical departure from the racially charged rhetoric that typified U.S. wartime discourse.<sup>91</sup>

In the end, after a yearlong investigation into her past and present activities, the FBI decided not to press charges against Helen. According to their reports, although she had exhibited signs of being an "extreme pacifist" and was possibly "mentally unbalanced," her basic motive of cooperative promotion, which was seen as politically neutral, ultimately prevented her from being labeled "un-American" and thereby "seditious," as was originally feared.<sup>92</sup> Helen's wartime efforts revealed her persistence in spreading Kagawa's cooperative movement, as did her attempts to connect with a network of pacifist-friendly sites in wartime America. While she was not indicted by the state thanks to the relative moderateness of her message—which advocated peace without directly opposing American war efforts as such—it also helped that there were more publicly sanctioned spaces for pacifists in the United States than in Japan, as can be seen in the existence of CPS camps.

Meanwhile, back in Japan, Mother Topping started appearing on Radio Tokyo shows aimed at her fellow countrywomen across the Pacific. Mother Topping and her husband, Henry, had remained in

Japan during the war, the primary reason being Henry's poor health. He eventually passed away on August 30, 1942, leaving her alone with no means of familial contact. A friend connected with Radio Tokyo approached her roughly a year later, suggesting that she could use broadcasting as a means to reach out to her children in the United States, Helen and Willard, and let them know of their father's death. While Radio Tokyo had experimented with the use of Allied POWs in broadcasting since early in the war, as well as the employment of stranded Nisei Japanese Americans such as Iva Toguri (1916–2006), who became known as Tokyo Rose after joining the cast of *Zero Hour*, itself a program developed by an Australian POW, Major Charles Cousens (1903–1964), it was relatively uncommon for a white American woman to be given time on air.<sup>93</sup> Upon arriving at Radio Tokyo, Mother Topping was asked to speak on an English-language weekly feature called the *Women's Hour*, which specifically targeted American women. She went on to host this program several times and used it as a platform from which to urge her listeners to "maintain a feeling of mutual sympathy in the suffering which they were undergoing during the war."<sup>94</sup> She did so, however, from a perspective that was often apologetic of the Japanese point of view.

On the *Women's Hour* program, Mother Topping defended Japan's position as the leader of Asian nations while bemoaning the destructive nature of war in general. In an August 5, 1943, broadcast titled "A New Day in the Orient," Mother Topping began by giving a perfunctory nod to impartiality. "My sympathies are not with any warring power," she proclaimed, before going on to imply that Japan's war against the United States was justified on the grounds that it was not fighting alone but with the "cooperation of her neighboring states, of all these people of her racial kin whom she has delivered from foreign domination."<sup>95</sup> Referring back to the origins of the war, she argued that the true cause of the current conflict was not Pearl Harbor but rather the rigid stance of the United States in its economic sanctions and diplomatic dealings toward Japan in the months leading up to the fateful attack. "It is not too late," she maintained, calling for "the warring powers . . . [to] plan a new way of cooperation" that did not involve taking part in "devastating warfare."<sup>96</sup> On a separate broadcast on December 23, 1943, she publicly lamented the U.S. announcement of the construction of the newly developed B-29 Superfortress bombers and their potential to inflict further damage on "the innocent people of this land."<sup>97</sup> Fed up with what she called the

“Niagara of destruction,” she urged American women to stand up and find a way to end the needless deaths of thousands of husbands and sons on the battlefield. Employing a distinct discourse of domesticity to reach out to her female audience, she emphasized their role in keeping intact the “man-power of your home and country.”<sup>98</sup> On other occasions she painted a rosy picture of Japanese magnanimity, relating her experience of working with Allied POWs in Japan—who, she insisted, were being treated as well as possible under the circumstances.<sup>99</sup> Although unmistakably biased in favor of the Japanese point of view, Mother Topping used such humanizing stories to counter, in her own way, the intensely inhumane nature of modern warfare.

Due to the context of her messages, however, the American public quickly condemned her as a traitor. In contrast to Kagawa, who was seemingly brought in by Information Bureau officials to address listeners from the standpoint of a Christian authority figure, Mother Topping did not play up her religious background as a Baptist missionary to Japan, nor did she mention her connections to Kagawa. Her programs nonetheless sparked a strong interest among her American audience, especially after the outspoken radio commentator Walter Winchell referenced Mother Topping on one of his popular shows, calling her an “American traitor” who had “refused the chance to return to the United States” and was now working for the Japanese government.<sup>100</sup> This led to a preliminary investigation by the FBI, which, upon consultation with the Foreign Broadcast Intelligence Service, deemed the *Women’s Hour* one of “Japan’s most effective programs” and Mother Topping “an effective speaker” for the show, whose “deliberate . . . though weak” voice allowed her talks to be “intimate and conversational,” thus giving the impression of a “minister’s wife addressing the church women’s club.”<sup>101</sup> The FBI report maintained a cautious stance toward Mother Topping: “She does not so much grind Japan’s axe as lament war in general and the lack of understanding between people.”<sup>102</sup> Press accounts, on the other hand, took on a much more accusatory tone, calling her a “traitor to her country” and a “motherly voiced woman” who “contributes . . . propaganda venom” on Japan’s behalf.<sup>103</sup> While the idea of a white American woman working for the Japanese government seemed to temporarily capture the imagination of the American public, her decision to become a broadcaster for the enemy state ultimately worked against Mother Topping’s message of mutual understanding, causing her pleas for peace to fall largely on deaf ears.

While Mother Topping was broadcasting on Radio Tokyo, Kagawa, for his part, endured the second arrest of 1943 at the hands of the military police. The Tokyo military police detained Kagawa on November 3 for an investigation into his connection with a young Quaker pacifist named Ishiga Osamu (1910–1994). Ishiga, inspired by Kagawa's opposition to war, had refused to comply with a call-up for military training and subsequently turned himself in to the military police.<sup>104</sup> He revealed, during his interrogation, that he was a member of the London-based War Resisters' International (WRI), a pacifist organization to which Kagawa also belonged. Although Kagawa had no direct relations with Ishiga, the authorities still made him write a ten-page letter addressed to the already-deceased chairman of the WRI, George Lansbury, in which he proclaimed his loyalty to Japan and declared his intention to officially withdraw his membership from the international pacifist group.<sup>105</sup> The letter, which was written in Japanese and recalled his past dealings with Lansbury—including one instance when he had asked Helen Topping to act as a go-between for the two of them—represented Kagawa's concession to the whims of state authorities, as well as a reminder of the persistent influence of his pacifist image, even if it did not accurately reflect his current stance.

Perhaps spurred on by such incidents, as the war situation worsened Kagawa came to deliver racially charged radio commentary on American atrocities in the Pacific. On August 7, 1944, Kagawa made a broadcast regarding news reports of American GIs sending the remains of fallen Japanese soldiers home to the United States as souvenirs.<sup>106</sup> The incidents in question included a letter opener allegedly made from the forearm bone of a Japanese soldier and presented to President Roosevelt by the Pennsylvania congressman Francis E. Walter, and a *Life* magazine story of an attractive blonde posing with a Japanese skull she had been sent by her boyfriend, a Navy lieutenant in the Pacific (figure 4.1).<sup>107</sup> Such “trophy-taking” behavior was prohibited by the U.S. military, and the letter opener was refused by the president, who ordered it to be sent back for proper burial.<sup>108</sup> However, the *Life* article, published on May 22, 1944, exacerbated matters by mentioning that the skull in the photo had been autographed by the boyfriend and his thirteen friends along with the proud inscription: “This is a good Jap—a dead one picked up on the New Guinea beach.”<sup>109</sup> This triggered a diplomatic protest from the Japanese Foreign Ministry, who requested that Spain undertake an investigation into American defilement of Japanese remains. As news





Figure 4.1. *Life*'s May 22, 1944, Picture of the Week: "Arizona war worker writes her Navy boyfriend a thank-you note for the Jap skull he sent her" (left); the image was reproduced in many Japanese newspapers, such as the August 11, 1944, *Yomiuri shinbun* article titled "Behold the Barbarism of the American Devils" (right). Source: "Picture of the Week," *Life*, May 22, 1944; "Beiki no bankō wa kore da," *Yomiuri shinbun*, August 11, 1944

of this incident made its way to Japan through the Zurich-based correspondents of Dōmei, the prediction of a prescient *Life* reader was proven correct: "I have never seen a picture that could be used more potently by the enemy for anti-Allied propaganda."<sup>110</sup>

Armed with perfect fodder for anti-American propaganda, the Japanese media unleashed a flurry of outraged news pieces, which Kagawa expanded upon in his Radio Tokyo broadcast. Japanese newspapers eagerly picked up the *Life* skull story in early August, giving it widespread coverage for over one week. The major dailies treated it as a revelation of the moral depravity of the Americans, whom they vilified using the pejorative term "American devils" (*beiki*).<sup>111</sup> One paper editorialized that these examples of American brutality were deeply rooted in the American psyche and were fueled by their "superiority complex" in relation to the East Asian peoples.<sup>112</sup> Others resorted to religious appeals, referencing the rebuke issued by the Vatican envoy to the Philippines, Guglielmo Piani, who urged Americans to reflect



on their barbarous conduct.<sup>113</sup> The press also played up the reaction from the Catholic archdiocese of Missouri, which had published a statement condemning such practices as a violation of church law.<sup>114</sup> Kagawa echoed these headlines in his August 7 broadcast, decrying such acts as “a savagery comparable to the lowest cannibalism” and utilized stark racial imagery to proclaim America to be like a “white grave.”<sup>115</sup> By way of contrast, he claimed that American soldiers killed in the Philippines were, “so far as possible, decently buried and even flowers were distributed on the graves.”<sup>116</sup> Kagawa further underscored his point by stating, “As the crusades of the Middle Ages cut off central Asia from the knowledge of Christ, so this Pacific War is cutting off the Far East from Christly understanding.”<sup>117</sup> He concluded his commentary by lamenting the degradation of the name of Christ by this “butchery,” predicting that the United States would not be able to escape “punishment from heaven” unless it devoted its “enormous wealth and unlimited capacities to the demonstration of the spirit of the Christly word and practice of cooperation.”<sup>118</sup> Not satisfied with merely beaming his voice abroad for foreign consumption, he ensured that domestic Japanese audiences could see his forceful condemnations by subsequently publishing a Japanese translation of his remarks in the Christian newspaper *Kirisutokyō shinbun* on October 4, 1944, under the title “Prophecy of the Downfall of America” (*Beikoku metsubō no yogen*).<sup>119</sup> Besides the religious rhetoric, very little distinguished Kagawa’s indignant denunciation of American atrocities from that of the secular media in tone and content.

Kagawa’s wartime broadcasts on Radio Tokyo resulted from the imperial state’s mobilization of Japanese Christians—who state officials viewed as possessing a useful religious cachet and authority in addressing American audiences—for the purposes of propaganda, as well as a perceived need on the part of Kagawa to demonstrate his loyalty to the nation. By proclaiming the religious pluralism and tolerance of Japan and emphasizing the kind treatment extended to Allied POWs by Japanese soldiers, Christians such as Kagawa attempted to counter the popular characterizations of the Japanese by American media and propaganda outlets as lacking in civilizational and cultural sophistication, making the case that theirs was the “moral” empire in the war. Their claims of moral superiority, however, were based on a selective frame of reference that romanticized Japanese conduct and demonized American actions. As willing propagandists, their perspec-

tive was heavily colored by the lack of access to accurate news reporting under the wartime censorship regime as well as the state's official line, which encouraged them to vilify the enemy while turning a blind eye toward similar atrocities committed by their own countrymen. At the same time, Kagawa's multiple arrests by local authorities constantly reminded him of his pacifist background. While he had tried to distance himself from this reputation, which marked him out as a disloyal citizen within the context of wartime Japan, the public continued to judge him according to this image—an image that Helen Topping strikingly attempted to spread in wartime America. In an ironic parallel to the case of Kagawa, the efforts of Helen and Mother Topping to promote a more humane relationship between the two warring sides only served to raise suspicions of subversion and treason in the minds of their compatriots and the government authorities, thus attesting to the marginalization of internationalism under the strictures of wartime patriotism.

#### CHRISTIAN SUPPORT FOR THE GREATER EAST ASIA CO-PROSPERITY SPHERE

Seasons have come and gone, and the Greater East Asia War has reached its fourth year. . . . This year, even we, the ministers and faithful followers of the Kyōdan, must assume the attitude of combatants and execute our duties with the conviction that we can guide our country to a decisive victory in this war.

Although we have hitherto placed our faith in the saying, “evangelism is patriotic service,” we must now embrace a new slogan, “patriotic service is evangelism” (*hōkoku sunawachi senkyō*). . . . Whereas the Old Testament states, “swords shall be beaten into plowshares,” our current times call for the opposite approach: “plowshares shall be beaten into swords” (*suki o kaete ken to nasu*).<sup>120</sup>

In its New Year's message for 1945, the official organ of the Kyōdan sounded a rallying cry for its members, expressing the need to reorder some of its long-held priorities. Although the Japanese Church had voiced its support for the imperial war from the very beginning, it had also maintained the position that evangelism would remain a core part of its mission, through which it could indirectly contribute to the national cause. With the Pacific War in its fourth and final year,

however, even this central component of church activity was forced to take a back seat to patriotic service (*hōkoku*), by which was meant various forms of material and labor conscription. In the process, it invoked an iconic piece of Christian pacifist imagery—"swords into plowshares," a popular metaphor for converting military weapons and technologies into peaceful civilian applications—and turned it on its head, thereby signifying the conscious and dramatic realignment of wartime priorities at the expense of fundamental Christian principles.

By this time, Japan's war outlook was bleak. Following its defeat in the Battle of Saipan in July 1944—a major turning point in the Pacific Theater that precipitated the resignation of Prime Minister Tōjō Hideki and put the Japanese mainland within the range of Allied B-29 bombers, Japan entered a period of desperate resistance. Employing heightened rhetoric, the Japanese government called on its citizens to prepare for a decisive battle (*kessen*) that would determine the fate of the homeland and throne.<sup>121</sup>

The atmosphere of desperation was reflected in the civil conscription of Ferris students, who had now begun to work at a factory owned by the Morinaga confectionery company. While their initial job was to make biscuits for military rations, with the late 1944 advent of the suicide pilot units known collectively as the Special Attack Forces (*Tokkōtai*)—perhaps best recognized outside Japan by the name of the first such unit, kamikaze (literally, "divine wind")—their tasks took on a morbid twist.<sup>122</sup> One by one, the Ferris girls packed soybeans, butter, and other ingredients laced with white powder into individual paper packets for the Special Attack Forces. Only after the war did they learn that the mysterious white powder in the packets, which contained the instructions "Give to pilots thirty minutes before attack," was the psychoactive drug methamphetamine.<sup>123</sup> Commonly known in Japan by its brand name, *hiropon*, methamphetamine was widely used by the Japanese military and distributed to kamikaze pilots for a temporary boost before they embarked on their final flight.<sup>124</sup>

At around the same time, the Imperial Navy officially commandeered Ferris's main campus building, which was located atop a hill overlooking the Yokohama harbor and thus ideally positioned as a lookout post. The diary of a Ferris administrator on the day of the handover to the navy conveyed a complex mixture of emotions: "Although this is for the sake of our military and nation, it is hard to put into words my thousand feelings."<sup>125</sup> Such examples symbolized

the decisive takeover of the Christian mission school and its student body by increasingly desperate military measures, as well as the fearful anticipation that the war, which until then had been fought out on remote Pacific islands, was fast encroaching upon the shores of the Japanese mainland.

Amid this backdrop, Kagawa and the Kyōdan not only worked to lift the morale of their domestic coreligionists but also spearheaded spiritual mobilization in Japan's overseas empire in Asia. Their activities encompassed a series of publications that exalted the so-called Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere (Daitōa Kyōeiken), a religious embassy to occupied China led by Kagawa, and the brief expansion and ultimate demise of the Christian Pioneer Village project in Manchuria.<sup>126</sup> Through its embrace of the Co-Prosperity Sphere ideal and efforts to promote it within the empire, Japanese Christians displayed their ideological conformity with the imperial state, paving the way for a final and inevitable collapse following the nation's defeat in August 1945.

Kagawa played an integral role in the Kyōdan's attempts to promote the Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere. In June 1943 the Kyōdan published a hymnbook titled *Hymns for the Rise of Asia* (*Kōa sanbika*), featuring thirty-six songs with lyrics specifically written for this purpose.<sup>127</sup> The first printing ran to five thousand copies. Kagawa contributed lyrics to one of the hymns, simply titled "The Greater East Asia Co-prosperity Sphere Song" (Daitōa kyōeiken no uta). In it he drew a connection between the attainment of Christian salvation and the awakening of Asia:

Though the world is engulfed in thick darkness,  
 Dawn is breaking from deep within.  
 Call for the light of East Asia.  
 Though in the midst of trial,  
 High-spirited by carrying the Cross,  
 The rain of grace is all around us.  
 Though the Okhotsk Sea is packed with ice,  
 Let us melt it with blood of love,  
 Let us realize the Father's will.  
 Let us awaken the sleeping India,  
 And free its chains of suffering.  
 Let us build the Kingdom of God.  
 Ah dawn, ah dawn!

History is awakening by grace,  
Asia has at last seen the light.

Look at the lights in the eastern sky,  
The Japanese empire is rising up.  
One thousand million people of Asia,  
Will be saved by this great ideal,  
All under the glorious light.  
Japan sets the moral standard,  
And continues its sacred work.  
The sound of a passionate mallet being swung,  
Signals the fair co-existence and co-prosperity,  
Of the righteous rule that is to come.  
The light of the Lord's good word,  
Will be held high for the earnest work,  
Of constructing a bright and faithful,  
Greater East Asia illumined by life.<sup>128</sup>

Using the metaphor of light to symbolize both Christian teachings and the reign of the Japanese Empire—thereby implying the unity of religious and imperial purpose—Kagawa forecasts the arrival of prosperity and glory to all Asia. His lyrics, which equated the construction of the Kingdom of God to the realization of a Greater East Asia, signaled a Christian reading of the Co-Prosperity Sphere ideal that, while not contesting its basic premise, nevertheless suggested an alternative avenue of interpretation that made it more attractive to a religious audience.<sup>129</sup> His contributions were very clearly in tune with the other songs included in the hymnal, such as “Building Greater East Asia” (*Daitōa kensetsu*), “Practicing the Way of the Loyal Subject” (*Shindō jissen*), “One Hundred Million Hearts Beating Together” (*Ichoku isshin*), “Gratitude for Wounded Soldiers” (*Shōi gunjin ni taisuru kansha*), and “Continental Evangelism” (*Tairiku dendō*).<sup>130</sup>

The Kyōdan expanded on the theme of Pan-Asian solidarity in the wake of the Greater East Asia Conference of November 5–6, 1943. The conference, which took the form of a summit meeting between Prime Minister Tōjō and leaders of pro-Japanese regimes and puppet states from across Asia (including Zhang Jinghui from Manchukuo, Wang Jingwei from China, Jose P. Laurel from the Philippines, Ba Maw from Burma, Subhas Chandra Bose from India, and Wan Waithayakon from Thailand), was a grand political showpiece intended to highlight

Japan's role as a Pan-Asian leader that would help "liberate" the region from Western imperialism and ended with a "Joint Declaration" unilaterally drafted by the Japanese organizers. A few weeks later, the Kyōdan announced its decision to set up an East Asia Bureau (Tōa Kyoku) to oversee all its affairs with regard to overseas evangelism and church management in Asia and chose as its chair the deputy *tōrishā*, Kozaki Michio.<sup>131</sup> The East Asia Bureau took the place of such prior Christian organizations as the East Asia Evangelization Association (Tōa Dendōkai) and the South Pacific Evangelization Band (Nanyō Dendōdan) and inherited responsibility for the Christian Pioneer Village in Manchukuo.<sup>132</sup>

One of the Kyōdan's most notable actions in this period was its formal response to the conference, titled "A Christian Interpretation of the 'Joint Declaration of Greater East Asia'" (Daitōa kyōdō sengen no Kirisutokyōteki kaishaku). The statement was broadcast to Asian nations through Radio Tokyo. Despite its title, there was very little interpretation, and the speech was mainly a slavish recapitulation of the five principles stated in the original joint declaration—namely, (1) mutual cooperation; (2) autonomy, independence, and friendly relations; (3) the enhancement of culture; (4) the promotion of economic development; and (5) contribution to the progress of mankind—a document that many contemporary observers saw as Japan's direct and self-conscious challenge to the Allies' Atlantic Charter. The Kyōdan's support for the government's Pan-Asian agenda was also reflected in its participation in the Religious Alliance for the Rise of Asia (Kōa Shūkyō Dōmei), an interfaith coalition that included Shintō, Buddhist, Muslim, and Christian groups and for which Kagawa served on the organizing committee.<sup>133</sup>

The Kyōdan furthermore conducted a letter-writing competition for Japanese Christians to send their counterparts in Asia countries. The basic premise of the contest was to solicit input from the Kyōdan rank and file to help prepare a collective message from the Japanese Christians to their coreligionists within the Co-Prosperity Sphere. The Kyōdan head, Tomita, explained that the letter format was chosen because of its "intimate and sincere" nature and also because it was the favored form of communication of the apostle Paul.<sup>134</sup> Having received a total of seventy-five entries, Kyōdan leaders announced the winners in April 1944, after which their contributions were rearranged into a single letter and translated into Chinese, Filipino, Malay, and other languages, and subsequently sent out to representatives in each

region.<sup>135</sup> The final version of the letter, which was presented as a “modern-day apostolic epistle,” used ornate language to highlight the ties between the Kyōdan and the churches of the Co-Prosperity Sphere, claiming that they shared not only the same religion but also the common goal of fighting against the oppression of Western imperialists.<sup>136</sup> It notably repudiated the idea that Christianity was a universal doctrine by declaring the so-called Christianity of the Anglo-American nations to be false and calling for the creation of a Greater East Asia Christian League that would enable the establishment of an exclusively Asian Kingdom of God based on its own unique traditions and historical heritage.<sup>137</sup> The letter, whose overall format reflected the Kyōdan’s acceptance of the Japanese state’s view of itself as the undisputed leader of the Asian nations, attempted to add a veneer of religious legitimacy and justification to the dubious project of the Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere.

Kagawa also worked to promote the Co-Prosperity Sphere ideal when he visited occupied China for a lecture tour from October 1944 through February 1945. Organized by the Central China Sino-Japanese Christian League (Kachū Nikka Kirisutokyō Renmei) and the Kyōdan East Asia Bureau in cooperation with the Greater East Asia Ministry (Daitōa Shō), Kagawa’s four-month itinerary included stops in Shanghai, Hangzhou, Nanjing, and Beiping—all major centers in the Japanese-occupied regions of China.<sup>138</sup> During his tour, which marked the first time he had set foot in China proper (excluding Manchuria) since 1934, Kagawa gave lectures that praised the spirit of Greater East Asia and encouraged Chinese Christians to unite with their Japanese brethren under its banner. As an officially commissioned religious envoy of the Greater East Asia Ministry, Kagawa made frequent visits to places such as Imperial Army headquarters, Japanese consulates, and military police stations.

While his talks stressing the “just” nature of Japan’s war and praising the bravery of kamikaze pilots were well-received among the local Japanese residents, many Chinese Christians had the opposite reaction.<sup>139</sup> Kagawa’s close association with military and government officials during his trip signaled that he had not come on a purely religious mission but rather as an agent of the state.<sup>140</sup> An eyewitness account from Hani Setsuko, who happened to be in Shanghai at the time, provides insight into his reception among Chinese audiences: “It was sad to see during our trip to Shanghai that Dr. Kagawa Toyohiko, here as part of the military ‘propaganda team’ (*senbu han*), was harshly

rebuked by local university professors and YMCA leaders, who insisted that there was no point in preaching about one's love for peace, if he is coming as a minion of the military."<sup>141</sup> With the nationalist government still waging a war of resistance against Japan from their wartime capital in the western city of Chongqing, many Chinese remained skeptical toward the words of Japan's occupying authorities. To Chinese Christians, who had not seen Kagawa in person for ten years, his exhortations in support of a Japanese-led Co-Prosperity Sphere not only contradicted their previous image of him as an internationalist but also appeared disingenuous and detrimental to the ongoing struggle of their fellow compatriots.<sup>142</sup>

As for the Manchuria Christian Pioneer Village, for which Kagawa was an early leader, the project had developed steadily throughout the war period. Since the departure of the six-man advance party in 1941, the Chōreishi settlement received seven separate waves of new arrivals from Japan over the course of three years. While the differences in climate and agricultural environment between Japan and Manchuria proved to be a big challenge—especially in the first year, when their reliance on Japanese-style paddy cultivation failed to produce any harvest, causing several members to desert the settlement—the village leader Horii's decision to switch to continental-style agriculture with local crops such as soybean, corn, and sorghum yielded much better results.<sup>143</sup> By the end of 1943, the settlement had a total of approximately 145 members living in fifty households, an elementary school, and a chapel.<sup>144</sup> This, however, was still a very small number, considering most nonreligious settlements boasted one thousand to fifteen hundred members, and even the similarly religious Manchuria Tenri Village (formed by Tenrikyō adherents) had an aggregate of over two thousand settlers spread out in four settlements.<sup>145</sup> Besides making a brief visit to the Christian settlement during a trip to Harbin in late 1942, Kagawa had little direct involvement with the project after the outbreak of the Pacific War.<sup>146</sup>

With the Chōreishi settlement on a stable course, the Kyōdan East Asia Bureau, which had inherited responsibility for the Pioneer Village, began to make plans for a second Christian settlement. Kozaki Michio, the head of the East Asia Bureau and deputy *tōrishā* of the Kyōdan, chose as the second settlement site Taiheichin, a rural county next to the northeastern city of Jiamusi and close to the Soviet border (map 4.1). Under pressure from the government to increase food production in order to meet wartime demands, Kozaki set the projected settlement





Map 4.1. Map of Manchukuo with location of Christian settlement sites (Japanese place-names are followed by their Chinese equivalents in brackets). *Source:* Created by the author

number at an ambitious one hundred households—exactly double the size of the Chōreishi settlement—and sent out recruitment flyers beginning in October 1944.<sup>147</sup> Instead of targeting the rural population, as was previously the case, the fliers for the new settlement were distributed mainly in urban areas and were accompanied by government pamphlets encouraging citizens to consider applying to go to Manchuria as a part of the state's policy of evacuating nonessential personnel from urban centers in anticipation of Allied raids on the Japanese home islands.<sup>148</sup> This evacuation policy, known as *sokai*, took on an increased urgency once the United States captured the Mariana Islands in August 1944, allowing it to construct airfields from which to conduct strategic bombing missions against Japan's main cities.<sup>149</sup> Despite the coordinated recruitment effort between the Kyōdan and the state, which attempted to lure in settlers with offers of financial compensation, the organizers had a hard time attracting new volunteers.

After some trouble, eleven would-be settlers for the Taiheichin Christian Pioneer Village began their training at the Musashino

Training Center in western Tokyo on November 21, 1944. Their monthlong training course, which took place at the same training center used for previous settlers, also included a field trip to a Christian farm (known as Seirō Nōen) in Izu, Shizuoka Prefecture, owned by the new Pioneer Village leader, Muro no Gen'ichi (1902–1978).<sup>150</sup> Although originally scheduled to leave for Manchuria in January 1945, bureaucratic issues, coupled with the commencement of U.S. bombing raids—including the so-called Operation Meetinghouse firebombing of Tokyo on the night of March 9, infamous for being the single deadliest air raid of World War II—pushed back the advance party's departure date until April 3. Once arriving at the settlement site on April 18, the settlers initially found themselves with not even a roof over their heads, as everything, including basic residences, had to be built from scratch.<sup>151</sup> While lodging with a nearby Chinese village, little by little, they set out to construct the rough outlines of an agricultural settlement.

Just as the Taiheichin settlement was getting started, however, it received devastating news. In early May, Akiyama Bungo, a young settler who had come over with his wife and daughter, was called up for duty by the Kwantung Army. The Kwantung Army had always viewed the Manchurian agricultural settlements as a strategic buffer against the Soviet Union and accordingly placed them near the borderland. By the spring of 1945, in anticipation of a potential Soviet invasion, the main forces of the Kwantung Army had already retreated from the border regions, instead concentrating their defense on the region south of the capital, Shinkyō. Even though this left the two Christian settlements of Chōreishi and Taiheichin—along with the many other settlements located in the vast region to the north of Shinkyō—virtually unprotected, the Kwantung Army did not issue evacuation orders out of fear that such a move would only embolden the Soviet troops to invade.<sup>152</sup> Instead, the army chose to keep the settlements as a bulwark against northern encroachment while recruiting from them men, Christian or otherwise, for the purposes of a makeshift border garrison. Akiyama's conscription, technically in violation of a prior agreement that settlers would not be drafted into military service, was part of a desperate, last-resort attempt to fortify defenses along the border, and he was not the only one. Between May and July, the Chōreishi settlement lost approximately 50 out of 135 villagers to military call-ups, while Taiheichin lost 7 out of 11.<sup>153</sup> Having lost all their working-age men—including the two village leaders, Horii and Muro no—to the army, the Christian Pioneer Villages were left in a state of utter shock and despair.

Despite the grand visions of vast fields, abundant harvests, and racial utopia that had been promised to the Christian Pioneer Villages, the Manchukuo experiment ended in a sudden and tragic fashion. The men who had been drafted into the Kwantung Army were, after a brief period of service, captured by Soviet forces, which had finally invaded Manchukuo beginning on August 9, the same day that Nagasaki became the second city after Hiroshima to suffer an atomic bombing, and forcibly sent to work in labor camps in Siberia. Many died during this ordeal, and even those who survived would not return to Japan until after 1947.<sup>154</sup>

The villagers left behind did not fare any better. Once news of Japan's surrender on August 15 filtered out, mobs of Chinese peasants and bandits, some of whom were seeking revenge for having had their land taken away by the Japanese, ransacked the village, forcing the settlers to flee for their lives. Reduced to only women, children, and the elderly and with scarcely any governmental protection, the Christian settlers had become refugees in a hostile land. Having little choice, they eked out an existence among various shelters in Harbin—as did the many other former settlers who ended up there—while awaiting their chance to return to Japan. It was not until over a year later, in September 1946, that the members of the Chōreishi settlement were able to repatriate, with many dying in the interim due to disease, malnutrition, and random acts of violence.<sup>155</sup> In the final estimate, of the combined total of 220 who had signed up for the Christian Pioneer Village, only 123 were confirmed to have returned to Japan, while 97 were reported as either missing or dead.<sup>156</sup> Their numbers reflected the grim fate of the overall project of Manchurian colonization, in which an estimated 80,000 out of a total of 270,000 agricultural migrants lost their lives during the postwar evacuation and Siberian detention.<sup>157</sup>

Perhaps even more telling than such numbers, however, was the feeling on the part of the Christian settlers that they had been willfully misled and abandoned by the state. In stark contrast to the rosy picture of empty plains waiting to be remade into a utopian paradise that had been painted by state agents as well as the Christian Pioneer Village organizers, including Kagawa, what awaited the settlers were hastily concocted residences built on land obtained through coercion from the original landowners. What is more, the notion that Christians, with their spiritual and cooperative nature, would be more successful than other agricultural migrants proved unfounded, as the

hodgepodge nature of the group—mostly strangers who had been gathered from around Japan—made it difficult to cultivate a strong sense of community.

The Christian Pioneer settlements, initially spearheaded by Kagawa, ultimately failed because of a lack of foresight and understanding into the nature of their position within the state's priorities. While the Chōreishi settlement did achieve a measure of success after some time in terms of its agricultural output and formation of friendly contacts with neighboring Chinese villagers, these were much more modest returns than had been originally hoped.<sup>158</sup> The Taiheichin settlement, unrealistically projected to be twice as big as Chōreishi, had barely gotten off the ground before military call-ups decimated its work force. Once the Soviet forces invaded, moreover, the villagers were left in the dark by the state to fend for themselves. According to the testimony of one survivor, “nobody from the [Kwantung Army] came to tell us about the Soviet invasion, even though they had come to our village to requisition a single hunting rifle [less than a week prior].”<sup>159</sup> Referring to the requisition of their only firearm by the military a few days before the August 15 surrender, the villagers were dismayed to learn that the authorities, in whom they had placed their trust and loyalty, had failed to give them any proper warning about the looming danger posed by the Soviet invasion or offer any help or protection. This group of unarmed Japanese citizens was left stranded in what had become hostile enemy territory. The actions of the army summed up the self-interested and self-preservationist tendencies of the state, which ultimately came at the expense of common citizens.

Less than a month before Japan's surrender on August 15, 1945, Kagawa, who had helped to initially stoke the Manchukuo migration fever, gave a sermon in a Tokyo church. “Japan today is like Banzuiin Chōbei; being pierced with spears on all sides whilst suspended in a cold bath,” he preached, thus comparing his country to a popular kabuki hero who fought chivalrously to protect the common people against injustices.<sup>160</sup> Oblivious to the tragedies befalling his fellow compatriots in Manchuria, he continued: “I believe that Japan's cause is just. . . . We must fight against any enemy that opposes peace. . . . The U.S. has proved itself to be in violation of the Holy Spirit, and we must resist them until the bitter end.”<sup>161</sup> Little did Kagawa know that the bitter end was already arriving in a decidedly unchivalrous fashion,

as military authorities in places like Manchuria and Okinawa deliberately sacrificed the lives of thousands of innocent civilians in a bid to slow the tide of an inevitable defeat.<sup>162</sup>

Under the conditions of total war, Christian leaders such as Kagawa used their position of authority, newly formalized under the Religious Organizations Law, to urge their constituents to become loyal and patriotic servants of the empire. This was, on some levels, a self-serving policy since the instrumental use of religion to address national goals was seen as an effective strategy to protect Christianity and ensure its survival during the volatile wartime environment. While some Christians were clearly more nationalistic than others, as Imai-zumi demonstrated in his personal attacks on Kagawa, and a small minority staked out a position of resistance, the call to wartime cooperation was one that was largely accepted by the Japanese Christian community as a whole.

The cooperation of the Christian leaders, moreover, had transnational implications. Because of their close associations and shared religion with Western nations, the state enlisted Christians as propagandists in radio broadcasts directed toward the Allied enemy. Kagawa's foreign ties and pacifist background, however, continued to make him suspect in the public eye, resulting in two arrests in 1943. The sense of uncertainty that came from the inconsistent application of state power only made him more bombastic and conformist in his personal and ideological outlook, causing him to become an ardent defender of Japan and its notion of a Pan-Asian struggle against Western oppressors. This position, which he voiced through his many radio broadcasts, publications, and sermons during the war, stood in sharp contrast to his previous pacifist image. His American supporters, either oblivious to or skeptical of the authenticity of Kagawa's pro-Japan broadcasts, continued to invoke his name for the cause of peace across the Pacific.<sup>163</sup>

By the final months of the war, Japanese Christians' sense of self was completely overshadowed by the interests of the imperial state. Christian leaders rationalized this shift in terms of the exigencies of national survival, framing the war as an existential battle between Japan, the leader of Asian nations, against America, the embodiment of Western imperialism. In concluding the above sermon, Kagawa claimed, in reference to an Old Testament story regarding the prophets Elijah and Elisha: "When your nation is in crisis, one must defend it at all costs, taking actions that may go against one's own beliefs and

principles for the sake of the greater good. Religious convictions are no longer as important. . . . In times of peril, we must sacrifice all for the sake of the nation.”<sup>164</sup> Only after the war did it become clear that the Japanese state, for whose “just” and “righteous” cause Kagawa had become a vocal apologist, turned out to be just as self-interested and morally bankrupt as he had accused the Americans of being.

## *Chapter Five*

### THE RECOVERY OF RELIGION DURING THE POSTWAR OCCUPATION

In late October 1945, a group of Japanese and American Christians held a communion service at the Reinanzaka Church in central Tokyo. The meeting's material conditions gave insight into its extraordinary nature. Reinanzaka was one of the few churches that had survived the Allied firebombing of the city intact. Because of the scarcity of goods in the wake of the devastating war, the Japanese—led by the deputy head of the Kyōdan and the pastor of Reinanzaka, Kozaki Michio—were only able to obtain the bread and wine needed for the Eucharist through the assistance of the chief of chaplains of the Allied Occupation.

The American visitors—a four-person delegation led by Douglas Horton, chairman of the American Committee for the World Council of Churches—had come to Tokyo at the invitation of their Japanese hosts to rekindle old ties. They had arrived just a few days earlier on U.S. military planes, with the blessing of the Supreme Commander for the Allied Powers (SCAP), General Douglas MacArthur (1880–1964).<sup>1</sup> While happy to be reunited with their American counterparts after a long period of separation, many of the Japanese participants were visibly drained, exhausted physically and emotionally from the effects of war. Kagawa, however, was the exception. He eagerly engaged his guests in discussion, talking about his grand plans to evangelize Japan with the Americans' material and logistical help.<sup>2</sup> Ever the optimist, he saw in the miserable conditions of postwar Japan an unprecedented opportunity for the propagation of Christianity.

Kagawa was not alone in his quest to remake Japan into a Christian nation. Thanks to the confluence of a number of social and political factors, postwar Japan seemingly had all the necessary conditions for the rapid spread of Christianity. With the collapse of the militaristic total war regime and its decades-long imperial ambitions, Japanese citizens were finally freed from the apparatus of ideological indoctrination, Fascist regimentation, and ultranationalism that had led Japan to war. In its place came the Allied Occupation, whose policies were characterized by profound paradox. Examples of this include, among others, the general censorship of all documents published in Japan in the name of promoting freedom of expression and the top-down imposition of political and constitutional reforms in the name of promoting democracy.<sup>3</sup>

In contrast to some of his compatriots who were quick to point out the inherent irony of promoting freedom and democracy by fiat, however, Kagawa unquestioningly accepted and embraced the installation of the Occupation forces.<sup>4</sup> For him, the Allied Occupation signaled the restoration of friendly relations between Japan and the United States: an essential precondition for his plans to evangelize Japan. Moreover, in MacArthur he had the most powerful of allies. The supreme commander believed that in addition to drastic political and economic reforms, Japan needed to undergo a “great moral revolution” to form a “spiritual core” that he deemed necessary for its development as a peaceful democracy.<sup>5</sup> While MacArthur’s ambition of democratizing Japan through the Christianization of its people was never explicitly stated as Occupation policy—as it contravened the official objective of promoting religious freedom in Japan—it nevertheless helped to create a preferential atmosphere for both Japanese and American Christian evangelists and enabled the formation of a cooperative relationship between him and Kagawa aimed at achieving this common goal.

The special circumstances brought about by the Allied Occupation led to a veritable Christian boom (*Kirisutokyō būmu*) in postwar Japan, which extended all the way to the imperial household. Japanese Christians had many reasons to rejoice under the Occupation. Chief among these were the abolishment of the Religious Organizations Law and the disestablishment of State Shintō—respectively achieved on October 4 and December 15, 1945, through SCAP directives issued to the Japanese government—which granted genuine freedom of belief



and practice to not only Christians but all religious groups that had previously suffered under the rigid constraints of the wartime regime.

Despite the newfound freedom, however, Christians did not immediately nor decisively abandon cooperation with their own government.<sup>6</sup> This turned out to be good news for the Japanese state and imperial family, who were anxious to curry favor with the Occupation by embracing Christianity. Beginning with Prince Higashikuni Naruhiko (1887–1990), the first postwar prime minister (and uncle of Emperor Hirohito), who appointed Kagawa as an adviser to his cabinet, several members of the imperial family, including Hirohito, began to associate themselves with Japanese Christians. The Christians, in turn, helped to argue for the retention of the emperor in the face of international calls to put Hirohito on trial for war crimes, thus acting as a mediator between the Japanese government and the Allied Occupation.

Within this favorable climate, Kagawa emerged as the leader of a spiritual movement for a new Japan, which he envisioned as a peace-oriented democracy developing along Christian lines. Crucially, he also spoke out in defense of the emperor, whose political future was uncertain in the immediate aftermath of defeat. This led Kagawa to spearhead the Japan for Christ Movement, which from 1946 to 1949 tapped into embedded networks of religious collaboration between Japanese Christians and American missionaries to strive for the holy grail of evangelizing the country. U.S. missionaries helped to sustain the sudden growth in interest by providing Bibles, personnel, and funding to the rebuilding of the Japanese Church. Deriving a strong impetus and legitimacy from its association with the American occupiers—whose supreme commander, General MacArthur, was keen to see the Christian movement flourish—the nationwide evangelistic campaign articulated a Christian strategy of postwar recovery that safeguarded citizens' interests while remaining faithful to the Occupation's goals.

#### *ICHIOKU SÔZANGE AND THE REKINDLING OF MISSIONARY TIES*

The end of the Pacific War, marked by Hirohito's momentous August 15 radio broadcast proclaiming his acceptance of the Potsdam Declaration, heralded a new dawn for Japan. It provided an opportunity for Japanese people to move beyond its authoritarian and militarist past, much of which centered around a nationalist ideology predicated on imperial worship. Japanese Christian leaders, however,

took a cautious approach, maintaining their loyalty to the imperial throne while waiting to see how things would develop. On August 28, Kyōdan leaders held a board meeting, after which the *tōrishā* Tomita issued a statement stressing the need to accept “His Majesty’s rescript on the termination of war” and urging his fellow coreligionists to help preserve the “national polity” (*kokutai*).<sup>7</sup> Although the Kyōdan statement also featured calls to help with the recovery of churches that had been damaged during the war, the main message was clear. Japanese Christians needed to continue their “patriotic service through religion” (*shūkyō hōkoku*), a slogan that recalled familiar wartime drives for spiritual mobilization.<sup>8</sup>

Kagawa, meanwhile, also expressed his continued willingness to cooperate with the Japanese government by becoming an adviser to the short-lived Higashikuni cabinet. Prince Higashikuni—chosen to head the first postwar cabinet because of his unique status as a member of the imperial family who was also a career military officer (albeit with very little political experience)—initially did not know of Kagawa when he was forming his cabinet, requesting instead the retired Lieutenant General Ishiwara Kanji (1889–1949) to fill the post. To Higashikuni’s surprise, the appointment did not appeal to Ishiwara, who had spent his wartime years organizing a right-wing Pan-Asianist organization known as the East Asia League Association (*Tōa Renmei Kyōkai*).<sup>9</sup> After being approached by Higashikuni on August 23, however, Ishiwara volunteered the name of somebody whom he had seen in the past and thought well placed to take on the job. Ishiwara disclosed his thoughts on the matter in a later interview with the daily *Yomiuri Hōchi*: “We need the Christians and the Salvation Army to become more active, and for somebody like Mr. Kagawa Toyohiko to help transmit Japan’s fair-minded public opinion to the United States.”<sup>10</sup> Ishiwara, who knew Kagawa from his early days as a young captain assigned to the Imperial Army’s Central China Garrison, argued that the Japanese Christian leader had the necessary authority and charisma to advocate for Japanese interests in the face of the impending arrival of the Occupation forces at the end of August.<sup>11</sup>

As a civilian adviser to the cabinet, Kagawa helped to spread Higashikuni’s controversial exhortation for the Japanese people to undergo a collective national repentance. On August 28, the same day that Kagawa accepted the appointment to the cabinet adviser post, Prime Minister Higashikuni held a press conference, where he stated his view that “the entire nation, including the military, government

officials, and private citizens, must engage in a thoroughgoing self-examination. A ‘national total repentance’ (*kokumin sōzange*) must be the first step toward our nation’s recovery.”<sup>12</sup> This policy—sometimes called the total repentance of one hundred million (*ichioku sōzange*), thus invoking the popular wartime slogans that used the prefix “one hundred million” (*ichioku*) to characterize the Japanese people as a single collective unit—had its origins in an August 21 interview by Ishiwara and was subsequently adopted by Higashikuni.<sup>13</sup> Many observers were stunned by his suggestion, which in effect blamed ordinary people for Japan’s defeat while exempting the emperor from any personal responsibility, despite the fact that the war had been very much waged in his name.<sup>14</sup> While Higashikuni claimed that the slogan was intended to unify the country and galvanize the morale of a populace suffering from defeat, the self-serving nature of the policy was not lost on the public.<sup>15</sup> One man from Saga Prefecture, for example, shrewdly pointed out the inherent contradictions of the slogan: “Although the [prime minister] says we must engage in ‘total repentance,’ we citizens have been obediently following the state’s orders all along, faithfully doing our part to help with total war mobilization. Therefore, if there is someone to blame for the defeat, it is those at the top of the government.”<sup>16</sup> Despite the criticisms of the obfuscation of war responsibility, however, the most pressing agenda for Higashikuni was the retention of the emperor—a concern shared by Kagawa.

On August 30, MacArthur flew into Atsugi airfield from Manila, thus setting foot in Japan for the first time as supreme commander. On the same day, the *Yomiuri Hōchi* newspaper published an open letter addressed to MacArthur, written by Kagawa. Within it the Japanese evangelist pleaded with the American general to show leniency and spare the imperial family from punishment:

Your Excellency: Japan became a defeated country on August 15. This is a solemn fact, and an undeniable reality. However, it is also true that until the very moment of the proclamation of the Imperial Rescript on the Termination of the War, the entire nation’s morale was high, and the combined Imperial Forces of the Army, Navy, and Air Forces had their rifles fixed on the chests of your men.

With the issuance of the Imperial Rescript, these two seemingly contradictory realities were resolved, and Japan began its way down a new path. . . . Although no Japanese doubted that the war would have to go

on as long as His Majesty willed so, following the promulgation of the Imperial Rescript, the nation made a complete turnaround from war to peace. . . .

Your Excellency: Victorious countries must be broad-minded and sympathetic. Japan, in observance of the Imperial Rescript, is ready to start on a new road as a member of the world of nations. . . . Please do not crack your whip, but help us forge ahead in the establishment of a new culture and a new world by making the best of the special characteristics of the Japanese people.<sup>17</sup>

By recounting the decisive role that Hirohito's proclamation had in effecting a swift and peaceful surrender of Japan's armed forces, Kagawa painted a favorable picture of the emperor and his continued importance to the nation. His spirited defense of the emperor's actions formed a preemptive argument against the charges he feared might be brought upon Hirohito in the ensuing months by the occupiers. Making no reference to his Christian background or leanings, Kagawa's letter reflected the cautious anticipation of many Japanese who did not yet know what to expect of their new American overseers.

During his time as Higashikuni's cabinet adviser, Kagawa laid the groundwork for two organizations that helped to institutionalize the movement for total repentance: the International Peace Association (Kokusai Heiwa Kyōkai) and the Moral Revival Society (Dōgi Shin-seikai).<sup>18</sup> The International Peace Association aimed to eliminate war among nations by promoting "peace education," while the Moral Revival Society worked with religious groups and educators for the enhancement of "public morality," in coordination with the total repentance movement.<sup>19</sup> The latter organization also stressed "respect for the imperial family" as one of its central platforms.<sup>20</sup>

Kagawa spearheaded Japanese Christian involvement in the total repentance movement by becoming the chairman of the Kyōdan's Postwar Activities Committee (Kyōdan Sengo Katsudō Inikai). The committee initially set a time frame of six months, beginning on September 1, for its nationwide campaign to promote Higashikuni's total repentance policy.<sup>21</sup> In order to garner support for this campaign, Higashikuni invited the leaders of both the Protestant Kyōdan as well as the Catholic Kyōdan to his official residence on September 20, whereupon he asked the assembled clergymen for their help in restoring the people's "morality."<sup>22</sup> Kagawa furthermore led prayer meetings organized in

the name of repentance, such as the Revival Movement Prayer Rally (Kōsei Undō Dai Kitōkai), held at the Hongō Church on September 23, and the Total Repentance Prayer Training Meeting (Sōzange Kitō Shūyōkai), held at the Matsuzawa Church on October 21, thus leveraging his Christian networks in support of the cabinet's policy.<sup>23</sup>

On September 24, Kagawa expressed his support for imperial retention during a radio broadcast intended to popularize the notion of national repentance. In the radio speech, titled "The Way of Morality and Peace" (Dōgi to heiwa no michi), Kagawa began on a rare note of contrition, conceding that Japan's defeat had proved its unworthiness as the self-proclaimed wartime leader of the Asian nations, citing the "brutal acts that were carried out by Japanese soldiers in the Philippines."<sup>24</sup> He then went on to cite various historical instances of repentance for the nation to learn from, such as Saint Augustine of Hippo's *Confessions* and the Minamoto clan warrior Kumagai Naozane's renunciation of samurai life as depicted in the medieval Japanese epic *The Tale of the Heike*.<sup>25</sup> Finally, he borrowed a phrase from Hirohito's Imperial Rescript on the Termination of the War, declaring "We must uphold the spirit encapsulated in the [emperor's] exemplary phrase, 'pave the way for a grand peace for all the generations to come' (*bansei no tame ni taihei o hiraku*), and make the achievement of world peace our new goal."<sup>26</sup> Kagawa thus linked Higashikuni's call for total repentance with a phrase from the emperor's surrender address, deftly tying the two together under the rallying cry of world peace that had become so popular in a thoroughly war-weary society.<sup>27</sup> In doing so, he directly connected the act of repentance and the project of reconstruction as a peaceful nation, eliding the critical question about the status of the imperial throne.

Despite Kagawa's efforts on its behalf, however, the Higashikuni cabinet's days were numbered. Following its surrender, the Japanese government was placed under the administrative oversight of SCAP. Although SCAP was technically only there in a supervisory capacity, leaving the actual implementation of policies up to the Japanese cabinet, its authority was nevertheless constantly felt. On October 4, for example, MacArthur ordered the dissolution of wartime restraints on political, civil, and religious liberties through the so-called Civil Liberties Directive (Jinken Shirei).<sup>28</sup> This was a monumental directive that instructed the abolishment of key components of the wartime system of surveillance and thought control such as the Peace Preservation Law and Religious Organizations Law, a complete dismissal of all the top

officials of the Home Ministry and local police forces, the dissolution of the Tokkō Police, and the release of all political prisoners held captive during the war.<sup>29</sup>

Higashikuni, who had staked his premiership on the collective shouldering of war responsibility and the preservation of the national polity and emperor, was naturally hesitant to carry out the SCAP orders. According to his later-published diary, his desire was to release political prisoners via the instrument of an imperial pardon (*tennō no na de shakuhō*), which he saw as the only proper way to deal with prisoners who had been incarcerated under the emperor's name in the first place.<sup>30</sup> Once his initiative was preempted by MacArthur, however, Higashikuni refused to act on the SCAP directive out of fear that it might undermine his efforts to protect the imperial throne and cause major social upheaval. A combination of imperial loyalty and political inexperience, therefore, forced the demise of the Higashikuni cabinet on October 9 and, along with it, the largely unpopular national repentance policy.<sup>31</sup>

Meanwhile, American missionaries, driven by their evangelist zeal and bond of friendship toward their Japanese counterparts, became the first civilian foreign personnel to return to Japan after the war. Mother Topping, who had remained in Japan during the war, wrote her stateside children, Helen and Willard, on September 26 with an overwhelming sense of relief: "After four years of nightmare . . . we are at the beginning of a new chapter of world history."<sup>32</sup> "Never before was there such a call for missionary work of the right kind," she exclaimed, calling for their quick return. "You are both needed as never before. Kagawa is pleading for Helen's immediate return. He is perhaps the central figure . . . in calling for a nation-wide movement of repentance, of humility and obedience."<sup>33</sup> The following day, an article by the Japanese Christian leader Miyakoda Tsunetarō appeared in the *Nippon Times*, which proved instrumental in rekindling the lost contact between Japanese and American Christians. In his piece, Miyakoda, who had been a part of the prewar Japanese Christian Fellowship Deputation to the United States, recounted the Americans' plans to send a reciprocal embassy after the 1941 Riverside Conference, which had become a "promise . . . unfulfilled due to the outbreak of the Pacific War."<sup>34</sup> Now that the war was over, he indicated that such a delegation "would be the most timely aid to the Christian forces in this country, and would receive the warmest and heartiest welcome from Japanese leaders."<sup>35</sup> Upon receiving this

message, which was broadcast over Radio Tokyo to the United States, American church leaders decided to respond to the invitation, appointing a four-member deputation—consisting of James C. Baker, Douglas Horton, Walter Van Kirk, and Luman J. Shafer—which departed on a monthlong trip to Japan on October 21.<sup>36</sup>

The Americans' return was received as a significant symbolic gesture signaling the restoration of friendly relations between Japan and the United States. In a period when civilian travel to Japan was tightly regulated by the Occupation authorities, the four-person delegation, which arrived at the Atsugi airfield on October 25, was accorded great privileges by the U.S. Army in both transportation and billeting. During its stay in Tokyo, the Occupation provided accommodations for the American churchmen at the Daiichi Hotel, which was being used as quarters for some 650 U.S. officers.<sup>37</sup> Following the aforementioned communion service with Japanese Christian leaders at the Reinanzaka Church—an experience that, according to their report, reaffirmed the sense “that our fellowship in Christ remained unbroken”—the Americans traveled around the country, meeting with local ministers and surveying the extent of the damage caused by the war.

The returning missionaries were greeted with an overwhelmingly positive reception, owing in part to their association with American GIs, who provided logistical help for their travels and were popular among the Japanese for their propensity to hand out chocolate and chewing gum to needy children. This was also because they were seen as influential figures who could help guide Japan's return to international society as a peace-minded nation. In a lengthy editorial published on November 1, the *Nippon Times* praised “the good will of the Christian elements in America” for having taken “such a solicitous concern in the rehabilitation of defeated Japan,” adding its hopes that the deputation “should have a great influence in further strengthening the work of restoring understanding and friendly relations between the peoples of the two nations.”<sup>38</sup> The Americans' visit, moreover, prompted an emotional return for Luman Shafer, who had served as the principal of Ferris Seminary prior to the war. The Japanese staff and alumni of Ferris, whose requisitioned campus buildings had been returned for school use in late October, held a special meeting for Shafer in the school cafeteria on November 8. Overwhelmed by the occasion, Shafer was “at a loss for words [due to his emotions]” during a homecoming speech in front of his former colleagues and students.<sup>39</sup>



During their stay in Japan, the American Christian mission had an audience with two key individuals: General MacArthur and Emperor Hirohito. The churchmen met with MacArthur twice, on October 25 and November 4. On both occasions the supreme commander spoke of the urgent need for the American churches to take a major part in “the program of reconciliation with Japan” and how Japan’s loss of moral values suffered during the war and defeat opened up a great opportunity for Christians.<sup>40</sup> The delegation came away from the meetings impressed by MacArthur’s view of “[sowing] . . . the idea of freedom . . . which roots in religion” and buoyed by his promise of support and welcome for all missionaries who wished to come to Japan.<sup>41</sup> They were similarly inspired by their meeting with the emperor, which took place on November 9 at the offices of the Imperial Household Ministry, temporarily serving in the stead of the Meiji Imperial Palace (Meiji Kyūden) building that had been destroyed during the war. Through an interpreter, Hirohito conveyed his wishes that “Christians the world over would cooperate in the effort to restore peace and good will among the peoples,” applauding the deputation’s mission of “cementing the ties of friendship between Japan and the United States.”<sup>42</sup> Even before their imperial audience, the Americans had been impressed upon by their Japanese hosts that Hirohito had not wanted the war and had put himself in personal danger because of his decision to accept the Potsdam Declaration.<sup>43</sup> Shafer repeated this thesis to the *Nippon Times*, much to the chagrin of the U.S. State Department, which was then still undecided as to what policy it would adopt with regard to the emperor.<sup>44</sup> It was quite natural, then, that Hirohito would extend such a warm welcome to a U.S. delegation willing to defend his position in public.

The four American churchmen’s visit to Japan in October–November 1945 marked the unofficial beginning of the Christian boom in postwar Japan. With the full cooperation of the Occupation forces, they became the first civilian personnel from the Allied side to touch down in a war-ravaged Japan. During their stay, MacArthur—the de facto highest political authority in the land—urged the missionaries to make the most of the favorable political climate and achieve the conversion of Japan into a Christian nation. For the Americans, the trip also carried an emotional weight that derived from a history of personal and institutional friendship with their Japanese counterparts that predated the Pacific War. Kagawa, for his part, spent the first few postsurrender months helping the Higashikuni cabinet’s ill-fated



attempts to deal with the spiritual and political aftermath of the defeat. While the total repentance campaign proved unpopular and short-lived, Kagawa remained steadfast in his efforts to support the emperor in this period of uncertain transition. His ability to make public calls for peace and imperial retention, however, would soon be challenged by the repercussions of his wartime actions.

#### PUBLIC EVANGELISM UNDER MACARTHUR'S PROTECTION

In the final days of the year 1945, visitors to the Yurakuchō section of Tokyo were greeted with an unusual sight. Workers had constructed a giant arch made of fir leaves in front of the Daiichi Seimei building, an imposing neoclassical structure overlooking the Imperial Palace that MacArthur had chosen as his Occupation headquarters, also known as General Headquarters (GHQ). Atop the arch sat an illuminated sign that read “Merry Xmas.”<sup>45</sup> According to one American observer, the conspicuous sign was reflected in the waters of the Imperial Palace moat. At night, they “stood out in electric lights that could be seen half a mile away,” leading him to wonder whether the message was intended as a mere greeting or rather as a directive to the Japanese people.<sup>46</sup> The decorations had been installed in preparation for a citywide celebration of Christmas—the first since the end of the war—featuring numerous events and religious services attended by both Japanese and Americans.<sup>47</sup> Amid the holiday festivities was one notable omission. On the morning of Christmas, the Daiichi Seimei building was scheduled to host a Protestant service.<sup>48</sup> GHQ had initially invited Kagawa as the guest speaker at this highly symbolic event organized to bolster and legitimize its promotion of Christian values in Japan.<sup>49</sup>

Kagawa's appearance, however, had to be canceled at the last minute because of a breaking political scandal that at once highlighted his controversial wartime legacy as well as the protection afforded him by MacArthur's Occupation. A blistering exposé in the U.S. military newspaper *Stars and Stripes*, published only several days prior to the GHQ Christmas service, set off a storm of controversy that illuminated the intertwined interests of Kagawa and MacArthur. The piece had been written by Barnard Rubin, a corporal and former machine gunner in the Battle of Luzon who had been assigned to the *Stars and Stripes'* hurriedly assembled Tokyo-based Pacific edition.<sup>50</sup> His December 20 article, “Under Christian Guise, This Jap Fostered War,” was a scathing attack on Kagawa that recounted the propaganda broadcasts the Japanese

Christian leader had made during the Pacific War.<sup>51</sup> Rubin drew a sharp contrast between Kagawa's prewar image in the United States as a renowned Christian pacifist and his wartime "propagandiz[ing] for an aggressive war," accusing him of being a hypocritical "warmonger" who had cleverly used his pacifist reputation as camouflage to "[serve] the fascist government of Japan."<sup>52</sup> He furthermore bemoaned the state of affairs in which figures like Kagawa, who had professed loyalty to Emperor Hirohito, were allowed to take a prominent role in Japan's postwar politics, citing a recent instance in which the former gave a speech at the inaugural meeting of the Japan Socialist Party (Nihon Shakaitō), where he had reportedly led the assembled crowd in three "Banzai!" cheers for the emperor.<sup>53</sup>

Rubin's exposé unintentionally touched off a heated debate over the so-called Kagawa question. He had originally meant for his article to be nothing more than a piece of investigative journalism that threw light upon what he saw as one of many political problems in postwar Japan. Since November 14, 1945, Rubin had been the author of a regular column in the *Stars and Stripes* titled "Japan Today"—where his piece on Kagawa also appeared—that covered numerous topics ranging from Japanese agricultural reform to war munition industries to the future of Emperor Hirohito. Politically, he favored the anti-imperialist views of the newly legalized Japanese Communist Party while remaining critical of other parties such as the Social Democrats, who held a more ambiguous position over the issue.<sup>54</sup> Rubin's piece on Kagawa, therefore, was an incidental one not based on any direct prior experience with the Japanese evangelist, as could be seen from his reliance on secondhand information gathered from the Occupation's Civil Information and Education section and an intelligence report by the Federal Communications Commission. Rather, he was interested in using Kagawa to highlight a more general issue: the conspicuous presence of former collaborators of the wartime regime in Japanese postwar politics.

From MacArthur's standpoint, however, Rubin's article foregrounded an uncomfortable truth about one of his chosen allies. Kagawa's involvement in wartime propaganda and his postwar defense of the emperor clearly went against the Occupation's mandate of eradicating the roots of Japanese militarism and imperialism. Although Rubin's article did not generate much interest in the Japanese press, the news had the potential to derail Kagawa's public career if handled the wrong way.<sup>55</sup> From the perspective of MacArthur, whose political

views were deeply influenced by his Christian religiosity, Kagawa's status as a high-profile evangelist made him a major asset to the project of Christianizing Japan, giving the supreme commander a strong motivation to shield him from public scrutiny and criticism.<sup>56</sup>

Since MacArthur's arrival in Japan, Kagawa had emphasized his common goals with the general through various means. On October 22, 1945, for example, Kagawa contacted MacArthur as the head of the Kyōdan Committee on Postwar Relief, entreating the general to release some of the Japanese funds and rare metals confiscated by SCAP to help provide food and daily necessities for the people.<sup>57</sup> He continued his overtures after the publication of Rubin's column, addressing a thank-you note to MacArthur in early 1946 for issuing a directive abolishing licensed prostitution. The postscript to the letter featured a personal message that highlighted their shared interests: "You will perhaps be interested to know that we have recently decided and appropriated the means to start our evangelistic noonday service at the Ginza Church from February 12, everyday except Sunday, to win the masses for Christ. . . . This sort of work, no doubt, will be a valuable help to the cause of democracy in Japan."<sup>58</sup>

In addition to Kagawa's Christian evangelism, which both parties regarded as conducive to the project of democratization, equally important to MacArthur was the Japanese Christian's vocal expressions of support for the emperor. The supreme commander had decided as early as January 1946 that retaining Hirohito, rather than removing him, would be the most effective way of maintaining domestic order and ensuring the smooth implementation of SCAP reforms.<sup>59</sup> Despite his problematic record of wartime cooperation, Kagawa was therefore seen as a politically useful ally of the Occupation agenda.

Due to such considerations, the Occupation forced the dismissal of Rubin and attempted to censor his account of Kagawa. Despite its military affiliation, *Stars and Stripes* had long prided itself on its editorial independence, insisting on its right to report the news truthfully, without regard to politics. Such journalistic freedoms were under pressure in early 1946, however, as reflected in a number of editorial clampdowns in the paper's Middle Pacific and Rome editions.<sup>60</sup> In keeping with this general pattern, a number of U.S. Army and Navy chaplains objected to Rubin's article on Kagawa, leading to a ban on further public discussion of the topic.<sup>61</sup> On February 7, 1946, SCAP reassigned Rubin, along with managing editor Sergeant Ken Pettus,

to duty in Okinawa.<sup>62</sup> Following a protest from the *Stripes* staff that denounced the sudden transfer as an “exile” resulting from the two GI’s criticism of Kagawa, MacArthur’s office stayed the reassignment in order to allow an investigation into their case.<sup>63</sup> The inspector general’s report found no evidence to substantiate the charges of disloyalty against Rubin and Pettus, stating that their loyalty to the United States “[stood] un-impeached”; nevertheless, it upheld their removal from the newspaper on the grounds that “each had held membership in the nationwide, established Communist party and [had] at times flavored his public writings with Communistic thought.”<sup>64</sup> The two journalists, in the end, were deemed unfit for “sensitive duties” at GHQ’s Information and Education Detachment, which published *Stars and Stripes*, and were reinstated for normal duty in Yokohama, thus effectively ending their careers in the GI press.<sup>65</sup>

Despite SCAP’s best efforts at suppression, the Kagawa issue remained a source of international controversy in the wake of the Christian leader’s appointment to the House of Peers. On March 12, Kagawa’s name was put on the list of imperial nominees to the House of Peers (*kizokuin*)—the upper house of the Imperial Diet whose members, comprised mainly of the aristocratic elite, served as a counterweight against the popularly elected House of Representatives.<sup>66</sup> Kagawa never had the chance to take his seat, however, as his attendance at the House of Peers was tied up while SCAP investigated his tenure as an adviser to the Higashikuni cabinet and his wartime record, as was required under the provisions of the Purge Directive.

Meanwhile, as SCAP looked into his background, news of Kagawa’s scandal had already traveled across the Pacific. An article published in the April 1946 issue of the *Christian Register*, a major Unitarian weekly based in Boston, for example, rehashed the contents of Rubin’s article, asserting that America needed to “know the record of a Christian who surrendered to militaristic nationalism” and practiced a brand of “quasi-pacifism.”<sup>67</sup> Shortly thereafter, T. T. Brumbaugh, a former Japan missionary and Tokyo correspondent for the *Christian Century*, jumped to Kagawa’s defense, characterizing Rubin’s article as a smear campaign that sought to defame Kagawa “in the same manner as Martin Niemöller’s fair name was besmirched following Germany’s capitulation.”<sup>68</sup> The Kagawa question had become such a heated point of contention among American churchgoers that the Federal Bureau of Investigation (FBI) received letters from concerned

citizens “in search [of] true facts” regarding Kagawa’s wartime activities, including unfounded rumors that he had secretly worked as a spy for the Japanese military in his 1941 trip to the United States.<sup>69</sup>

Japanese Christians, for their part, stood behind Kagawa, denying the allegations leveled against their most famous coreligionist as they prepared to launch their nationwide evangelistic campaign. In response to an inquiry by MacArthur’s office into Kagawa’s standing within the Japanese Church, leaders of the Kyōdan’s Tokyo Branch released a joint statement on May 21 providing a public character witness for Kagawa. The resolution stated that people had been “greatly misled” by “malicious charges” recently made against Kagawa, claiming that he had, to the contrary, “been incessantly working for the uplift of international justice and for absolute peace even at the risk of his own life during the war,” effectively endorsing his wartime actions.<sup>70</sup> The declaration, which was submitted to SCAP on the same day, received wide coverage in the press, underscoring the sense of unity within the church.<sup>71</sup> While the statement betrayed a selective forgetfulness on the part of the Japanese Church regarding its history of wartime cooperation with the imperial state, it was also a strategic move that aimed to protect its most prominent preacher at a moment when the national mood for Christianity was on the rise. Kagawa was content to let his compatriots do the talking on this issue while he remained silent, instead focusing his energies on his newly elected role as chairman of a national Christian rally for the reconstruction of a “New Japan.”<sup>72</sup>

The All Japan Christian Convention, which exhibited certain continuities with the prewar Christian rallies, kicked off a three-year national campaign that promised the establishment of a new nation along Christian lines. Advertisements for the event, held on June 9 (the day of Pentecost) and attended by five thousand delegates, referenced the fact that the convention was being hosted at the very same site (Aoyama Gakuin) as the 2600th Imperial Anniversary National Christian Conference, which had taken place at the height of Japan’s prewar nationalism in 1940.<sup>73</sup> The format of the event also drew inspiration from the prewar conference, interspersing hymns and prayers with greetings and reports from various Christian leaders.<sup>74</sup> Gone, however, were the calls for imperial worship and overseas evangelism, as the postwar convention stressed instead its determination “for the reconstruction of [a] New Japan founded upon the Cross of Jesus” and its mission to “save eighty million compatriots from their impending

starvation.”<sup>75</sup> The significance of the event was not lost on Kagawa, who as chairman had sent out notices to committee members emphasizing the historic meaning of the conference. Christians, after all, were not only trying to stake a claim for their relevance within a broader national conversation—as they had previously done—but were also, for the first time, attempting to promote their religion as one that would, in theory, come to define the future of Japan.<sup>76</sup>

The convention set high expectations for the nationwide campaign, which reflected its leaders’ confidence in the political winds favoring Christianity. The outline for the evangelistic campaign stated its ambitious aim of “win[ning] 3 million souls for Christ” over the course of three years.<sup>77</sup> Although this amounted to no more than 4 percent of the overall population in 1945, it still represented an approximately tenfold increase from the Christian population at the time of surrender and was three times as many number of followers as the Kingdom of God Movement had aimed to produce in the early 1930s.<sup>78</sup>

In order to achieve this gigantic leap, the central committee outlined an elaborate evangelization scheme that featured separate strategies for different groups (e.g., urban vs. rural dwellers, prisoners, and repatriates), a program for social service, organizations for youth, and a Bible distribution program. The organizers also thanked the cooperating American churches for sending Bibles and expressed appreciation for the slow but steady return to Japan of a number of missionaries, seven of whom took an active part in the campaign by participating in the international committee of the evangelistic department.<sup>79</sup> Following this launch, Kagawa became one of the most sought-after preachers of postwar Japan as he traveled around the war-torn nation in support of the movement (figure 5.1).

As Kagawa toured the country, SCAP officials faced a difficult decision with regard to his House of Peers screening. An interim report filed on September 19 began with a telling admission: “Quick and simple judgment is difficult in Dr. Kagawa’s case because his life history seems to be made up of so many paradoxes.”<sup>80</sup> The document went on to describe the contradictory aspects of Kagawa’s career:

He was first known as the friend of the poor and the savior of the slums, yet he later hobnobs with the well-to-do. He has been arrested time and again by the military authorities of Japan for entertaining “peace” or “anti-war thoughts” and has been looked upon by most of his own



Figure 5.1. People lining up outside Hibiya Public Hall (marked with the letters “GHQ”) to hear a public lecture by Kagawa, 1946. *Source*: “Uchū mokuteki ron kōenkai Hibiya Kōkaidō,” September 19, 1946, MSRC

countrymen as well as Christians abroad as an internationalist and advocate of peace; yet there is evidence that he was behind the Japanese war against America and Great Britain, endorsing Japan’s war aims and castigating those of the United States and Great Britain. . . .

His espousers declare that these apparent incongruities and inconsistencies are the mark of his genius; that to us common folk his constant leitmotif cannot be discerned nor appreciated. His enemies charge him with hypocrisy, egotism, and opportunism—the only consistent element being that Kagawa must be in the limelight.<sup>81</sup>

At the same time, the report conceded that he was, on the whole, more of a “pacifist” and “internationalist” than a “militarist” or “ultranationalist” in the traditional sense, and to remove Kagawa as part of the purge would “bring tremendous [censure] down on the heads of SCAP by groups of persons who cannot separate Kagawa, the religious leader, from Kagawa, the politician.”<sup>82</sup> The “groups of



persons" here most likely referred to Kagawa's Japanese and American religious allies, who were steadfastly campaigning to help recover his overseas reputation. For example, Helen Topping, while not yet able to return to Japan, had resumed her previous line of work as Kagawa's English secretary and assistant from the United States and asked the managing editor of the *Christian Century* to run an article discussing "the rehabilitation of Kagawa's contact with the West."<sup>83</sup> Another figure who voiced her support for Kagawa was Uemura Tamaki (1890–1982), a graduate of Wellesley College and leader of the Japanese YWCA who became the first Japanese private citizen to travel to the United States after the war in spring 1946 and was later invited to a White House meeting with President Harry S. Truman.<sup>84</sup> Following a speech that she gave at Saint Paul's Chapel in Columbia University to a large group of New York Nisei, Uemura declared that Kagawa was "still the same large-hearted internationalist, the same strong Christian, the same great leader of the people he has always been," evocatively adding that any disparaging rumors that might be circulating about him would eventually "disappear as a mist on a bright morning."<sup>85</sup> In light of the public influence of such supporters, the SCAP screening report sounded a cautionary note, warning that if Kagawa were purged, he and his followers would "cry persecution . . . [invoking] the judgment of God and history upon SCAP and Occupation policies."<sup>86</sup> The influence of Kagawa's backers, it seemed, remained as strong as ever in the postwar period.

MacArthur's personal responses to inquiries from concerned U.S. citizens about Kagawa's postwar activities provide insight into his valuation of the embattled Japanese evangelist. Jones Luther Risk of Trenton, Michigan, for example, sent a letter addressed to MacArthur on January 10, 1947. Risk, a former leader of the Detroit Council of Churches who had heard Kagawa speak at the Masonic temple in Detroit during the latter's 1936 U.S. tour, was anxious to find out what had become of him since then and asked the SCAP commander for his help in providing any relevant information.<sup>87</sup> MacArthur replied with a brief yet enthusiastic letter, stating that "[Kagawa] has survived the war and is now actively engaged in evangelistic work in Japan. He is a disciple of Christianity and exerts an appreciable influence upon the life of this community."<sup>88</sup> He then went on to thank Risk for his "prayers and . . . good wishes for the work we are carrying on in Japan," noting his appreciation "for the interest that American Christianity is taking in it."<sup>89</sup> Making no mention of the negative publicity that had been



generated with regard to Kagawa in the past year, MacArthur's reply suggested that, as far as he was concerned, the Japanese Christian leader's efforts to evangelize Japan were what mattered.

MacArthur's sympathetic attitude toward Kagawa, however, was not always shared by his subordinates. Courtney Whitney, chief of the Government Section that oversaw the Kagawa probe, for example, was reluctant to allow Kagawa to take on a public role. In an internal memo dated January 31, 1947, Whitney argued that "[Kagawa's] influence over the Japanese nation remains considerable and if afforded the opportunity, he will render irreparable damage to the democratic course thus far adhered."<sup>90</sup> While conceding that his appointment for the House of Peers was on course to be approved, Whitney stated that "every possible effort" must be made in the future to prevent Kagawa from taking a "high governmental position."<sup>91</sup> Donald R. Nugent, chief of the Civil Information and Education Section, on the other hand, expressed a sympathetic, if somewhat conflicted, position over the Kagawa issue. In a memo filed together with MacArthur's correspondence with American supporters, Nugent cited a number of factors that counted against Kagawa's case—such as his wartime cooperation, propaganda broadcasts, and continued nationalist support for the emperor after the surrender—before pointing out some of the positive aspects of his record. These included the fact that he had not joined any of the patriotic organizations and that he was a vigorous opponent of communism.<sup>92</sup> Given that it seemed inevitable that Kagawa would pass his screening for the House of Peers, Nugent further noted, "The united Protestant evangelistic campaign for 'three million souls for Christ' [was] largely built around Dr. Kagawa's personality" and that "he is destined to serve as the dominating personality in [this] movement during the next few years."<sup>93</sup> Nugent concluded that it would be "advisable to take a sympathetic attitude towards him. . . . To do otherwise would, in effect, undermine the Protestant evangelistic movement in Japan."<sup>94</sup> Kagawa's clearance, therefore, was a divisive issue that illustrated the skepticism of certain SCAP officials toward the public protection of an individual tainted by his record of cooperation with the wartime regime. Their reservations, however, were overruled by MacArthur, who was willing to overlook such flaws in order to advance the cause of Japan's Christianization.

Kagawa's appointment to the House of Peers was an instructive case that revealed his privileged position within Occupied Japan. Kagawa's numerous interactions with the supreme commander's

office—either in the form of direct correspondence from him or indirect inquiries about his activities from American Christians—suggest that MacArthur regarded Kagawa as a unique and important ally in his personal mission to promote Christianity and ensure the smooth implementation of his policies in Japan. Despite his controversial wartime record, Kagawa's wide influence in this regard was enough to convince MacArthur of his instrumental value and allowed him to escape the fate of more than two hundred thousand of his compatriots purged from public life by the Occupation authorities. In legislative terms, Kagawa's clearance ultimately made no practical difference, as the House of Peers itself was soon abolished by the new Japanese constitution, which came into effect on May 3, 1947. The protection afforded him by MacArthur's office during this period, however, enabled him to carry on his evangelistic agenda in the Japan for Christ Movement.

#### RECONSTRUCTING A NEW JAPAN FOR CHRIST

MacArthur has been an amazing Christian general. Japan never had such a Christian ruler or prime minister in all her history. MacArthur said he would like to see the Sermon on the Mount in action in Japan. Future Japan will owe much to him, but the total revolution taking place is due to vast forces to which he has been able to give wise direction. . . .

Although we are in the midst of an economic and political revolution, we have yet to see a spiritual revolution in needy Japan. If we do not have this, the glorious new Constitution will in time be reduced to a scrap of paper. The next few years will be a period of crisis for the whole future of Japan.<sup>95</sup>

Kagawa's glowing appraisal of MacArthur's policies and predictions for the future of Japan, entering its third year under Allied Occupation by late 1948, conveyed a sense of cautious optimism about the direction in which his country was headed. His personal assessment—written down by his friend and American missionary leader Sherwood Eddy, who was visiting Japan as part of a working tour that also featured stops in Korea, China, and India—applauded a number of reforms achieved under the general that reflected the Roosevelt-era New Deal background of many of his Occupation officials. These included the legalization of labor unions, the redistribution of farmland, the guarantees of civil and human rights, the enfranchisement of

women, and the renunciation of war—all of which were enshrined in Japan's newly enacted constitution.<sup>96</sup> The nation had indeed undergone a remarkable transformation in the space of only a few years, being stripped of its entire military establishment and overseas colonial possessions, having thousands of its wartime leaders charged and convicted, and seeing the emperor step down from the exalted position of heavenly sovereign to become a mere symbol of the state and its people. Despite the radical overhaul of its wartime political and military structure, however, Japan's imperial legacies continued to exert a persistent influence as Kagawa spearheaded a postwar movement to bring about a new Japan along Christian lines.

The Japan for Christ Movement (1946–1949) melded rhetoric derived from the recent imperial past with Occupation-era values such as peace and democracy to create a popular religious boom that articulated a Christian agenda of reconstruction. On the surface the Japan for Christ Movement—whose literal Japanese name was the New Japan Construction Christian Movement (*Shin Nihon Kensetsu Kirisuto Undō*)—defined itself in opposition to the militarism and imperialism of the wartime years through its exhortation for the “construction” of a “new Japan.”<sup>97</sup> In doing so it drew upon elements of early postwar discourse that repurposed the rhetoric of wartime propaganda, turning it into rallying cries at once familiar yet gesturing beyond the discredited ideologies of the immediate past, such as militarism and fascism. As can be seen in the wartime calls for a “New Order” and the construction of a Greater East Asia Co-Prosperty Sphere, the motif of newness and renovation was a constant theme in Japanese imperial ideology and arguably had an even longer history that stretched all the way back to the Meiji Restoration.<sup>98</sup> What differed in the postwar articulations of newness, however, was the way in which women and men envisioned their reconstructed nation. For the leaders of the Japan for Christ Movement, foremost among which was Kagawa, this meant an emphasis on the role of Christianity in allowing Japan to make a smooth transition from an expansionist militarist state to a peace-oriented democracy.

Just as the Japan for Christ Movement was starting its drive for the construction of a new nation based on peace, Christians received news of the aftermath of an earlier project of failed utopia building in the former colonial empire. On October 19, 1946, the *Kirisuto shinbun*—a Christian weekly founded by Kagawa fewer than six months prior—ran a story about the return of a number of Christian

Pioneer Villagers to Japan.<sup>99</sup> The article, titled “Failed Dreams of Building a Peaceful Utopia,” was written by Yokosaka Kazuko, a returnee and daughter of the deputy village leader, Yokosaka Katsuo, who was still being held in a Soviet labor camp, and told of the repatriation of seventeen members of the Chōreishi Christian settlement in Manchuria.<sup>100</sup> This was the first news that anyone in Japan had received of the Christian Pioneer Village since the end of the war.

Kazuko, whose first instinct upon landing in Japan was to check in with the Kyōdan office, was surprised to find on her way there that Tokyo had been reduced to ruins by Allied bombs. Once entering the Kyōdan premises, she was further taken aback by the lukewarm reception of the sole staff member keeping guard at the office. Kazuko felt “bound by a sense of duty” to report her arrival after completing an arduous journey back from Manchuria, as she and her compatriots had just undertaken a monumental mission on behalf of the Kyōdan and its ambition of expanding the influence of Christianity within the Japanese Empire.<sup>101</sup> From the viewpoint of the Japanese on the mainland, however, the dizzying pace of change and the toils of daily life after the surrender had rendered such wartime ambitions an afterthought—and an uncomfortable one at that. The contrast between the two perspectives, as could be clearly seen in the tepid reaction of the Kyōdan staff toward Kazuko’s return, reflected the underlying tension between the Japanese Church’s history of cooperation with imperial expansionism and its newfound position as the vanguard of a democratic Japan.

The Japan for Christ Movement stressed the overcoming of wartime militarism and imperial ideology through religious conversion. Early reports in the *Kirisuto shinbun* highlighted former members of the wartime militarist system who had been converted to Christianity. An article on November 23, 1946, for example, described the opening of a new Bible school in Imabari, Ehime Prefecture, by a minister from the Reinanzaka Church in Tokyo. Of the school’s roughly one hundred students, most of whom were educated youth, fifteen expressed an interest in becoming baptized as Christians.<sup>102</sup> Among the converts were several former commissioned officers of the Imperial Navy who had been assigned to Special Attack Force units during the war. It went on to quote one of the ex-kamikaze pilots as saying “My future wish is to work for the total repentance of humankind and world peace based on Christian principles.”<sup>103</sup> In another noteworthy piece on December 14, the paper claimed that a descendant of the prominent *kokugaku* scholar Motoori Norinaga had turned to

Christianity.<sup>104</sup> Although the convert in this case was an old woman who did not actively participate in wartime militarism, her association through kinship to Norinaga—an eighteenth-century scholar whose efforts to discern a native intellectual tradition of Japan were later appropriated by the modern imperial state to support notions of racial and cultural superiority and nationalist ideology—allowed the paper to make the (admittedly flimsy) argument that Christianity was helping Japanese citizens to transcend their imperial indoctrination. By featuring the conversion of a former would-be suicide pilot and the descendant of an iconic nativist scholar, the *Kirisuto shinbun* newspaper argued for the important role Christianity was playing in Japan's repudiation of its militarist past and transformation into a peace-loving nation.

In addition to the *Kirisuto shinbun*, organizers of the evangelistic campaign tried to widen the influence and audience for their movement through the publication of an English-language journal, *Japan for Christ*.<sup>105</sup> Launched in January 1947 as the official organ for its eponymous movement, *Japan for Christ* claimed the Methodist bishop Abe Yoshimune as its "chairman" and counted Kagawa among its editorial committee members.<sup>106</sup> The inaugural issue opened with a grandiose celebration of the twin themes of Christianity and peace, hailing the long-awaited "arrival" of "Jesus Christ to Japan" and the country's renunciation of "barbarism" through its abandonment of war.<sup>107</sup> The journal went on to triumphantly proclaim that the best-selling book of 1946 had been the Holy Bible, with 350,000 copies sold since April 1946.<sup>108</sup> The Bibles, which sold for five yen a copy, had been printed in the United States using printing plates designed for Japanese editions and were subsequently sent gratis from the American Bible Society to the Japan Bible Society, with logistical help provided by MacArthur's office.<sup>109</sup>

The idea of U.S.-Japan cooperation was further expounded by an article about the recent activities of Mother Topping, Kagawa's long-standing American missionary supporter based in Tokyo. After receiving a visit from a U.S. "Christian GI" looking for a way to "unite with Japanese Christians," Mother Topping agreed to provide a space for a weekly fellowship meeting in her place of residence, known at the time as the Kagawa Fellowship House Annex.<sup>110</sup> The resulting Thursday night fellowship became a regular fixture on the calendars of religiously minded GIs, who looked forward to the meeting as "the bright spot of their week" and an opportunity to "[find] a unity and basis for

international brotherhood” with their Japanese counterparts.<sup>111</sup> Through stories such as these, *Japan for Christ* publicized successful examples of individual as well as institutional cooperation between the United States and Japan as mediated through Christianity.

Christianity served not only as a site for friendly interactions between occupier and occupied but also as a means of discreetly communicating the religious and political allegiance of the imperial household. Without making any public statements on the matter, the imperial family signaled its interest in Christianity through its association with a number of Christian figures. As early as December 1945, the imperial family invited Kagawa to give a lecture on cooperative economics at the Imperial Palace.<sup>112</sup> On December 26, 1946, Mother Topping met with Emperor Hirohito as part of a delegation of four American missionaries invited to discuss matters related to the founding of a Christian university in Japan.<sup>113</sup> Kagawa lectured again at the Imperial Palace on February 7, 1947, to Hirohito and his wife on the topic of social work, speaking in broad terms about poverty, unemployment, and social welfare in postwar Japan and drawing comparisons with efforts made by the British royal family to combat such issues.<sup>114</sup> Along similar lines, Uemura Tamaki, the YWCA leader who had just completed a yearlong tour of America, visited the Imperial Palace shortly after her return to Japan in April 1947, presenting the empress with an elaborately bound Bible that had been entrusted to her by the women of the Presbyterian churches of the United States.<sup>115</sup> Thanks to her access to prominent American religious and political leaders, Uemura was invited back on a weekly basis to give Bible lessons to the empress and her daughters. Once every three months, Hirohito reportedly joined the family group and listened attentively to the lessons, although never speaking or participating in the hymn singing.<sup>116</sup> Hirohito furthermore hired an American Christian tutor for his son, the Crown Prince Akihito (1933–).<sup>117</sup> Elizabeth Gray Vining (1902–1999), a Philadelphian Quaker who had been chosen for this task, served as tutor to Akihito and his sisters from 1946 to 1950, teaching them passages from the New Testament as part of their daily routine.<sup>118</sup> Through such maneuvers, the Imperial Palace made known its intention of respecting and accepting, if not fully converting to, the teachings of Christianity.

Christianity even made brief inroads into the highest political office of Japan, when the Christian Socialist politician Katayama Tetsu (1887–1978) was elected prime minister. On April 25, 1947, the

Social Democratic Party won a plurality of seats in the first general election to be held under the terms of the new constitution, thus allowing it to form a three-party coalition government headed by its leader, Katayama. This was the first electoral victory for the Social Democratic Party—whose founding ceremony in late 1945 had been overseen by Kagawa, among others—as well as the first nominally progressive cabinet to take over the reins of government in well over a decade. Katayama—who had maintained a stance of noncooperation with the wartime regime as the leader of the conservative wing of the prewar Social Masses Party (*Shakai Taishūtō*)—belonged to the Kyōdan’s Fujimichō Church congregation in Tokyo, thereby officially making him Japan’s first Protestant Christian prime minister.<sup>119</sup> What was more, the newly elected Speaker of the House, Matsuoka Komakichi (1888–1958; Social Democratic Party), was also a Fujimichō Church member, thus becoming the first Christian to hold the post.<sup>120</sup> Katayama’s electoral triumph was seized upon as a political victory by MacArthur, who released a statement on May 24, stating (somewhat inaccurately): “For the first time in history, Japan is led by a Christian leader—one who throughout his life has been a member of the Presbyterian Church. It reflects the complete religious tolerance which so dominates the Japanese mind and the complete religious freedom which exists throughout his land.”<sup>121</sup>

Katayama’s election and the display of approval from the imperial household bolstered the movement to Christianize Japan, paving the way for widespread acceptance on a popular level. As news media gave favorable coverage to the social phenomenon of a “Christian boom,” record numbers of people flocked to church meetings and rallies.<sup>122</sup> Christian mission schools—suddenly a desirable educational option—received a record number of applications as parents competed with one another to place their children into their classrooms.<sup>123</sup> Kagawa, meanwhile, kept up a relentless preaching schedule, accounting alone for more than half of the overall turnout at evangelistic events and rallies sponsored by the Kyōdan. From July 7 to 17, for example, he toured the traditional Shinshū Buddhist stronghold of Ishikawa and Toyama Prefectures, where he was met with a strong showing. After each rally, organizers handed out decision cards (*kes-shin kādo*), upon which attendees were told to write down their name and address if they wished to be baptized as Christians. Out of 17,100 attendees in Ishikawa and Toyama, 3,202 reportedly signed the cards, three of whom were Buddhist monks.<sup>124</sup> According to the official



report for the first year of the Japan for Christ Movement, a total of 611,539 people attended its meetings, of which 76,291 indicated a willingness to take up Christianity as their religion.<sup>125</sup> Kagawa played an outsize role in producing such results, as he attracted more participants at his mass evangelistic meetings than all the other preachers combined, with a significantly higher conversion rate (18 percent) than that of the rest (less than 5 percent).<sup>126</sup>

Despite its novel-sounding name, however, the Japan for Christ Movement carried over many of the Kyōdan's problematic legacies, including a propensity for political opportunism that prioritized self-preservation and self-promotion. As has been noted earlier, the Japan for Christ Movement used the name of “constructing” a “new Japan” (Shin Nihon Kensetsu) in its Japanese title, thus making it one of many postwar publications, slogans, and movements that explicitly took on the mantle of newness as part of its proclaimed mission.<sup>127</sup> The rhetoric of “newness,” however, was itself frequently used in wartime campaigns for total spiritual mobilization and reflected broad continuities in the group's calculated adaptation to a rapidly evolving political landscape.

Whereas the wartime Kyōdan called for the establishment of a New Order in Greater East Asia (Daitōa Shin Chitsujo), the postwar Kyōdan exhorted citizens to strive for a “New Japan” built upon the principles of peace and democracy. On November 3, 1947, for example, at an event commemorating the first anniversary of the promulgation of the new constitution, the Kyōdan joined other religious groups and leaders in proclaiming a movement, led by the Katayama cabinet, for the Construction of a New Japanese Nation (Shin Nihon Kensetsu Kokumin Undō).<sup>128</sup> As one of the delegates at this so-called peace festival (*heiwa matsuri*), Kagawa celebrated the nation's desire for peace and abandonment of war. Through participating in such events, Christian leaders attempted to demonstrate their relevance to the two central pillars of the Occupation's reform policy: demilitarization and democratization.

Such acts of self-promotion went hand in hand with the instinct of self-preservation. Although the legal necessity for the Kyōdan institution—originally a conglomeration of disparate denominations that had been forced into a union church in 1941 under state pressure—had disappeared with the abolishment of the Religious Organizations Law in late 1945, rather than dissolve its wartime structure Kyōdan officials kept the old guard intact.<sup>129</sup> Tomita, the head of the



organization, stepped down in 1946, only to be replaced by Kozaki Michio, an integral part of the wartime leadership. Such decisions further illustrated the Kyōdan's fundamental resistance to change.<sup>130</sup>

Not only masking underlying continuities, the rhetoric of newness also enabled the application of old discursive frameworks to new targets that contributed toward the Christian agenda of reconstruction. On August 15, 1948, an article by Kagawa appeared on the front page of the *Nippon Times*. The piece, which was published on the third anniversary of Japan's surrender, decried the rising wave of materialism and moral deterioration in the nation. While reaffirming many of the accomplishments of the first three years of Allied Occupation, Kagawa also bemoaned the "plethora of pornography" among the public and the "swagger" of "harlots" who had "sprung up in large numbers as never before."<sup>131</sup> Presumably referring to the so-called *panpan* (Japanese freelance prostitutes who catered almost exclusively to a GI clientele), Kagawa cited the "harlots" as evidence of the "rise of materialism," the "exuberance of eroticism," and the "moral decadence" undermining Japanese society.<sup>132</sup>

From the perspective of Kagawa, who had always upheld the virtues of chastity and respectability, the unabashed sexuality and materialism of the *panpan*—who literally prostituted herself to the conqueror for access to his material comforts—represented a serious affront to his vision of an ideal Japan. While these women of the night, in their own way, embodied democratization and liberation from the militarists' regime of discipline and austerity, Kagawa chose to see them only as "moral delinquents" who "lack[ed] faith in Christianity," using language that recalled his wartime chiding of the Anglo-American enemy to emphasize the need for a Christian-oriented "spiritual revolution."<sup>133</sup> Whereas wartime propaganda had relied upon boastful assertions of Japanese purity and moral superiority as a foil to the "hypocritical" behavior of the supposedly Christian West, postwar discussions of public morality by the likes of Kagawa turned the lens of criticism inward, chastising Japanese women and men who engaged in "immoral" acts such as prostitution, crime, and black-market profiteering. Such acts, according to Kagawa, could only be reformed by following the path of "Anglo-American spiritual democracy."<sup>134</sup>

Besides moral deterioration, Kagawa emphasized another major challenge facing postwar Japan: the rise of communism. Noting the increasing power of labor unions, he related a recent instance in which a Railway Workers' Union defied the orders of the minister of

transportation, likening the actions of such unions to the “[destructive] behavior of ancient armed bonzes who ran amuck in Kyoto.”<sup>135</sup> A similar claim had been made by the *Japan for Christ* earlier in the year, which cautioned against the “strikes and sabotages” instigated by the “Communist leaders” of labor unions—whose “factories and industrial concerns,” it asserted, could only be directed toward the productive work of “reconstruct[ing] Japan” through the guidance of “Christian ethics” and the rekindling of the “spirit of Love.”<sup>136</sup> In arguing for the importance of Christianity in containing the threat of communism—a key strategic concern of the Allied Occupation—Kagawa reprised his prewar partnership with the Japanese state in helping to check the rise of growing leftist movements. “A democratic revolution not inspired by a religious faith will . . . be as ill-fated as the French revolution of 1789,” he continued in his *Nippon Times* piece, warning that if it were not careful, Japan risked following the “destructive course [taken] by the Chinese Communists.”<sup>137</sup> Here, he was referring to the ascendancy of the Communist forces in the Chinese Civil War, which had resumed hostilities following a nine-year truce during the period of Japanese Occupation. By describing domestic Communists as “fanatical revolutionists” whose disruptiveness reminded him of “our former militarists,” Kagawa completed the reframing of wartime enemies into postwar targets of reform, thus articulating his vision for an anti-Communist, Christian Japan that aligned neatly with the objectives of the Occupation.

The Japan for Christ Movement ended in March 1949. The cabinet of Katayama Tetsu, Japan’s first Protestant Christian prime minister, had collapsed exactly a year earlier due to internal divisions. Furthermore, Yoshida Shigeru and his conservative forces’ victory in the general election of January 1949 underscored the shifting political winds. By this time, the Christian boom had begun to exhibit signs of decline. Thanks to financial aid from American donors, the rebuilding of church edifices damaged during the war had steadily progressed.<sup>138</sup> However, such surface improvements could not hide the fact that many fewer people were lining up to attend the rallies held within their doors. While over 250 American missionaries representing thirty-seven denominations had resumed their work in Japan by the end of the movement—attesting to the continuing American support for Japan’s Christianization—this was not reflected in the number of Japanese converts.<sup>139</sup> Viewed in terms of its numerical results, the

postwar Christianity boom was a short-lived phenomenon. Despite the overwhelmingly favorable environment for nationwide proselytization, the official membership figures for Protestant churches showed only a slight increase during the Japan for Christ Movement, falling well short of their initially projected goal of three million.<sup>140</sup>

The waning of the Christian movement corresponded with new developments at home and abroad, signaling the rise of a rapidly changing geopolitical landscape. Mao Zedong's Communist troops had largely defeated Chiang Kai-shek's Nationalist forces by late 1948, leading to the establishment of the People's Republic of China on October 1, 1949. The loss of mainland China to the Communists at the expense of the U.S.-backed Nationalists cemented the need to strengthen Japan, which was quickly becoming an important defensive outpost in the United States' containment strategy in Asia. As such, SCAP authorized the establishment of the National Police Reserve in 1950, paving the way for Japan's gradual rearmament over the next few years.<sup>141</sup>

On the domestic front, the Occupation recalibrated its initially supportive stance toward leftists in the wake of the abortive general strike on February 1, 1947, which alarmed SCAP to the threat posed by radical labor unionism. In contrast to their previous targeting of right-wing elements, Occupation officials turned to suppress the activities of the Japanese Communist Party and compiled lists of leftist troublemakers in anticipation of a large-scale "Red purge." The purge was carried out beginning in 1950 with the close collaboration of conservative politicians, government bureaucrats, and corporate managers.<sup>142</sup> Such Occupation policies, collectively known as the "reverse course," underlined the renewed emphasis on political stability in the context of the Cold War.

During its short life span, the Japan for Christ Movement epitomized the Christian leaders' swift turnaround from supporting the wartime empire to trumpeting the virtues of the American occupiers and their comprehensive reform programs. The Christians' flurry of activity was unique in this regard among the three major religions, with observers commenting on their smooth adaptation to the postwar conditions as compared to the sluggish reaction of Buddhism or the slow rebuilding of Sect Shintō.<sup>143</sup> In the early postwar years, Christians were among the most active groups working for the relief and reconstruction of the country, putting forward a unique vision for the future of Japan. Their popularity and legitimacy, crucially, depended

upon the favorable climate fostered by the Allied Occupation, which provided them with crucial material, logistical, and political support for their activities.

Kagawa emerged, once again, as a natural leader for this movement due to his public prominence, establishment politics, imperial loyalty, and evangelical zeal—all of which worked to the advantage of the Occupation's policies. While Kagawa's record of cooperation with the wartime imperial state gave rise to doubts among certain American observers who questioned his fitness as a public figure, various groups came to his defense, including his fellow Japanese Christians in the Kyōdan organization, as well as his overseas American supporters. Ultimately, MacArthur's Occupation concluded that Kagawa's importance to the evangelistic campaign outweighed his problematic wartime record, thus allowing him to continue his public activities without hindrance. Kagawa, for his part, responded by articulating a Christian agenda of recovery, expressing his support for the adoption of an American-style spiritual democracy that emphasized public morality, anticommunism, and democratic process, as well as the retention of the imperial throne. While the internationalist values of Japanese Christians certainly predisposed them to the importance of peace and cooperation with the Americans, their eager embrace of Occupation policies also represented a calculated move by the Kyōdan leadership to take full advantage of the special circumstances of the postwar period. In short, advocating that Christianity was essential to the rebuilding of Japan as a democracy enabled Japanese Christians to remain in good standing with the Occupation authorities while advancing their own institutional interests.

## Chapter Six

### THE INTERNATIONALIST IN A BIPOLAR WORLD

In his concluding remarks at the 1963 World Congress for World Federation, an international conference hosted at Ueno Park's newly opened Tokyo Bunka Kaikan concert hall, the event organizer made special note of three recently deceased pioneers who had played a pivotal role in laying the groundwork for the occasion. Following brief comments on the work done by the politician Ozaki Yukio (1858–1954) and educator Shimonaka Yasaburō (1878–1961), he singled out Kagawa for his unique contribution to this historic gathering—the first of its kind to take place in Asia.<sup>1</sup>

After all, it was Kagawa who had provided crucial support to the Japan Alliance for World Federation (JAWF) back in the early postwar years, allocating office space and sharing a mailing address with the fledgling operation in his International Peace Association establishment in central Tokyo.<sup>2</sup> It was also under his auspices that the JAWF was able to publish *Sekai kokka*, a journal that served as the de facto organ for the Japanese world federalist movement and helped to grow its ranks while promoting its cause among a wider audience. Moreover, he had overseen the successful organization of multiple regional Asian Congresses for World Federation in Japan and had always dreamed of hosting a larger-scale international event in his home country.

Kagawa did not live to see the fulfillment of this dream, as he passed away in 1960. It is clear, however, that the world federalist movement became one of his central projects in the final decade of his life. From the 1948 inception of the *Sekai Renpō Kensetsu Dōmei*, the official name of the aforementioned JAWF organization, to his

chairmanship of the three Asian conferences held in the 1950s, Kagawa remained at the forefront of the nascent movement in Japan until his death. His interest in world federalism went hand in hand with his efforts to reengage the wider world in the areas of Christian evangelism and cooperative promotion. Such experiments in postwar internationalism, however, could not overcome the emerging political fault lines of the early Cold War. As became apparent in subsequent years, the bipolar order that prevailed in postwar geopolitics cast a long shadow over any attempts to work across national and ideological boundaries. The ultimate illustration of this fact came in the form of Kagawa's statue in the Washington National Cathedral, a posthumous construction in the American capital that recast the iconic internationalist in firmly nationalist clothes.

#### WORLD EVANGELIZATION AND COOPERATIVES

As the postwar reconstruction of Japanese society gained steam, Kagawa's group of supporters across the Pacific aimed to restore the spirit of international cooperation. The 1947 reinstatement of the *Kagawa Calendar*—which had been discontinued in 1940—exemplified postwar efforts to rehabilitate Kagawa's overseas reputation. The reinstatement was coordinated by the Committee on Education and Relief for Japan, a small group of concerned private citizens organized by Helen Topping and headed by progressive educator Flora J. Cooke (1864–1953), Helen's former teacher and mentor at the Francis Wayland Parker School in Chicago. Working in coordination with the Japanese American Citizens League, a prominent Asian American civil rights organization, Helen brought back the *Calendar* in the hopes of disseminating “Dr. Kagawa's teachings of how to prevent that greatest evil of modern life, *war*.”<sup>3</sup> While retaining the general format of Mother Topping's prewar iterations, the new *Calendar* featured frequent references to newly emerging peace movements in Japan, such as the world federalist movement, as well as the popular slogan “No More Hiroshimas.”<sup>4</sup> Through its calendar sales, the committee aimed to raise enough money to fund the return to Japan of Helen Topping—who had remained in the United States since before the war—as well as provide relief goods and materials for Japan's postwar reconstruction via the Japan-based Mother Topping.<sup>5</sup>

Such efforts reflected a broader movement within the wider Christian establishment to rekindle former ties with Japan. Although

American Protestant organizations had issued invitations for Kagawa to visit the United States as early as 1948, their efforts had been unsuccessful due to the Occupation's strict regulation of Japanese overseas travel. The American Bible Society, for example, requested SCAP to grant permission for Kagawa to attend the group's annual meeting in New York in May 1948. Officially, SCAP denied the request on logistical grounds, but internal memos show that it was equally concerned by the publicity risk posed by his controversial wartime record, stating "SCAP could be open to criticism from various sources for either approving or disapproving the travel of Kagawa."<sup>6</sup> A year later, an invitation from the Movement for World Evangelization—a London-based ecumenical organization led by Thomas Cochrane (1866–1953), a Scottish medical missionary who had previously worked in China before the war—finally furnished the occasion for Kagawa's first postwar journey abroad. Following successful negotiations with SCAP, Cochrane obtained the necessary travel permits for the Japanese leader, whose schedule had opened up after the conclusion of the Japan for Christ Movement in 1949.<sup>7</sup> Kagawa departed for London in late 1949 for a six-month itinerary in the United Kingdom and Europe, followed by a five-month tour of the United States.

Kagawa's first postwar tour occasioned a stronger emphasis on his national background than before among American audiences.<sup>8</sup> In anticipation of Kagawa's arrival, the *Christian Herald*—the most widely circulated Protestant news and general interest magazine of the early twentieth century—published an article titled "Japan's Two Men of Destiny."<sup>9</sup> The piece, which juxtaposed a photo of Kagawa next to that of Emperor Hirohito, pointed out two common features in their outlook: "First, their passionate purpose to advance the peace and to make Japan the peace leader of the Orient just as she was its imperialistic master; and, second, their determination to defeat Communism and to establish a democratic order in the Far East."<sup>10</sup> The author, Daniel Poling, who had traveled to Japan the previous year to meet both men, opened with a glowing profile of Kagawa, calling him "the first Christian of his country; and . . . first Christian of the world." Praising the Japanese evangelist's efforts to promote postwar reconstruction through his Christian cooperative enterprises, the article underscored the readiness of Kagawa to lead the charge against communism and "the evils of anti-God ideologies."<sup>11</sup> This was followed by a character sketch of Hirohito, which stressed the emperor's steadfast support for MacArthur's policies, as well as his favorable attitude

toward Christianity—including his friendship with Kagawa and his hiring of an American Quaker as a tutor for his son, the Crown Prince Akihito. The author concluded on a suggestive note, stating “when we sat together, [the emperor] talked like a Christian.”<sup>12</sup> The new Japan, according to the optimistic essay, was being guided in the right direction by its “men of destiny.”

Kagawa’s 1950 U.S. tour further illustrated the efforts of his American supporters to capitalize on his informal alliance with MacArthur. Prior to Kagawa’s arrival, Lumen Shafer, a member of the four-man deputation of American church leaders who had visited war-torn Japan in the autumn of 1945, sent a telegram to General MacArthur expressing his “earnest desire to quote your favoring Dr. Kagawa’s work and approving his visit” so he could use the supreme commander’s words in promotional materials.<sup>13</sup> While it is unclear whether MacArthur responded to this request, the press nevertheless played up Kagawa’s association with the general to help generate publicity. The Los Angeles-based Japanese American daily *Rafu shinpō*, for example, described Kagawa as “MacArthur’s Messiah” in its coverage of the tour.<sup>14</sup> Highlights of his five-month trip included the acceptance of an honorary degree from Keuka College, a liberal arts college in Upstate New York; an address to a group of more than seven hundred missionaries and clergymen in Chicago, where he revealed his intention to request ten million copies of the Bible from U.S. religious organizations in support of the Christian movement in Japan; and a series of sermons for Nisei audiences in Southern California.<sup>15</sup> On the latter occasion, Allan Hunter, a Kagawa Cooperator, FOR member, and staunch advocate for Japanese American civil rights during the Pacific War, received Kagawa as a guest of honor at his Mount Hollywood Congregational Church.<sup>16</sup> Toward the end of the tour, Hunter hosted the Japanese evangelist again, this time at his private residence, thus underscoring the lifelong ties Kagawa had formed with missionary-connected individuals in America.

The aspirations of Kagawa and American Protestants for a Japan reborn under Christ, however, did not come to fruition. Despite the *Christian Herald*’s hopeful prediction that Kagawa and Hirohito could help guide Japan toward a Christian future, MacArthur’s protective influence was sorely missed in the wake of his sudden departure. On April 11, 1951, General MacArthur was dismissed from his post as the supreme commander for the Allied powers over his handling of the Korean War, dealing a critical blow to the project of Christianizing



Japan.<sup>17</sup> One year later, on April 28, 1952, Japan regained its sovereignty (with the exception of Okinawa) under the terms of the San Francisco Peace Treaty, marking an official end to the military Occupation. Notably, however, the treaty's signatories did not include the likes of China or the Soviet Union.

The departure of MacArthur and the termination of the Allied Occupation brought a notable decline in popular interest in Christianity. Uemura Tamaki's weekly Bible lessons with the imperial family, for example, came to an abrupt halt in the fall of 1952. After five years of holding regular sessions with the empress and her daughters, Uemura was told by imperial household officials that while she was still welcome to visit the palace, she could no longer engage the children in prayer or hymn singing and was no longer allowed to teach them about Jesus Christ. Since that day, Uemura stopped going to the Imperial Palace.<sup>18</sup> As it turned out, American hopes that Emperor Hirohito was genuinely interested in becoming a Christian proved unfounded; the imperial family was only too eager to sever its Christian ties as soon as the American occupiers left the country. This signaled the definitive end to the short-lived boom for Christianity in postwar Japan, a trend that was already past its peak with the conclusion of the Japan for Christ movement in 1949.

Separate from his Christian evangelism, Kagawa also figured prominently in the postwar revitalization and internationalization of Japan's cooperative movement. In 1951 the Japan Consumers' Cooperative Union (JCCU) was founded as an umbrella organization for the nation's numerous cooperative enterprises. Kagawa, who was appointed as the JCCU's founding president, described the group's mission as the realization of "world peace through cooperatives."<sup>19</sup> In practice, this meant an increased Japanese presence on the international stage, such as its membership in the International Cooperative Alliance in 1952 and mutual exchange programs with national counterparts such as the Cooperative League of the United States and cooperative associations in the Soviet Union and China. In particular, the sending of Japanese cooperative delegations to meet with like-minded officials in the latter's home institutions—that is, the *Centrosoyuz* organization in Moscow and the National Supply and Marketing Cooperative headquarters in Beijing—played a positive role in improving Japan's diplomatic relations with those countries.<sup>20</sup> Such developments reflected the efforts, led in part by Kagawa, to deepen Japan's cooperative engagements with the wider world.

At the same time, Kagawa's supporters continued to advocate the cause of pacifism through reference to the Japanese evangelist. In 1951 Allan Hunter published a book from the Fellowship of Reconciliation that reaffirmed Kagawa's position in the pacifist hagiography. Titled *Courage in Both Hands*, the book demonstrated an idealized vision of pacifist "sainthood," featuring on its front cover photographs of Kagawa; Gandhi; Albert Schweitzer; Muriel Lester, a British pacifist and social reformer; and Frank Laubach, an American missionary educator (figure 6.1). Hunter's book, which was a revised and expanded version of an earlier work, *Heroes of Good Will* (1945), placed the "saints" next to each other in a single line, suggesting their shared commitment to pacifism and social action.<sup>21</sup> If figures such as Schweitzer and Laubach represented an older Protestant narrative of white missionary virtue, the inclusion of Kagawa, Lester, and Gandhi symbolized the newer, more globalized emphasis on service to the poor and marginalized populations of the world.<sup>22</sup> The juxtaposed images of the five leaders formed a symbolic argument about the important role of spirituality—rooted in Protestantism but cutting across denominational and religious divides—in achieving peace and solidarity between peoples and nations. Crucially, certain elements of this idealistic thinking carried over into a project that would occupy much of Kagawa's time and energy during his final years: the world federalist movement.

#### THE RISE OF WORLD FEDERALISM IN POSTWAR JAPAN

Described by historian Glenda Sluga as forming part of the "apogee of internationalism" of the 1940s, the world federalist movement is best remembered today, if at all, as a brief flash in the pan of postwar global history.<sup>23</sup> Responding to the tragedies of World War II and the destructive potential of nuclear weapons, world federalism called for the creation of a world government that could restrain the ability of individual nations to wage war against each other and act as an overarching federal body that would mediate international disputes through the enforcement of world law. As a political movement, it garnered the most attention and enthusiasm in the moment of transition from the League of Nations to the United Nations (UN) during the early postwar period. While its influence waned in subsequent years, it by no means died out. In Japan, for instance, world federalism found its most energetic and developed base of support outside Europe and

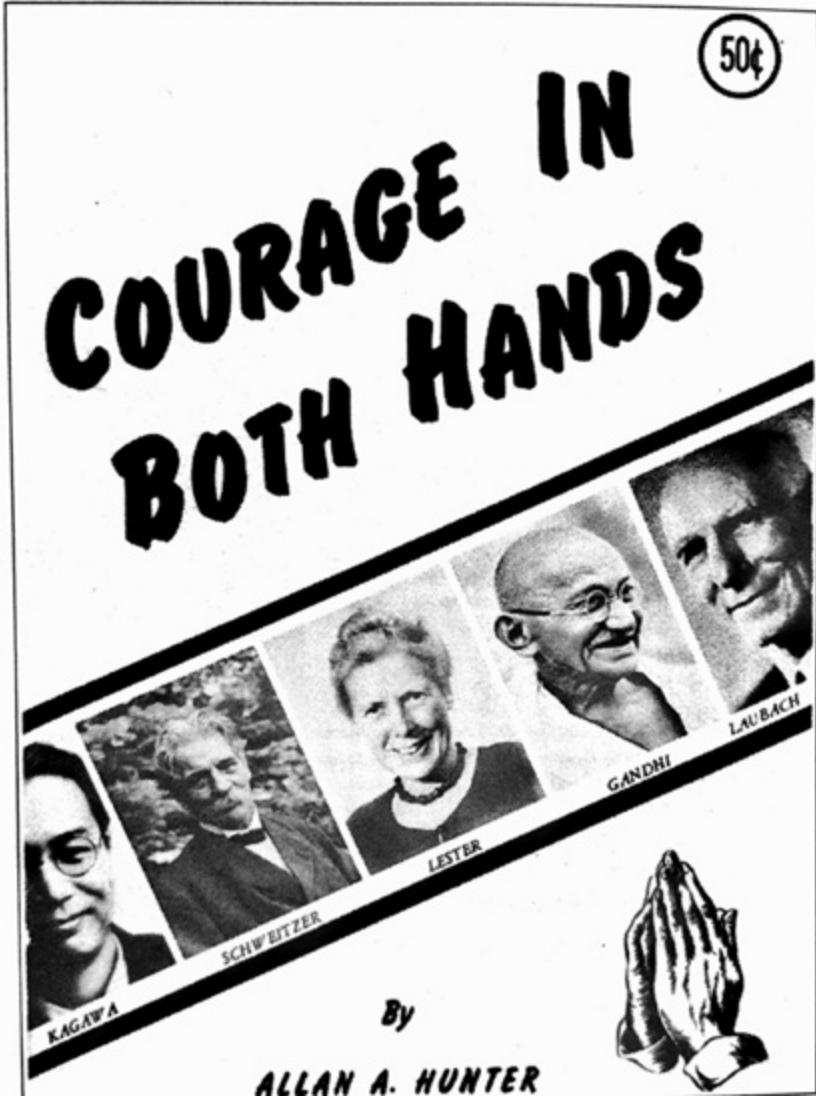


Figure 6.1. Kagawa in pacifist print culture: Allan Hunter's 1951 *Courage in Both Hands*. Source: Allan A. Hunter, *Courage in Both Hands* (New York: Fellowship of Reconciliation, 1951)

North America. Drawing inspiration from thinkers such as Immanuel Kant, world federalist activists sought to create an internationalist solution to the challenges posed by the bipolar world order.<sup>24</sup>

World federalism originated from a disillusionment with the repeated failures of the international system to prevent war. In the aftermath of World War II, there was an increasing sense that the world was becoming smaller and the fate of its citizens ever more intertwined. Although the UN was established ostensibly to address these very concerns, its effectiveness was limited by, among other things, the granting of a veto to the permanent members of the UN Security Council. The requirement for unanimity among the Security Council members effectively stifled any efforts to limit the power of individual nations for the sake of the greater good. Such a state of affairs, in the eyes of world federalists, provided compelling grounds for the establishment of a global federal body with jurisdiction over the entire world. While there was a diverse range of views as to how such a transformation could be achieved, most advocates envisioned a federated world system wherein an imagined world government had the authority to enforce its decisions on its subordinate member states. In terms of its structure as a supranational entity, it existed somewhere along an organizational spectrum that included, on one end, a league of sovereign states such as the League of Nations or the UN, and, on the other, a unitary world state where all nation-states were abolished altogether.

Despite its radical-sounding proposals, world federalism did not lack influential advocates. Prominent intellectuals such as Albert Camus, Albert Einstein, Bertrand Russell, and John Boyd Orr; statesmen such as Jawaharlal Nehru, Henry Wallace, and Wendell Wilkie; and journalists such as Norman Cousins and Walter Cronkite all voiced their support in one form or another. Early theoretical groundwork was laid by Clarence Streit (1896–1986), a journalist and war correspondent from Missoula, Montana; Grenville Clark (1882–1967), a Wall Street lawyer and “statesman incognito” behind the Wilson and Roosevelt administrations; and Louis B. Sohn (1914–2006), a professor of international law at Harvard who helped draft parts of the UN Charter. Emery Reves (1904–1981), a Hungarian writer and publisher, was another important champion of the cause. In his best-selling 1945 book, *The Anatomy of Peace*, Reves called world government “not an ‘ultimate goal’ but an immediate necessity,” maintaining that the “San Francisco Charter” (the Charter of the United Nations) amounted

to nothing more than a multilateral treaty, therefore making it no more effective than the League of Nations.<sup>25</sup>

The global movement for world federalism had its high point in the late 1940s, which saw a number of landmark accomplishments. In August 1945, a group of faculty at the University of Chicago, led by the school's chancellor, Robert M. Hutchins (1899–1977), launched the Committee to Frame a World Constitution.<sup>26</sup> Three years later, in 1948, the committee produced a preliminary draft world constitution, which was initially made public through their journal, *Common Cause*. The draft proposed what has been described as a “maximalist” vision of world federalism, with a world government that had the powers to organize federal armed forces, limit and control national forces, regulate world commerce, supervise world communications and transportation, levy world taxes, regulate emigration and immigration, and supervise the creation of new states.<sup>27</sup> As improbable as such a proposal might sound today, it was not beyond the realm of possibility at the time, as national polls in this period found a majority of Americans in favor of a global government.<sup>28</sup> Another milestone of this time was an international declaration drafted by representatives from twenty-four countries and issued at a meeting of the World Movement for World Federal Government at Montreux, Switzerland, in 1947. The Montreux Declaration and its proposals—many of which were reflected in the Chicago draft world constitution, such as the limitation of national sovereignty and the creation of supranational armed forces by a world federal government—served as the basis for the creation of world federalist organizations across the world.<sup>29</sup>

Indeed, a similar movement started to take shape in Japan at around this time. One of the founders of the Japanese movement was Inagaki Morikatsu, a journalist and diplomat who was formerly chairman of the League of Nations Association of Japan. Inagaki had served as Einstein's interpreter and caretaker during the latter's 1922 visit to Japan and received a letter from the famed scientist in 1947 that related news of the establishment of the United World Federalists—an American branch of the movement formed at a convention in Asheville, North Carolina, through the merger of four separate organizations. Soon thereafter, building on a peace study group that he had begun to organize after the war, Inagaki founded the aforementioned JAWF, known in Japanese as the Sekai Rempō Kensetsu Dōmei, on August 6, 1948—the third anniversary of the atomic bombing of

Hiroshima.<sup>30</sup> As mentioned previously, the JAWF, lacking an office to call its own, was eventually taken in by Kagawa's International Peace Association, which provided institutional backing and a monthly organ, *Sekai kokka* (World State), for the budding organization.<sup>31</sup>

Japan's movement for world federation, however, must also be considered within the broader context of its postwar pacifism. Japan's military defeat and postwar reconstruction entailed deep thinking about the meaning of pacifism. As highlighted by the adoption of the so-called peace constitution in 1946, whose Article 9 famously renounced the use of force as a means of settling international disputes, peace was embraced by many as the essence of Japan's postwar reformation. Such sentiments were interwoven with a strong sense of antimilitarism, centered on the antinuclear ethics of Hiroshima and Nagasaki. Being home to the only two cities in the world to suffer direct nuclear attacks, many Japanese came to view nuclear antiproliferation and pacifism in general as a core part of their national identity.<sup>32</sup> This groundswell of popular pacifism and antimilitarism proved to be fertile ground for developing a local world federalist movement.

Despite getting its start relatively soon in the postwar period, the JAWF was still far from a popular movement. In order to grow its ranks, the movement relied upon the lobbying efforts of politicians such as Ozaki Yukio, as well as the social activism of religious leaders such as Kagawa. Ozaki, a veteran politician and powerful liberal voice for parliamentary democracy in the decades leading up to the war, operated primarily within the halls of government. On December 21, 1945, for example, he tried to introduce the idea of world federalism to the National Diet. Ozaki's "A Draft Resolution on the Formation of a World Federation" called for Japan to show remorse for its wartime conduct, greatly reduce its arms, carry out research on a world language, and devise a plan to bring about a world federation.<sup>33</sup> The resolution, which received the support of only thirty Diet members, was unsuccessful, coming as it did in the midst of a handful of other monumental pieces of legislation that month, including the abolition of the ministries of the imperial army and navy, the granting of suffrage to women, and the repeal of the wartime National Mobilization Law.<sup>34</sup> Ozaki's attempt, however, did coincide with similar draft resolutions being presented in U.S. and U.K. legislatures at around the same time.<sup>35</sup> It also marked the beginning of an abiding interest within the Japanese Diet in federalist issues, leading to the 1949 founding of

a nonpartisan committee of Diet members for the cause of world federalism, with Matsuoka Komakichi, a former House Speaker, as the founding chairman.

With the help of Kagawa, the JAWF saw a flurry of activity in the 1950s, establishing itself as a regional leader within Asia. During the British leg of his world evangelization tour of 1950, Kagawa visited the U.K. Parliamentary Group for World Government, founded in 1947 by Henry Osborne (1909–1996).<sup>36</sup> Osborne, a Labour Party backbencher who was also an ardent supporter of world federalism, impressed upon Kagawa the idea of holding a world federation conference in Japan sometime in the future.<sup>37</sup> Once back in Japan, Kagawa worked toward this goal by bolstering the domestic profile of the world federalist movement. In order to do so, he ordered members of the JAWF—of which he was vice president, with Ozaki serving as president—to call on sympathetic figures in the fields of politics, business, academics, and culture to become trustees of the JAWF. This proved to be a successful move, as over sixty new trustees were confirmed in a meeting in 1951.

By the early 1950s, the concepts of peace and democracy had taken on a distinctly political connotation in light of the domestic debates on national security that attended the end of Allied Occupation. In contrast to the conservative government, which favored Japanese rearmament and supported the U.S.-Japan security alliance, a vocal constituency opposed the notion of Japan becoming, in essence, a military ally of America. The world federalist movement was able to tap into these political dynamics.<sup>38</sup> Kagawa, for example, criticized the constant wrangling over the rearmament issue in a March 1952 article, arguing that the establishment of a world federation and the development of advanced scientific capabilities provided the best guarantee for Japan's future.<sup>39</sup> For peace and democracy activists who believed that Japan would be better off leaving its militarist legacy in the past, world federalism offered a timely—if overly optimistic—alternative for addressing its national security concerns.

The 1952 Asian Congress for World Federation, hosted in Hiroshima from November 3 to 6, marked a watershed moment for the world federalist movement. Mindful of the crossroads Japan faced with the restoration of its sovereignty arriving in the middle of a war being waged in neighboring Korea, JAWF leaders such as Kagawa and Shimonaka Yasaburō, founder of the popular publishing house



Heibonsha, felt that Japan needed to increase its ties with Asia and reiterate its resolve not to proceed with military rearmament.<sup>40</sup> Despite the fact that only two Asian nations (Japan and India) had formal organizations dedicated to world federalism, eight responded to the hosts' invitations and agreed to send delegations. Furthermore, fourteen nations from Europe and North America sent delegates to show their support, making it a total of fifty-one delegates from twenty-two different countries in attendance. Combined with 263 Japanese representatives and some four hundred observers—with Kagawa serving as the chairman for the proceedings—the event became the largest international conference held in postwar Japan up to that point.

The Asian Congress used the setting of Hiroshima to its advantage to send a message of world peace. With the conference being held at the center of the first city in history to be targeted by a nuclear attack, attendees' comments naturally focused on the tragedy of World War II. In his remarks, John Boyd Orr (1880–1971), a Scottish physician who was president of the World Movement for World Federal Government and the 1949 Nobel Peace Prize laureate for his research into nutrition, maintained that it was the world's collective responsibility to make sure such a war would not be repeated. Radhabinod Pal (1886–1967), the Indian jurist who famously voted to acquit all of the defendants during the Tokyo War Crimes Tribunal, also voiced his support for Japan's peaceful direction, noting that rearmament would amount to a "desecration" of the souls that perished in the atomic bombing.<sup>41</sup> Five members of the so-called Hiroshima Maidens (also known as the Atomic Bomb Maidens, or Genbaku Otome), a group of Japanese women who had been severely disfigured or scarred by the atomic bombs, also took the stage, eliciting a sympathetic reaction from the crowd. Their speech, in which they insisted that they harbored "no ill will" toward anyone despite their life-altering injuries and hoped only for the abolishment of war, gave rise to a spontaneous moment of embrace between the maidens and female delegates from various nations.<sup>42</sup>

Following four days of discussion in Hiroshima, the international delegates made a tour of the country that revealed the diverse network of support for world federalism in Japan. On November 7, the group traveled to Osaka for a tea ceremony reception at the Izuo Church of Konkōkyō, a new religion with roots in Shintō. In Kobe they visited the Kawasaki Shipyard—the site of a major prewar industrial strike that Kagawa had led some thirty years prior—and met with members



of the local chamber of commerce before attending a lecture event sponsored by the *Asahi* and *Mainichi* newspapers, two of the leading national dailies.<sup>43</sup> On November 9 they paid a visit to two municipalities in Kyoto—Ayabe and Kameoka—which had made headlines for becoming the first two Japanese cities to officially declare support for world federalism.<sup>44</sup> This was part of a larger worldwide effort known as mundialization (derived from the Latin *mundus*, meaning “world”), whereby a local authority declared itself a “world city,” thus publicly aligning itself with the world federalist movement. Overall, as Kagawa proudly proclaimed in a postconference issue of *Sekai kokka*, the meeting represented a resounding “first step” for the movement, for which many difficulties still lay ahead.<sup>45</sup>

The success of the 1952 conference gave rise to two similar meetings in the same decade, both of which were also held in Japan. Plans for a second Asian Congress in India were mooted at the Hiroshima conference, but the idea fell through due to the logistical difficulties of hosting such an event in postpartition India. In the end the second Asian Congress for World Federation was held in Tokyo in November 1954, after being repositioned as a response to the United States’ thermonuclear weapons test at Bikini Atoll (code-named Castle Bravo) in March of the same year. Having just witnessed the crew of the Japanese fishing vessel *Lucky Dragon No. 5* suffer from the radioactive fallout of the Castle Bravo explosion, the conference organizers strongly condemned the escalation of the nuclear arms race and called for a ban on nuclear testing. This campaign, in some ways, stood as a precursor to the formation of the Japan Council against Atomic and Hydrogen Bombs (Gensuikyō), which held its first world conference the following year. The attendees also signed a resolution seeking to raise awareness of the existence of a number of UN nonmember states whose applications to join the UN had been turned down because of the East–West rivalry between the Soviet Union and the United States.<sup>46</sup>

The third Asian Congress was held in October 1957 in Kyoto. By this time, however, the global outlook had changed considerably. With Japan having achieved its goal of UN membership in 1956, following its normalization of diplomatic relations with the Soviet Union in the same year, the option of rallying around its nonmember status was no longer available. Still, hopes were high for a further expansion of the world federalist movement, and organizers aimed to re-create a Japanese version of the influential Asia-Africa Conference that had been held in Bandung, Indonesia, in 1955. They were disappointed,

however, to receive only three replies from the hundreds of invitations they sent out to Asian and African nations.<sup>47</sup> For the leaders of these countries, many of which were undergoing the painful process of decolonization, domestic issues such as the restoration of autonomy and the establishment of a new national identity took precedence over internationalist causes such as world federalism.

The world federalist movement represented one final endeavor for Kagawa to fulfill his internationalist ideals, but it achieved only mixed results. As one of the public faces of JAWF and the chairman for all three Asian Congresses hosted by Japan in the 1950s, Kagawa put himself at the forefront of a global pacifist movement working toward the realization of a world federal state. Indeed, his commitment to the pacifist cause was clearly spelled out on the front page of the *Kirisuto shinbun*, a Christian newspaper he had cofounded in 1946, which prominently featured the headlines “Defend the Peace Constitution” and “Oppose Rearmament.”<sup>48</sup> Such efforts can be seen as an extension of his Christian internationalism, albeit expressed in less overtly religious terms than in his evangelistic campaigns.

Despite the enthusiastic support from certain quarters, however, the movement never stood any realistic chance of success due to the fiercely bipolar nature of the Cold War world. While the 1952 Asian Congress in Hiroshima showed some signs of promise, subsequent attempts to expand the movement through international conferences proved ultimately futile, as was evident in the lack of interest of many Asian countries, as well as the conspicuous absence of nations from the Eastern Bloc. In the wake of Kagawa’s passing in 1960, followed closely by the death of another federalist stalwart, Shimonaka, in 1961, the movement’s torch would be passed on to the next generation. The new leaders included the likes of Japanese theoretical physicist and 1949 Nobel laureate Yukawa Hideki (1907–1981), who was voted president of the World Association of World Federalists at the group’s World Congress in 1961. Japan would even go on to host the aforementioned 1963 World Congress for World Federation in Tokyo. However, despite subsequent decades of lobbying and the persistence of parliamentary groups for world federalism even today—such as the Diet Group for World Federation in Japan and the All-Party Group for World Governance in the British Parliament—the movement was unable to truly break into the mainstream of world politics and has thus far failed to achieve the lofty goal it set for itself during its postwar heyday.

## THE COLD WAR DECLINE OF CHRISTIAN INTERNATIONALISM

Of the various internationalisms that emerged during the twentieth century—for example, Wilsonian, Socialist, feminist, pan-Islamic, pan-Asian—the Christian variety has received disproportionately little attention compared to the size of its influence and its importance to the modern world.<sup>49</sup> Indeed, one scholar summed up the rich and expansive nature of Christian internationalism, as well as its relative obscurity to most contemporary observers beyond those select few who are well-versed in ecumenical church history, as “a lost civilization of thought, enquiry, and endeavor.”<sup>50</sup> If Kagawa’s career, as has been detailed in this book thus far, provides an illustration of the rise of Christian internationalism in the early twentieth century, his relative unfamiliarity to present-day audiences also tells a story about its subsequent decline in the Cold War era.

Today, Kagawa’s fame has not endured quite as well as his supporters might have hoped. His likeness, however, lives on in an unlikely corner of the U.S. capital, in the form of a stone statue inside the Washington National Cathedral (figure 6.2).

Founded in 1893 under a charter passed by the U.S. Congress and located atop Mount Saint Alban in the northwest quadrant of Washington, DC, the Washington National Cathedral has occupied a unique place in American religious and political life. Despite belonging to the Episcopal Church, with strong historic ties to the Church of England, the cathedral does not cater to any specific denomination. It has instead embraced its billing as the “national house of prayer for all people,” regularly welcoming members of other denominations and religions to make use of its worship space over the years.<sup>51</sup> As the spiritual home for the American nation, the cathedral has also served as the venue for many secular governmental functions over the years, including nearly all U.S. presidential funeral and memorial services since its founding.

At the time of the proposal to build Kagawa’s statue in the late 1960s, the world was embroiled in global conflict. The United States was stepping up its involvement in the Vietnam War, and tensions were high in Europe with the Soviet-led invasion of Czechoslovakia in 1968. As had been the case since the Cuban Missile Crisis of 1962, the ideological rivalry and military antagonism characteristic of Cold War politics were on full display. Furthermore, the cathedral itself was entering a period of major construction inside its nave, entailing the addition of many new sculptural and architectural elements that have



*Figure 6.2.* Kagawa niche statue in the Washington National Cathedral. *Source:* Photograph by the author

since become iconic features of the church.<sup>52</sup> As such, Kagawa's statue was part of a historic chapter in the cathedral's development, which was to culminate in a grand dedication ceremony in 1976 in observance of the nation's bicentennial. From the cathedral's standpoint, therefore, the statue represented an opportunity to showcase the all-embracing scope of its unique mission. Given this context, the Kagawa statue proposal sparked a wide-ranging discussion over the issues of national representation, commemorative politics, and the very identity of the cathedral itself.

The donation for the Kagawa statue originated from an American war veteran. In 1969, Francis Edward Fleck Jr. (1912–1990), a retired U.S. Navy rear admiral, along with his wife, Isabelle Seltzer (1915–2006), proposed building a statue of Kagawa in the cathedral following a monetary donation. Although no specific reason was given for their choice, the Flecks' interest in Kagawa might have come from their period of stay in postwar Japan, where Admiral Fleck was stationed as part of a U.S. military advisory group under the Allied Occupation. There he played an important role in setting up the forerunner of the Japanese Maritime Self-Defense Forces.<sup>53</sup> After returning stateside and retiring from the navy, the Flecks settled down in Washington, DC, where they became active in the local English-Speaking Union, the Japan-America Society, and the Washington National Cathedral, eventually leading to their donation in 1969.<sup>54</sup>

Upon receiving the donation and proposal, cathedral administrators proceeded to hire a sculptor to design the statue, unexpectedly sparking a debate over the depiction of Kagawa's national identity. On November 21, 1969, Richard T. Feller (1909–2003), the clerk of the works who supervised cathedral construction projects, contacted the Missouri-based sculptor William C. Severson (1924–1999), informing him of the Cathedral Building Committee's offer of a \$1,000 commission to design and furnish a plaster model of Kagawa that would later be turned into a stone statue.<sup>55</sup> Feller and Severson had previously worked together on the commission for a statue of Søren Kierkegaard (1813–1855), the Danish philosopher-theologian, in the North Outer Aisle—the same aisle where the Kagawa statue was to be placed. Since “all of these outer aisle figures are ‘non-American,’” Feller noted in his letter, “it has been suggested and we rather feel that [Kagawa's] best representation would be in Japanese dress rather than western clothing, which he undoubtedly wore most of the time.”<sup>56</sup> In making this suggestion, Feller advanced an argument for the Japanese evan-

gelist's appearance that would later be raised again by the donors—namely, that “without Kagawa being garbed in oriental costume it may be difficult to spot him, or delineate him, from other occidentals.”<sup>57</sup> This was a reference to the other statues in the aisle, all of whom, in contrast to Kagawa, hailed from Western Christendom: Kierkegaard, Saint Bridget of Sweden, and Saint Augustine of Hippo.

Severson, however, did not feel the choice of Japanese dress to be appropriate. After doing some research into Kagawa's life following his acceptance of the commission in April 1970, Severson raised the question: “Isn't it a strange anachronism that the Cathedral chooses persons uncomfortable during life within ornate church walls to adorn its walls in stone after death?”<sup>58</sup> Here, Severson was presumably referring to Kagawa's dislike of ecclesiastical formalities, which Kagawa saw as an impediment to his mission of reaching out to those in society most in need of help. In response, Feller stated that it was the cathedral's policy to honor not just bishops and church prelates but also other great Christians (or, for that matter, non-Christians such as Gandhi) who carried out “their major endeavor and activity outside of a church building or the institutional church.”<sup>59</sup> To illustrate his point, Feller gave the example of Abraham Lincoln as somebody who may not have been comfortable within the confines of the organized church but was nevertheless a “Godly man” whom the cathedral planned to commemorate with a larger-than-life-size statue.<sup>60</sup> For him, Lincoln symbolized the unique mission of the cathedral to serve the nation and the public at large—something that set it apart from a membership-based church with a regular parish constituency that defined its interests along strict denominational lines.<sup>61</sup> In a similar fashion, Feller argued, the statue was intended to be a tribute to Kagawa's work as a Christian preacher and worker in the broadest possible sense.

Severson's question over the cathedral's intentions hinted at his conscientious approach toward the art of sculpting. Severson was a native of Wisconsin who had studied under the tutelage of the famed Croatian sculptor Ivan Mestrovic at Syracuse University. After earning a master of fine arts there, he relocated to Chesterfield, Missouri, to begin work at Scopia Art Studios, from which he undertook a number of corporate, institutional, and liturgical commissions.<sup>62</sup> Before working on each design, Severson conducted meticulous research on the subject at hand—a preparatory step that enabled him to add his own interpretive touch to the model. This aspect of his work can be seen in his cathedral statue of Kierkegaard. Instead of facing the viewer straight

on, Severson depicted Kierkegaard with the body turned backward and face angled toward the viewer, as if to symbolize the Danish philosopher's idiosyncratic authorial style through the unconventional posturing. Furthermore, the corbel (i.e., the supporting structure underneath the statue) includes a portrayal of the binding of Isaac by Abraham, a biblical scene meant to reflect the theological aspects of Kierkegaard's work.<sup>63</sup> Severson's statue of Kierkegaard, in other words, reflected his stance of staying as true as possible to his subject by identifying a characteristic trait and expressing it through the medium of posturing and physical appearance.

Satisfied with the cathedral's answer to his query, Severson set out to impart his artistic sensibility to the figure of Kagawa. After several months of working on a preliminary design, Severson decided upon a model that would reflect the activist nature of Kagawa's ministry. Accordingly, he placed him in a "poised stride to suggest the on-the-go manner of a man with much to do in little time," with his right hand opened as if he was "proffering service" and the left hand holding high an "open Bible—the action book."<sup>64</sup> By the time Severson wrote this reply, it had already been close to half a year since the initial contract had been signed, and the cathedral officials were getting anxious to see his progress. In order to assuage their concerns, Severson sent a few "polaroid snaps to let [the cathedral] know where the statue [was]."<sup>65</sup>

The images of the preliminary plaster model, however, were not well received by the Building Committee. Upon reviewing the progress report from Severson, Feller and the dean of the cathedral, Francis B. Sayre Jr. (1915–2008)—who was also the first grandchild of Woodrow Wilson—expressed disappointment, finding the clothing on the proposed model "completely unacceptable" due to its lack of "Oriental costume."<sup>66</sup> Kagawa's statue, Feller maintained, was to be part of the Saints of All Nations series, an international grouping of sculptural figures in the cathedral nave that relied upon dress as the key feature visually differentiating between each culture and nationality. While conceding that he knew "very little about Kagawa" and the Japanese evangelist "no doubt . . . wore western style clothes," Feller stressed that the point of depicting him in ethnic dress was to mark him out as a figure "symbolic of Japanese Christianity," complaining that the current model made him look "like a Japanese businessman or diplomat."<sup>67</sup> "Very few bishops wear cope and mitre on the street," he stated, using a Western metaphor to reiterate his point, "but we vest them in these garments in statues to emphasize the symbolism."<sup>68</sup>



After expressing regret at their difference in direction, Feller concluded the letter by asking Severson to update the Building Committee periodically for their approval “before you invest long hours of painstaking work on it.”<sup>69</sup>

Severson, for his part, defended his choice of dress by claiming he was trying to remain faithful to his subject. In response to the cathedral’s criticism, Severson maintained that his choice of a Western-style suit was intended to represent a work suit that Kagawa himself had “pioneered and designed to be made and sold for a minimum amount for the working classes of Japan.”<sup>70</sup> “It was a kind of symbol of his concern and efforts in the area of human dignity for the working class,” he explained, citing his research into Kagawa’s background, “for after all, it is a very unusual thing for any man to be designing any garment, hence I ascribe a symbolic meaning to this apparel.”<sup>71</sup>

In addition to the perceived need to visually display Kagawa’s dedication to the poor working-class victims of industrial exploitation, Severson’s hesitation to incorporate ethnic dress into his model also stemmed from a cultural misunderstanding regarding traditional Japanese garments. To him, traditional Japanese clothing such as kimono—which he misspelled as “kimona” in his letter—represented the “baronial finery of the Orient”; an extravagant luxury enjoyed only by the aristocracy and thus “highly inappropriate” for someone like Kagawa.<sup>72</sup> In its actual usage in Japan, kimono (literally meaning “something that is worn”) is a general category of loose, long-sleeved clothing that comes in various types and grades, ranging from casual dress for commoners—indeed, something that Kagawa liked to wear at home—to more elaborate outfits befitting formal ceremonial occasions. Severson, however, interpreted the cathedral’s request for an Oriental costume as an ostentation that he could not “afford . . . his image [of Kagawa to] suffer,” leading him to go so far as to declare: “If [Kagawa] is worthy of the respect to put him in the Cathedral, his integrity as a person shall not be violated by my hand.”<sup>73</sup> Instead, he asked the cathedral “to be open to the realism of my Kagawa” and promised that his model need not be seen as failing the objective of symbolizing “Oriental Christianity,” as long as they were “willing to accept the expression of his orientalism in other than the specific trappings of coolie or oriental garb.”<sup>74</sup>

The above exchange reveals the opposing views of the cathedral and donor versus the sculptor, as well as a lack of understanding regarding Japanese culture on both sides. On a practical level, Feller’s



concern that Kagawa be portrayed in Oriental costume—even if it did not accurately reflect his values—is understandable given the institutional desire to represent a diverse, international group of figures within the space of the cathedral nave. In his view, Severson’s insistence on providing an uncompromising and honest portrayal of the subject needed to be balanced with the cathedral’s needs as well as the donor’s demands. On the other hand, it is telling that the cathedral and donor focused on outward appearances—using the vaguely essentializing term “Oriental” to describe Kagawa—whereas Severson was the only one who made an effort to develop more than a cursory understanding of the Japanese evangelist. Despite his misconceptions over the use of traditional Japanese dress, Severson accurately grasped the core values that underlay Kagawa’s teachings and ministry. Crucially, however, neither party brought up Kagawa’s credentials as a leader of global Christianity in their discussions of his representation in the cathedral, thus marking a stark contrast with his interwar internationalist image.

Such debates over Kagawa’s statuary depiction were a reflection of the broader decline of Christian internationalism in the postwar period. By the early 1950s, the influence of Christianity as an international force was becoming overshadowed by more pressing political concerns: Japan’s catastrophic defeat, the Allied Occupation, and East Asia’s frontline role in the emerging Cold War between the United States and the Soviet Union. In the United States, for example, the Commission on a Just and Durable Peace, established by the Federal Council of the Churches of Christ and chaired by John Foster Dulles (1888–1959), lobbied to bring mainline Protestantism into closer alignment with the U.S. government. By positioning the commission as a mediator between American churches and the state during various wartime forums on postwar international organization, Dulles successfully recast Christianity as a “national faith” vital to the United States’ upcoming struggle against the “atheistic” Soviet Russia. In doing so, he effectively “Americanized” Christian internationalism, moving it away from its interwar emphasis on universalism toward a more messianic ideology that strove to reunify God with the nation.<sup>75</sup>

In balancing the demands of multiple stakeholders, Kagawa’s cathedral statue endured a series of false starts before its final completion. After their initial disagreement over the direction of the statue, the cathedral and sculptor eventually agreed in early 1971 to try to resolve the issue of national representation by utilizing a hybrid design

that placed a symbol of ancient, traditional Japan next to that of modern Japan. Based on his view that Kagawa signified an “instrument of change” who helped “a class of laborers struggling against ancient Japanese feudal attitudes,” Severson maintained that “old Japan” must be visually represented in the model to evoke the sense of change over time.<sup>76</sup> On this point, he accepted Dean Sayre’s suggestion of using the chrysanthemum, the symbol of Japan’s imperial family, to exemplify traditional Japan. The chrysanthemum, Severson suggested, should be located on the corbel alongside a depiction of Shinkawa, the Kobe slums where Kagawa had devoted many years of his life to helping the poor.

Given the placement of the statue on an elevated niche above an arched corridor, Feller and Sayre envisioned the viewer’s eye first meeting the chrysanthemum corbel representing “old Japan,” out of which would sprout Kagawa in his laborer’s garb, representing the “new Japan.”<sup>77</sup> Severson ultimately insisted that he be allowed to keep the Western-style “work suit,” since he regarded the so-called Kagawa suit (“which sold for \$1.85”) as the material representation of “his hopes for a state of existence without class distinction” and thus an essential symbol for his statue design.<sup>78</sup>

Severson’s finished model, however, did not satisfy the donors, ultimately leading to the termination of his commission. Mr. and Mrs. Fleck, the donors, upon hearing the proposed iconography of the statue and corbel, “were not entirely enthusiastic about the concept of western garb on Kagawa,” reiterating their emphasis on having him attired in “something which will be visually symbolic of a nation.”<sup>79</sup> Despite such warning signs, on May 30, 1971, Severson rushed photographic prints of his plaster model to Feller, along with a hastily written note explaining his artistic decisions. The note began with the confession that “Toyohiko Kagawa has not ‘turned me on’ the way S. K. [Søren Kierkegaard] did.”<sup>80</sup> The resulting model, it turned out, was quite different from what had been discussed. Instead of showing Kagawa standing up straight, Severson depicted him in a “very full” suit, looking at a book “drawn . . . tightly to the face,” suggesting “his immediacy in applying the gospel to all of life situations,” as well as adding a small “chrysanthemum in K’s outstretched hand.”<sup>81</sup> The corbel design featured one central chrysanthemum flanked on both sides by scenes of the “busy contemporary Japan” and the “slum buildings of Shinkawa in Kobe,” and “in the pedals [*sic*] of the flower, people stand as in Shinkawa.”<sup>82</sup>

After a five-month delay, the Cathedral Building Committee concluded that Severson's model did not meet their demands, paving the way for his replacement by a new sculptor. The Building Committee and the dean gave an unfavorable appraisal of the statue design, finding "that the figure appears distorted and somewhat unpleasing in appearance," leading them to perceive "the chrysanthemum in his hand to be indistinguishable and relatively meaningless to anyone who looked at the photograph."<sup>83</sup> As for the corbel, Severson's attempt to represent the chrysanthemum and the slums together gave the unfavorable impression of "the chrysanthemum and the little human beings crawling around in the leaves [looking] like bees in a flower."<sup>84</sup> By this time, Feller was under pressure from the Cathedral's Building Committee to step up the pace of nave construction in order to have everything ready for the national bicentennial festivities in 1976.<sup>85</sup> As such, he could not afford to spend any more time negotiating a satisfactory design. Severson agreed to withdraw from the project and was replaced by a local sculptor from Washington, DC.

The archival documents do not state exactly when the Kagawa statue was crafted into its current form after Severson's replacement. It is likely, however, that it was completed before April 18, 1976, which was the date of the nave's grand Easter unveiling in the lead-up to the bicentennial celebrations in July. The final design, while ultimately crafted by a different artist, nevertheless bore the imprints of the negotiations between the cathedral, donor, and original sculptor. The statue depicts Kagawa standing upright in an open stance, wearing what appears to be a Japanese-style kimono, in seeming deference to the Flecks' insistence on showcasing the "Oriental" background of the Japanese Christian leader. The corbel features a large chrysanthemum flower in the center, an idea originating from Dean Sayre, flanked by the images of a Japanese farmer and laborer in recognition of Kagawa's social commitments, a point suggested by Severson. Toward the bottom, furthermore, the Japanese characters for saint (*seijin*) appear as part of the wreath surrounding the chrysanthemum, in a subtle reminder of his national origin and status. Nowhere in the statue, however, is there anything to suggest the high international acclaim or global stature Kagawa once enjoyed. Through its amalgamation of a number of disparate symbols—ethnic, national, and occupational—the statue celebrated Kagawa as a Japanese "saint" while simultaneously deemphasizing what had made him so famous in the first place: his

vision of Christianity as a universal religion and unifying force that transcended social and political divides.

The advent of a new Cold War ideology stressing religious nationalism overshadowed the previously influential Christian internationalism of the interwar period, supplanting it as the primary lens through which world figures and events were interpreted. With regard to Kagawa, the intervening years also gave rise to revelations regarding his wartime cooperation with the Japanese imperial state, which contradicted his cultivated image as a principled internationalist. On the one hand, Admiral Fleck and his wife presumably donated their money for the construction of Kagawa's statue because they saw him as someone worth memorializing in America's national house of prayer. On the other hand, their insistence that the statue convey distinctly "Oriental" qualities reflected the assumption that Kagawa was a keeper of Japanese Christianity, in much the same spirit as one might declare Birgitta Birgersdotter—also known as Saint Bridget (who happens to have her own statue in the same corridor as Kagawa in the National Cathedral)—as the patron saint of the nation of Sweden. No longer seen as representing the ideals of a global Christianity, Kagawa, in reflection of the broader decline of the Christian internationalist movement in the postwar period, became construed more narrowly as a symbol of Japanese Christianity. Despite his prewar image as an international leader with universal appeal, Kagawa's statuary incarnation places him in the category of a Japanese saint whose Oriental origin was his defining feature.

## CONCLUSION

Cooperative evangelist” is not the label most people would associate with Kagawa today. Since his death in 1960, Kagawa’s reputation has diminished from the international stature of someone like Gandhi to a position of relative obscurity. During this time, the once-formidable publicity machine that had aided his rise to global fame came to a gradual halt as many of his vocal missionary supporters passed from the scene. By the time of his statue proposal, Kagawa was a largely forgotten figure in the general public sphere. As can be seen in the contested negotiations over his statuary depiction in the Washington National Cathedral, the prism through which his life had been interpreted became fragmented and disjointed. This is not to say, however, that there were no efforts to commemorate his accomplishments on a wider scale.

In 1947, Kagawa became the first Japanese person to be nominated for the Nobel Prize in Literature, thanks to a letter of nomination from Knut B. Westman (1881–1967), a professor of theology and mission history at Uppsala University in Sweden. He received another nomination for the same prize the following year, when his name was put forward by Sven Hedin (1865–1952), a Swedish geographer and explorer known for his archaeological expeditions in Central Asia.<sup>1</sup> Kagawa did not end up winning the award on either occasion. Considering the fact that most nominees during this period were Western authors and his nominations predated the first Japanese laureate in this category by a full two decades (Kawabata Yasunari in 1968), such recognition nevertheless illustrates the extent of his

literary reputation in the West. Acclaim for his social and pacifist organizing came in the final years of his life, when he received consecutive nominations for the Nobel Peace Prize for his “work for reconciliation among nations” in 1954, 1955, 1956, and 1960, though he ultimately did not win the award.<sup>2</sup>

Such categories, however, only begin to capture the extent of Kagawa’s work and influence. Over the course of a career spanning five decades, Kagawa occupied a multitude of roles that reflected the breadth of his engagement with the world: preacher, writer, minister, teacher, social worker, labor leader, peace activist, internationalist, and world federalist. On occasion he was also branded in less than flattering terms as a Socialist, Communist, propagandist, rabble-rouser, anti-nationalist traitor, or warmonger; characterizations that either exaggerated or entirely misrepresented his core values.

Kagawa was first and foremost an evangelist who felt most content in the pulpit or out on the road, preaching to large crowds in churches and meetinghouses, establishing new contacts, and engaging directly with the people. It was in the streets of Kobe, after all, that he first made his mark. Once word circulated about his work in the slums, his humble residence turned into an international pilgrimage site of sorts, visited by missionaries and church leaders from around the globe eager for a chance to meet the enigmatic slum preacher from Japan. Kobe, one of Japan’s busiest shipping ports, which also served as a gateway to the wider world, was thus a fitting starting point for the outward-looking nature of Kagawa’s career.

Kagawa emerged onto a global scene still contending with the aftermath of World War I. As a non-Western, non-white spiritual leader who seemed to have successfully internalized the social teachings of Jesus, he appealed to a wide range of interwar Christians during a period of theological and material crisis. He found a particularly receptive audience in America, where the fallout from the war had led to the rise of a radical, anti-imperialist strain of thought that questioned the moral and political grounds of the international missionary project. Kagawa’s practical and social concerns attracted reform-minded liberal Protestants, while his relatively orthodox stance on fundamental articles of faith such as atonement and the Resurrection, coupled with his insistence on the primacy of evangelism, offered reassurance to conservatives. In short, his non-white status and pragmatic approach to Christianity allowed American Protestants across the theological spectrum to identify with and celebrate his work.<sup>3</sup>

Working across cultures, Kagawa inspired the creation of a transnational religious community that demonstrated the growing potential of world Christianity. With the aid of his American missionary supporters, whose extensive informational networks enabled him to reach a wide global audience, Kagawa became the driving force behind a unique community-building effort—as exemplified in the numerous supporters’ groups bearing his name on both sides of the Pacific. Organized around the power of Kagawa’s vision and boasting a membership that included Japanese Christians as well as white Americans and Japanese Americans, such groups symbolized the ideals of a “universal Christendom” that aspired to unite all Christians, regardless of race or nationality.

The central ethos of these Kagawa-inspired organizations was cooperation and mutual aid. Despite getting his start in social organizing in the realm of labor and farmers’ unions, Kagawa distanced himself from them after undergoing the bitter experience of losing control of the unions to radical leftist elements.<sup>4</sup> Realizing that his vision of nonviolent social change called for a more moderate, nonrevolutionary approach, he shifted his focus to the promotion of Christian cooperatives and the cooperative movement in general. Indeed, his work in the Japanese cooperative movement served as the basis for his much-celebrated 1936 lecture tour of the United States, which was cosponsored by the Cooperative League of the U.S.A. In the mid-1930s, many Americans looked upon Kagawa’s cooperative teachings as a timely antidote to the failures of profit-driven capitalism exposed by the Great Depression. Coinciding with a period in his career that saw an increased reorientation toward evangelism, Kagawa’s embrace of cooperatives can be seen as the logical synthesis of his two main concerns: social reform and Christian brotherhood.

Cooperation for Kagawa, however, took various forms. Despite his social credentials and wide international reputation, some scholars of Japanese Christianity today would point to Uchimura Kanzō (1861–1930), rather than Kagawa, as the foremost Christian figure of modern Japan. Although many factors may be cited for this, the primary reason is the perceived consistency of Uchimura’s theological views and political stance, which were grounded in his fiercely independent non-church movement.<sup>5</sup> Uchimura, who had supported the Sino-Japanese War of 1894–1895 out of his belief that Japan was morally obligated to protect the struggling nation of Korea from invasion by China, became disillusioned by the Japanese government’s

failure to uphold the provisions of the peace treaty, turning to protest Japan's involvement in the Russo-Japanese War a decade later. Influenced by the pacifism of his Quaker friends in America, Uchimura declared himself an absolute pacifist, becoming an outspoken critic of Japan's war efforts. Such a stance was based on his belief that peace could only truly be achieved through God's direct intervention (also known as the Second Coming of Christ).

In contrast, Kagawa's close relationship with political authorities has come under scrutiny for being opportunistic and inconsistent with his religious beliefs. Although lauded for his pacifist opposition to Japanese military aggression in China in the 1920s and his widely circulated public apology to the Chinese people in the 1930s, Kagawa struggled to maintain critical distance from the Japanese imperial state. On the one hand, he was upheld as a pacifist hero in the international press, while on the other hand, he was a willing participant in Japan's spiritual mobilization and wartime propaganda activities. Like many of his compatriots, he was susceptible to being swept up in the patriotic currents of the day, and his moderate politics and cooperative relationship with the state seemingly eased his acceptance of government policy—or at least discouraged him from publicly disagreeing with it.

To be sure, Kagawa's engagement with Japanese imperialism evolved over time, with the 1937 outbreak of the Second Sino-Japanese War serving as a key turning point. Prior to 1937, Kagawa showed his willingness to criticize Japanese aggression in his 1934 public apology to China—an act that underscored his Christian pacifist credentials and was widely publicized abroad through his missionary partners. While his apology was initially made within the confines of a Chinese church and exclusively directed toward a Chinese audience, his condemnation of the Japanese military clique (*gunbatsu*) nevertheless recalled the antimilitarist rhetoric of the era of Taishō Democracy—a brief period of liberal ascendancy that preceded the rising militarism of the 1930s.<sup>6</sup> His reluctance to denounce Japan's war with China five years later during his much-anticipated 1939 meeting with Gandhi, however, portended a critical shift in his stance. Mindful of the tighter societal regulations and restrictions on the freedom of speech following the outbreak of the so-called China Incident in 1937, Kagawa never spoke up against the war effort in public.

This disconnect between image and reality was underscored in 1940, when the Japanese military police arrested Kagawa over the contents of an “American publication” that quoted him expressing



“antiwar sentiments.” The publication, in fact, was the *Kagawa Calendar*, an English-language calendar produced in Japan by Mother Topping to promote Kagawa’s work. Although the publication bore his name, Kagawa exercised limited editorial control over its content, which mainly consisted of curated excerpts of his past writings and statements. Mother Topping, a retired American missionary concerned about the worsening relations between Japan and China, reproduced Kagawa’s aforementioned public apology to Chinese Christians in the 1940 calendar issue in the hopes of stirring sympathy for the plight of East Asia. This symbolic act, intended as an emotional appeal to like-minded Christians around the world to embrace the cause of pacifism at a moment when large-scale wars were breaking out in Europe and Asia, unexpectedly led to Kagawa’s arrest by the military police, even though in reality he had made no antiwar statements to the Japanese media.

During the Pacific War, cut off from any external contact with his overseas allies, Kagawa moved further toward cooperation with the Japanese Empire. The extraordinary circumstances of wartime fervor and the general hostility toward any group or individual associated with the “barbarous Americans and British” (*kichiku* Bei-Ei) compelled him to publicly demonstrate his loyalty to the Japanese nation. Under pressure from right-wing Christian groups and police authorities, Kagawa worked to mobilize Christian support for the war effort and made anti-American broadcasts on Radio Tokyo on behalf of the Japanese state. As someone who had previously espoused pacifism in the name of Christ, this was a clear betrayal of those ideals. At the same time, suspicion over the national allegiance of Christians put him in an ambivalent position, causing him to view his role in terms of the safety and survival of the Japanese Church. In a postwar interview, for example, Kagawa asserted that the U.S. wartime forces had spread rumors in an attempt to portray him as a traitor. “[The United States] announced that if America won the war, I would be made premier of Japan,” claimed Kagawa, citing the announcement as the reason why he chose to go on the radio, “speaking for Japanese policy, not to protect the militarists of Japan but to protect the Christian church.”<sup>7</sup> Faced with the harsh realities of war, self-preservation and patriotic performance became the primary motivating factors behind Kagawa’s wartime conduct.

Following the surrender in August 1945, Kagawa turned to the domestic task of rebuilding Japan. In a country stripped of all its armed forces and former colonial holdings, he became one of the key facili-

tators of Japan's transition from a militarist empire to a peace-oriented democracy. One institution of the prewar regime that he insisted on retaining, however, was the imperial throne. Through his cooperation with Prince Higashikuni's caretaker cabinet and General MacArthur's Occupation authorities, Kagawa helped shape the public discourse surrounding the imperial institution in order to shield Emperor Hirohito from criticism and the threat of removal. The imperial family, for its part, adapted to the new postwar order by expressing interest in—and at times even displaying a willingness to convert to—Christianity. Buoyed by an unofficial alliance with MacArthur, who viewed the Christianization of Japan as his personal mission, Kagawa became a central figure in the short-lived Japan for Christ Movement (1947–1949) to rebuild the nation along Christian lines.

In the final decade of his life, Kagawa reasserted his commitment to Christian evangelism and world peace. While his attempt to turn Japan into a Christian nation in the immediate postwar years proved unfruitful, Kagawa was no less determined or engaged in his evangelism, both in terms of spreading the Gospel as well as in promoting the notion of world federalism. With renewed help from his American supporters, he embarked on a twelve-month lecture tour of Britain and the United States in 1950, which was notable for being his last major overseas evangelistic campaign.<sup>8</sup> At the same time, he became one of the leaders in the Japanese movement for world federation, which sought to overcome the shortcomings of the United Nations system by creating a federal world government with the authority to enforce security decisions and limit the power of individual nations to wage war. This vision of a peaceful world order through world federalism ultimately fell short, as it ran up against the political and ideological divides that characterized the bipolar order of the Cold War era.

One consistent theme in Kagawa's long and multifaceted career was his advocacy for Japanese Christianity. In this regard it is helpful to compare him with two contemporary Christian Socialists (who, unlike Kagawa, later became estranged from their faith): Katayama Sen (1859–1933) and Kawakami Hajime (1879–1946). A predecessor of sorts to Kagawa, Katayama became interested in the domestic labor movement through his study-abroad experience in the United States, where he attended Grinnell College, Andover Theological Seminary, and Yale Divinity School and became a Christian. Upon his return to Japan, Katayama set up a settlement house modeled after those he had

seen in America, helped found the country's first labor union, and participated in the activities of the Japan Socialist Party. Differences of opinion with his Japanese comrades, however, led Katayama to eventually shift his focus overseas. Based on his experience in Communist organizing in the United States and Mexico, he went on to become an officer of the Comintern and a leader of international communism.<sup>9</sup> Kawakami, on the other hand, was a professional economist initially inspired by the humanistic aspects of Christianity. Following studies in Europe and an eight-year tenure as an economics professor at Kyoto Imperial University, however, he came to embrace revolutionary Marxism, eventually resigning his prestigious professorship to join the Japanese Communist Party.<sup>10</sup> Compared to these two figures—both of whom, while starting out as Christians, ended up abandoning their faith to join forces with organized communism—Kagawa remained a devout Christian and a staunch opponent of communism throughout his life, a trait that served him well in gaining the confidence of the Japanese state and Allied Occupation authorities.

As a minister and keeper of Japanese Christianity, Kagawa was a pragmatist, happy to work with the establishment to protect the interests of the church. As a Christian internationalist, he strove to enact his ideals of a transnational brotherhood based on religious and cooperative economic ties—but not to the extent of becoming a martyr to them in a time of war. Through his Kingdom of God Movement, Christian Pioneer Village initiative, and numerous evangelistic tours, Kagawa attempted to keep Christianity viable and relevant during the tumultuous social and political transitions of World War II. Since this period coincided with an unprecedented expansion in Japanese state power, Kagawa surely saw his cooperation with the imperial regime not as an abandonment of his Christian principles but as an unavoidable trade-off for a minority religion struggling to establish itself within the broader religious landscape of Japan. Obtaining government recognition, after all, has been a key factor for the historical survival of many world religions, and this was no less true in wartime Japan. The fact that Kagawa did not opt to completely withdraw from wartime politics by retreating to his island refuge in Teshima but instead helped mobilize Christian support by touring the country and appearing on numerous state-sponsored propaganda broadcasts testified to the active nature of his cooperation. As soon as Japan surrendered, he swiftly shifted his attention to the question of postwar recovery, calling on Christians to aid in the task of Japan's reentry to the international

community on good terms. Whether in peacetime or war, ensuring the growth and well-being of the Japanese Christian Church remained at the top of his list of priorities.

Although not quite the global figure he once was, it is still possible to discover evidence of Kagawa's influence in various pockets around the world. In the United States, besides the Washington National Cathedral, Kagawa had a street named after him in 1930 in Pacific Palisades, Los Angeles, thanks to the auspices of the Presbyterian missionary leader Robert E. Speer (1867–1947).<sup>11</sup> In recent decades, Los Angeles churches and community organizations have held screenings of a 1988 Japanese film on Kagawa (*Shisen o koete: Kagawa Toyohiko monogatari*), with English subtitles, on multiple celebratory occasions.<sup>12</sup> Kagawa is featured as one of sixteen Christian “witnesses” that decorate the dome of Hodges Chapel in the Beeson Divinity School at Samford University, Alabama.<sup>13</sup> The Cooperative Development Foundation in Washington, DC, moreover, manages a Kagawa Fund for Student Cooperative Development to address “the need for democratically-controlled and affordable housing for students across North America.”<sup>14</sup> In Japan, Kagawa is still relatively well-known as the father of the cooperative movement. There has also been renewed public interest in his teachings following a series of events in 2009 commemorating the centennial of his fateful decision to take up residence in the Shinkawa slums of Kobe in 1909. In Korea, Daegu University founder Rhee Young Shik (1894–1981) reportedly maintained a memorial room dedicated to the Japanese evangelist in his office, as Rhee had been a junior classmate of Kagawa's at Kobe Theological Seminary in the prewar period.<sup>15</sup> Inspired by Kagawa's example, Daegu University retains a strong emphasis on its social work curriculum to this day. In Norway, Kagawa is the second-most translated Japanese author behind Haruki Murakami.<sup>16</sup> Kagawa's statue in the Washington National Cathedral, perhaps more than anything else, stands as a testament to the once-substantial sway of interwar Christian internationalism, as well as the fundamental shifts in global geopolitics that have since altered the position and perception of one of its most celebrated leaders.

In the end, none of this would have been possible without the support of his American missionary partners and overseas followers. In a 1954 letter to his U.S.-based supporters, Kagawa indicated that, at the age of sixty-six, he remained as committed as ever to the Christian cause: “Though I am handicapped from physical weakness, I am

preaching approximately two weeks and devoting two other weeks for the prevention of poverty among the laborers and salaried in a month.”<sup>17</sup> In the Christmas message, Kagawa included a line that encapsulated his enduring internationalism. After detailing his post-war relief efforts to build “57 chapels and churches in different places in Japan” and “19 day nurseries and settlement houses,” he signed off the circular—an annual season’s greeting that served as a means to keep his overseas followers updated on his latest activities—by gratefully acknowledging the financial support he and thirty-five of his Japanese colleagues continued to receive “from American friends and also from Japanese Christians around Los Angeles”—his “Brothers and Sisters in Christ.”<sup>18</sup>

## Notes

Works frequently cited have been identified by the following abbreviations:

|        |                                                                                                                                                                             |
|--------|-----------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------------|
| AGA    | Aoyama Gakuin Archives. Aoyama Gakuin University, Tokyo.                                                                                                                    |
| FDRL   | Franklin D. Roosevelt Presidential Library and Museum. Hyde Park, New York.                                                                                                 |
| GWPC   | Gordon W. Prange Collection. University of Maryland, College Park, Maryland.                                                                                                |
| HFTP   | Helen Faville Topping Papers. Special Collections, Southern Illinois University Carbondale.                                                                                 |
| KMP    | Kozaki Michio Papers. Doshisha University, Kyoto.                                                                                                                           |
| MacMem | MacArthur Memorial Museum. Norfolk, Virginia.                                                                                                                               |
| MKKIK  | Manshū Kirisutokyō Kaitakumura Iinkai Shiryō. MSRC, Tokyo.                                                                                                                  |
| MSRC   | Matsuzawa Resource Center (Kagawa Archives and Resource Center). Tokyo.                                                                                                     |
| MSSA   | Manuscripts and Archives. Yale University, New Haven, Connecticut.                                                                                                          |
| NARA   | National Archives and Research Administration (Archives II). College Park, Maryland.                                                                                        |
| NKKSS  | Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan Senkyō Kenkyūjo Kyōdan Shiryō Hensanshitsu, ed. <i>Nihon Kirisuto kyōdanshi shiryōshū</i> . Tokyo: Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan senkyō kenkyūjo, 1998.       |
| SNKU   | Dōshisha Daigaku Jinbunkagaku Kenkyūjo/Kirisutokyō Shakai Mondai Kenkyūkai, ed. <i>Senjika no Kirisutokyō undō: Tokkō shiryō ni yoru</i> . Tokyo: Shinkyō shuppansha, 1972. |
| UTS    | The Burke Library at Union Theological Seminary. Columbia University, New York.                                                                                             |

- WNCA     Washington National Cathedral Archives. Washington, DC.  
 YDSL     Yale Divinity School Library. New Haven, Connecticut.

## INTRODUCTION

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49. Robert Schildgen, *Toyohiko Kagawa: Apostle of Love and Social Justice* (Berkeley, CA: Centenary Books, 1988).

50. Kawashima Sachio, *Kagawa Toyohiko to Taiheiyō sensō: Sensō, heiwa, zaiseki kokuhaku* (Fukuoka-shi, Japan: Nakagawa shoten, 1991); Kominami Kōichi, *Kagawa Toyohiko kenkyū josetsu* (Tokyo: Ryokuin shobō, 2010). Another recent trend in Japanese scholarship has been the examination of Kagawa’s relationship with China and Korea. See Kanemaru Yūichi, “Kagawa Toyohiko no Chūgoku: Katarare kata, katari kata,” *Kirisutokyō Bunka* 7 (2016): 39–54; Kanemaru Yūichi, “Chūgoku ni okeru Kagawa Toyohiko hyōka o megutte: 1920 nen kara 1949 nen no jirei kenkyū,” *Ritsumeikan Keizaigaku* 65, no. 6 (March 2017): 1265–1284; Lee Sunhye, *Kagawa Toyohiko no shakai fukushi jissen to shisō ga Kankoku ni ataeta eikyō to wa nani ka* (Kyoto: Mineruva shobō, 2017); Yu Ling-feng, “Senzen senchū no Chūgoku ni okeru Kagawa Toyohiko no kōryū katsudō to sono juyō ni kansuru kenkyū” (PhD diss., Hyogo University of Teacher Education, 2020).

51. Mark R. Mullins, “Kagawa Toyohiko (1888–1960) and the Japanese Christian Impact on American Society,” in *Encountering Modernity: Christianity in East Asia and Asian America*, ed. Albert L. Park and David K. Yoo (Honolulu: University of Hawai‘i Press, 2014), 163–193; Mark R. Mullins, “Christianity as a Transnational Social Movement”; Mark R. Mullins, “Religious Minorities and the Public Sphere.”

## CHAPTER 1: JAPANESE CHRISTIAN REFORMER

1. Endō Kōichi, “‘Shokutaku’ to shite no Tomeoka Kōsuke: Naimu gyōsei to jizen jigyo,” *Meiji Gakuin ronsō* 352–353 (1984): 243–310. On Yamamuro, see Rightmire, *Salvationist Samurai*.

2. Gluck, *Japan’s Modern Myths*, 157–174.

3. *Ibid.*, 176–178; Garon, *Molding Japanese Minds*, 66–67.

4. Garon, *Molding Japanese Minds*, 40–51.

5. Isobe Jun’ichi (1849–1892), born as the third son of a sake brewer in Tokushima, was adopted at the age of fifteen into the Kagawa family, a local merchant household involved in the trading of indigo balls (*ai-dama*). Yokoyama, *Kagawa Toyohiko den*, 1–9.

6. Ibid., 10–15.
7. Schildgen, *Toyohiko Kagawa*, 17–23.
8. Yokoyama, *Kagawa Toyohiko den*, 15–20.
9. Ibid., 24–31.
10. “Sekai heiwa ron: Teikoku shugi wa jinbunshi no ichikaikyū,” *Tokushima mainichi shinbun*, August 24, 1906.
11. Emerson Bradshaw, *Unconquerable Kagawa* (St. Paul, MN: Macalester Park, 1952), 83.
12. Yokoyama, *Kagawa Toyohiko den*, 37–48.
13. Ibid., 57–107.
14. For a recent biographical treatment of Kagawa Haru, see Iwata Mieko, *Hyōden Kagawa Haru: Kagawa Toyohiko to tomo ni, hitobito to tomo ni* (Tokyo: Fuji shuppan, 2018).
15. Yokoyama, *Kagawa Toyohiko den*, 108–112.
16. “Academic File on Toyohiko Kagawa (AC105),” Graduate Alumni Records, box 24, Seeley G. Mudd Manuscript Library, Princeton University. Many biographies claim that Kagawa received an MA in experimental psychology from Princeton University in 1915. The university records, however, do not support this claim. While the sources indicate that Kagawa did complete graduate work at the university in 1914–1916, his primary affiliation was with the seminary, and he was not enrolled in a degree program at Princeton.
17. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Hinmin shinri no kenkyū* (Tokyo: Keiseisha, 1915). The manuscript was finalized and published while Kagawa was studying abroad at Princeton.
18. “‘Japanese Gandhi’ to Speak Tuesday,” *Princeton Herald*, April 3, 1936; “Cooperative Groups Subject of Lecture by Kagawa Tonight,” *Princetonian*, April 7, 1936.
19. Yokoyama, *Kagawa Toyohiko den*, 111–112. The International Ladies Garment Workers Union was established at the turn of the century as one of the few industrial unions in the American Federation of Labor. It was a Jewish Socialist union composed primarily of Eastern European Jews and came close to becoming the first major Communist labor union in the United States in the decade following World War I. See Stanley Nadel, “Reds versus Pinks: A Civil War in the International Ladies Garment Workers Union,” *New York History* 66, no. 1 (January 1985), 48–72.
20. “Why 60,000 Garment Workers Are on Strike,” *New York Times*, May 7, 1916; “Settlement Near in Garment Strike,” *New York Times*, July 8, 1916; Lewis L. Lorwin, *The Women’s Garment Workers: A History of the International Ladies’ Garment Worker’s Union* (New York: B. W. Huebsch, 1924), 310–311.
21. For details regarding this dispute, which involved the pricing of sugar beet crops, see Schildgen, *Toyohiko Kagawa*, 79–80.
22. “Kirisuto o shinzyo,” *Utah Nippo*, March 5, 1917, March 15, 1917.
23. Sumiya, *Kagawa Toyohiko*, 50–56.

24. Suzuki endeavored to enhance the respectability of the group through the inclusion of prominent academics and bureaucrats among its advisers and counselors. These included influential members of the Social Policy Association (Nihon Shakai Seisaku Gakkai), such as Kuwata Kumazō, Takano Iwasaburō, and Soeda Juichi. Sheldon M. Garon, *The State and Labor in Modern Japan* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1987), 33.

25. The Kobe branch had one thousand members, while the Hyōgo and Fukiai branches had two hundred each. Sumiya, *Kagawa Toyohiko*, 58–59.

26. Sumiya, *Kagawa Toyohiko*, 57.

27. “Hakkan no ji,” *Shin Kobe*, August 22, 1918; Ōmae Sakurō, “Kaisetsu,” in *Shin Kobe, Rōdōsha shinbun*, 1918–1925, *fukkōkuban*, ed. Ōmae Sakurō (Kyoto: Nisshin shobō, 1969), 1–21.

28. Sumiya, *Kagawa Toyohiko*, 67–70.

29. “Chian keisatsuhō dai 17 jō teppai sengen,” *Rōdōsha shinbun*, April 15, 1919. The rally was held to coincide with Yūaikai’s submission of a five-thousand-signature petition to the Lower House of the Diet that called for the abolishment of Article 17.

30. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Shisen o koete* (Tokyo: Kaizōsha, 1920).

31. Kaizō billed it as a “social novel” (*shakai shōsetsu*), playing up the heroic appeal of its protagonist, who, according to one advertisement, “stood up against society and against the capitalists.” “Shisen o koete (advertisement),” *Yomiuri shinbun*, January 27, 1920.

32. At the height of its popularity, *Shisen o koete* was considered a desirable “cultural summer gift” (*bunkateki chūgen zōtōhin*) to send to friends and family. Furthermore, theatrical adaptations of the novel were staged at the Meiji Theater in Tokyo in November 1921. “Bunkateki zōtōhin,” *Yomiuri shinbun*, July 9, 1921; “Meiji-za Shisen o koete,” *Tokyo Asahi*, November 5, 1921.

33. According to one estimate cited by Mullins, the royalties from this publication would be equivalent to over 1 billion yen today—roughly 9 million U.S. dollars—and provided Kagawa with the means to independently finance a number of social projects. Mullins, “Christianity as a Transnational Social Movement.”

34. “Kobe Dōmei hikō tenmatsu,” *Rōdōsha shinbun*, July 25, 1921.

35. Amemiya, *Mazushii hitobito*, 170.

36. “Kōjō kanri ron,” *Rōdōsha shinbun*, July 25, 1921.

37. Ibid.

38. “Kobe no dai rōdō sōgi keika,” *Rōdōsha shinbun*, August 15, 1921.

39. Ibid.; Sumiya, *Kagawa Toyohiko*, 110–114.

40. Sumiya, *Kagawa Toyohiko*, 119–129.

41. For example, anarcho-syndicalist organizers made significant inroads into the Sōdōmei-Yūaikai’s local unions in the Kantō region in 1920, launching a number of ill-fated strikes as a form of “direct action” to overthrow capitalism. Garon, *State and Labor*, 99.

42. Kagawa, for his part, criticized such trends: “A self-consciousness without ideals is useless. It is a big mistake to assume that if you destroy everything, something new will inevitably emerge. We must move forward under new ideals.” “Shin risōshugi to rōdō kumiai,” *Rōdōsha shinbun*, October 1, 1921.

43. For a detailed treatment of the formation of the Sōdōmei and the spoiler’s role that the anarcho-syndicalists played in its early days, see Stephen S. Large, *Organized Workers and Socialist Politics in Interwar Japan* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1981), 31–45.

44. Yonezawa Waichirō, ed., *Kagawa Toyohiko II* (Tokyo: Nichigai asoshiētusu), 601–602.

45. Garon, *State and Labor*, 32.

46. “Anchū zakki,” *Kumo no hashira*, May 1926.

47. Kayama Hisao, “Kagawa Toyohiko to Kami no kuni undō,” *Kagawa Toyohiko gakkai ronsō* 14 (December 2005): 84.

48. The Iesu no Tomo Kai had five core principles: devotion, labor, purity, peace, and service.

49. In its first year, the Iesu no Tomo Kai had 878 members. Sumiya, *Kagawa Toyohiko*, 166–167.

50. Between 1869 and 1943, the administration of Tokyo was divided into two separate jurisdictions: Tokyo City (Tokyo-shi), representing the central metropolitan area surrounding the former Edo Castle, and Tokyo Prefecture (Tokyo-fu), which encompassed both the city as well as the outlying municipalities including towns, villages, and islands. In 1943, Tokyo City, as such, was abolished in a merger with Tokyo Prefecture to form the Tokyo Metropolitan Government (Tokyo-to), a configuration that remains in effect to this day.

51. Amemiya, *Mazushii hitobito*, 269.

52. “Beikoku no kyūen busshi,” *Yomiuri shinbun*, September 23, 1923. The Japan Christian Women’s Organization, founded in 1886, was the Japanese branch of the international Women’s Christian Temperance Union. See Yasutake, *Transnational Women’s Activism*.

53. Amemiya, *Mazushii hitobito*, 270–272.

54. The first settlement house in Japan was built in 1897 by Katayama Sen (1859–1933), whose Kingsley Hall was also inspired by Western models.

55. Garon, *State and Labor*, 106.

56. Takada Tomokazu, “Dai-ichiji Taisengo ni okeru jūtaku seisaku to sono imi ni tsuite,” *Human Science* 7, no. 2 (1995): 113. Kiyoura encouraged the appointment of “those who were distantly placed” from the government on the council as a way to gain a better understanding of the state of the nation.

57. At a subsequent Imperial Economic Council meeting, for example, Kagawa submitted a proposal suggesting that around 10 percent of the residential areas of Japan’s six major cities should be designated as impoverished housing (*furyō jūtaku*) in need of repair. He proposed that the government set aside



20 million yen in funding for this purpose—a policy measure that eventually won approval in the Diet in 1927. Takada, “Dai-ichiji Taisengo ni okeru jūtaku seisaku to sono imi ni tsuite,” 107.

58. “Dear Friends,” September 20, 1922, box 3, fol. 68, George Sherwood Eddy Papers (RG 32) (hereafter cited as Eddy Papers), Special Collections, Yale Divinity School Library (hereafter cited as YDSL). Eddy graduated from Yale College in 1891 and Princeton Theological Seminary in 1896.

59. Tyrrell, *Reforming the World*.

60. Erez Manela, *The Wilsonian Moment: Self-Determination and the International Origins of Anticolonial Nationalism* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2007).

61. Sherwood Eddy, “Why Missions?,” *The World Tomorrow*, January 1928, box 6, fol. 107, Eddy Papers, YDSL.

62. Tyrrell, *Reforming the World*, 185.

63. Michael G. Thompson, “Sherwood Eddy, the Missionary Enterprise, and the Rise of Christian Internationalism in 1920s America,” *Modern Intellectual History* 12, no. 1 (April 2015): 65–93.

64. This quote, originally written by Galen Fisher, YMCA secretary in Japan, was quoted in Griffith, *Fight for Asian American Civil Rights*, 28.

65. Wilson P. Minton (1888–1969), a minister of the Christian Church of America (Disciples of Christ), was among one of many foreign missionaries who visited Kagawa in Kobe. He recounted his 1920 meeting with “the most noted slum worker in Japan” as one of the highlights of his trip. Wilson P. Minton, *A Tour of Japan in 1920: An American Missionary’s Diary with 129 Photographs*, ed. David W. Carstetter, 250–256 (Jefferson, NC: McFarland, 1992).

66. By 1888, the Fukuinkai had chapters in Oakland, Japan, and Honolulu. Yoshida Ryo, “Japanese Immigrants and Their Christian Communities in North America: A Case Study of the Fukuinkai, 1877–1896,” *Japanese Journal of Religious Studies* 34, no. 1 (2007): 229–244.

67. Tokyo Baptist Academy, originally established in the Tsukiji foreign settlement, was later moved to Ushigome and renamed the Duncan Academy (Tokyo Chūgakuin) in 1899. Duncan Academy is one of the forerunners of current-day Kantō Gakuin University.

68. “Mother (nee Genevieve Faville) Topping,” “Henry Topping,” Coll. 34/32/7, Helen Faville Topping Papers, Southern Illinois University Carbondale (hereafter cited as HFTP); Kobayashi Noriyoshi, “Tappingu no ie no hitobito,” *Eigakushi kenkyū*, no. 21 (1989): 155–167.

69. Helen had a younger brother named Willard (1899–1959), who was born in Japan.

70. “Mother (nee Genevieve Faville) Topping,” “Henry Topping,” n.d., 34/32/7, HFTP. These facts were taken from a set of unpublished and undated manuscripts written by Helen.



71. Ibid.

72. Eiichiro Azuma mentions Helen Topping in his discussion of the efforts of Issei YWCA leaders to counter the negative stereotypes attached to Japanese immigrants by constructing a respectable Japanese community in the United States. See Azuma, *Between Two Empires*, 56–57.

73. At the Kobe YWCA, Helen developed, among other things, an emigrant assistance program. “Dr. Helen Faville Topping Is,” 34/30/1, HFTP; “Henry Topping,” 34/32/7, HFTP.

74. For more on the historical ramifications of the 1924 Immigration Act and the making of the “illegal alien” in America, see Mae M. Ngai, *Impossible Subjects: Illegal Aliens and the Making of Modern America* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 2004).

75. A partial ban on Japanese immigration had already been in effect since the Gentlemen’s Agreement of 1907–1908, whereby the Japanese government agreed to stop issuing passports to laborers unless they were the spouses or minor children of bona fide U.S. citizens.

76. “Doshigataki jinshu teki henken: Beikoku no hainichi netsu masumasu shiretsu,” *Osaka Asahi*, April 16, 1924; “Hainichi-an ni taisuru kyōdō sengen,” *Tokyo Asahi*, April 21, 1924.

77. Dana L. Robert, “The First Globalization: The Internationalization of the Protestant Missionary Movement between the World Wars,” *International Bulletin of Missionary Research* 26, no. 2 (April 1, 2002): 52.

78. “Goken nagaya yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, November 1922; Toyohiko Kagawa, *Christ and Japan*, trans. William Axling (New York: Friendship Press, 1934), 56; Fukada Mikio, “C.H. Lōgan to H.W. Maiyāsu: Kagawa Toyohiko o meguru senkyōshi tachi,” *Kirisutokyō Shakai Mondai Kenkyū* 32 (1984): 142–145.

79. Ono Shizuo, *Nihon Purotesutanto kyōkaishi (jō): Meiji-Taishō hen* (Hiroshima-ken Takehara-shi, Japan: Seikei jusanjo shuppanbu, 1986), 175–180.

80. “Goken nagaya yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, June 1922.

81. Within the context of Protestant missions, the 1910 World Missionary Conference, held in Edinburgh, is seen as the moment when ecumenical cooperation became one of the main pillars of the movement.

82. *Across the Death-Line* was rereleased in America in 1924 under the new title *Before the Dawn*. The 1924 edition expanded on the 1922 version by including one additional chapter in the conclusion, which was taken from Kagawa’s sequel to *Shisen o koete*, titled *Taiyō o irumono* (*A Shooter at the Sun*). Kagawa Toyohiko, *Taiyō o irumono* [*Shisen o koete, chūkan*] (Tokyo: Kaizōsha, 1921); Toyohiko Kagawa, *Across the Death-Line*, trans. Ichiji Fukumoto and Thomas Satchell (Kobe: Japan Chronicle Office, 1922); Toyohiko Kagawa, *Before the Dawn*, trans. Ichiji Fukumoto and Thomas Satchell (New York: George H. Doran, 1924).

83. “Entire Family Works with Kagawa,” n.d., 1/1/4, UTS.

84. After the Aala Park appearance, Kagawa met with Harada Tasuku (1863–1940), the former president of Doshisha University who had come to the University of Hawai‘i in 1920 to serve as the founding dean of its Asian Studies Department. “Gandhi of Japan Goes to America to Lecture; Guest in City One Week,” *Nippu jiji*, December 5, 1924; “Noted Champion of Poor Class Sways Large Audience at First Lecture Here,” *Nippu jiji*, December 6, 1924; “Marx’s Principles of Economics Are Explained to ‘U’ Students’ Assembly,” *Nippu jiji*, December 9, 1924.

85. “Sōten kitōkai,” *Hawai Hōchi*, December 14, 1924.

86. According to his travelogue, Kagawa toured San Jose, Alameda, Oakland, Sacramento, Walnut Grove, and Stockton. Kagawa, *Unsui henro* (Tokyo: Kaizōsha, 1926.), 29–44.

87. Throughout the early twentieth century, the YMCA student conference at Asilomar provided a welcome home for Asian American youth. Griffith, *Fight for Asian American Civil Rights*, 64. During the conference at Asilomar, Kagawa shared the stage with the YMCA leader Sherwood Eddy. Kagawa, *Unsui henro*, 57.

88. His itinerary included speeches at the LA Rotary Club, City Club, Occidental College, University of Southern California, Pomona College, Japanese American citizens’ groups, and a number of Japanese and non-Japanese churches. Kagawa, *Unsui henro*, 60–68.

89. The organization that coordinated Kagawa’s itinerary among the Japanese American churches was the Northern California Japanese Christian Church Federation, which had just been formed in 1924. Koga, *Centennial Legacy*, 1:112–113.

90. On February 19, 1925, Kagawa noted that he had received approximately 20,000 yen in donations from “the Japanese in Los Angeles”—likely a reference to the Friends of Jesus group there. “Ōbei tsūshin,” *Kumo no hashira*, June 1925.

91. “Prayer Meeting on Eagle Rock,” *Rafu shinpō*, May 30, 1926.

92. Fennell P. Turner and Frank Knight Sanders, eds., *The Foreign Missions Convention at Washington, 1925* (New York: Fleming H. Revell, 1925), 4–7.

93. *Ibid.*, 134–138.

94. *Ibid.*, 138.

95. “Japanese Scoff at War Talk, Says Native Writer,” *Washington Post*, January 30, 1925. There had been speculation over a possible war between Japan and the United States since late 1924. See “Gary Deplores Jingo War Talk,” *Hartford Courant*, December 21, 1924.

96. “Books Abroad,” *Living Age*, July 25, 1925, 215.

97. “Before the Dawn,” *Overland Monthly and Out West Magazine*, August 1925, 307.

98. *Ibid.*

99. “Henry Topping,” Coll. 34/32/7, HFTP; “Ōbei tsushin,” *Kumo no hashira*, June 1925; Committee on General Catalogue, comp., *Columbia*

*University Alumni Register, 1754–1931* (New York: Columbia University Press, 1932), 884.

100. In a letter to the dean of Yale Divinity School in January 1926, Helen reveals that she was considering writing the thesis at either Yale or Stanford, as both were institutions that had Japanese professors on their faculty. Helen Topping to Dean Brown, January 7, 1926, 34/1/7, HFTP.

101. In his writing, Kagawa refers to the Kagawa Cooperators as the Kagawa Supporters' Association (Kagawa Kōenkai). The group's initial chairman was Harvey H. Guy (1870–1936), a Disciples of Christ missionary who served as dean of Seigakuin Theological Seminary in Tokyo and as president of the Japan Society in San Francisco. Other founding members included J. F. Carruthers, one of Kagawa's classmates from Princeton Theological Seminary. "Tabi makura yori," *Kumo no hashira*, June 1927; "Dr. Harvey H. Guy Is Passenger on Taiyo Maru Monday," *Nippu jiji*, September 14, 1927; Princeton Theological Seminary, *Catalogue of the Theological Seminary of the Presbyterian Church at Princeton, N.J., 1914–1915* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton Theological Seminary, 1915), 59.

102. The membership of the Kagawa Cooperators in America consisted mainly of non-Japanese church leaders and missionaries, whereas the Cooperators in Tokyo comprised a mixture of Japanese Christians and North American (including some Canadian) missionaries stationed in Japan. "Kagawa Works for Peace," c. 1932, TA310-E00049, Matsuzawa Resource Center (hereafter cited as MSRC); Mullins, "Christianity as a Transnational Social Movement," 79.

103. According to its constitution, the Kagawa Fellowship was "an informal organization composed of the friends of Dr. Kagawa," with no membership fees. It held an annual retreat and issued publications such as the *Kagawa Fellowship Bulletin*, which were sent out to its members. Some 150 people living in Japan had joined the group by the early 1930s. *Kagawa Fellowship Bulletin*, June 1936.

104. On April 12, 1927, Helen departed for Japan under the support of the Kagawa Cooperators. "Two Prominent Social Workers to Return to Japan on Siberia Maru (Miss Helen Topping and Miss Michi Kawai Are Sailing Together," *Nichibei shinbun*, April 13, 1927.

105. Saunders eventually became the chairman of the Berkeley Cooperators group, while Stanley A. Hunter (brother of Allan A. Hunter), who was pastor of Saint John's Presbyterian Church in Berkeley, also became involved in the organization. "Dr. Saunders Talks on Kagawa's Work at Berkeley Club," *Nichibei shinbun*, February 15, 1931.

106. "Tabi makura yori," *Kumo no hashira*, June 1927.

107. "Mukogawa no hotori yori," *Kumo no hashira*, January 1927. "Proletarian parties" referred to the political parties that represented the interests of the working classes. The designation only included those parties recognized under the laws of the time—as opposed to the Japanese Communist Party, which was considered illegal by the prewar state.

108. The NCC was founded in 1923 by nine church denominations and eight groups, including the YMCA, the YWCA, and the Sunday School Association (Nihon Nichiyō Gakkō Kyōkai), as well as foreign mission organizations such as the American Bible Society. Nihon Kirisutokyō Rekishi Daijiten Henshū Inkaï, ed., *Nihon Kirisutokyō rekishi daijiten* (Tokyo: Kyōbunkan, 1988), 1048–1049.

109. Sumiya, *Kagawa Toyohiko*, 173.

110. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Kami ni yoru kaihō* (Tokyo: Keiseisha, 1926), introduction.

111. For a recent study of the Kingdom of God Movement and its evolution in the 1930s, see Kurokawa Tomobumi, “Kagawa Toyohiko ni yoru kami no kuni undō to sensō,” *Chūō Gakuin Daigaku Gendai Kyōyō ronsō* 1, no. 1 (March 2019): 21–41.

112. For a study on the central and local efforts to overcome the rural crisis in the 1930s, see Kerry Douglas Smith, *A Time of Crisis: Japan, the Great Depression, and Rural Revitalization* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Asia Center, 2001).

113. According to the 1925 census, 21.6 percent (12,896,850) of the population resided in cities, whereas 78.4 percent (46,839,972) lived in rural areas, which were defined as towns (*machi*) and villages (*mura*). *Historical Statistics of Japan (Chapter 2: Population and Households)*, Statistics Bureau, Ministry of Internal Affairs and Communications, accessed November 12, 2017, <http://www.stat.go.jp/english/data/chouki/02.htm>.

114. Kayama, “Kagawa Toyohiko to Kami no kuni undō,” 85.

115. *Ibid.*, 85–86.

116. Denmark’s folk school system originated from the teachings of Nikolai Frederik Severin Grundtvig (1783–1872), a Christian educator whose works played an important role in the revival of Danish nationalism, after a period of decline resulting from territorial conflicts with Prussia.

117. For a discussion of how the Danish model was received and implemented by Japanese agriculturalists, see Robert Stolz, *Bad Water: Nature, Pollution, and Politics in Japan, 1870–1950* (Durham, NC: Duke University Press, 2014), 161–186.

118. Daniel T. Rodgers, *Atlantic Crossings: Social Politics in a Progressive Age* (Cambridge, MA: Belknap Press of Harvard University Press, 1998), 354–355.

119. Bikle, *New Jerusalem*, 180–182.

120. For example, see “Sangyō rikkoku no zento,” *Kumo no hashira*, October 1929, 17–33. The visitors and educators he met there came from such countries as Japan, Austria, Germany, England, Canada, and the United States.

121. Iwamoto Yuki, “Sugiyama Motojirō to Nihon nōmin fukuin gakkō undō (2),” *Tōhoku Gakuin shiryōshitsu* 8 (2010): 22. For more on the Japanese Christian interest in the Danish folk school movement and agrarian reform, see Anderson, *Christianity and Imperialism*, 201–211.

122. Although the Japanese Church had undertaken nationwide evangelization drives prior to this in 1900–1901 and 1914–1917, they were both smaller in scope and less extensive in terms of the number of denominations involved than the Kingdom of God Movement.

123. This part of the movement, which lasted from 1928 to 1929, was known as *zenkoku kyōdō dendō*.

124. Kuroda, *Ningen Kagawa Toyohiko*, 124.

125. Kayama, “Kagawa Toyohiko to Kami no kuni undō,” 90. During each rally, organizers handed out decision cards (*kesshin kādo*) to the audience. If an attendee felt sufficiently moved to convert to Christianity by the conclusion of the event, they were told to hand in the card as a sign of their decision (*kesshin*). The figures here represent the tally of such cards.

126. The year 1929 was exactly seventy years since 1859, the year when the treaty ports of Yokohama, Nagasaki, and Hakodate were opened to foreigners.

127. Kagawa, “Nihon kyōka no risō,” *Kami no kuni shinbun*, January 10, 1930.

128. The official term of the first phase, as defined by the Kingdom of God Movement Central Committee, was 1930–1932. However, Kagawa’s private writings indicate that he regarded the tour period of 1928–1929 as part of the movement.

129. Although the Protestant Church had carried out similar ecumenical drives in 1901 and 1914–1917, its scope was smaller than that of the Kingdom of God Movement.

130. Kayama, “Kagawa Toyohiko to Kami no kuni undō,” 91; Kurokawa Tomobumi, “Sairin undō to Kami no kuni undō: Uchimura Kanzō to Kagawa Toyohiko no shūmatsukan,” *Kagawa Toyohiko gakkai ronsō* 26 (2016): 1–54.

131. Many of the newly converted lived in isolated communities where they were the only Christians and faced social pressure from their non-Christian peers to abandon their faith. Ono Shizuo, *Nihon Purotesutanto kyōkaishi (ge): Shōwa hen* (Takehara-shi, Hiroshima-ken: Seikei jusanjo shuppanbu, 1986), 18–21.

132. I have retained the original English title (*Kingdom of God Weekly*) as it was printed across the masthead. Over the years, the *Kingdom of God Weekly* outlasted the life of the movement after which it was named and would continue to be an unofficial organ for the NCC until its discontinuation in 1942.

133. Doi Akio, “Kagawa Toyohiko ron,” in *Nihon Kirisuto kyōshi ni okeru Kagawa Toyohiko: Sono shisō to jissen*, ed. Kagawa Toyohiko Kinen Matsuzawa Shiryōkan (Tokyo: Shinkyō shuppansha, 2011), 178.

134. William Ernest Hocking, *Re-thinking Missions: A Laymen’s Inquiry after One Hundred Years* (New York: Harper and Brothers, 1932), 94.

135. Garon, *State and Labor*, 113.

136. Horikiri Zenjirō, *Horikiri Zenjirō shi danwa dai-3 kai sokkiroku* (Tokyo: Naiseishi kenkyūkai, 1964), 4–5.

137. The Social Bureau chief job was eventually given to Yasui Seiichirō (1891–1962), another Home Ministry social bureaucrat who had previously held the post in the immediate aftermath of the Great Kantō Earthquake. In 1947, Yasui became the first governor of Tokyo.

138. Kagawa Toyohiko, “Tokyo shi ni okeru bōhin undō,” *Tokyo-shi kōhō*, August 27, 1929; “Tokyo shi ni okeru bōhin undō (2),” *Tokyo-shi kōhō*, August 29, 1929; “Tokyo shi ni okeru bōhin undō (3),” *Tokyo-shi kōhō*, August 31, 1929; “Tokyo shi ni okeru bōhin undō (4),” *Tokyo-shi kōhō*, September 3, 1929. The bulletins can be found at the Tokyo Metropolitan Archives.

139. Horikiri, *Horikiri Zenjirō shi danwa dai-3 kai sokkiroku*, 5.

140. Such an example is consistent with Home Minister Hara Takashi’s observation in 1911 that the Home Ministry differed from its contemporaries in the army and other government agencies because it did not espouse the “mistaken belief that Christianity advocates socialism.” Garon, *Molding Japanese Minds*, 66.

141. “Shakai kaizō to rōdō kaikyū,” *Shin Kobe*, December 15, 1918.

## CHAPTER 2: THE MAKING OF A GLOBAL CHRISTIAN PACIFIST

1. Hocking, *Re-thinking Missions*. Other notable aspects of the report included respect for other religions and the idea that socialism and communism might be compatible with Christianity.

2. Robert, “First Globalization,” 50–66.

3. For a valuable study on interwar Protestant pacifist culture, see Patricia Appelbaum, *Kingdom to Commune: Protestant Pacifist Culture between World War I and the Vietnam Era* (Chapel Hill, NC: University of North Carolina Press, 2009).

4. On the intellectual and social foundations of Christian internationalism in interwar America, see Thompson, “Sherwood Eddy.”

5. “Toyohiko Kagawa Coming to U.S.,” *Rafu shinpō*, March 30, 1931.

6. These included schools such as the University of Chicago, Oberlin College, and the Pacific School of Religion.

7. Although the World Conference was originally planned to be held jointly in Toronto, Canada, and Cleveland, Ohio, the Canadian leg was cancelled in the end. “Japan YMCA Man on Way to Meeting,” *Rafu shinpō*, July 20, 1931.

8. “Rikuzen Furukawa nite,” *Kumo no hashira*, July 1931.

9. Rufus Jones, foreword to Toyohiko Kagawa, *Love, the Law of Life*, trans. J. Fullerton Gressitt (Philadelphia: John C. Winston, 1929), vii.

10. The international distributors were located in places including Geneva, Germany, Hungary, India, Japan, Korea, the United States, the British Isles, Burma, Canada, and China. *Friends of Jesus*, August 1932 (Weishien number), 72.

11. “Dr. Cheng on the Christian Internationale,” *Friends of Jesus*, February–April 1931 (Shanghai number), 2.

12. Paul Hutchinson, “Twenty-Six Years Later,” *Friends of Jesus*, February–April 1931 (Shanghai number), 62–63.

13. Charles W. Gilkey, “The Missionary Enterprise Has Always Been a Youth Movement,” *Friends of Jesus*, February–April 1931 (Shanghai number), 63–65.

14. Leland D. Hine, *Axling: A Christian Presence in Japan* (Valley Forge, PA: Judson Press, 1969), 102.

15. Kenneth Saunders, introduction to Kagawa, *New Life through God*, trans. Elizabeth Kilburn (New York: Fleming H. Revell, 1931), 16. Saunders also wrote an article that appeared in *Pacific Affairs*, the official newsletter of the Institute of Pacific Relations. Kenneth Saunders, “Toyohiko Kagawa: The St. Francis of Japan,” *Pacific Affairs* 4, no. 4 (1931): 308–317.

16. “Dr. Saunders Talks on Kagawa’s Work at Berkeley Club,” *Nichibei shinbun*, February 15, 1931.

17. “Mrs. Topping to Speak,” *Nichibei shinbun*, February 14, 1931.

18. “Kagawa: Gambler for God by Allan A. Hunter,” *Shin sekai*, September 1, 1931. The following year, Hunter held a special meeting at his church as part of Kagawa’s Kingdom of God Movement and invited young members of the Japanese Union Church to attend and share in the services. “Hollywood Church Sends Invitation,” *Rafu shinpō*, November 5, 1932.

19. “Dr. Kagawa to Break Ground for Berkeley United Church,” *Shin sekai*, September 4, 1931; “Kagawa to Lecture at Stanford Chapel on Saturday Night,” *Shin sekai*, September 3, 1931; “Kagawa of Japan to Address Young People,” *Rafu shinpō*, September 7, 1931. In anticipation of his arrival, the Japanese Church Federation of Southern California published a special issue of their organ that focused exclusively on the works of Kagawa. *Nanka fukuin jihō*, September 15, 1931, Coll. 34/57/3, HFTP.

20. Luther A. Weigle (dean of Yale Divinity School) to Kagawa, September 22, 1931, 34/20/2, HFTP. This letter was sent in the care of John Mott’s office in New York.

21. “Shaffer Lectures,” *Yale Divinity News*, November 1931, Special Collections, YDSL.

22. “Nayami no ko,” *Kumo no hashira*, December 1931, 11. Ota incorrectly states that this poem was only available in an English translation.

23. Ibid.

24. *Kagawa Toyohiko zenshū*, 10:21–22.

25. Ibid., 271–281.

26. “Anti-conscription Manifesto: Appeal to League of Nations,” *Manchester Guardian*, August 30, 1926.

27. Very little documentation exists regarding the actual activities of the National Anti-War League, suggesting that it may have been an organization only in name.

28. Garon, *Molding Japanese Minds*, 134. The immediate cause of Hamaguchi’s assassination was his role in agreeing to arms limitations at the 1930



London Naval Conference, which his detractors saw as a betrayal of national interest.

29. “Mukogawa no hotori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, March 1932.

30. Finding Aid for Laymen’s Foreign Missions Inquiry Records, MRL 12, UTS.

31. Hocking, *Re-thinking Missions*.

32. While the Laymen’s Inquiry helped to crystallize the issue, the missiological crisis was an ongoing debate already well developed by the 1920s. See Michael Parker, *The Kingdom of Character: The Student Volunteer Movement for Foreign Missions (1886–1926)* (Lanham, MD: American Society of Missiology and University Press of America, 1998).

33. For an illuminating account of the reorientation of the missionary enterprise in this period, see Thompson, *For God and Globe*.

34. *Ibid.*, 18.

35. In practice, Kagawa’s supporters sent donations via mail to his Tokyo office. The checks would then be brought by Helen Topping over to Kagawa’s wife, Haru, who was in charge of the financial management of his social projects. In June 1928, for example, Haru wrote to Kagawa that she received 275 dollars from Galen Fisher, a former American YMCA missionary to Japan. Haru to Kagawa, June 10, 1928, in Iwata, *Hyōden Kagawa Haru*, 372.

36. For an analysis of the development of American Protestant thought in relation to the conflicting impulses of universalism and particularism, see Zubovich, “Protestant Search for ‘the Universal Christian Community.’”

37. “Yokohama YMCA nite,” *Kumo no hashira*, December 1931.

38. “Rikuzen Furukawa nite,” *Kumo no hashira*, July 1931.

39. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, May 1933.

40. The Social Gospel, considered by some as the religious arm of the Progressive movement, called for the practical application of Christian ethics to social problems and insisted that churches had a duty to help fix society’s institutional failings. Richard Wightman Fox, “The Culture of Liberal Protestant Progressivism, 1875–1925,” *Journal of Interdisciplinary History* 23, no. 3 (1993): 639–660.

41. Gary J. Dorrien, *Social Ethics in the Making: Interpreting an American Tradition* (Malden, MA: Wiley-Blackwell, 2009), 109.

42. Jerome Davis, *Contemporary Social Movements* (New York: Century, 1930), 542.

43. Appelbaum, *Kingdom to Commune*, 147–149.

44. Gary Scott Smith, *Faith and the Presidency: From George Washington to George W. Bush* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2006), 196–206.

45. Sam H. Franklin, a Presbyterian missionary who had worked with Kagawa in Japan, cofounded the Delta Cooperative Farm and Providence Farm in 1936. Sherwood Eddy, Franklin’s associate and a supporter of Kagawa, provided the funds for the purchase of the land in the Mississippi Delta. See Robert Hunt Ferguson, *Remaking the Rural South: Interracialism, Christian Socialism,*



and *Cooperative Farming in Jim Crow Mississippi* (Athens: University of Georgia Press, 2018), 32–39.

46. While Kagawa studied Marx's analysis of the modern political economy and regarded it as an astute diagnosis of the repercussions of capitalism—as is attested by a well-thumbed copy of *Das Kapital* that can be found in his personal library—he was considerably less enthusiastic about the methodology of class struggle. Kagawa's personal library, known as the Kagawa Bunko, can be browsed at the Matsuzawa Resource Center (hereafter cited as MSRC), where it is on permanent loan from Meiji Gakuin University.

47. The conference was held in Shandong Province at the Presbyterian Mission Compound, Weixian, January 28–February 4, 1931. *Friends of Jesus*, August 1932 (Weishien number), 5, 14.

48. “Risshun shigo,” *Kumo no hashira*, April 1933.

49. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Chichi to mitsu no nagaruru sato* (Tokyo: Kaizōsha, 1935).

50. According to Kagawa, the novel was commissioned by the Committee to Investigate National Health Insurance (Kokumin Kenkō Hoken Chōsa Iin). “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, October 1935.

51. Smith, *Time of Crisis*, 6–9; Ie no Hikari Yonjūnen Hensanshitsu, ed., *Ie no hikari yonjūnen* (Tokyo: Ie no Hikari kyōkai, 1968), 55–56.

52. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Sensō wa bōshi shiuruka* (Tokyo: Kumo no hashira sha, 1935).

53. Ten issues of the *Friends of Jesus* were published between 1928 and 1933. See *Friends of Jesus*, June 1933, 51.

54. Helen was one among many translators here. Kagawa, *Love, the Law of Life*; Kagawa, *New Life through God*; Toyohiko Kagawa, *The Religion of Jesus*, trans. Helen Topping (London: Student Christian Movement Press, 1931); Kagawa, *Christ and Japan*; Toyohiko Kagawa, *Jesus through Japanese Eyes: A Study of the Daily Life of Jesus*, ed. Richard Mercer Wilson, trans. Helen Topping and Marion R. Draper (London: Lutterworth Press, 1934); Toyohiko Kagawa, *Meditations on the Cross*, trans. Helen Topping and Marion R. Draper (Chicago: Willett, 1935); Toyohiko Kagawa, *Songs from the Slums*, trans. Lois Johnson Erickson (Nashville: Cokesbury Press, 1935).

55. Eddy, introduction to Kagawa, *Songs from the Slums*, 12.

56. While some reviewers deemed Axling's *Kagawa* to be overly sentimental, the book was rated highly among the religious press and became a standard point of entry for anyone who wanted to find out more about the Japanese Christian leader. “Kagawa, by William Axling,” *New York Herald Tribune*, July 31, 1932; “Our Book Table,” *Chinese Recorder*, January 1, 1933.

57. For a biographical treatment of Axling, see Hine, *Axling*.

58. Hine, *Axling*, 102.

59. Axling, *Kagawa*, foreword.

60. *Ibid.*, 104–108.

61. Ibid., 113–125.

62. “B.Y.P.U. Installs Officers of Group,” *Rafu shinpō*, January 12, 1933; “Kagawa, Foremost Christian Leader and Apostle of Men,” *Shin sekai nichichi shinbun*, February 28, 1933. The Baptist Young People’s Union of America was an organization representing the many young people’s societies affiliated with the Baptist churches in the United States and Canada.

63. In his reply to Francis Grimké—the mixed-race nephew of prominent abolitionists Sarah (1792–1873) and Angelina Grimké (1805–1879)—Kagawa noted his eagerness “for spiritual fellowship with friends in other countries, in America especially” and sent him a copy of the *Friends of Jesus*, to which he hoped the Washington, DC–based minister would become a subscriber. Toyohiko Kagawa to Francis J. Grimké, January 1933, in Carter G. Woodson, ed., *The Works of Francis J. Grimké* (Washington, DC: Associated, 1942), 4:469.

64. The *Kagawa Calendar*’s institutional sponsors were large organizations with wide-reaching networks, such as the Japan American Society of Los Angeles (JASLA) and the American Board of Commissioners for Foreign Missions (ABCFM). The latter’s publishing and purchasing department declared in 1935 that it “could doubtless sell one hundred copies” of the calendar in the following year. Danzo Kiyowara (JASLA) to the Toppings, February 26, 1934, TA300-E00005, MSRC; Anita P. Kempf (ABCFM) to Henry Topping, August 30, 1935, TA300-E00004, MSRC.

65. “Entire Family Works with Kagawa,” 1/1/4, MRL 7, UTS. The geographical spread of distributors for the *Kagawa Calendar* was mostly concentrated in the United States: Boston, Philadelphia, Baltimore, Columbus (Ohio), Glendale (Ohio), Shelbyville (Kentucky), Chicago, Minneapolis, Saint Louis, Los Angeles, and Berkeley, as well as Melbourne and Warrnambool (Victoria, Australia) and London. *Kagawa Calendar*, 1938, 1/1/3, MRL 7, UTS.

66. *Kagawa Calendar*, 1934, 1/1/3, UTS.

67. “Christians and the Manchurian Muddle,” *Missionary Review of the World*, January 1932, 6–7. The author of the quote is W. C. Fairfield of the American Board.

68. *Friends of Jesus*, August 1932 (Weishien number), cover.

69. *Kagawa Calendar*, 1933, 1/1/3, UTS.

70. *Kagawa Calendar*, 1934, appendix, 1/1/3, UTS.

71. The details of the Philippines tour can be found in Helen Topping, *Kagawa in the Philippines / Friends of Jesus* 7, no. 1 (1934): 1–81.

72. Idabelle Lewis Main, “Kagawa Wins Chinese Trust,” *Christian Century*, May 2, 1934.

73. Hechuan Fengyan, *Ai de kexue*, trans. Yu Kangde (Shanghai: Guangxuehui, 1934), preface. The original was published as Kagawa Toyohiko, *Ai no kagaku* (Tokyo: Bunka Seikatsu Kenkyūkai, 1924). The Chinese edition was published in June 1934 by the Christian Literature Society for China, the publishing arm of the National Christian Council of China.

74. Kagawa, “Love the Law of Life—Preface to Chinese Edition,” February 8, 1934, TA101–E00119, MSRC. The new preface to the Chinese translation was first discussed in Yonezawa Waichirō, “Kagawa Toyohiko no senjika ni okeru shinryaku shazai no igi,” *Kagawa Toyohiko kenkyū* 31 (1996). Although the preface is dated February 8, 1934, Hamada Naoya argues that it was likely written later in March, when Kagawa was in Shanghai. Hamada, *Kagawa Toyohiko to Son Bun*, 148–168.

75. Kagawa, “Love the Law of Life—Preface to Chinese Edition.”

76. Although Kagawa’s English translators during this period chose “redemptive love” as the term for his concept of *shokuzaiai*, Thomas Hastings argues that it is more accurately translated as “love that atones for sin” or “aton-ing love.” Hastings, *Seeing All Things Whole*, 47–52.

77. “Gunshuku to sekai heiwa,” *Kumo no hashira*, August 1934, 1.

78. “Nitōkoku shugi,” *Kumo no hashira*, September 1934, 1; “Gunshuku kaigi to heiwa kyōiku,” *Kumo no hashira*, October 1934, 1.

79. “Shakai kanjō to sekai heiwa,” *Kumo no hashira*, March 1935, 1.

80. *Kagawa Calendar*, January 1936, 1/1/3, UTS. Based on the original Japanese text, “politicians” could be more accurately translated as “lawmakers” (*hōritsu seizōsha*). Kagawa, *Ai no kagaku*, 5–6.

81. One example that reflected the shrinking sphere of free speech during this period is the case of Minobe Tatsukichi (1873–1948), a professor of constitutional law at Tokyo Imperial University. Minobe’s interpretation of the emperor’s role within the Japanese polity, known as the emperor organ theory (*tennō kikan setsu*), became the target of attack from imperial absolutists in 1935—despite the fact that his theory had been generally accepted by the scholarly community and bureaucrats until then. As a result of the rising nationalistic atmosphere, Minobe, who held a distinguished position in the most prestigious university in the country, was forced to resign from his post and have his works publicly discredited.

82. Harold E. Fey, “Play Fair with Kagawa,” *Christian Century*, October 11, 1933, 1270–1272.

83. Ibid. Fey’s article criticizes Kagawa’s followers for their “excessive loyalty” while also admonishing “conventional sectarians” who exploited Kagawa’s prestige for their own narrowly defined interests.

84. Carpenter was executive secretary of the National Kagawa Co-ordinating Committee, which comprised seventy-five members who were responsible for organizing the tour.

85. For a detailed treatment of the historical significance of Kagawa’s 1936 tour from an American perspective, see Shaffer, “Missionary from the East to Western Pagans,” 577–621.

86. “Raise Funds for Kagawa,” *Rafu shinpō*, January 21, 1935.

87. Helen Topping, *Introducing Kagawa* (Chicago: Willett, Clark, 1935); Emerson O. Bradshaw, Charles E. Shike, and Helen F. Topping, eds., *Kagawa in*

*Lincoln's Land* (Brooklyn, NY: National Kagawa Co-ordinating Committee, 1936). *Kagawa in Lincoln's Land* was billed as the July 1936 issue of *Friends of Jesus*.

88. H. Y. Benedict to Helen Topping, July 5, 1935, coll. 34/21/4, HFTP.

89. C. E. Peeles to Franklin D. Roosevelt, December 20, 1935; Charles R. Crane to Franklin D. Roosevelt, December 24, 1935; Franklin D. Roosevelt to Charles R. Crane, February 25, 1936; Official File 1881: Dr. Toyohiko Kagawa, Franklin D. Roosevelt Presidential Library and Museum (hereafter cited as FDRL). Charles Crane was the U.S. minister to China from 1920 to 1921.

90. "Quarantined Christian," *Time*, December 30, 1935.

91. "Coalition Asks Roosevelt for Rescinding of Entry Permit," *Rafu shinpō*, December 24, 1935; "The Newspegger," *Rafu shinpō*, January 19, 1936.

92. Yonezawa, *Kagawa Toyohiko II*, 622.

93. In his NBC broadcast, Kagawa praised the United States for passing the Tydings-McDuffie Act of 1934, which established a time line for Philippine independence, calling it "one of the greatest achievements in American history that has happened in the Orient." In addition, he urged the building of a system of international cooperative trade that would "abolish the causes of war." "Kagawa Bids Farewell," *New York Times*, July 1, 1936, 4. For a different view on the Tydings-McDuffie Act that critiques it as an instance of the "calibrated colonialism" of U.S. imperial ideology, see Paul A. Kramer, *The Blood of Government: Race, Empire, the United States, and the Philippines* (Chapel Hill: University of North Carolina Press, 2006).

94. "Kagawa Here for Lectures in Southland," *Rafu shinpō*, May 25, 1936.

95. "Los Angeles BYPU Team in Practice," *Rafu shinpō*, May 20, 1936; "WAU Softball Loop Games Scheduled," *Rafu shinpō*, May 22, 1936; "WAU Postpones All Games for Sunday," *Rafu shinpō*, May 27, 1936. The Women's Athletic Union (WAU) was a sports organization formed by Nisei women playing at the Japanese "Y" in Southern California. Nicole Willms, *When Women Rule the Court: Gender, Race, and Japanese American Basketball* (New Brunswick, NJ: Rutgers University Press, 2017), 108.

96. "Urge Southland Young People to Hear Dr. Kagawa's Talks," *Rafu shinpō*, May 28, 1936; "Kagawa Will Speak to Nisei on Sunday," *Rafu shinpō*, May 30, 1936.

97. Toyohiko Kagawa, *Brotherhood Economics* (New York: Harper and Brothers, 1936); Kagawa, *Yūai no seiji keizaigaku*, 166.

98. Shaffer, "Missionary from the East to Western Pagans," 607–609.

99. William Axling, *Japan Wonders Why?* (New York: Commission on International Justice and Goodwill of the Federal Council of the Churches of Christ in America, 1924).

100. Allan A. Hunter, *Out of the Far East* (New York: Friendship Press, 1934).

101. Shaffer, "Missionary from the East to Western Pagans," 609.

102. “Japanese Christian Starts an American Church War,” *Newsweek*, April 25, 1936, 42.

103. Ibid.

104. J. Frank Norris, *Sovietizing America through Churches, Colleges, and Consumers’ Cooperatives* (Rochester, NY: Interstate Evangelistic Association, 1936). Norris also went around asking denominational bodies to cancel their invitations to Kagawa, to no great success. “Pastor Opposes Kagawa Speech at Convention,” *Washington Post*, May 14, 1936.

105. “Tokushin: shitsuyō naru hantai undō,” *Kumo no hashira*, June 1936.

106. Ibid.; “Reasons Given for Anti-Kagawa Move,” *Shin sekai nichi nichi shinbun*, June 5, 1936. For a discussion of Kagawa’s “scientific mysticism” and his interpretation of Darwin, see Hastings, *Seeing All Things Whole*, 125–132, 214–218, and *passim*.

107. “Michigan Church Honors Nippon’s Toyohiko Kagawa,” *Rafu shinpō*, December 9, 1936.

108. May-ling Soong Chiang, *War Messages and Other Selections by May-Ling Soong Chiang (Madame Chiang Kai-shek)* (Hankow: China Information Committee, 1938), 333–335. This quote comes from an article titled “What Religion Means to Me,” which was originally published in the March 1934 issue of the *Forum*, an influential New York-based magazine.

109. Mahadev Desai, “Kagawa’s Visit,” *Harijan*, January 21, 1939.

110. For a study of the 1893 World’s Parliament of Religions in Chicago, which touched off popular fascination with Asian spiritual leaders such as Swami Vivekenanda and Anagarika Dharmapala, see Snodgrass, *Presenting Japanese Buddhism to the West*.

111. “Gandhi of Japan Goes to America to Lecture,” *Rafu shinpō*, December 5, 1924; “Japan’s ‘Gandhi’ Will Speak Here,” *Los Angeles Times*, September 14, 1931; “‘Gandhi of Japan’ to Visit San Diego,” *Los Angeles Times*, September 18, 1931; “Japan Gandhi Gives Address,” *Los Angeles Times*, September 25, 1931; “‘Japanese Gandhi’ to Speak Tuesday,” *Princeton Herald*, April 3, 1936; “‘Gandhi of Japan’ Put Under Arrest,” *New York Times*, September 5, 1940.

112. For an insightful study on the FOR and the importance of Gandhi to Christian nonviolence in America, see Joseph Kip Kosek, *Acts of Conscience: Christian Nonviolence and Modern American Democracy* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2009).

113. The first organization to use the name Fellowship of Reconciliation was founded in Europe by Henry Hodgkin, a British Quaker missionary, and Friedrich Siegmund-Schultze, a German Lutheran pastor, in 1914. The American branch was established soon thereafter during Hodgkin’s 1915 trip to the United States.

114. “Fellowship of Reconciliation,” in *Opposition to War: An Encyclopedia of U.S. Peace and Antiwar Movements*, ed. Mitchell K. Hall (Santa Barbara, CA: ABC-CLIO, 2018), 1:248–251.

115. For more on the complex historical and cultural processes that attended the adaptation of Gandhian nonviolence to the pacifist community in the United States, see Leilah C. Danielson, “‘In My Extremity I Turned to Gandhi’: American Pacifists, Christianity, and Gandhian Nonviolence, 1915–1941,” *Church History* 72, no. 2 (2003): 361–388.

116. Kosek, *Acts of Conscience*, 82.

117. *Ibid.*, 86–87.

118. Richard King, “Orientalism and the Modern Myth of ‘Hinduism,’” *Numen: International Review for the History of Religions* 46, no. 2 (April 1999): 146–185.

119. Kosek, *Acts of Conscience*, 8.

120. Rajmohan Gandhi, *Gandhi: The Man, His People, and the Empire* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2008), 538.

121. This book was published in Japanese under the title *Jesus Christ: A Novel* in 1938. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Shōsetsu Kirisuto* (Tokyo: Kaizōsha, 1938).

122. Partially due to advice from FOR leaders that the American press would “grossly misrepresent” his cause in the event of a visit, Gandhi never stepped foot in the United States. Kosek, *Acts of Conscience*, 87–88.

123. Kenneth James Saunders, *Whither Asia? A Study of Three Leaders: Mahatma Gandhi, Hu Shih, Kagawa* (New York: Macmillan, 1933); Allan A. Hunter, *Three Trumpets Sound: Kagawa, Gandhi, Schweitzer* (New York: Association Press, 1939).

124. Saunders was known as a scholar of Asian religions whose previous works focused on Buddhism: *Buddhist Ideals* (Madras: Christian Literature Society for India, 1912), *Epochs in Buddhist History* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 1924), and *Gospel for Asia; A Study of Three Religious Masterpieces: Gita, Lotus, and Fourth Gospel* (New York: Macmillan, 1928). “Writes of 3 Leaders of ‘The New Asia,’” *New York Times*, June 30, 1932.

125. Saunders, for example, attended the Pacific Coast Conference of the FOR in Los Angeles in 1929. “Japanese to Take Part in Peace Meet,” *Nichibei shinbun*, April 14, 1929.

126. Saunders, *Whither Asia?*, 12.

127. *Ibid.*, 99.

128. *Ibid.*, 220.

129. Appelbaum, *Kingdom to Commune*, 97–101.

130. According to Appelbaum’s interview with two longtime peace activists who were reared as Methodists, prewar pastors regularly mentioned Kagawa, Schweitzer, [Wilfred] Grenfell (a British medical missionary), Lester, and Addams together—“always in groups.” Appelbaum, *Kingdom to Commune*, 247fn28.

131. Richard Bartlett Gregg, *Training for Peace: A Program for Peace Workers* (Philadelphia: J. B. Lippincott, 1937), 20. The inclusion of abolitionists John Woolman and William Lloyd Garrison was a nod to the FOR’s view that pacifism was the new abolitionism. See Kosek, *Acts of Conscience*, 12–13, 96–97.

132. Gregg, *Training for Peace*, 19–20.
133. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, October 1937.
134. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, November 1937.
135. Jessie M. Trout (1895–1990) was a Canadian missionary who belonged to the Disciples of Christ denomination. She worked as Kagawa’s assistant between 1935 and 1940 before leaving Japan because of wartime pressures.
136. The poem was also reproduced in the January 5, 1938, issue of *Christian Century* and the February 1939 issue of the *Missionary Review of the World*.
137. “Kagawa’s Tears,” *Time*, February 7, 1938, 44.
138. Mother Topping to Mr. Scott; Mother Topping to Mr. Biedefeldt; Mother Topping to Dr. Douglas; August 26, 1937, Coll. 34/21/6, HFTP.
139. *Kagawa Calendar*, 1938, 1/1/3, UTS. The quote is taken from a booklet containing translated pieces of Kagawa’s writing titled, *The Practising Christian* (London: Hodder and Stoughton, 1937).
140. Ibid. The weekly prayer had been a continuous tradition since the establishment of the church six years prior.
141. I have not been able to find a copy of this magazine.
142. Mother Topping to Margaret Slattery, October 1, 1937, Coll. 34/21/7, HFTP.
143. “Kagawa’s Aide Speaks,” *Rafu shinpō*, April 11, 1938.
144. Helen Topping, “Kagawa and the War,” *Christian Century*, May 4, 1938, 558–560.
145. “On the Far Eastern Front,” *World Christianity: A Digest* 2, no. 3 (Summer 1938): 1–2. The digest included a partial quote of Kagawa’s preface, citing the article that Helen had written for the May 4 issue of *Christian Century*.
146. Richard H. Mitchell, *Censorship in Imperial Japan* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1983), 283–284.
147. Keihokyoku Toshoka, *Shuppan keisatsuhō*, no. 112 (June 1938): 240–241; Keihokyoku Toshoka, *Shuppan keisatsuhō*, no. 114 (October 1938): 120. The *Missionary Review of the World*’s reprinting of Kagawa’s apologetic Christmas message from 1931 was also flagged in Keihokyoku Toshoka, *Shuppan keisatsuhō*, no. 117 (May 1939): 260.
148. The International Missionary Council was founded in 1921 to provide a forum for the ecumenical support of world evangelization. It remained the leading missionary institution in the world until its merger with the World Council of Churches in 1961.
149. The first two IMC conferences had been held in Edinburgh (1910) and Jerusalem (1928). The Madras meeting had the highest representation from the non-Western world of any mission gathering up until that point, resulting in representatives from the so-called younger churches (i.e., churches in Asia and Africa) making up the majority of delegates for the first time. Robert, “First Globalization,” 60.



150. IMC, *The World Mission of the Church: Findings and Recommendations of the International Missionary Council, Tambaram, Madras, India, December 12th to 29th, 1938* (London: Livingstone Press, 1939), 6.

151. T. Z. Koo, “The Church and the International Order,” *The Madras Series: Addresses and Other Records* (New York: International Missionary Council, 1939), 7:80–81. Saint John’s University was an Anglican mission school in Shanghai that was considered one of the foremost universities in China during this period.

152. William Axling, *Kagawa*, rev. ed. (New York: Harper and Brothers, 1946), 136.

153. When the Japanese delegates stopped over in Keelung, Taiwan, en route to India, Kagawa expressed his intention of staying away from political issues as much as possible during the conference, as it was meant to be a religious meeting. “Kagawa Toyohiko shi ra ikkō Kirun kikō,” *Taiwan nichichi shinpō*, November 20, 1938.

154. Toyohiko Kagawa, “The Meaning of the Cross,” *The Madras Series: Addresses and Other Records* (New York: International Missionary Council, 1939), 7:21–25.

155. The details of Kagawa’s itinerary presented here are based on the transcription of a 1939 speech he gave to the 324th regular meeting of the Japan Diplomatic Association (*Nihon Gaikō Kyōkai*) upon his return from India. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Tachi agaran to suru Indo* (Tokyo: Nihon Gaikō Kyōkai, 1939), Tsuchiya Collection, Hitotsubashi University Library.

156. Kagawa was received by the dewan (prime minister) of Mysore, Sir Mirza Ismail (1883–1959), who discussed his plans to improve agriculture in his kingdom so the land would be “flowing with milk and honey.” Kagawa to Mirza Ismail, September 5, 1939, TA310-E00021, MSRC.

157. Keithahn to Kagawa, December 16, 1937, TA320-E00069, MSRC; Keithahn to Kagawa, June 4, 1938, TA320-E00068, MSRC; Keithahn to Kagawa, November 17, 1939; Kagawa to Keithahn, February 12, 1940, TA320-E00067, MSRC.

158. In the Bardoli satyagraha of 1928, poor Gujarati farmers engaged in a tax resistance protest against the local British administration. Alex von Tunzelmann, *Indian Summer: The Secret History of the End of an Empire* (New York: Picador, 2007), 31.

159. “Indo nisshi,” *Kumo no hashira*, May 1939.

160. Kagawa, *Tachi agaran to suru Indo*, 44–45.

161. *Ibid.*, 45.

162. The “imperial edict” that Kagawa mentions most likely refers to the edict issued on July 7, 1938, on the one-year anniversary of the Sino-Japanese War. In it, Emperor Hirohito praised the progress that his “loyal” subjects had made in the recent “incident.” Japan referred to the conflict as the China Incident (Shina Jihen) at the time, as it had not officially declared war against China, and enjoined



his citizens to eradicate the “root” of the current problem (*kakon*) so that a lasting peace could be achieved in East Asia. *Kanpō* (*gōgai*), no. 3452, July 7, 1938, <http://dl.ndl.go.jp/info:ndljp/pid/2959943/18>.

163. Mahadev Desai, “Kagawa’s Visit,” *Harijan*, January 21, 1939, 436.

164. *Ibid.*

165. Kagawa, *Tachi agaran to suru Indo*, 54.

166. A. M. Chirgwin, “Dr. Kagawa at Home,” *Religious Digest*, January 1939, 39–41. Chirgwin was the director of the London Missionary Society.

167. Hunter, *Three Trumpets Sound*, 153.

168. *Ibid.*, 99–100.

169. *Ibid.*, 28.

170. *Kagawa Calendar*, July 1940, 1/1/3, UTS. This *Calendar* was the last prewar issue and the only one to be printed in the United States (by Delavan Republican, a printing and publishing firm in Delavan, Wisconsin).

171. *Ibid.*

172. The meeting also honored the work of Henry and Mother Topping, William Axling, and Harry Myers (the missionary who baptized Kagawa). Among those present at the event were representatives from the Foreign Missions Conference, the Japan YMCA, and twenty-two Japanese from the churches of New York. “Launch Campaign for Kagawa Fund,” *Christian Century*, December 27, 1939.

173. “Morning Rites Bring People for Services, Inter-racial Meet: Anniversary of Kagawa Day, Friends of Jesus Set for Tomorrow,” *Rafu shinpō*, January 13, 1940.

174. Joshua A. Fogel, *The Literature of Travel in the Japanese Rediscovery of China, 1862–1945* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1996), 296.

### CHAPTER 3: CONSTRUCTING GOD’S KINGDOM IN THE JAPANESE EMPIRE

*Epigraph:* Mutō Tomio, *Watakushi to Manshūkoku* (Tokyo: Bungei shunjū, 1988), 12. Mutō Tomio (1904–1998), a Manchukuo propaganda official who acted as Kagawa’s host during the latter’s 1938 visit to Manchuria, recounts the Christian leader telling him these words shortly before his death in 1960, in the memoir cited above. Mutō cofounded the *Kirisuto shinbun* newspaper after the war along with Kagawa and became the chief editor of the twenty-four-volume collected works of Kagawa published in the 1960s.

1. China historically referred to the region of Manchuria as the Three Eastern Provinces (Dong San Sheng) or simply as the Northeast (Dongbei). Chinese historiography since the end of World War II, on the other hand, has emphasized the illegitimate nature of the puppet state by adopting the prefix “fake” (*wei*), as in fake Manchukuo (*wei-Manzhouguo*), in its official descriptions. While recognizing the validity of such claims, I will hereafter refer to the state—which existed from 1932 to 1945—as Manchukuo in order to reflect the term’s historical usage.

2. Wataze Tsuneyoshi (1867–1944), a Congregational minister who became one of the leaders in setting up his church's Korea mission after the 1910 annexation, expounded on the idea of the heterogeneous origins of the Japanese people as early as 1897 in the Christian periodical *Rikugō zasshi*. Oguma Eiji, *Tan'itsu minzoku shinwa no kigen: "Nihonjin" no jigazō no keifu* (Tokyo: Shin'yōsha, 1995), 57–58.

3. For a detailed account of the Kumiai Kyōkai's Korea Mission, see Anderson, *Christianity and Imperialism*, 123–184.

4. *Ibid.*, 127–128.

5. Part of the reason for Kappanzan's popularity as a tourist site was its relative proximity to the main railway line, which offered visitors an easy chance to "survey the state of the life of the savages (*banjin*).” Kate McDonald, *Placing Empire: Travel and the Social Imagination in Imperial Japan* (Oakland: University of California Press, 2017), 61, 97.

6. Kagawa notes that although the young physician hailed from the Atayal indigenous group, he had taken on a Japanese name (Utsugi) and had largely forgotten about the traditional songs and legends of his people. The two most likely conversed in Japanese, which was the language of instruction in the village schools set up by colonial authorities. "Taiwan kikō," *Kumo no hashira*, April 1922.

7. The passage of the Chinese Exclusion Act of 1882, which barred Chinese labor immigration to the United States and created a shortage of cheap and reliable agricultural labor in California, was another major factor that led to this migratory flow.

8. Azuma, *Between Two Empires*, 47.

9. Ebina toured California from August to September 1915, giving fifty-five lectures while his wife spoke exclusively to Issei women on eighteen separate occasions. Other public lecturers were recruited from within the Issei elite, such as the Stanford University professor Yamato Ichihashi. Azuma, *Between Two Empires*, 48–51; Anderson, *Christianity and Imperialism*, 112–118.

10. Koga, *Centennial Legacy*, 1:113.

11. The two locations were in Courtland and Stockton. Kagawa, *Unsui henro*, 41–50.

12. *Ibid.*, 33–34.

13. *Ibid.*, 34.

14. *Ibid.*, 36–37.

15. *Ibid.*, 38.

16. Katō Kiyofumi, "Kaisetsu," in *Tōkyō Manmō kaitakudan*, ed. Tōkyō no Manmō Kaitakudan o Shiru Kai (Tokyo: Yumani shobō, 2012), 346–357. Many Patriotic Youth Brigade units were assigned to the border so they could be mobilized as combat personnel in the event of an emergency.

17. The army reservists left Japan on October 3, 1932. Apart from such state efforts, a private group of citizens organized around a free lodging house for laborers in Tokyo, known as Tenshōen, had also set out for Manchuria on June 18,

1932. Tokyo no Manmō kaitakudan o shiru kai, *Tokyo Manmō kaitakudan*, 24–25.

18. “Mukogawa no hotori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, March 1932.

19. Only 15,463 settlers emigrated to Manchuria between 1932 and 1936. For comparison, 23,699 Japanese emigrated to Brazil in a single year during the same period (1933). Manshū Kaitakushi Kankōkai, ed., *Manshū kaitakushi* (Tokyo: Kaitaku jikōkai, 1966), 90–110.

20. The plan was announced by the Hirota Kōki cabinet in the aftermath of the February 26 Incident, which saw the demise of Takahashi Korekiyo, the minister of finance opposed to the migration scheme.

21. Manshū Kaitakushi Kankōkai, *Manshū kaitakushi*, 174–176.

22. *Ibid.*, 197–198.

23. Mantaku was founded in 1935 as a private corporation financed by the Manchukuo government, Mantetsu, Mitsui, and Mitsubishi before it was made public in 1937. Manshū Kaitakushi Kankōkai, *Manshū kaitakushi*, 160–165, 190–192.

24. *Ibid.*, 362.

25. Many of the settlers came from Hokkaidō and the northeastern prefectures, as well as Nagano and Hyōgo. Nagaoka Takashi, *Shinshūkyō to sōryokusen: Kyōso igo o ikiru* (Nagoya: Nagoya daigaku shuppankai, 2015), 179–180.

26. “Tabi kara tabi e,” *Kumo no hashira*, November 1934.

27. For an excellent historical analysis of the ways in which Tenrikyō adapted itself to the demands of the state under total war mobilization, see Nagaoka, *Shinshūkyō to sōryokusen*, 182–186, 195–247, and *passim*.

28. Sandra Wilson, “Securing Prosperity and Serving the Nation: Japanese Farmers and Manchuria, 1931–1933,” in *Farmers and Village Life in Twentieth Century Japan*, ed. Ann Waswo and Yoshiaki Nishida (New York: RoutledgeCurzon, 2003), 156–174.

29. An informative account of the colonization effort, which took shape as a joint endeavor between government and community, can be found in Young, *Japan’s Total Empire*, 352–398.

30. This slogan was formulated as a countervailing ideology to the Harmony of Five Races proclaimed by Sun Yat-sen, the founding president of the Republic of China, who sought to establish a multiethnic republic that included members of the Han Chinese, Manchurian, Mongolian, Muslim, and Tibetan groups. Yamamuro, *Kimera*, 130–132.

31. The participation of Japan’s progressive intellectuals in the project of building a modernist utopia in the “brave new empire” is discussed in Young, *Japan’s Total Empire*, 241–303.

32. Young, *Japan’s Total Empire*, 381.

33. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, August 1937. One *li* in modern Japan was equivalent to approximately 3.93 kilometers.

34. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, May 1938.

35. There were, of course, exceptions to this pattern, as is documented by recent scholarship. For example, two village heads from Shimoina County returned from their inspection tours only to criticize the high-handedness of Japanese rule in Manchukuo and calling on their neighbors to resist the temptation to go, even if pressured. See Ōkado Masakatsu, *Sensō to sengo o ikiru* (Tokyo: Shōgakkan, 2009), 87–88.

36. Katō Kiyofumi, “Shokuminchi kanryō no keisei to kōryū: Kantōshū, Manshūkoku, Takumushō no yakuwari,” in *Nihon no Chōsen, Taiwan shihai to shokuminchi kanryō*, ed., Toshihiko Mastuda (Kyoto: International Research Center for Japanese Studies, 2008), 40.

37. In a postwar interview with the major economic daily *Nihon Keizai shinbun*, Yasui stated that Kagawa was the leading member of the “brain trust” assembled to advise Tokyo’s social bureau under the administration of Mayor Horikiri Zenjirō in 1929. *Nihon Keizai Shinbunsha*, ed., *Watakushi no rirekisho: Dai 5 shū* (Tokyo: Nihon Keizai shinbunsha, 1958), 283. For more on this topic, see chapter 1.

38. Like Kagawa, Matsuoka was a Christian (Catholic) who had studied abroad in the United States, at the University of Oregon.

39. “Harupin yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, July 1938.

40. Amakasu notoriously led the arrest and murder of the anarchist Ōsugi Sakae and his partner Itō Noe on September 16, 1923, during the chaotic aftermath of the Great Kantō Earthquake.

41. “Harubin yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, July 1938.

42. The villages of Iyasaka and Chiburi were located near the city of Jiamusi in northeastern Manchuria.

43. *Manshū wa imin no rakudo* (Dairen, China: Minami Manshū tetsudō, 1937), 5.

44. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, August 1938.

45. Tsubogami had previously served as vice minister of the Ministry of Colonial Affairs in Japan between 1934 and 1935.

46. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, August 1938.

47. “Ajia tairiku o michibiku kokoro,” *Kumo no hashira*, July 1938.

48. Ibid. Kagawa also declared that the Manchurian settlers needed to learn agricultural techniques that suited the cooler climate, including the production of processed meats such as ham, bacon, and sausage during the winter months.

49. “Manshū imin undō no shōrai,” *Kumo no hashira*, August 1938.

50. Matsutani Yōsuke, “Shūkyō dantaihō no seiritsu to Chūgoku seisaku to no kanren,” *Shakai shisutemu kenkyū*, no. 11 (March 2013): 102.

51. Ogawara Masamichi, “Seiji ni yoru shūkyō riyo, haijo: Kindai Nihon ni okeru shūkyō dantaihō no hōjinka o megutte,” *Nenpō seijigaku* 2013, no. 1 (2013): 145–167.

52. Teikoku gikai kizokuin, *Teikoku gikai kizokuin giji sokkiroku* (Tokyo: Tokyo daigaku shuppankai), 65:38.

53. Minutes of the Religious Organizations Bill Committee, 74th Session of the Imperial Diet, House of Representatives, March 2, 1939, 5, accessed May 8, 2017, <http://teikokugikai-i.ndl.go.jp>.

54. *Meiji-setsu* was one of four national holidays officially decreed by the Japanese government.

55. Nihon Kirisutokyō Renmei, ed., *Kōki 2600 nen to kyōkai gōdō* (Tokyo: Kirisutokyō shuppansha, 1941), 13, AGA.

56. “Aoyama Midorigaoka no shinto taikai,” *Kami no kuni shinbun*, November 15, 1939.

57. Ibid. In their remarks, Matsuo emphasized the expectations placed upon Christians in light of the Religious Organizations Law, while Matsui reiterated the important role that Christians played in the spiritual landscape (*seishinkai*) of Japan and China.

58. Nihon Kirisutokyō Renmei, *Kōki 2600 nen to kyōkai gōdō*, 15.

59. Ibid., 16. Using a distinctly Christian metaphor, the editor states that the 1939 meeting can be seen as the “John the Baptist” to the 1940 meeting’s “Jesus Christ.” The details of the 1940 celebration will be discussed in the next section.

60. Horii Junji, *Haisen zengo: Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitaku danchō no shuki* (Tokyo: Seizansha, 1990), 26. This book is the postwar memoir of Horii Junji, the village leader of the Christian Pioneer Village in Manchuria.

61. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Nichirin o haramu kōya* (Tokyo: Dai Nihon Yūbenkai Kōdansha, 1940), introduction.

62. For detailed treatment of the twenty-six hundredth anniversary celebrations, see Ruoff, *Imperial Japan at Its Zenith*.

63. Ruoff, *Imperial Japan at Its Zenith*, 15. Although the Japanese Empire did not reach its maximum territorial extent until 1942, the spiritual mobilization of its people arguably reached a peak in 1940.

64. Andrew Gordon, *Modern History of Japan: From Tokugawa Times to the Present* (New York: Oxford University Press, 2003), 216–217.

65. For a brief overview of the Japan Salvation Army, see Miyoshi Akira, “Kyūseigun no shakai jigyō to Yamamuro Gunpei (2),” *Hokusei ronshū* 9 (1972): 85–108.

66. Unlike many of Kagawa’s other works, this novel was never translated into other languages.

67. The idea of Manchuria being the key to Japanese autarky was well-established among the military and political elite and widely popularized through future Mantetsu president Matsuoka Yōsuke’s 1931 line: “[Manchuria] is our country’s lifeline” (*Manmō wa waga kuni no seimeisen de aru*). Yamamuro Shin’ichi, *Kimera: Manshūkoku no shōzō* (Tokyo: Chūōkōron shinsha, 2004), 26–36. For more on this issue, see Michael A. Barnhart, *Japan Prepares for Total War: The Search for Economic Security, 1919–1941* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1987).

68. Kagawa, *Nichirin o haramu kōya*, 166.

69. *Ibid.*, 258.

70. Horii, *Haisen zengo*, 27.

71. For more on Chiba and others like him, see Azuma, *Between Two Empires*, 81–82; Anderson, *Christianity and Imperialism*, 222–223; John J Stephan, “Hijacked by Utopia: American Nikkei in Manchuria,” *Amerasia Journal* 23, no. 3 (January 1997): 1–42.

72. Horii, *Haisen zengo*, 28.

73. Mutō, *Watakushi to Manshūkoku*, 9–10.

74. *Ibid.*, 11.

75. “Tabi yori tabi e,” *Kumo no hashira*, July 1940; Anderson, *Christianity and Imperialism*, 225–226, 232.

76. Kagawa Toyohiko Kinen Matsuzawa Shiryōkan, ed., *Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakumura to Kagawa Toyohiko* (Tokyo: Unchūsha, 2007), 71. This booklet was published as part of a special exhibition on the Christian Pioneer Village, which ran from October to December 2006. It includes a general overview of the history of the settlement, as well as a reconstructed roster of the settlers and a time line of events.

77. Chiba Toyoji, *Manshū Kirisuto mura kensetsu ni tsuite: Botankōshō Shidōkō Kirisutosha kaitaku kumiai keikakusho* (Tokyo: Kumo no hashira sha, 1940), Materials for 2006 Special Exhibition, MSRC.

78. “Minutes,” June 22, 1940, *Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakuson iinkai kiroku*, vol. 1, Materials for 2006 Special Exhibition, MSRC. These are photocopies of the original minutes of Christian Pioneer Village Committee meetings, made by the MSRC from materials loaned by the Shibukawa Church in Gunma for the purposes of the 2006 exhibition.

79. *Ibid.*

80. “Kansai Notes,” *Japan Times and Mail*, June 20, 1940. The memorial service was held at the Kobe YMCA auditorium.

81. *Ibid.*

82. Horii, *Haisen zengo*, 29.

83. Horii Junji, “Tomo yo tairiku ni: Kirisuto no mura o hirakou,” *Kami no kuni shinbun*, July 10, 1940.

84. *Ibid.*

85. This is based on the memoir of former Christian Pioneer Village member Enomoto Kazuko, who joined the Christian settlement in 1943 as a seventeen-year-old girl. Enomoto Kazuko, *Erumu no kane: Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakumura o kaerimite*, ed. Ishihama Mikaru (Tōhoku-machi, Japan: Kurashi no techōsha, 2004), 42.

86. This was a discursive strategy employed widely by Japanese colonial authorities, including authors of tourist guidebooks. See McDonald, *Placing Empire*, 73–74, 118–119. Of Manchukuo’s approximately thirty-two million

population, only 10 percent were ethnic Manchus, with the Han Chinese making up the overwhelming majority of the remainder. Enomoto, *Erumu no kane*, 42–43.

87. Kurihara Yōtarō, “Manshū Kirisutosha mura no shimei,” *Kami no kuni shinbun*, July 10, 1940; “Kigen 2600-nen hōshuku kisei taikai Kirisutosha daihyō: Nara-ken Yagi Kirisuto kyōkai nite,” *ibid.*

88. Horii, *Haisen zengo*, 30.

89. Since the Japanese occupation of Manchuria in 1931, Japanese and Soviet forces had engaged in frequent clashes along the Soviet-Manchukuo border. This state of affairs persisted until the two states signed a Neutrality Pact in 1941.

90. “Gaijin supai issei kenkyo” and “Danko “bōchō o mamore,” *Tokyo Asahi*, July 30, 1940.

91. “Supai yōgi gaijin kenkyo” and “Chōsen demo kaishi,” *Tokyo Asahi*, July 31, 1940.

92. “Two Japanese Traders Arrested by British,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 4, 1940; “Four More Japanese Arrested by British in Singapore, Burma,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 6, 1940.

93. “Makihara Is Released from British Prison,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 7, 1940; “Many Groups Protesting British Acts,” August 7, 1940; “Anglo-Japanese Tension Eases,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 9, 1940; “Anti-British Moves Sweep over Nation,” August 9, 1940.

94. “Senkyō ya kankō yosooi kokujō supai,” *Tokyo Asahi*, August 2, 1940.

95. The phrase “Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere” (*Dai Tōa Kyōeiken*) was introduced to the public on August 1, when Foreign Minister Matsuoka Yōsuke mentioned it in a speech addressing the Konoe statement.

96. “Seven Salvation Army Leaders Held as Espionage Suspects,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 8, 1940.

97. “Japan’s Rotary Clubs under Espionage Fire,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 10, 1940.

98. The Salvation Army was known for its practice of giving quasi-military rank to its officers. For a concise and well-written history of Yamamuro Gunpei and the Japan Salvation Army, see Rightmire, *Salvationist Samurai*.

99. Booth was the first Christian clergyman, foreign or Japanese, to be granted the honor of an imperial audience. *Ibid.*, 110–111.

100. *Ibid.*, 120.

101. The Tokkō report for March 1940 notes that a Diet member had publicly criticized the Salvation Army and called for stronger regulation of its activities at the seventy-fifth session of the Imperial Diet. Naimushō keihokyoku hoanka, *Tokkō geppō*, March 1940, 65–66.

102. Rightmire, *Salvationist Samurai*, 58–60.

103. “Seven Salvation Army Leaders Held as Espionage Suspects,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 8, 1940.

104. “Salvation Army Changes Name; Occidentals, Army Titles Out,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 30, 1940.



105. A number of patriotic groups criticized the government's measures as "too mild," calling instead for the outright dissolution of the Salvation Army. Naimushō keihokyoku hoanka, *Tokkō geppō*, August 1940, 170–172.

106. J. Merle Davis, *An Autobiography* (Tokyo: Kyo Bun Kwan, 1959), 72.

107. The Tokkō was established in the wake of the High Treason Incident of 1910–1911. It was further expanded from a subsection within the Metropolitan Police Bureau (Keishichō) to a nationwide network in 1928. For more on this topic, see Richard H. Mitchell, *Thought Control in Prewar Japan* (Ithaca, NY: Cornell University Press, 1976), and Elise K. Tipton, *The Japanese Police State: The Tokkō in Interwar Japan* (Honolulu: University of Hawai'i Press, 1990).

108. Naimushō keihokyoku hoanka, *Tokkō geppō*, May 1940, 145. The Tokkō reports, which were compiled into monthly summaries called the *Tokkō geppō*, provide a rich resource with which to examine how the state was monitoring a number of social groups and movements—including Socialists, anarchists, labor groups, farmers' unions, and religious movements.

109. "Kagawa shi kenkyo saru," *Chūgai shōgyō*, September 6, 1940. The military police also arrested Ogawa Kiyozumi, a Christian minister and close associate of Kagawa.

110. *Kagawa Calendar*, 1940, 1/1/3, UTS.

111. "Christian School Group Considers Severing All Foreign Connections," *Japan Times and Mail*, August 29, 1940; "Kirisutokyō no rokujūroku kō gaikoku to mattaku zetsuen," *Yomiuri shinbun*, September 6, 1940.

112. "Japanese Episcopal Church May Sever Foreign Relations," *Japan Times and Mail*, August 25, 1940; "Kirisutokyō mo kaiso kyōgi," *Tokyo Asahi*, August 27, 1940; "Universal Christian Church Planned," *Japan Times and Mail*, August 28, 1940; "Gaijin senkyōshi sōtaikyaku: Fukuoka kenka no Seikōkai," *Fukuoka Nichinichi*, September 5, 1940.

113. "Ōbei ni sayonara," *Tokyo Asahi*, August 30, 1940; "Kirisutokyō gakkō shin hossoku," *Osaka Mainichi*, September 7, 1940.

114. "Kagawa Toyohiko shi nado hansenron de ryūchi," *Tokyo Asahi*, September 5, 1940; "Gendarmes Arrest Two Church Leaders for Anti-war Acts," *Japan Times and Mail*, September 8, 1940.

115. Nogi Tadayuki, "Kagawa to kenpei," in *Hyakusan nin no Kagawa den*, ed. Mutō Tomio (Tokyo: Kirisuto shinbunsha, 1961), 271–272.

116. According to a retrospective account, Matsuoka reached out to the minister of justice, Kazami Akira, to have Kagawa released. Kagawa, "Yume no tai-bei kōshō, hansei no ki," *Yomiuri shinbun*, November 9, 1953.

117. "Musashino no mori yori," *Kumo no hashira*, October 1940.

118. Ibid. Here, Kagawa is presumably referring to Romans 13, which states: "Let every person be subject to the governing authorities. For there is no authority except from God, and those that exist have been instituted by God" (Rom. 13:1).

119. Ibid.



120. “Manshū Kirisutosha mura no kensetsu,” *Kami no kuni shinbun*, May 8, 1940. While no longer the chairman, Kagawa remained on the committee as a standing member-cum-finance committee member (*jōnin ken zaimu in*).

121. “Kōki 2600 nen,” *Kumo no hashira*, October 1940; Keihokyoku Toshoka, *Shuppan keisatsuhō*, no. 132 (October 1940): 88.

122. “Rakka o oshimitsutsu,” *Kumo no hashira*, May 1940.

123. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, October 1939.

124. Ogawara Masamichi, *Nihon no sensō to shūkyō*, 1899–1945 (Tokyo: Kōdansha, 2014), 116.

125. If a group was not able to obtain official recognition, it would be classified as a “quasi-religious body” (*shūkyō kessha*) and placed under the direct supervision of the local chief administrator, thus causing it to lose much of its autonomy.

126. Krämer, “Beyond the Dark Valley,” 187, 198.

127. “Japan’s Churches Fall in Step with New Structure,” *Japan Times and Mail*, September 16, 1940.

128. Although not part of any subcommittee, Kagawa was listed as an adviser to the conference.

129. In the Kannamesai, the first harvest of the season is offered symbolically to the sun goddess Amaterasu—a major deity in Shintō mythology.

130. Nihon Kirisutokyō Renmei, *Kōki 2600 nen to kyōkai gōdō* (Tokyo: Kirisutokyō shuppansha, 1941), 44.

131. *Ibid.*, 45–54.

132. These parts of the proceedings were broadcast on Radio Tokyo during the 7:00 p.m. news later that day. “Nimannin no aishinbō no dai kōkyōgaku,” *Kami no kuni shinbun*, November 6, 1940.

133. Nihon Kirisutokyō Renmei, *Kōki 2600 nen to kyōkai gōdō*, 60–63. Mengjiang, also known as the Mongol United Autonomous Government, was an autonomous area in Inner Mongolia that existed as a Japanese puppet state from 1939 to 1945, under nominal Chinese sovereignty.

134. Following the main rally in Tokyo, similar celebratory events were hosted by Christians in Osaka, Sendai, Kobe, Kyoto, Fukuoka, Ōmuta, and Kokura. Nihon Kirisutokyō Renmei, *Kōki 2600 nen to kyōkai gōdō*, 81–93.

135. “The Japanese-American Christian Conference,” March 19, 1941, *Christian Century*; “Japan Hopes for Reconciliation,” *ibid.*

136. “Kwansei Gakuin Head Retires; Noted Educator,” *Japan Times and Mail*, August 7, 1940.

137. “Gaikoku to zetsuen: Nihon Seikōkai,” *Tokyo Asahi*, August 24, 1940; “Japan Ousts Foreign Bishops,” *Christian Century*, September 4, 1940.

138. “Uchitateru Kirisutokyō shintaisei,” *Asahi shinbun*, September 6, 1940.

139. “U.S. Reported Advising All Americans to Quit Japan, China Promptly,” *New York Herald Tribune*, October 8, 1940; “All Americans Urged to Leave,

Warning Broadcast to 16,000 in Danger Zone,” *Los Angeles Times*, October 9, 1940.

140. “Stocks Crash 10 Points on Shanghai Exchange,” *Atlanta Constitution*, October 9, 1940; “Consuls Rush Evacuation,” *Los Angeles Times*, October 9, 1940; “10,000 Citizens Must Arrange Exodus at Once,” *Baltimore Sun*, October 9, 1940.

141. The details of the deliberations of the preparatory committee can be found in *Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan Senkyō Kenkyūjo Kyōdan Shiryō Hensanshitsu*, ed., *Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan shi shiryōshū* (Tokyo: Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan senkyō kenkyūjo, 1998), 1:277–315 (hereafter cited as NKKSS).

142. James C. Baker and Ralph E. Diffendorfer, *Church and Mission in Japan in January, 1941: A Report to the Board of Missions and Church Extension of the Methodist Church of a Visit to Japan* (New York: Board of Missions and Church Extension of the Methodist Church, 1941), 5–6.

143. “Missionaries Leaving Japan by June, 1941: Five Protestant Groups Completely Withdrawing by Summer,” *Japan Times and Advertiser*, December 26, 1940. The five planning to withdraw entirely were the Canadian Church Mission Society (Episcopal), the English Church Mission Society (Episcopal), the American Protestant Episcopal Mission, the Southern Presbyterian Mission, and the Seventh Day Adventists.

144. “Most of Seventh Day Adventist Missionaries Will Be Transferred to Manila,” *Japan Times and Advertiser*, November 26, 1940.

145. “Asama Maru Sails: Many Long-Time Missionaries in Japan and Delegates to Empire Fete on Board,” *Japan Times and Advertiser*, November 30, 1940; “Three Foreign Teachers Leaving Toyo Eiwa,” *Japan Times and Advertiser*, December 5, 1940; “U.S. Presbyterians Recall 100 Workers,” *Japan Times and Advertiser*, December 15, 1940; “Dr. Mrs. Hennigar Leaving for Home,” *Japan Times and Advertiser*, December 20, 1940.

146. “Toppings to Leave for Visit in Manila,” *Japan Times and Advertiser*, December 4, 1940; “The Rev. and Mrs. Henry Topping Will Leave Tokyo on Saturday,” *Japan Times and Advertiser*, December 5, 1940.

147. Kagawa Cooperator to J. Henry Carpenter, September 5, 1940, 1/3/21, UTS; J. Henry Carpenter, “Dear Friends,” September 25, 1940, 1/3/21, UTS; “Report of Chicago Fellowship Meeting,” October 16, 1940, 1/3/21, UTS.

148. “Kōtoku 7-nendo shūgō kaitaku nōmin nyūshoku negai,” October 3, 1940, *Manshū Kirisutokyō Kaitakumura Inkai Shiryō* (hereafter cited as MKKIK).

149. “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakuson Musashino kunrenjo hojo shinsei negai sho,” October 12, 1940, MKKIK.

150. Kurihara Yōtarō, “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakuson no zento,” *Kami no kuni shinbun*, November 13, 1940.

151. “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakuson kunrenjo kaishi,” *Kami no kuni shinbun*, December 4, 1940.

152. Horii, *Haisen zengo*, 32.
153. “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakuson Matai mura senkentai to-Man negai,” December 6, 1940, MKKIK.
154. “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakuson jōmu oyobi zaimu iinkai,” December 2, 1940; “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakuson Musashino kunrenjo jikanhyō,” MKKIK.
155. “Senkentai, Dai-1-kai Musashino kunrenjo shūryōshiki,” December 20, 1940, MKKIK.
156. Baker and Diffendorfer, *Church and Mission*, 25.
157. *Ibid.*, 36–40.
158. *Ibid.*, 42.
159. *Ibid.*, 42.
160. *Ibid.*, 43.
161. Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan Senkyō Kenkyūjo Kyōdan Shiryō Hensanshitsu, ed., *Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan shi shiryōshū*, NKKSS, 1:191.
162. “Manshū kaitakumura yakuinkai,” January 29, 1941, MKKIK. It had become customary for advance parties departing from Japan to enter their settlement locations in Manchukuo on February 11. Manshū Kaitakushi Kankōkai, *Manshū kaitakushi*, 198.
163. “Mō kakushite oku hitsuyō wa nai: Kagawa misshon no himitsu,” *Nihon shūhō*, no. 468 (December 25, 1958): 4–9.
164. Miyakoda Tsunetarō, *Nihon Kirisutokyō gōdō shikō* (Tokyo: Kyōbunkan, 1967), 268.
165. *Ibid.*, 8.
166. The details of this particular story are well covered in Robert J. C. Butow, *The John Doe Associates: Backdoor Diplomacy for Peace, 1941* (Stanford, CA: Stanford University Press, 1974).
167. “Japan-America Peace Pledged,” *Christian Century*, March 12, 1941.
168. “The Japanese-American Christian Conference,” *Christian Century*, March 19, 1941; “Japanese Christians to Make Tour of U.S.,” *New York Times*, March 16, 1941.
169. Emerson Bradshaw to Japanese Christian Deputation, April 9, 1941, 1/4/1, UTS. The image of beating “swords into plowshares,” although having no long tradition in Western or Christian symbolism, enjoyed ubiquitous popularity in twentieth-century peace art. Appelbaum, *Kingdom to Commune*, 93–94.
170. NKKSS, 1:193.
171. “Conferring with Japanese Christians,” *Christian Century*, April 2, 1941; “U.S. Churchmen Meet Japanese,” *Christian Century*, May 7, 1941.
172. “Los Angeles Conference,” *Christian Century*, May 7, 1941.
173. “Japan Eager for Peace with U.S.: Rejoice at Success of Riverside Meeting,” *Christian Century*, June 7, 1941.
174. Kagawa Toyohiko, “Amerika henroki,” *Hi no hashira*, September 15, 1941, 2–6.

175. Kagawa to Roosevelt, January 20, 1941, Official File 1881, FDRL. The letter was dated on the occasion of the president's third inauguration and typed on letterhead marked with Kagawa's name and home address in Kamikitazawa, Tokyo.

176. U.S. Department of State to Private Secretary of the President, April 25, 1941, Official File 1881, FDRL.

177. "Toyohiko Kagawa Due to Arrive in S.F., April 10," *Shin sekai Asahi shinbun*, April 1, 1941; "Dr. Kagawa to Speak for Prayer Circle," *Rafu shinpō*, April 20, 1941; "Dr. Kagawa to Speak Before L.A., Seattle Groups," *Shin sekai Asahi shinbun*, April 22, 1941.

178. "Dr. Kagawa Set for Sunrise Talk" and "Dr. T. Kagawa to Address Youth Mass Meet Today," *Rafu shinpō*, April 27, 1941.

179. "Christian Mission Members Feted at Luncheon by 'Y,'" *Rafu shinpō*, April 29, 1941; "Kagawa Speaks Before 2,000 at Southland Church," *Shin sekai Asahi shinbun*, May 1, 1941; "Kagawa to Give Two Sermons in El Centro," *Shin sekai Asahi shinbun*, May 3, 1941; "Stress Religion in Chaotic Time," *Rafu shinpō*, May 8, 1941.

180. "Not Dropping the Faith," *Jitsugyō no Hawaii*, May 16, 1941; "Kagawa Talk Inspires Local Nisei to Form Prayer Groups," *Rafu shinpō*, May 18, 1941; "'Behold the Man' by Kagawa," *Shin sekai Asahi shinbun*, July 1, 1941; Toyohiko Kagawa, *Behold the Man*, trans. Maxine Shore and Milo Milton Oblinger (New York: Harper and Brothers, 1941).

181. "Kagawa Surprised at Apprehension of US-Japan War," *Shin sekai Asahi shinbun*, May 20, 1941.

182. During his tour of India in 1939, Kagawa visited Jones's ashram in Luc-know. Yonezawa, *Kagawa Toyohiko II*, 629.

183. Jones posed the same question to Chester Miao (Miao Qiusheng), secretary of the Chinese National Christian Council, who also happened to be at Lake Geneva at the time. Miao similarly emphasized the importance of the political and territorial integrity of China. See E. Stanley Jones, "An Adventure in Failure: Behind the Scenes before Pearl Harbor," *Asia and the Americas* 45, no. 12 (1945): 610.

184. Ibid.

185. "Dr. T. Kagawa to Attend Terminal Island Kaki-Gakko," *Rafu shinpō*, July 8, 1941; "Kagawa Proves Hero to Sufferers on NYK Tatsuta," *Shin sekai Asahi shinbun*, August 19, 1941.

186. Toyohiko Kagawa, "Yume no taibei kōshō," 8; Kagawa, "Mō kaku-shite oku hitsuyō wa nai," 13.

187. "Memorandum of Conversation, by the Chief of the Division of Far Eastern Affairs (Hamilton)," September 17, 1941, in *Foreign Relations of the United States, 1941* (Washington, DC: US Government Printing Office, 1956), 4:455–457.

188. "Memorandum Prepared in the Division of Far Eastern Affairs," November 17, 1941, in *Foreign Relations of the United States, 1941*, 4:613–614;

“Memorandum by the Chief of the Division of Far Eastern Affairs (Hamilton) to the Secretary of State,” November 18, 1941, in *Foreign Relations of the United States, 1941*, 4:614–616.

189. “Kagawa Asks Prayer to Overcome Crisis,” *Taihoku Nippō*, September 30, 1941.

190. Kagawa was not the only party trying to reach Roosevelt at around this time. Hidenari “Terry” Terasaki, counselor of the Japanese Embassy in Washington, also tried to contact the president through Jones in late November. The Yale professor of history Asakawa Kan’ichi, moreover, also sent a draft letter addressed to Emperor Hirohito, which he endeavored to have delivered to President Roosevelt through his colleague and Harvard professor of East Asian art Langdon Warner (1881–1955). See Gwen Terasaki, *Taiyō ni kakeru hashi*, trans. Mariko Nitta (Tokyo: Koyama shoten, 1958), 81–92; Yamauchi Haruko, *Asakawa Kan’ichi ron: Sono gakumon keisei to jissen* (Tokyo: Waseda daigaku shuppanbu, 2009), 433–438; Jones, “An Adventure in Failure,” 613–614.

191. Konoe’s entire cabinet resigned on October 18, 1941, leading to the prowar General Tōjō becoming the prime minister. Yoshida Yutaka, *Shōwa Tennō no shūsenshi* (Tokyo: Iwanami shoten, 1992), 15.

192. Jones, “An Adventure in Failure,” 615.

193. Miyakoda, *Nihon Kirisutokyō gōdō shikō*, 262.

194. Kagawa, “Yume no taibei kōshō”; Jones, “An Adventure in Failure,” 615.

195. Yokoyama Sadako, “Kirisutokyō no hitobito: Purotesutanto o chūshin ni shite,” *Kyōdō Kenkyū: Tenkō (chū)*, rev. ed. (Tokyo: Heibonsha, 1978), 352–353.

196. For an intellectual biography on Yanaihara, see Susan C. Townsend, *Yanaihara Tadao and Japanese Colonial Policy: Redeeming Empire* (Richmond: Curzon, 2000).

197. Dōshisha Daigaku Jinbunkagaku Kenkyūjo / Kirisutokyō Shakai Mondai Kenkyūkai, ed., *Senjika teikō no kenkyū: Kirisutosha, jiyūshugisha no baai* (Tokyo: Misuzu shobō, 1968), 1:30–34.

#### CHAPTER 4: COOPERATION AND RESISTANCE UNDER CONDITIONS OF TOTAL WAR

1. “Tomita tōri no Ise sangū,” *Kyōdan Jihō*, January 15, 1942, in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, ed. Tomura Masahiro (Tokyo: Shinkyō shuppansha, 1976), 344.

2. “Monbushō kunrei,” December 8, 1941, in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, 342.

3. Tomita, “Jūdai jikyoku ni saishi kaku kyōkai ni tsugu,” *Kyōdan jihō*, December 15, 1941, in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, 342.

4. Ferris Seminary had its origins in an English-language academy founded by Mary Eddy Kidder, who arrived in Japan in 1870 as a missionary of the Dutch Reformed Church in America.

5. “Musashino no mori yori,” *Kumo no hashira*, March 1938.

6. Ferisu Jogakuin Chūgakkō Kōtōgakkō, ed., *Ferisu: Chūgakkō kōtōgakkō kiyō sōritsu 110 shūnen kinen tokushūgō* (Yokohama: Ferisu Jogakuin chūgakkō kōtōgakkō, 1981), 6–9, 34–36. The wartime history of Ferris is recounted in this March 1981 special issue of *Ferisu*, a bulletin published by the school. I will periodically draw on this account, which reconstructs the wartime and postwar years of Ferris through a roundtable with former teachers at the institution, as a window onto the broader social context of Japanese Christian life during this critical time.

7. The 1941–1942 surveillance reports of the Tokkō police, for example, referred to Kagawa a total of thirty times. Dōshisha Daigaku Jinbunkagaku Kenkyūjo / Kirisutokyō Shakai Mondai Kenkyūkai, ed., *Senjika no Kirisutokyō undō: Tokkō shiryō ni yoru* (Tokyo: Shinkyō shuppansha, 1972–1973), vol. 3, index 10 (hereafter cited as SNKU).

8. “Seto no koshima,” *Hi no hashira*, March 10, 1942. *Hi no hashira* (literally, “pillar of fire”) was the official organ of the Iesu no Tomo Kai group and the only Kagawa-related periodical that continued to be published in the wartime period.

9. Ibid.

10. “Nikki Kyōdan dendōkyoku komon Kagawa Toyohiko (Kōchi),” SNKU, 2:150.

11. Ibid.

12. The “gods” here refer to the Shintō kami and not the Christian God. “Senshō shukuga gyōji no ken,” *Fukuin shinpō*, January 29, 1942, in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, 344–345.

13. For a prewar example of a Christian institution (in this case, a Jesuit university) refusing to offer reverence to Shintō shrines, only to give in in the end, see Kate Wildman Nakai, “Between Secularity, Shrines, and Protestantism: Catholic Higher Education in Prewar Japan,” *Japan Review*, no. 30 (2017): 97–127.

14. Kagawa’s remarks in the Tokkō report are listed under the category “Suspicious Activity by Christians” (*Kirisutosha no yōchūi gendō*), SNKU, 2:150–151.

15. “Senji fukyō no mokuhyō oyobi sono jisshi,” *Kyōdan Jihō*, January 15, 1942, in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, 343. The Pacific War was referred to as the Greater East Asia War in wartime Japan.

16. “Kagawa sensei nittei,” *Hi no hashira*, April 10, 1942.

17. “Un’en zakki,” *Hi no hashira*, May 10, 1942.

18. Ibid.

19. American biographer Robert Schildgen claims, for example, that “much of the time, Kagawa was essentially under house arrest.” Schildgen, *Toyohiko Kagawa*, 226. See also Cyril James Davey, *Saint in the Slums: The Story of Kagawa of Japan* (Fort Washington, PA: Christian Literature Crusade, 1968), 76.

20. “Un’en zakki,” *Hi no hashira*, May 10, 1942.

21. John Haynes Holmes, “If America Is Drawn into the War, Can You, as a Christian, Participate in It or Support It?,” *Christian Century*, December 11, 1940.

22. The foremost example of this can be seen in the theologian, public intellectual, and former FOR member Reinhold Niebuhr, who famously distanced himself from his earlier pacifism and advocated for military intervention in Europe, which he saw as a necessary and justified cause. Kosek, *Acts of Conscience*, 146.

23. Holmes, “If America Is Drawn into the War.”

24. John Haynes Holmes, “A Letter to Kagawa,” in *The Community Pulpit* (New York: War Resisters League, 1942), Series I, box 29, fol. 331, World War II Collection (MS 699), MSSA, 3.

25. *Ibid.*, 5.

26. *Ibid.*, 9. The proclamation here refers to Executive Order 9066, which Roosevelt authorized on February 19, 1942.

27. *Ibid.*, 10–11.

28. *Ibid.*, 15–18.

29. Kagawa’s 1934 public apology to the Chinese is reprinted at the end of the sermon.

30. Kosek, *Acts of Conscience*, 171–173. For the classic account of Hirabayashi’s case, see Peter H. Irons, *Justice at War: The Story of the Japanese-American Internment Cases* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1983).

31. Imaizumi, “Jinja no songen,” *Mikuni*, September 1938, as quoted in Ōkubo Masayoshi, “Senjika ‘Nihonteki Kirisutokyō’ no naimenshi: Imaizumi Genkichi ni miru ‘Mikuni undō’ e no dōtei,” *Tomisaka Kirisutokyō sentā kiyō*, no. 8 (2018): 43.

32. Nakamura, *Nihon Kirisutokyō senkyōshi*, 238. See also Kayama Hisao, “Senjika no Kagawa Toyohiko: ‘Mikuni’ undō ni yoru Kagawa hihan o chūshin ni shite,” *Meiji Gakuin daigaku Kirisutokyō kenkyūjo kiyō* 37 (March 2005): 93–130.

33. Imaizumi, “Shisōsen ni tatsu Kagawa Toyohiko shi no hansei o motomu,” *Mikuni*, October 1942, 3–4.

34. *Ibid.*, 8.

35. Iwakoshi Motoichirō, “Mudai,” *Mikuni*, October 1942, 30.

36. Imaizumi, “Kagawa shi no chosaku o kentō su,” *Mikuni*, October 1942, 13.

37. Imaizumi, “Kagawa shi no ‘rinjin ai’ o tsuku,” *Mikuni*, November 1942, 1–4.

38. *Ibid.*, 9.

39. Imaizumi, “Kami no kuni shisō no kikenisei,” *Mikuni*, December 1942, 2–8. The book here refers to Kagawa Toyohiko, *Shōjō to kanki* (Osaka: Nichiyō sekaisha, 1942).

40. An example of popular fear linking Christianity with foreign espionage can be seen in the 1942 film *Fear of the Fifth Column* (*Daigoretsu no kyōfu*). Yokoyama Sadako, “Kirisutokyō no hitobito: Purotesutanto o chūshin ni shite,” in *Kyōdō kenkyū: Tenkō (chū)*, rev. ed. (Tokyo: Heibonsha, 1978), 346.

41. Ben-Ami Shillony, *Politics and Culture in Wartime Japan* (New York: Oxford University Press, 1981), 156–165. Shillony notes that unlike in Germany,



anti-Semitism was never an official ideology in Japan, and most Japanese had only a vague notion of the difference between Freemasons and Jews, often conflating the two.

42. Miyama was the founder of the Kamakura Methodist Church, which was the venue for Kagawa's 1938 lecture visit and encounter with Imaizumi. "Henshū kōki," *Mikuni*, October 1942; "Kamakura tayori," *Mikuni*, November 1942; "Kamakura dayori," *Mikuni*, December 1942.

43. Imaizumi, "Kami no kuni shisō no kikensei," *Mikuni*, December 1942, 11. The Kyōdan issued its "wartime proselytization policies" on October 15. "Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan senji fukyō shishin," *Kyōdan Jihō*, October 15, 1942, in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, 345–346.

44. In the postscript to the November 1942 issue, Imaizumi notes that he had received "an overwhelming response" to the first "special number," which convinced him to continue the series on Kagawa for two more months. "Kamakura tayori," *Mikuni*, November 1942.

45. The Tokkō reported extensively on the *Mikuni* leader Imaizumi's personal attack on Kagawa, noting that he had also successfully organized a movement to cancel the hosting of a lecture by Kagawa in Kamakura in July 1942 as well as a motion to oppose Kagawa's proposed lecture trip to the Philippines in the same year. Kagawa ultimately ended up not going to the Philippines. SNKU, 2:160–170.

46. The name of the lecturer was Toda Kazusaburō. SNKU, 2:170.

47. Ibid. Men's associations (*sōnendan*) are typically a group of men (mostly in their thirties to fifties) who are in charge of organizing local seasonal festivities and communal events.

48. The hospital where he received treatment—Nakano Cooperative Hospital (later renamed Nakano General Hospital)—was a medical cooperative that Kagawa had helped to set up in 1932, along with the fellow Christian educator and author of *Bushidō*, Nitobe Inazō (1862–1933). "Kagawa sensei no gobyōjō," *Hi no hashira*, December 10, 1942.

49. The *Mikuni* movement, however, did not last for too much longer, as the journal was discontinued in March 1943. After the war, Imaizumi is said to have apologized to Kagawa for his wartime diatribes. *Nihon Kirisutokyō Rekishi Daijiten Henshū Iinkai*, ed., *Nihon Kirisutokyō rekishi daijiten* (Tokyo: Kyōbunkan, 1988), 132.

50. "Daily Report on Foreign Radio Broadcasts," December 26, 1942, RG 262, Foreign Broadcast Intelligence Service, box 29, National Archives and Research Administration (Archives II; hereafter cited as NARA). The U.S. Foreign Broadcast Intelligence Service (FBIS), established in 1941, recorded and transcribed shortwave broadcasts from enemy nations, which were compiled into reports and circulated among the war agencies. Since most of the documentation on the Japanese side was destroyed in the aftermath of the war, I have relied on the records of the FBIS as well as that of the Office of War Information (OWI) to reconstruct Kagawa's involvement in Japan's wartime broadcasts.



51. During the Pacific War, Axling was interned in the Saitama Prefectural detention camp, until he was repatriated to the United States on the 1943 exchange ship. He returned to Japan soon after the war. “Nichibei dai 2-ji zairyūmin kōkan,” *Gaiji geppō*, September 1943, 22; David Shavit, *The United States in Asia: A Historical Dictionary* (New York: Greenwood Press, 1990), 19.

52. “Daily Report on Foreign Radio Broadcasts,” December 26, 1942, NARA.

53. “Master Analysis File,” December 25, 1942, RG 208, OWI Monitoring Reports Japanese Broadcasts, box 45, NARA. The bombing here likely refers to the Doolittle Raid of April 18, 1942, which targeted Tokyo and its surrounding regions and was the first U.S. air operation to strike the Japanese home islands.

54. *Ibid.*

55. Although the school was officially known as Yamate Jogakuin during the wartime and early postwar periods, I will use the term interchangeably with Ferris Seminary for the sake of convenient reference.

56. Ferisu Jogakuin Chūgakkō Kōtōgakkō, *Ferisu*, 14, 55–56.

57. *Kinrō hōshi* was a system of voluntary labor put into place through a 1941 order (Kokumin Kinrō Hōkoku Kyōryoku Rei), which mandated that all men between the ages of fourteen and forty, and all unmarried women between the ages of fourteen and twenty-five, perform mandatory physical labor on state projects with no compensation.

58. Ferisu Jogakuin Chūgakkō Kōtōgakkō, *Ferisu*, 10.

59. For more on the history of the Tana Unit, see Kanagawa no Naka no Chōsen Henshū Inkaï, ed., *Kanagawa no naka no Chōsen* (Tokyo: Akashi shoten, 1998), 119–134.

60. Ferisu Jogakuin Chūgakkō Kōtōgakkō, *Ferisu*, 45–46.

61. Participants in this meeting included leaders from both religious and educational institutions: Kagawa, Kimura Shigeharu (former president of Rikkyo University), Abe Yoshimune (bishop of the Japan Methodist Church and former leader of the movement for church union), Kimura Kotarō (Baptist minister), Ogawa Kiyozumi (same), Abe Kōzō (same), Ebisawa Akira (Congregational minister), and Kakei Mitsuaki (Waseda University). Kitayama Setsurō, *Rajio Tōkyō II: “Daitōa” e no michi* (Tokyo: Tabata shoten, 1988), 45.

62. Kitayama Setsurō, *Rajio Tōkyō I: Shinjuwan e no michi* (Tokyo: Tabata shoten, 1987), 344. For more context regarding the history of wartime broadcasting within the wider Japanese media landscape, see Gregory J. Kasza, *The State and the Mass Media in Japan, 1918–1945* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 1988), 256–261.

63. These included English, German, Italian, Dutch, Spanish, Russian, Mandarin, Cantonese, Malay, Hokkien, Thai, Tagalog, Portuguese, Arabic, Iranian, Hindi, and Vietnamese. Gordon Daniels, “Japanese Broadcasting in the Pacific War,” in *Shōwa Japan: Political, Economic, and Social History, 1926–1989*, ed. Stephen S. Lage (London: Routledge, 1998), 2:272–279.

64. The lectures were later compiled into a booklet titled *Overseas Broadcasting Lecture Collection* (*Kaigai hōsō kōenshū*). Their contents, however, did not survive the war. *Kaigai hōsō kenkyū gurūpu*, ed., *NHK senji kaigai hōsō* (Tokyo: Hara shobō, 1982), 185.

65. Michi Kawai, *Sliding Doors* (Tokyo: Keisen Jogakuen, 1950), 34. Kawai, who was a member of the 1941 Japanese Christian Fellowship Deputation to the United States, was approached by a state official in the spring of 1945 to appear on an English-language broadcast that had previously featured Kagawa and Kozaki Michio.

66. “Tokyo Broadcast Hints Jap ‘Peace Offensive,’” *Los Angeles Times*, April 22, 1942; “Kagawa: Japanese Christians Praying Day and Night,” *Nichibei shinbun*, April 23, 1942. Cautious American viewers saw the “peace offensive” as a self-serving effort that aimed to protect the territories it had conquered and wished to preserve in the Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere.

67. “Tenkū to kurotsuchi o nuiawasete,” *Hi no hashira*, February 10, 1943. The poem was dated January 10, 1943, and subsequently included as the introduction to a poetry collection by Kagawa, published later that year under the title *Tenkū to kurotsuchi o nuiawasete* (Tokyo: Nichidoku shoin, 1943).

68. Ibid.

69. For more on Japanese and Americans portrayals of the enemy during the Pacific War, see Dower, *War without Mercy*, 192–195, 242–250.

70. “Mushūchaku,” *Hi no hashira*, March 10, 1943.

71. For a detailed treatment of the history of Japanese wartime broadcasting, see Jane Robbins, *Tokyo Calling: Japanese Overseas Radio Broadcasting, 1937–1945* (Fucecchio, Italy: European Press Academic, 2001).

72. “Ai koso fukkatsu ni itaru michi,” *Kagawa Toyohiko zenshū* (Kirisuto shinbunsha, 1964), 24:410–412; Yonezawa Waichirō, *Kagawa Toyohiko no kaigai shiryō* (Tokyo: Meiji Gakuin daigaku Kirisutokyō kenkyūjo, 2006), 18.

73. SNKU, 3:22.

74. Ibid., 23.

75. Ibid., 23.

76. FBI field report on Helen Topping for suspected sedition (New York City), January 1, 1943, RG 65, Records of the FBI, box 81, NARA.

77. FBI field report on Helen Topping for suspected sedition (Cleveland), December 28, 1942, RG 65, Records of the FBI, box 81, NARA. Helen’s speech at Denison took place on February 9 and at the Wapakoneta First Methodist Church on April 12.

78. The investigation originated from a complaint filed with the FBI by a suspicious neighbor in Saint Marys, Ohio. FBI field report (Cincinnati), January 2, 1943, RG 65, box 81, NARA; Carrie V. Nott to J. Edgar Hoover, April 3, 1942, RG 65, box 81, NARA.

79. FBI field report (Cleveland), December 2, 1942, RG 65, box 81, NARA.

80. John Howard, *Concentration Camps on the Home Front: Japanese Americans in the House of Jim Crow* (Chicago: University of Chicago Press, 2008), 74–75.

81. Helen Topping to Dorothy A. Nyland, October 6, 1942, as quoted in FBI field report (Cleveland), December 2, 1942, 6.

82. Kagawa, *Behold the Man*.

83. “Group Will Study Cooperative Principles,” *Daily Tulean Dispatch*, October 19, 1942.

84. “Kagawa-shiki kyōdō kumiai kenkyūkai,” *Tsūrian disupacchi*, October 20, 1942.

85. “Helen Topping: ‘Cooperative Development in Japan’ Is Lecture Topic,” *Tulean Dispatch*, October 30, 1942.

86. FBI field report (San Francisco), June 8, 1943, RG 65, box 82, NARA; Helen Topping, “Co-op Holds Key to True Americanism,” *Daily Tulean Dispatch*, January 5, 1943; “Kyōdō kumiai koso shin no America seishin de aru,” *Tsūrian disupacchi*, January 4, 1943.

87. Kosek, *Acts of Conscience*, 164.

88. Appelbaum, *Kingdom to Commune*, 36–38.

89. Helen Topping, “Kagawa,” *Manana Press*, April 1943.

90. Ibid.

91. On the use of racial imagery in U.S. wartime propaganda, see Dower, *War without Mercy*, 147–180, and *passim*.

92. FBI field report (Indianapolis), October 21, 1942, RG 65, box 81; FBI field report (San Francisco), June 8, 1943, RG 65, box 82, NARA.

93. Robbins, *Tokyo Calling*, 142–150. For more on the history of Tokyo Rose, see Masayo Duus, *Tokyo Rose: Orphan of the Pacific*, trans. Peter Duus (New York: Harper and Row, 1979).

94. Mother Topping, “To Whom It May Concern,” August 25, 1946, TA310-E00030, MSRC. The single carbon copy of this one-page document, which briefly recounts how she became involved in radio broadcasting in wartime Japan, does not give many hints as to its provenance. Given its postwar context, she may have prepared it as a statement explaining her wartime actions to the Occupation authorities.

95. Mother Topping, “A New Day in the Orient,” August 5, 1943, 34/32/7, HFTP. This source, found in the Helen Faville Topping papers at Southern Illinois University, seems to be Helen’s transcription of Mother Topping’s broadcasts, which she made by listening to taped recordings provided to her by government officials. Similar transcripts are cited below.

96. Ibid.

97. “Official Japanese Broadcasts,” December 23, 1943, 34/32/7, HFTP.

98. Ibid.

99. Mother Topping, “Planes for Progress,” January 28, 1944, 34/32/7, HFTP.

100. “Re: Mrs. Henry Topping; Treason,” July 19, 1943, RG 65, box 82, NARA.

101. “Re: Mrs. Henry Topping, Genevieve Faville Topping; Treason,” September 24, 1943, RG 65, box 82, NARA.

102. Ibid.

103. “Broadcasts for Japan: American Woman at 80 Turns Traitor to Her Country,” *Tacoma News Tribune*, August 4, 1943; “80-Year-Old American Woman Speaks on Tokyo Radio for Japan, OWI Reports,” *New York Times*, August 4, 1943; “Captive ‘Messages’ Amuse Chungking,” *New York Times*, February 2, 1944.

104. The call-up here refers to a training drill ordered by local military authorities. Although those who received a C-grade (*heishu*) at the physical exam for conscription—as was the case for Ishiga—did not have to serve in active duty, they were placed in the reserves and were subject to arbitrary call-ups for military drilling at the training officer’s whim. Amemiya, *Kurai tanima*, 293–294.

105. Kagawa, “Kokusai sensō hantaisha dōmei kaichō Jōji Ranzuberi kakka,” November 30, 1943, A101-P00135T, MSRC. This is a draft copy of the letter Kagawa wrote to appease the military police authorities.

106. Schildgen, Kawashima, Amemiya, and others have misidentified the date of this broadcast as October 4, 1944, which is actually the date on which a Japanese version of this lecture was published in the Christian newspaper *Kirisutokyo shinbun*. The original English broadcast had been aired two months earlier.

107. There had also been reports of unknown provenance claiming that children in the United States had been discovered playing with the skulls of Japanese soldiers sent home by U.S. servicemen. President Roosevelt released a statement on August 9, 1944, on his refusal to accept the letter opener gift. Meanwhile, the full-page photograph of the *Life* magazine story provided much fodder for anti-American propaganda in Japan. See Dower, *War without Mercy*, 65, 330.

108. “Roosevelt Refused Object of Human Japanese Bone,” *New York Herald Tribune*, August 10, 1944; “Jap-Bone Letter Opener Shunned by Roosevelt,” *Atlanta Constitution*, August 10, 1944.

109. “Picture of the Week,” *Life*, May 22, 1944, 34–35. In the subsequent issue, a number of *Life* readers condemned the publication of the picture as “revolting and horrible.” “Letters to the Editors,” *Life*, June 12, 1944, 6.

110. “Letters to the Editors,” *Life*, June 12, 1944, 6.

111. “Kore ga beiki da,” *Asahi shinbun*, August 4, 1944; “Hofuri sare kono beiki,” *Asahi shinbun*, August 11, 1944.

112. *Yomiuri Hōchi*, August 4, 1944.

113. “Hi-tōmin fungeki,” *Yamato shinbun*, August 10, 1944.

114. The article was published in the *Missouri Roman Catholic Archdiocese Register* and was reported to Japan on July 27, 1944, by the Dōmei correspondent Hariguchi in Zurich, Switzerland. “Daitōa sensō kankei ikken, jinkotsu sei

pēpā naifu jiken,” Diplomatic Archives of the Ministry of Foreign Affairs of Japan. For a detailed examination of the entire debacle, see James J. Weingartner, “Trophies of War: U.S. Troops and the Mutilation of Japanese War Dead, 1941–1945,” *Pacific Historical Review* 61, no. 1 (February 1, 1992): 53–67.

115. “Commentary,” August 7, 1944, RG 262, Transcripts of Monitored Foreign Broadcasts, box 712, NARA.

116. “Kagawa Sees U.S. as ‘White Grave,’” *FBIS Daily Reports, Asia, Pacific, and East Asia*, August 11, 1944.

117. Ibid.

118. “Commentary,” August 7, 1944, NARA.

119. *Kagawa Toyohiko zenshū* 24:412–413.

120. “Suki o ken ni,” *Kyōdan shinpō*, January 10, 1945, as quoted in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, 355–356. The Old Testament reference to this phrase comes from the Book of Isaiah 2:3–4.

121. Yoshida Yutaka, “Aja-taiheiyō sensō,” in *Shirizu Nihon Kin-Gendaishi* 6 (Tokyo: Iwanami Shoten, 2007), 145–150.

122. For an insightful analysis of how death came to be seen as an honorable practice that had connotations of purity and transcendence in the Japanese context, see Dower, *War without Mercy*, 231–233.

123. Ferisu Jogakuin Chūgakkō Kōtōgakkō, *Ferisu*, 20–21, 46–47.

124. Methamphetamine was first synthesized in Japan in 1893 and was later sold for decades by Dai-Nippon Seiyaku under the brand name Philopon (pronounced *hiropon*). During the Asia-Pacific War, the Japanese military came to consider Philopon an effective stimulant for workers and pilots and increased production for such uses. Jeffrey W. Alexander, *Drinking Bomb and Shooting Meth: Alcohol and Drug Use in Japan* (Ann Arbor, MI: Association for Asian Studies, 2018), 3, 101.

125. The diary entry read “Gunkoku no tame towa ie, bankan kōkō itaru.” Ferisu Jogakuin Chūgakkō Kōtōgakkō, *Ferisu*, 22, 52–53.

126. For a nuanced treatment of the political and military development of the Co-Prosperity Sphere, see Yellen, *Greater East Asia Co-prosperity Sphere*.

127. Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan Sanbika Iinkai, ed., *Kōa sanbika* (Tokyo: Keiseisha, 1943). According to the preface, the hymnal was developed in an effort to reduce the amount of paper used to print the standard-issue hymnbooks.

128. Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan Sanbika Iinkai, *Kōa sanbika*, 3. While the translations are my own, I have consulted Schildgen’s renderings for the first verse. Schildgen, *Toyohiko Kagawa*, 233.

129. “Daitōa kyōeiken no uta,” *Hi no hashira*, July 10, 1943. In his book Jeremy Yellen argues that the Greater East Asia Co-Prosperity Sphere is best understood as a contested ideal interpreted differently by different actors for their own interests and was thus unable to be controlled by any single group or force.

130. Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan Sanbika Iinkai, *Kōa sanbika*, table of contents.

131. NKKSS, 2:288–289.

132. For more on the activities of the East Asia Evangelization Association and the South Pacific Evangelization Band, see Nakamura Satoshi, *Nihonjin ni yoru kaigi senkyō no ayumi* (Tokyo: Inochi no kotobasha, 1995).

133. “‘Daitōa kyōdō sengen’ no Kirisutokyōteki kaishaku,” as quoted in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, 350–353; “Kōa shūkyō dōmei ni kansuru ketsugi,” June 25, 1943, 03–14, Kozaki Michio Papers, Doshisha University School of Theology (hereafter cited as KMP).

134. Ono, *Nihon Purotesutanto kyōkaishi (ge)*, 173.

135. “Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan yori Daitōa kyōeiken ni aru Kirisuto kyōto ni okuru shokan,” April 1944, 03–14, KMP. The top winners of the contest were given prize money: 1,000 yen for first place, 500 yen for second place, and 200 yen for third place.

136. Ibid.

137. Ibid.

138. The Greater East Asia Ministry was a cabinet-level agency created in 1942 to administer Japan’s overseas mandates and Occupied territories. It inherited many of the functions of the former Ministry of Colonial Affairs (Takumushō). The Central China Sino-Japanese Christian League, on the other hand, comprised over fourteen city-level religious councils that included both Japanese and Chinese Christians among their leadership. See Matsutani, “Chūgoku senryō chiiki ni taisuru Nihon no shūkyō seisaku,” 137.

139. “Taibō: Kagawa Toyohiko shi rai-Nei,” *Chōkō seinen*, December 20, 1944, 03–29, KMP. *Chōkō seinen* was the official organ of the Japanese YMCA in Nanjing.

140. For a detailed overview of Kagawa’s lecture tour, see Matsutani Yōsuke, “Kagawa Toyohiko to Chūgoku: ‘Shūkyō shisetsu’ mondai o megutte,” *Kirisutokyō Shigaku* 67 (2013): 100–133.

141. Hani Setsuko, *Tsuma no kokoro: Watashi no ayunda michi* (Tokyo: Iwanami shoten, 1979), 157. Hani Setsuko (1903–1987) was a liberal feminist educator and also a Christian. Her husband was the famous Marxist historian Hani Gorō (1901–1983).

142. Matsutani, “Kagawa Toyohiko to Chūgoku,” 108–114; Luo Guanzong, ed., *Qianshi buwang houshi zhishi: Diguo zhuyi liyong Jidujiao qinlie Zhongguo shishi shuping* (Beijing: Zongjiao wenhua chubanshe, 2003), 335–336. This edited volume contains the account of Luo Guanzong, a Chinese Christian leader who had heard Kagawa make a speech at a Shanghai church during his 1944 visit.

143. Horii, *Haisen zengo*, 33–35.

144. Enomoto, *Erumu no kane*, 54.

145. Ibid., 47; Nagaoka, *Shinshūkyō to sōryokusen*, 180.

146. While in Harbin, Kagawa gave a lecture titled “Pioneer Spirit and Religious Spirit” at the Japanese Episcopal Church of Harbin (Harubin Seikōkai): “Kagawa Toyohiko shi tokubetsu shūkai,” *Harubin Seikōkai kugatsu geppō*, September 1942, Saint Andrew’s University Archives, Osaka.

147. “Manshū daini Taiheichin Kirisutokyō kaitakudan nyūshokusha boshū yōkō,” October 5, 1944, 03–14, KMP.

148. “Teito sokai to Manshūkoku kaitaku,” October 5, 1944, 03–14, KMP.

149. Thomas R. H. Havens, *Valley of Darkness: The Japanese People and World War Two* (New York: Norton, 1978), 155.

150. “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakumura Musashino kunrenjo dai 9-kai kunren naiyō,” November 21, 1944, 03–14, KMP.

151. Ishihama Mikaru, “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakumura ni itaru michi: Dan’in no shōgen,” in *Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakumura to Kagawa Toyohiko*, 27–28.

152. Yamamuro, *Kimera*, 351–352.

153. Enomoto, *Erumu no kane*, 73–76.

154. Over six hundred thousand Japanese were detained in Soviet labor camps after World War II, of which roughly sixty thousand lost their lives due to the harsh conditions. Yamamuro, *Kimera*, 370. For a study on the experiences and remembrances of those who were captured, see Andrew E. Barshay, *The Gods Left First: The Captivity and Repatriation of Japanese POWs in Northeast Asia, 1945–56* (Berkeley: University of California Press, 2013).

155. This account of the aftermath of the Chōreishi settlement is based on the recollections of Enomoto in *Erumu no kane*, 83–130. The Taiheichin settlement, on the other hand, was left with only four members after the military call-ups—two adults, one teenager, and one infant—out of which only one woman was able to return to Japan in July 1946.

156. *Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakumura to Kagawa Toyohiko*, ii.

157. The total population of Japanese residents in Manchuria at the time of defeat was approximately 1.55 million. Yamamuro, *Kimera*, 370.

158. The leader of Chōreishi, Horii, proudly recalled that his Christian settlement was spared bloodshed during their final ransacking at the hands of the Chinese since they had a reputation among the locals for being peaceful and refusing to bear arms. Horii, *Haisen zengo*, 85.

159. Enomoto, *Erumu no kane*, 83.

160. “Yogensha Erishiya no yuigon,” *Hi no hashira*, August 1945. Since *Hi no hashira* was a monthly publication that came out on the tenth day of each month, these comments would have been made before the invasion of the Soviet Union on August 9.

161. *Ibid.*

162. In a manner similar to the Soviet invasion in Manchukuo, Japanese military leaders treated the Battle of Okinawa, which began in April 1945, as a stalling exercise, placing more emphasis on drawing out the fighting than actually protecting the island’s civilian population. As a result, nearly as many Okinawan civilians (94,000) lost their lives as military casualties (94,136). This partially stemmed from the deep-rooted prejudice against Okinawa harbored by soldiers and officials from the main islands. Yoshida, *Ajia Taiheiyō sensō*, 181–183.



163. While a June 1945 article in the *Christian Century* noted reports that Kagawa was broadcasting anti-American propaganda, the author expressed doubt over whether the speaker was actually the Japanese leader. “Kagawa on the Radio,” June 6, 1945, *Christian Century*.

164. “Yogensha Erishiya no yuigon,” *Hi no hashira*, August 1945.

#### CHAPTER 5: THE RECOVERY OF RELIGION DURING THE POSTWAR OCCUPATION

1. Douglas Horton, ed., *The Return to Japan: Report of the Christian Deputation to Japan, October–November, 1945* (New York: Friendship Press, 1946), 6. This is the official report of the four-person delegation, which included two former Japan missionaries, James C. Baker and Luman J. Shafer, and two prominent leaders of the Federal Council of Churches of Christ in America, Douglas Horton and Walter Van Kirk.

2. Miyakoda Tsunetarō, *Nihon Kirisutokyō gōdō shikō* (Tokyo: Kyōbunkan, 1967), 266–267. This is a recollection of one of the Japanese Christians who was present at the meeting.

3. Thomas, “Religions Policies during the Allied Occupation of Japan,” 275–286; Thomas, *Faking Liberties*.

4. Dower, for example, notes the more cynical observation of Kawakami Tetsutarō, who in October 1945 described the U.S. policy as one of “rationed-out freedom” that was little more than a one-sided imposition by the victors. John W. Dower, *Embracing Defeat: Japan in the Wake of World War II* (New York: W. W. Norton/The New Press, 1999), 69–73.

5. Moore, *Soldier of God*, 32–34. See also Thomas, *Faking Liberties*, 176–180.

6. This point challenges Sheldon Garon’s argument that SCAP’s intervention decisively severed the triangular relationship that existed between the state, established religions, and new religions in the prewar and wartime periods. Garon, *Molding Japanese Minds*, 206–207.

7. “Communication from Tomita,” August 28, 1945, in *Jinja mondai to Kirisutokyō*, 356–357.

8. Ibid.

9. For more on the history of the East Asia League movement, see Mori Take-maro and Ōkado Masakatsu, *Chiiki ni okeru senji to sengo: Shōnai chihō no nōson, toshi, shakai undō* (Tokyo: Nihon keizai hyōronsha), 1996; and G. Clinton Godart, “Nichirenism, Utopianism, and Modernity: Rethinking Ishiwar Kan-ji’s East Asia League Movement,” *Japanese Journal of Religious Studies* 42, no. 2 (2015): 235–274.

10. Ishiwar Kanji, “Zenkokumin imazo mōsei ichiban,” *Yomiuri Hōchi*, August 28, 1945.

11. Ishiwar first saw Kagawa in 1920 when the latter went to give a lecture in Hankow, China, where Ishiwar was stationed at the time. Although he



was a devout follower of Nichiren Buddhism, Ishiwara recalled Kagawa's talk leaving a strong impression on him. Ishiwara Kanji, *Ishiwara Kanji senshū*, ed. Reiichirō Tamai (Tokyo: Tamairabo, 1985), 1:124–126.

12. Higashikuni Naruhiko, *Higashikuni nikki: Nihon gekidōki no biroku* (Tokyo: Tokuma shoten, 1968), 224; Hosaka Masayasu, *Haisen zengo no Nihonjin* (Tokyo: Asahi shinbunsha, 1989), 172.

13. In the interview, Ishiwara stated that the dramatic decline in national morality was the biggest cause of Japan's defeat and called for the self-examination and the total repentance (*sōzange*) of all its citizens. Ishiwara Kanji, "Haisen Nihon no tadoru beki dōhyō," in *Ishiwara Kanji senshū*, 5:260. While many previous works have argued that this idea originated from Kagawa, Ishiwara's statement about *sōzange* predates anything written or said by Kagawa.

14. Franziska Seraphim, *War Memory and Social Politics in Japan, 1945–2005* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Asia Center), 2006, 1.

15. "Higashikuni Naruhiko shushō kaiken; Nihon saiken no shishin o shiji; kokunai danketsu wa sōzange kara," *Mainichi shinbun*, August 30, 1945. For a discussion of the widespread state of psychic collapse found in postsurrender Japan, known as the *kyodatsu* condition, see Dower, *Embracing Defeat*, 87–120.

16. The quote is from a special feature in the magazine *Kikan gendai*, on the voices of people from around the country in the immediate aftermath of the surrender. Hosaka, *Haisen zengo no Nihonjin*, 173–174.

17. "Makkāsā sōshireikan ni yosu," *Kagawa Toyohiko zenshū*, 24:413–416. The letter was later reprinted as "Plea for Sympathetic Treatment Made to MacArthur by Nippon Social Worker," *Nippon Times*, September 2, 1945.

18. "Kagawa sensei no yokogao," *Hi no hashira*, September 1945, 4.

19. "Kokusai heiwa kyōkai o setsuritsu; Kagawa shi no teishō," *Asahi shinbun*, September 16, 1945.

20. The inaugural body meeting of the Moral Revival Society did not take place until late October. "Initial Meeting Held for Morality Society; Kagawa Organizes New Group for Peace," *Nippon Times*, October 25, 1945.

21. "Kagawa sensei no yokogao," *Hi no hashira*, September 1945, 4.

22. As cabinet adviser, Kagawa escorted representatives from both groups to the prime ministerial residence for this meeting. NKKSS, 3:43–44.

23. Endō Yoichi, "Tenkō to zange: Kagawa Toyohiko ni okeru senzen to sengo no setten," *Meiji Gakuin daigaku shakaigaku/shakai fukushigaku kenkyū*, no. 147 (2017): 84–85.

24. "Dōgi to heiwa no michi," *Kagawa Toyohiko zenshū*, 24:416–419.

25. *Ibid.*, 417–418.

26. *Ibid.*, 418. This phrase came right after Emperor Hirohito's other famous line, "Endure the unendurable and suffer what is not sufferable" (*Taegataki o tae, shinobigataki o shinobi*).

27. Parts of the speech were reprinted the following day in “All Japanese Equally Responsible for Atrocities, Declares Kagawa,” *Nippon Times*, September 25, 1945.

28. William P. Woodard, *The Allied Occupation of Japan, 1945–1952, and Japanese Religions* (Leiden: E. J. Brill), 292.

29. Dower, *Embracing Defeat*, 81.

30. Higashikuni, *Higashikuni nikki*, 246–247.

31. At the time of writing, the Higashikuni cabinet’s fifty-four-day tenure remains the shortest in modern Japanese history.

32. Mother Topping to Helen, September 26, 1945, Coll. 34/32/7, HFTP. This letter was included in a 1945 Christmas message compiled and sent out by Helen Topping to her friends.

33. Ibid.

34. Miyakoda Tsunetarō, “Japanese Churches: Despite Restrictions United Protestant Body Sticks Together,” *Nippon Times*, September 27, 1945.

35. Ibid.

36. Horton, *Return to Japan*, 4.

37. Ibid., 12–13.

38. “The Visit of the American Religious Leaders,” *Nippon Times*, November 1, 1945. The editorial was reprinted in full in the Horton, *Return to Japan* report.

39. Ferisu Jogakuin Chūgakkō Kōtōgakkō, *Ferisu*, 28–29, 57.

40. Moore, *Soldier of God*, 40.

41. Horton, *Return to Japan*, 20–21.

42. Ibid., 27; Moore, *Soldier of God*, 41.

43. The idea that Hirohito was not centrally involved in leading Japan into war has been challenged by subsequent scholarship. See, for example, Bix, *Hirohito and the Making of Modern Japan*.

44. “American Discusses Position of Throne: Majority for Recognition of Imperial Household, Dr. Shafer Tells Nippon Times,” *Nippon Times*, October 31, 1945; Moore, *Soldier of God*, 41–42.

45. “Heiwa utau Xmasu,” *Yomiuri Hōchi*, December 22, 1945.

46. “From Sherry Moran in Tokyo to Ted de Bary in Honolulu,” December 23, 1945, in Otis Cary, ed., *War-Wasted Asia: Letters, 1945–46* (Tokyo: Kodansha International, 1975), 289–290.

47. On December 22 and 23, for example, a U.S.-Japan Christmas Concert was held at the University of Tokyo’s famous Yasuda auditorium. Donald Keene, ed. *Kinō no senchi kara: Beigun Nihongo shōkō ga mita shūsen chokugo no Ajia*, trans. Shirō Matsumiya (Tokyo: Chūōkōron shinsha, 2006), 388; “Nichi-Bei Kurisumasu ongaku taikai,” *Asahi shinbun*, December 19, 1945.

48. “Japanese Christians Free to Fete Xmas; Cooperating with Occupation Forces in Religious Service, Festivities,” *Nippon Times*, December 23, 1945.

49. GHQ, short for General Headquarters, was the commonly used term among the Japanese to refer to the SCAP bureaucracy. I will use the terms “GHQ” and “SCAP” interchangeably to refer to the Occupation authorities.

50. *Stripes*, as the paper is commonly known, provided news to American military forces fighting in Europe during World Wars I and II, with new editions following the troops wherever they went in large numbers. Cindy Elmore, “Communists at the ‘Stars and Stripes’: American ‘Disloyalty’ or Something Else?,” *American Journalism* 32, no. 4 (Fall 2015): 389.

51. Barnard Rubin, “Under Christian Guise, This Jap Fostered War,” *Stars and Stripes* (Pacific edition), December 20, 1945.

52. Ibid.

53. The Japan Socialist Party was founded out of a merger of broadly three factional-ideological groupings with prewar roots: the Rōnō-kei (Labor-Farmer Group) on the left, the Nichirō-kei (Japan Labor Group) in the center, and the Shamin-kei (Social Democratic Group) on the right. Kagawa was chosen as one of three elders (*chōrō*) to oversee its inaugural ceremony, along with Abe Isoo (1865–1949) and Takano Iwasaburō (1871–1949). J. A. A. Stockwin, ed., *Dictionary of the Modern Politics of Japan* (London: RoutledgeCurzon, 2003), 127; Hara, *Sengoshi no naka no Nihon Shakaitō*, 17.

54. Before joining the U.S. Army, Rubin had worked for the *Daily Worker*, an American Communist newspaper based in New York. For an analysis of Rubin’s journalistic output during his short tenure at the *Stars and Stripes*, see Elmore, “Communists at the Stars and Stripes,” 405–407.

55. Besides the *Yomiuri Hōchi*, which printed a few translated excerpts with minimal commentary, no other major Japanese daily covered the news. “‘Motomoto gisō no takumina sensōya’; Seijōkishi, Kagawa Toyohiko shi o kōgeki,” *Yomiuri Hōchi*, December 22, 1945.

56. MacArthur believed, for example, that the Japanese lacked a core of spiritual values and insisted that only Christianity would be able to fill the “spiritual vacuum,” thus placing them on the path toward demilitarization and democratization. For an analysis of MacArthur’s personal religiosity and the effect it had on his political leadership, see Seto, “Filling the Spiritual Vacuum,” 25–69.

57. Kagawa to MacArthur, October 22, 1945, A310–00042, MSRC.

58. Kagawa to MacArthur, February 4, 1946, RG-10, box 11, fol. 5, MacArthur Memorial Museum (hereafter cited as MacMem). Kagawa had been fighting for the abolishment of licensed prostitution since the 1920s, in collaboration with groups such as the Woman’s Christian Temperance Union. Kagawa Toyohiko, *Kōshō seido no bakai* (Osaka: Kirisutokyō Fujin Kyōfūkai Osaka shibu, 1923).

59. In response to Washington’s call to start an investigation into the emperor’s war responsibility, MacArthur issued a strongly worded defense of Hirohito on January 25, 1946, warning that his indictment would cause a “tremendous convulsion among the Japanese people” that would lead to a breakdown of social stability, necessitating the deployment of at least one million additional troops

to be maintained for “an indefinite number of years.” U.S. Department of State, “General of the Army Douglas MacArthur to the Chief of Staff, United States Army (Eisenhower),” *Foreign Relations of the United States, 1946, The Far East*, vol. 8, 894.001 Hirohito/1—2546: Telegram, January 25, 1946, accessed June 8, 2017, <https://history.state.gov/historicaldocuments/frus1946v08/d308>.

60. Elmore, “Communists at the ‘Stars and Stripes,’” 395.

61. “Censors Cut Kagawa Items, GIs Charge,” *Austin American Statesman*, February 12, 1946; “Columns on Kagawa Censored, Rubin Says,” *Stars and Stripes*, February 13, 1946.

62. “Kagawa, Toyohiko—Biographical File, 1945–1952,” RG 331, Records of Allied Operational and Occupation Headquarters, box 2275, NARA.

63. “Toyohiko Kagawa, Internal Security,” November 2, 1950, RG 65, Records of the FBI, box 79, NARA; “Columns on Kagawa Censored, Rubin Says,” *Stars and Stripes*, February 13, 1946; “4 GI Writers Ask Ouster in Protest: Seek Reassignment as Result of Removal of Two Others,” *New York Times*, March 4, 1946. Such protests were also issued from stateside leftist organs, such as the *Daily Worker*. “Kagawa—Is He MacArthur’s Pal?,” *Daily Worker*, March 4, 1946.

64. “Pettus, Rubin Ruled Loyal in I-G Inquiry but Removal from Newspaper Is Upheld,” *Stars and Stripes*, March 3, 1946.

65. *Ibid.* Rubin and Pettus, for their part, were unsatisfied with the inspector general’s report. Rubin claimed that he had obtained full permission to use the quoted FCC material for his article, although he did admit to four years’ membership in the American Communist Party prior to his induction into the army. Pettus, on the other hand, flatly denied any membership in the Communist Party and implied that their removal was politically motivated.

66. Prior to the war, Kagawa had given a luncheon lecture at the House of Peers speaker’s official residence, on March 15, 1924. The topic of the talk was on “The Scientific Basis of Poverty Prevention Schemes.” See Kagawa Toyohiko, “Bōhinsaku no kagakuteki kiso ni tsuite,” in *Kizokuin teirei gosankai kōenshū (dai ni)* (exclusively distributed to House of Peers members, 1924).

67. Hugh Deane, “Toyohiko Kagawa: Japan’s Lost Leader,” *Christian Register* 125, no. 4 (April 1946): 158–159.

68. The Brumbaugh article was published in *Christian Register* 125, no. 4 (June 1946): 256, as cited in Robert Schildgen, “How Race Mattered: Kagawa Toyohiko in the United States,” *Journal of American-East Asian Relations* 5, no. 3/4 (Spring 1996): 251.

69. Emily Hinz (Salina, Kansas) to J. Edgar Hoover, July 17, 1946, RG 65 Records of the FBI, box 79, fol. 100–041138, NARA.

70. “Declaration,” May 21, 1946, 07–24–01, KMP; Kozaki Michio to MacArthur, May 21, 1946, 07–24–01, KMP.

71. “Kagawa Supporters Uphold His Activities,” *Nippon Times*, May 2, 1946; “Kagawa Defended by Tokyo Church,” *Stars and Stripes*, May 26, 1946; “Kagawa shi hibō e kōgi,” *Kirisuto shinbun*, June 2, 1946.

72. No public or private sources indicate that Kagawa ever directly addressed the SCAP investigation into his wartime record.

73. “Seirei kōrinbi kishi zenkoku Kirisutokyō taikai teito ni,” *Kirisuto shinbun*, May 11, 1946.

74. “Kirisutokyō zenkoku taikai junjo,” June 9, 1946, 07–23, KMP.

75. “Declaration, All Japan Christian Convention,” June 9, 1946, 34/11/1, HFTP.

76. Kagawa to Kozaki Michio, April 1946, 07–23, KMP.

77. “Outline of the Three Year Evangelistic Campaign,” *Japan for Christ*, January 1947, 15–17.

78. The population of Japan in 1945 was roughly 72 million, while the number of Christians was around 330,000. Ono, *Nihon Purotesutanto kyōkaishi (ge)*, 210.

79. “Outline of the Three Year Evangelistic Campaign,” *Japan for Christ*, January 1947, 15, 18.

80. “Memorandum to Colonel Wood—Screening of Kagawa Toyohiko,” September 19, 1946, RG 331, Records of Allied Operational and Occupation Headquarters, box 2275, NARA.

81. *Ibid.*, 1.

82. *Ibid.*, 10.

83. Helen Topping to Paul Hutchinson, June 10, 1946, 34/11/1, HFTP.

84. Uemura’s main reason for traveling to the United States was to attend a meeting of the Foreign Missions Conference of North America in Grand Rapids, Michigan, held in May 1946.

85. “Says Kagawa Is People’s Leader,” *Colorado Times (Kakushū jiji)*, July 24, 1946.

86. “Memorandum to Colonel Wood,” 10–11.

87. Risk to MacArthur, January 10, 1947, RG-5, box 49, fol. 4, MacMem.

88. MacArthur to Risk, February 8, 1947, RG-5, box 49, fol. 4, MacMem.

89. *Ibid.*

90. Courtney Whitney, “Memorandum for the Record; Approval of Appointment of Kagawa to the House of Peers,” January 31, 1947, RG 331, box 2275, NARA.

91. *Ibid.*

92. “D.R.N.—Memo for the Record,” RG-5, box 49, fol. 4, MacMem.

93. *Ibid.*

94. *Ibid.*

95. “The New Japan,” October 1948, 6–123, Eddy Papers, YDSL.

96. *Ibid.* For the influence of New Deal liberalism on Occupation policies, see Dower, *Embracing Defeat*, 220–221.

97. *Shin Nihon kensetsu Kirisuto undō shūhō*, vol. 6, September 28, 1946, 07–23, KMP.

98. Dower makes this argument by pointing out the two most popular slogans of the postwar period—“Construct a Nation of Peace” (Heiwa kokka kensetsu) and “Construct a Nation of Culture” (Bunka kokka kensetsu)—and comparing them to the ways in which Japanese citizens had been socialized to adapt themselves to drastic change since the beginning of their country’s modern era. Dower, *Embracing Defeat*, 176–180.

99. The paper originated with Kagawa’s idea of “spread[ing] the gospel over non-Christian people” and was administered by his friend and former Manchukuo propaganda official Mutō Tomio. The Kirisuto Shimbunsha, “The Vanguard for Christianizing Japan,” 1956, 2/3/6, UTS.

100. “Manshū Kirisutokyō kaitakudan kaeru: Heiwa-kyō kensetsu no yume munashi,” *Kirisuto shinbun*, October 19, 1946.

101. Kazuko (who changed her last name to Enomoto after her marriage) recounts this episode in her postwar memoir. Enomoto, *Erumu no kane*, 128–133.

102. “Tokkō taiin mo ai no shūkyō e: Seisho gakkō de moto shōkō ra 15 mei kaishin,” *Kirisuto shinbun*, November 23, 1946.

103. Ibid.

104. “Motoori Norinaga no shison, Kirisutokyō ni nyūshin,” *Kirisuto shinbun*, December 14, 1946.

105. The journal was published by Nichibei Shoin, an English-language press located in the Setagawa Ward of Tokyo. I have accessed these issues from microform copies held at the National Diet Library of Japan, the originals of which are preserved in the Gordon W. Prange Collection at the University of Maryland.

106. “The Editorial Committee,” *Japan for Christ*, January 1947, Gordon W. Prange Collection (hereafter cited as GWPC).

107. “Editorial,” *Japan for Christ*, January 1947, 1–2.

108. “The Best Seller of 1946,” *Japan for Christ*, January 1947, 2.

109. “Beikokusei no seisho o kenjō,” *Asahi shinbun*, February 2, 1947. For more on MacArthur’s patronage of American Bible distribution groups in Occupied Japan, see Seto, “Filling the Spiritual Vacuum,” 70–122.

110. Amos Purnell Bailey, “At Mother Topping’s,” *Japan for Christ*, January 1947, 9–11. Besides providing the venue for the fellowship meetings, Mother Topping used her residence to entertain U.S. officials, chaplains, journalists, and Red Cross workers. According to her good friend and founder of Keisen Girls’ School, Kawai Michi, the Kagawa Fellowship House functioned as a community hall of sorts, where people gathered to exchange greetings, food, goods, and even conduct English lessons for the Japanese. Kawai Michi on Mrs. Henry Topping, 1946, 34/32/7, HFTP.

111. Bailey, “At Mother Topping’s,” 10–11.

112. “Kōzoku danwakai,” *Mainichi shinbun*, December 22, 1945.

113. “Heika 4 senkyōshi o ekken,” *Kirisuto shinbun*, January 18, 1947. This university would later become the International Christian University, which was established in 1949 with support from the imperial family and MacArthur.

114. “Nihon ni okeru shakai jigyō no genzai oyobi shōrai,” *Kagawa Toyobiko zenshū*, 24:422–429.

115. “Tobei 1-nen no Uemura joshi kaeru,” *Yomiuri shinbun*, April 13, 1947.

116. Moore, *Soldier of God*, 114–115.

117. Following his father Hirohito’s death on January 7, 1989, Akihito succeeded the chrysanthemum throne. He would go on to have a thirty-year reign as the emperor Heisei until his scheduled abdication, due to age and declining health, on April 30, 2019.

118. “Saiken tojō no Nihon ni Vu fujin no kōken o kitai,” *Kirisuto shinbun*, September 14, 1946. For Elizabeth Gray Vining’s personal account of this period, see Vining, *Return to Japan* (Philadelphia: Lippincott, 1960).

119. Hara Kei (term: 1918–1921) was the first Catholic prime minister of Japan. Scholars also speculate that Yoshida Shigeru—who preceded Katayama in the prime ministerial post from May 22, 1946, to May 24, 1947—may have been a secret Catholic. Kevin Michael Doak, ed., *Xavier’s Legacies: Catholicism in Modern Japanese Culture* (Vancouver: University of British Columbia Press, 2011), 4. For a detailed biographical treatment of Yoshida, see John W. Dower, *Empire and Aftermath: Yoshida Shigeru and the Japanese Experience, 1878–1954* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1979).

120. Matsuoka had been the most recent chairman of the prewar Sōdōmei labor union federation.

121. “Katayama shin shushō no kettei, Ma gensui seimei,” *Yomiuri shinbun*, May 25, 1947; Woodard, *Allied Occupation of Japan*, 356–357.

122. “Fueta Kirisutokyōto,” *Asahi shinbun*, January 22, 1947; “Takamatta Kirisutokyō e no kanshin,” *Yomiuri shinbun*, June 17, 1947.

123. Nakamura, *Nihon Kirisutokyō senkyōshi*, 289.

124. “Buddhist Monks Resolved to Become Christians,” *Japan for Christ*, October 1947, 23–34. There were even reports of an entire village, formerly adhering to Buddhism, deciding to convert to Christianity. Ono, *Nihon Purotesutanto kyōkaishi (ge)*, 212.

125. Of the total, Kagawa accounted for 368,009 attendees, of which 64,847 turned in decision cards. “Japan for Christ Three Years’ Campaign: The First Year’s Harvest Announced,” *Japan for Christ*, October 1947, 24–26.

126. Ibid.

127. For a list of the various areas to which the appellation “new” (*shin* or *atarashii*) was applied in postwar publications, see Dower, *Embracing Defeat*, 177–178.

128. “Zenkoku ni ‘heiwa matsuri: Shin kenpō issshūnen,’” *Yomiuri shinbun*, November 4, 1947.

129. A number of the smaller groups, including the Salvation Army, did break away from the Kyōdan to recreate their prewar organizations. Ono, *Nihon Purotesutanto kyōkaishi (ge)*, 218.



130. With Tomita's resignation, the *tōrisha* system was abolished, making Kozaki the chairman of the general body (*sōkai gichō*). "Christian Movements in Japan," *Japan for Christ*, January 1947, 12.

131. Kagawa, "Spiritual Revolution Vital to Realize True Democracy: Christian Leader Warns Against Rising Tide of Materialism in Japan," *Nippon Times*, August 15, 1948.

132. Ibid.

133. The issue of moral delinquency had been raised in an earlier issue of *Japan for Christ*. "Editorial," *Japan for Christ*, February 1948, 1–2. For an excellent analysis of the subversive and symbolic potential of the *panpan*, see Dower, *Embracing Defeat*, 132–139.

134. Kagawa, "Spiritual Revolution Vital." For a discussion of the notion of purity in Japanese wartime propaganda, see Dower, *War without Mercy*, 203–233.

135. Kagawa, "Spiritual Revolution Vital." The "ancient armed bonzes" referred to the Buddhist warrior monks who were typically attached to a particular monastery and engaged in battle over various religious and political disputes.

136. "Editorial," *Japan for Christ*, February 1948, 1–2.

137. Kagawa, "Spiritual Revolution Vital."

138. "Construction Works Are Payable in Dollars," *Japan for Christ*, June 1948, 35.

139. "Names and Addresses of Protestant Missionaries in Japan," *Japan for Christ*, June 1948, 21–34.

140. The Protestant churches counted a total of 234,356 members in 1953, compared to 232,463 in 1939. Nihon Kirisuto Kyōdan Senkyō Kenkyūjo, ed., *Purotesutanto hyakunenshi kenkyū*, 116–120.

141. The National Police Reserve was reorganized as the Japan Ground Self-Defense Force in 1954. The Maritime Security Force, established in 1952, was similarly reconstituted as the Japan Maritime Self-Defense Force in 1954.

142. Dower, *Embracing Defeat*, 269–273.

143. "Shūkyō no dōkō hihan," *Yomiuri shinbun*, September 15, 1947.

#### CHAPTER 6: THE INTERNATIONALIST IN A BIPOLAR WORLD

1. Koshio Kanji, "Sekai renpō umi no oya, sodate no oya," *Kagawa Toyohiko zenshū geppō* 21, May 1964.

2. Ibid. The office was located in the Kanda-Nishikichō District of Chiyoda Ward.

3. "Miss Flora J. Cooke's Letter Sent Out with 1947 Kagawa Calendar," January 1, 1947, 34/11/4, UTS; *Kagawa Calendar*, 1948, 1/1/3, UTS. Seven thousand calendars were ordered for 1947. It is unclear how big a role JACL played in this process.

4. *Kagawa Calendar*, 1949, 1/1/3, UTS.



5. In a 1947 letter, Kagawa expressed his desire for Helen to return to Japan, as well as his gratitude toward “your most remarkable mother” (referring to Mother Topping). Kagawa to Helen Topping, May 27, 1947, 34/11/5, HFTP.

6. “Travel to U.S. of Dr. Toyohiko Kagawa,” May 6, 1948, MacMem.

7. Kagawa to Cochrane, June 24, 1949; Cochrane to MacArthur, July 25, 1949; Cochrane to Kagawa, July 25, 1949; Col. R. M. Levy to Cochrane, August 20, 1949; Cochrane to Col. R. M. Levy, September 26, 1949, MacMem.

8. He would go on to make one final tour in 1954.

9. Daniel A. Poling, “Japan’s Two Men of Destiny,” *Christian Herald*, March 1950, 1/5/3, UTS. On the circulation of the *Christian Herald*, see Coffman, *Christian Century and the Rise of the Protestant Mainline*, 69.

10. Poling, “Japan’s Two Men of Destiny.”

11. Ibid.

12. Ibid.

13. Lumen J. Shafer to MacArthur, May 4, 1950, MacMem.

14. “Dr. Toyohiko Kagawa: MacArthur’s Messiah,” *Rafu shinpō*, July 29, 1950.

15. “Gets Honorary Degree,” *Nippon Times*, September 20, 1950; “Kagawa States Japan Requires More Bibles,” *Nippon Times*, October 18, 1950.

16. “Christian Leader to Hold Sermons,” *Rafu shinpō*, July 28, 1950.

17. MacArthur was relieved for publicly advocating a more aggressive military policy in the Korean War than President Truman had wanted. Dower, *Embracing Defeat*, 548.

18. Moore, *Soldier of God*, 114–115.

19. “Seikyō katsudō de mezashita heiwa,” Co-op Kobe, accessed January 20, 2022, <https://www.kobe.coop.or.jp/about/toyohiko/peace.php>.

20. Nisseikyō Sōritsu 50 Shūnen Kinen Rekishi Hensan Linkai, ed., *Gendai Nihon seikyō undōshi (jō)* (Tokyo: Nihon seikatsu kyōdō kumiai rengōkai, 2002), 201–203.

21. Allan A. Hunter, *Courage in Both Hands* (New York: Fellowship of Reconciliation, 1951).

22. Appelbaum, *Kingdom to Commune*, 100–101.

23. Glenda Sluga, *Internationalism in the Age of Nationalism* (Philadelphia: University of Pennsylvania Press, 2013), 79–87.

24. Konrad Lawson, “Reimagining the Post-War International Order: The World Federalism of Ozaki Yukio and Kagawa Toyohiko,” in *The Institution of International Order: From the League of Nations to the United Nations*, ed. Simon Jackson and Alanna O’Malley (London: Routledge, 2018), 183–205.

25. Emery Reves, *The Anatomy of Peace* (New York: Harper and Brothers, 1945), 282–284.

26. Joseph Preston Baratta, *The Politics of World Federation: United Nations, UN Reform, Atomic Control* (Westport, CT: Praeger, 2004), 1:3.

27. Committee to Frame a World Constitution, “Preliminary Draft of a World Constitution,” *Common Cause* 1 (1948): 1–40.

28. Gallup polls in 1946 and 1947 showed that a majority of Americans replied yes to the question: “Do you think the United Nations organization should be strengthened to make it a world government with power to control the armed forces of all nations, including the U.S.?” Lawson, “Reimagining the Post-War International Order,” 184, 201.

29. “The Montreux Declaration,” CVCE.eu, accessed January 25, 2022, [https://www.cvce.eu/en/obj/the\\_montreux\\_declaration\\_23\\_august\\_1947-en-adf279f7-80a4-4855-9215-48a5184328aa.html](https://www.cvce.eu/en/obj/the_montreux_declaration_23_august_1947-en-adf279f7-80a4-4855-9215-48a5184328aa.html).

30. Sekai Renpō Kensetsu Dōmei, ed., *Sekai renpō undō 20 nen shi* (Tokyo: Sekai renpō kensetsu dōmei, 1969), 102–104.

31. JAWF began self-publishing a separate journal, titled *Sekai renpō* (World federation), which inherited the role of the movement’s official organ in 1955.

32. Tom Phuong Le, *Japan’s Aging Peace: Pacifism and Militarism in the Twenty-First Century* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2021), 169–170.

33. “Ozaki Yukio no ‘Sekai renpō kensetsu ni kansuru ketsugian,’” World Federalist Movement of Japan, 2007, accessed January 23, 2022, [www.wfmjapan.org/data/data\\_b03.html](http://www.wfmjapan.org/data/data_b03.html).

34. Lawson, “Reimagining the Post-War International Order,” 191.

35. In the United States, Senator Glen H. Taylor presented Senate Resolution 183 on October 24, 1945, which called for U.S. delegates to the UN to take steps to establish a world federation. In Britain, the Labour MP Henry Osborne cofounded the Parliamentary Group for World Government in 1946.

36. “Obituary: Henry Osborne,” *Independent*, March 20, 1996.

37. Koshio, “Sekai renpō umi no oya, sodate no oya.”

38. Wm. Theodore de Bary, Carol Gluck, and Arthur E. Tiedemann, *Sources of Japanese Tradition*, vol. 2, 1600 to 2000 (New York: Columbia University Press, 2005), 1082–1083.

39. “Nihon no anzen hoshō to sekai renpō undō,” March 1952, *Sekai kokka*.

40. Sekai Renpō Kensetsu Dōmei, *Sekai renpō undō 20 nen shi*, 141.

41. *Ibid.*, 144.

42. The Hiroshima Maidens received support from figures such as Reverend Tanimoto Kiyoshi and *Saturday Review* editor Norman Cousins, who arranged for them to travel to the Mount Sinai Hospital in New York to receive restorative plastic surgery in 1955. For more on the Hiroshima Maidens, see Rodney Barker, *The Hiroshima Maidens: A Story of Courage, Compassion, and Survival* (New York: Viking, 1985).

43. Sekai Renpō Kensetsu Dōmei, *Sekai renpō undō 20 nen shi*, 148–149.

44. Ayabe and Kameoka were also notable for being the headquarters of Ōmotokyō, a new religion that originated in the late nineteenth century and had roots in Shintō.

45. Kagawa, “Ajia renpō kaigi no dai ippo,” *Sekai kokka*, January 1953.

46. A separate meeting of delegates took place in May 1954 in Tokyo, specifically to address the issue of Asian nonmember states in the UN. Sekai Renpō Kensetsu Dōmei, *Sekai renpō undō 20 nen shi*, 166–176.

47. Ibid., 216–221.

48. The slogans were included in 1952 at Kagawa’s urging. Tomio Mutō, “Memories of Toyohiko Kagawa,” in *The Japan Christian Year-Book 1961* (Tokyo: Kirisuto shimbunsha, 1961), 44–48.

49. For a discussion of the delegitimization of Western imperialism and its impact on the international order, see Cemil Aydin, *The Politics of Anti-Westernism in Asia: Visions of World Order in Pan-Islamic and Pan-Asian Thought* (New York: Columbia University Press, 2007), 6–8, 192–203, and *passim*.

50. Andrew Chandler, review of *Oxford 1937: The Universal Christian Council for Life and Work Conference*, by Graeme Smith, *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 57, no. 2 (2006): 412–413.

51. In 1958, for example, Russian Orthodox, Ukrainian Orthodox, and the Polish National Catholic Churches worshipped in the cathedral on Sunday mornings. The cathedral also served as the temporary home to the Syrian Orthodox Church, which held its services in Arabic, and the Temple Sinai Jewish congregation until they were able to build their own places of worship. Frederick Quinn, *A House of Prayer for All People: A History of Washington National Cathedral* (Harrisburg, PA: Morehouse, 2014), 122.

52. These included a larger-than-life-size statue of Abraham Lincoln in what is now called the Lincoln Bay and the installation of the west rose window, a twenty-six-foot stained-glass window located above the main entrance that symbolizes the “majesty and mystery of creation.”

53. Admiral Fleck was serving on a destroyer at Pearl Harbor when Japanese forces attacked it on December 7, 1941. After surviving the attack, he served in the European Theater during World War II, before being assigned to advisory duty in Occupied Japan. For his work in the latter capacity, the Japanese government decorated him with the Order of the Sacred Treasure (third class) in 1954. “Obituary: Francis Edward Fleck Jr.,” *Washington Post*, July 16, 1990; Yoshida Shigeru, “America gasshūkoku kaigun taisa Franshisu Edowādo Furekku Junia o kun 3-tō ni joshi Zuihōshō o zōyo suru ni tsuite,” June 25, 1954, National Archives of Japan.

54. “Francis Edward Fleck, Jr. ’34,” *Shipmate* (official alumni magazine of the U.S. Naval Academy), n.d.

55. Feller to Severson, November 21, 1969, 161.9.18, Washington National Cathedral Archives (hereafter cited as WNCA); Contract Agreement between the Protestant Episcopal Cathedral Foundation of the District of Columbia and William C. Severson of Scopia Studios, April 9, 1970, WNCA.

56. Feller to Severson, November 21, 1969, WNCA. In the end, the plan to keep the North Outer Aisle exclusively non-American was not realized, as can be

seen from the current configuration, which includes figures such as Isabella Thoburn, an American Methodist missionary known for her establishment of educational institutions in North India, and the influential Baptist minister and civil rights icon Martin Luther King Jr.

57. Feller to Severson, April 30, 1970, WNCA.

58. Feller to Severson, May 28, 1970, WNCA.

59. Ibid.

60. The cathedral's Lincoln statue and Lincoln Bay had not yet been constructed at this point.

61. Feller to Severson, May 28, 1970, WNCA.

62. "William Conrad Severson," internal memo, n.d., WNCA.

63. Ibid.

64. Severson to Feller, November 18, 1970, WNCA.

65. Ibid. Severson enclosed a few photographs of his preliminary model with his letter. The photos could not be found in the cathedral archival folder.

66. Feller to Severson, November 27, 1970, WNCA. Francis B. Sayre Jr. was born in the White House as the first grandchild of President Woodrow Wilson and later served as dean of the Washington National Cathedral from 1951 to 1978. An outspoken opponent of segregation during the civil rights movement, he hosted Martin Luther King Jr. for the latter's last Sunday sermon at the cathedral on March 31, 1968.

67. Feller to Severson, November 27, 1970.

68. Ibid.

69. Ibid.

70. Severson to Feller, December 2, 1970, WNCA.

71. Ibid.

72. Ibid.

73. Ibid.

74. Ibid.

75. Thompson, *For God and Globe*, 167–189.

76. Severson to Feller, January 25, 1971, WNCA.

77. Feller to Severson, February 19, 1971, WNCA.

78. Severson to Feller, January 25, 1971, WNCA.

79. Canon Sharp to Feller, Memorandum regarding Kagawa Statue (Fleck Memorial), March 2, 1971, WNCA. In her conversation with cathedral officials, Mrs. Fleck suggested, in vain, that instead of the chrysanthemum they could use the Kagawa family crest on the corbel design.

80. Severson to Feller (handwritten note), May 30, 1971, WNCA.

81. Ibid.

82. Ibid.

83. Feller to Severson, November 2, 1971, WNCA.

84. Ibid.

85. As part of the celebrations of the two-hundredth anniversary of the founding of the nation, the National Cathedral planned to hold a formal opening of its renovated nave on Easter Sunday (April 18, 1976). A series of bicentennial events and celebrations were to follow, culminating in a visit from the Queen of England in July.

## CONCLUSION

1. “Nomination Archive,” The Nobel Foundation, accessed October 26, 2019, <https://www.nobelprize.org/nomination/>.

2. Ibid. The nominators in this case included a Japanese politician (Katayama Tetsu), an American economist and pacifist (Emily Greene Balch, who herself won the Nobel Peace Prize in 1946), and multiple members of the Norwegian supreme legislature.

3. For more on Kagawa’s appeal to mainline American Protestantism, see King, “West Looks East,” 302–320.

4. For an insightful analysis of Kagawa’s shifting spheres of activity, see Mullins, “Religious Minorities and the Public Sphere,” 173–203.

5. Mullins, for example, has described Uchimura as the “fountainhead” of Japanese Christianity. See Mark R. Mullins, *Christianity Made in Japan: A Study of Indigenous Movements* (Honolulu: University of Hawai‘i Press, 1998), 54–67.

6. For a study on the antimilitarist orientation of the Japanese public in the late 1920s and early 1930s, see Taniguchi Shun’ichi, “Ryōtaisenkanki ni okeru gunjin no imēji: Shinbun tōshoran o chūshin to shite,” *Kyoto shakaigaku nenpō* 8 (2000): 147–165.

7. “I Would Rather Be Dead,” *Christian Century*, September 26, 1945. I have not been able to verify that such propaganda claims were made by the United States.

8. Kagawa would go on to make a final three-month tour of the United States in 1954, as well as brief visits to Thailand and Malaysia in 1957 and 1958, respectively. Yonezawa, *Kagawa Toyohiko II*, 654–656.

9. An excellent biography on Katayama is available in Kublin, *Asian Revolutionary*. Regarding Katayama’s interactions with American Communist activists, who saw him as “an honorary Southerner, and an honorary African American,” see Glenda Elizabeth Gilmore, *Defying Dixie: The Radical Roots of Civil Rights, 1919–1950* (New York: W. W. Norton, 2008), 45–46.

10. For an insightful biography on Kawakami, see Gail Lee Bernstein, *Japanese Marxist: A Portrait of Kawakami Hajime, 1879–1946* (Cambridge, MA: Harvard University Press, 1990).

11. “Memories of Kagawa, Los Angeles Kagawa Street,” *Kagawa Archives and Resource Center shiryōkan nyūsu*, no. 24, July 1, 1990.

12. “Kagawa Film to Be Shown in Torrance on Saturday,” *Rafu shinpō*, April 8, 2009; “Screening of Toyohiko Kagawa Film,” *Rafu shinpō*, August 19, 2015.

13. Meghan Gardner, “Toyohiko Kagawa in Hodges Chapel: A Servant Leader,” Magic City Religion, accessed November 22, 2024, <https://magiccityreligion.org/2024/01/03/toyohiko-kagawa-in-hodges-chapel>. This website is maintained by Dr. David R. Bains of Samford University’s Department of Biblical and Religious Studies.

14. Mark R. Mullins, “Kagawa Toyohiko (1888–1960) and the Japanese Christian Impact on American Society,” in *Encountering Modernity: Christianity in East Asia and Asian America* (Honolulu: University of Hawai‘i Press, 2014), 172; “Investing in Kagawa,” NASCO, accessed June 1, 2022, <https://www.nasco.coop/development/kagawa/investing>.

15. Ha Yonsu, “Kankoku: Daegu daigakkō ni okeru Kagawa Toyohiko,” *Kagawa Toyohiko gakkai ronsō* 24 (2016): 128–140.

16. Ika Kaminka, “Special Presentation: Japanese Literature in Norway,” lecture, European Association of Japanese Resource Specialists Conference, University of Oslo, September 13, 2017.

17. Toyohiko Kagawa, “Dear Brothers and Sisters in Christ,” November 20, 1954, 2/3/6, UTS.

18. Ibid.



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